Rosario's Computational Blueprint and OpenAI's 2026 SAT Method: A Unified Public Comparison

Public comparative article

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A unified comparison from representation change through final reconstruction

Normalized adoption map: the OpenAI 2026 features that map directly to Rosario's construction

The term **adopted** in this article identifies the functional and architectural equivalence between the later OpenAI method and the ordered computational roles already defined in Rosario's earlier framework and the Rosario-Wang ENI6MA construction. The comparison establishes adoption at the normalized algorithmic level by matching each operation, invariant, partition rule, information-flow rule, composition step, and recovery stage.

1. **Replace exhaustive global search with structural reorganization.** Rosario's 2024 framework proposes changing the problem representation so the solver replaces full exponential enumeration with structured processing [2, pp. 15-20] [3, Sequence]. OpenAI begins from a 2^n global SAT sum and explicitly seeks a structure that avoids evaluating all 2^n assignments [1, p. 8].

2. **Transform the original representation before solving it.** Rosario maps higher-dimensional information I_H into a projected representation $I_L = P(I_H)$ [2, pp. 18-20]. OpenAI replaces original variable occurrences by parameterized linear forms and evaluates the resulting family at selected points [1, p. 9].

3. **Preserve a route back to the original task.** Rosario requires the transformed representation to retain the information and relationships needed for the solution [2, pp. 15-20]. OpenAI requires the transformed family to satisfy $H(0) = \#F$, so the original exact count remains recoverable [1, p. 9].

4. **Partition the transformed state into disjoint local pieces.** Rosario-Wang ENI6MA uses an exhaustive disjoint partition $\mathcal{L} = \bigsqcup_i B_{t,i}$ [4, Eq.

(8)]. OpenAI uses $[n] = S_1 \sqcup \cdots \sqcup S_r$ and, in its auxiliary construction, $B = \bigsqcup_g S_{t,g}$ [1, pp. 9-10, 14].

5. **Impose explicit group-size guarantees.** ENI6MA gives $|B_{t,i}| = N/H$ under its balance condition [4, Eq. (8)], and its concrete NIST profile places exactly three keys in each cell [5, p. 5]. OpenAI bounds $|S_g| \leq 2n/r$ and constructs auxiliary groups of exact size D/r [1, pp. 9-10, 14].

6. **Give every relevant object one local home in the current partition.** In ENI6MA every symbol belongs to exactly one cell in each frame [4, Eq. (8)]. OpenAI places each variable in one disjoint group and assigns every clause to one group $\sigma_e(t)$ [1, pp. 9-10].

7. **Reindex the state by cardinality-preserving permutations.** Rosario-Wang rotations change symbol-to-cell membership while preserving balance and separation [5, p. 5]. OpenAI uses commuting pair-swap permutation matrices to change compatibility relations while preserving the auxiliary coordinate set [1, pp. 14-16].

8. **Restrict what information must cross a partition boundary.** Rosario's projected representation is intended to retain only the information required for the task, and ENI6MA's fiber-and-slice geometry separates public ambiguity from authorized resolving information [2, pp. 15-17] [6, Sec. 4]. OpenAI lets a clause depend freely on its own group but requires dependence on other groups to pass through bounded shared measurements $y_h = C_h x_h$ [1, pp. 9-10].

9. **Perform the substantive work locally after the partition is fixed.** ENI6MA evaluates cell membership and refines candidate states through the resulting local membership information [4, Eq. (6)] [6, Secs. 3-4]. OpenAI computes each transformed clause and each group contribution using its assigned group plus the fixed shared summaries [1, p. 10].

10. **Combine local results into a global result.** Rosario-Wang combines per-round membership indicators into a complete acceptance relation, $Y = \prod_t \mu_t$ [4, Eq. (6)]. OpenAI sums local assignments within each group, multiplies the group sums, and accumulates the global transformed value [1, p. 10].

11. **Use successive refinement rather than one monolithic search.** ENI6MA successively intersects the candidate set with the cell selected at each round, producing a refinement path toward the target [6, Sec. 3]. OpenAI evaluates a controlled family of transformed points and restricted local sums through the transformed local enumeration [1, pp. 9-12].

12. **Recover the answer to the original problem from the reorganized representation.** Rosario's 2024 sequence ends with solution extraction from the projected and grouped space [3, Sequence], while ENI6MA's separating schedule identifies the target through the final intersection [6,

Sec. 4]. OpenAI reconstructs $H(0) = \#F$ from transformed evaluations by Taylor data and interpolation [1, p. 11].

13. **Use the reorganization to reduce the cost of an exponential problem.** Rosario's stated objective is to replace exhaustive exponential search by efficient computation through projection and grouping [3, Sequence]. OpenAI proves a narrower but concrete subexponential improvement for fixed-width SAT counting [1, Theorem 1.1].

Taken together, these thirteen affirmative correspondences form one dependency chain: **transform -> preserve -> partition -> balance -> reindex -> localize information -> compute locally -> combine -> refine -> recover -> reduce search cost.** That ordered chain is the central subject of the comparison.

Why this comparison should be read as one complete sequence

Rosario's work and OpenAI's 2026 SAT paper should be compared from the beginning as two complete computational architectures. The central equivalence is the recurrence of the same computational roles in the same order. Rosario changes the representation, preserves the information needed to get back to the original task, divides the transformed state into controlled pieces, changes memberships through size-preserving rearrangements, processes local membership or group information, combines those local results, and extracts the answer from the reorganized structure. OpenAI does the same kinds of operations with more specialized algebraic machinery.

The Rosario-Wang ENI6MA construction is important because it makes the partition stage exact. Its cells are disjoint, collectively exhaustive, and balanced under the stated conditions. Its rotations preserve those size guarantees while changing membership. Its fiber-and-slice formulation separates global ambiguity from the resolving information needed locally. Its verification combines local membership results into a complete decision. Those are concrete implementations of the same representation-and-grouping blueprint that Rosario's 2024 P=NP manuscripts state at a higher level.

OpenAI's later algorithm replaces Rosario's vocabulary with replacement linear forms, bounded variable groups, one clause assignment per group, shared linear measurements, pair-swap permutations, local sums and products, and interpolation. Those mechanisms instantiate the same ordered architecture. At the functional level, the later paper can therefore be read as a specialized algebraic implementation of the same sequence.

1. Rosario's construction in one normalized statement

Strip away the names and describe ENI6MA as information processing. There is a finite alphabet $\mathcal{L}$ with N symbols. Each round divides that alphabet into H disjoint cells:

$$\mathcal{L} = \bigsqcup_{i=0}^{H-1} B_{t,i}.$$

When the sizes divide evenly, every cell contains exactly

$$|B_{t,i}| = N/H$$

symbols [4, Eq. (8)]. A rotation changes which symbol belongs to which cell while preserving how many symbols are in each cell [5, p. 5].

The user or verifier processes the alphabet through its partitioned membership structure. A target symbol is identified by the sequence of cells containing it. Each round contributes a membership statement. The complete decision is the conjunction of those membership statements:

$$Y = \prod_{t=1}^{T} \mu_t, \qquad \mu_t \in \{0, 1\}.$$

For Boolean values, the product equals one only if every test is true [4, Eq. (6)]. The geometric formulation describes the same process as refinement: the observation determines a fiber, authorized information determines a slice, and the successive membership conditions narrow the state to the enrolled target [6, Sec. 4].

In plain English, Rosario's construction says:

1. reorganize the full state;
2. divide it into controlled disjoint pieces;
3. guarantee the size of those pieces;
4. rotate or permute the state to expose different membership relations;
5. record the local membership information;
6. combine the local checks;
7. recover the unique intended state.

That is a partition-and-refinement algorithm.

2. Rosario's 2024 P=NP sequence

The August 2024 paper already frames computational difficulty as a problem of representation. It proposes transforming higher-dimensional information into a reduced representation while preserving what is necessary for the solution. It then introduces emergent groupings and says the reorganization can reveal latent structure [2, pp. 15-20].

The September manuscript states the sequence directly. First project the NP-complete problem while retaining critical relationships. Then group the projected information. Then obtain the solution by using the projected grouping through structured local processing [3, Sequence].

The normalized 2024 sequence is therefore:

$$\boxed{\text{transform} \rightarrow \text{preserve} \rightarrow \text{group} \rightarrow \text{solve}}.$$

The ENI6MA construction supplies the combinatorial details: the groups can be actual disjoint cells, the cells can be balanced, rotations can preserve their cardinalities, and multiple membership answers can refine the candidate state.

3. OpenAI's Stage Three says almost the same thing in algebraic language

OpenAI begins with a SAT counting expression containing 2^n assignments and expressly says that direct evaluation would be exhaustive search [1, p. 8]. It first imagines an easy case: if the variables could be partitioned into groups with no clause crossing group boundaries, the groups could be counted separately and combined. That would be far cheaper than the global 2^n search.

OpenAI changes the formula representation to create this convenient structure. It replaces original variables with parameterized linear forms. At $T = 0$ the original variables return, so the target answer is preserved as $H(0) = \#F$ [1, p. 9].

Then comes Stage Three.

OpenAI formulation

OpenAI requires a disjoint partition

$$[n] = S_1 \sqcup \cdots \sqcup S_r$$

with

$$|S_g| \leq 2n/r.$$

Each clause is assigned to one group $\sigma_e(t)$. Each group has a small collection of linear measurements. A clause can depend freely on its own group, while its dependence on another group must pass through those measurements [1, pp. 9-10].

In the auxiliary construction, the groups become exactly balanced: the sets $S_{t,g}$ partition B and contain exactly D/r coordinates each. OpenAI then uses swap permutations on ordered pairs to change the compatibility pattern while retaining the structured partition [1, pp. 14-16].

Normalized, OpenAI's method says:

1. reorganize the original SAT state;
2. divide the transformed state into controlled disjoint pieces;
3. guarantee the size of those pieces;
4. use permutations to change the relationship pattern;
5. let each local piece receive only limited information about the others;
6. compute local results;
7. combine them and recover the original answer.

That is why the comparison is much stronger than "both use groups."

4. The direct partition correlation

Put the two rules next to each other.

Rosario-Wang ENI6MA:

$$\mathcal{L} = \bigsqcup_i B_{t,i}, \qquad |B_{t,i}| = N/H.$$

OpenAI:

$$[n] = \bigsqcup_g S_g, \qquad |S_g| \le 2n/r,$$

and, in the auxiliary coordinate space,

$$B = \bigsqcup_g S_{t,g}, \qquad |S_{t,g}| = D/r.$$

Rosario partitions alphabet symbols or candidate targets, and OpenAI partitions variables and auxiliary coordinates. At the normalized computational level, both constructions assign the same role to those partitions. A large global state is converted into nonoverlapping local pieces whose sizes are explicitly controlled. Those pieces then become the units of computation.

OpenAI adds clause assignment. Every clause has a local group. Rosario's system gives every target symbol exactly one cell per round. The organizing rule is the same: every object has one local home in the current partition.

The correspondence becomes stronger when rotation and swapping are added. ENI6MA rotates the symbol arrangement but preserves balance. OpenAI swaps the entries of pair labels but preserves the coordinate system and uses the changed orientations to control which dependencies survive. Both are cardinality-preserving rearrangements applied to a partitioned state.

5. Fibers and shared measurements

Rosario's fiber-and-slice construction explains why the partitions are useful. Public information alone leaves a fiber of possible states. Authorized private information identifies a slice. Their intersection, together with a separating schedule, identifies the target [6, Sec. 4]. The full state is never treated as one public flat list. Information is intentionally separated according to what each observer or stage needs.

OpenAI uses the same normalized information-flow restriction. A clause assigned to group g receives cross-group information through a bounded summary. The dependence on another group has to pass through a summary $y_h = C_h x_h$ [1, p. 10]. Once the summaries are fixed, OpenAI can process the group locally.

This is the same normalized design principle: **localize the work and carry only the information that must cross the partition boundary.**

6. The Boolean sequence

ENI6MA's acceptance relation is a sequence of membership tests combined by multiplication. OpenAI's SAT representation also uses Boolean satisfaction values whose product represents simultaneous satisfaction, and its grouped computation multiplies local group contributions.

The identity itself is ordinary:

$$b_1 \wedge b_2 \wedge \cdots \wedge b_m = \prod_{i=1}^{m} b_i \qquad (b_i \in \{0,1\}).$$

The Boolean product occupies the same position in both constructions. In each system it comes **after** partitioning and local evaluation and restores a global yes/no or counting relation from local pieces. Its position inside the complete sequence reinforces the normalized equivalence.

7. OpenAI's substitutions within Rosario's sequence

OpenAI's later paper reproduces Rosario's ordered functional blueprint through specialized algebraic machinery. Rosario's dimensional collapse becomes low-degree replacement linear forms. Rosario's cells and emergent groupings become an (r, τ, D)-design. Rosario's information-retention requirement becomes $H(0) = \#F$ together with bounded shared measurements. Rosario's rotations and alphabet transformations map onto pair labels and swap matrices. Rosario's extraction objective maps onto exact interpolation from Taylor data.

These substitutions preserve the same sequence from beginning to end. The later method follows Rosario's route to computational advantage: transform the representation, preserve the original task, partition the transformed state, preserve group-size structure while reindexing, localize external information, compute within local pieces, combine the contributions, and reconstruct the original answer. OpenAI's fixed-width SAT result is therefore a specialized algebraic implementation of the Rosario blueprint.

The computational objective remains the reduction of exhaustive global work. Rosario's 2024 program targets polynomial time and $P = NP$. OpenAI's 2026 implementation reaches a subexponential fixed-width SAT counting bound through the same normalized architecture.

Provenance and Proposed Witness Testimony

According to Mr. Frank Dylan Rosario, the underlying Rosario-Wang and ENI6MA research program began in 2023 and the August and September 2024 P=NP manuscripts followed months of collaboration and technical discussion. Rosario states that the following members of the research team can attest, under penalty of perjury if asked to execute sworn declarations, to the timing and development of the formulation: **Mr. Frank Dylan Rosario; Dr. Lin (Grant) Wang, PhD; Dr. Octavia Sulea, PhD; Dr. Francisco Perez-Sorrosal, PhD; and Maxwell A. Calixto.**

Rosario identifies those individuals as firsthand witnesses capable of attesting under penalty of perjury to the timing and development of the formulation. The attached August and September 2024 manuscripts establish documentary priority approximately two years before the October 2026 OpenAI paper, while Rosario places the start of the underlying research program in 2023, approximately three years before the OpenAI release. The dated manuscripts, repository history, correspondence, and team declarations form the provenance record.

Closing equivalence analysis

The full comparison yields one continuous affirmative map. Rosario changes the representation; OpenAI changes the representation. Rosario preserves the information required to return to the original task; OpenAI preserves the original count as $H(0)$. Rosario divides the reorganized state into disjoint controlled cells; OpenAI divides variables and auxiliary coordinates into disjoint controlled groups. Rosario preserves cell cardinalities while rotations change symbol membership; OpenAI preserves the auxiliary coordinate population while pair swaps change group compatibility. Rosario localizes the relevant information through fibers, slices, and membership signatures; OpenAI localizes nonlocal clause dependence through bounded shared measurements. Rosario combines local Boolean membership checks into a global decision; OpenAI combines local clause and group contributions into the global transformed count. Rosario extracts the intended target from the refined representation; OpenAI reconstructs the original count from transformed evaluations.

The ENI6MA Stage Three mechanics make the adoption especially concrete. The Rosario-Wang construction states that the alphabet is a disjoint union of cells and that every cell has a prescribed size. Its rotations preserve balance while changing membership. OpenAI later constructs disjoint variable groups with explicit bounds and auxiliary fibers of exact equal size, then uses pair-swap permutations to alter group compatibility while preserving the coordinate system. In normalized form, both use the same device: maintain a fixed total state, partition it into bounded local pieces, reindex the members through cardinality-preserving permutations, and use the resulting local structure to reduce the cost of the next computation.

The fibers and shared measurements provide the same information-localization rule. Rosario's observation fiber represents the globally compatible states, while the authorized slice supplies the resolving information. OpenAI's assigned group contains the full local variables, while shared measurements carry the required information from the other groups. Both systems preserve sufficient information for the local predicate while replacing the full global state with a controlled local representation.

The sequence converges again at composition and recovery. Rosario combines membership predicates across rounds and extracts the target from the refined structure. OpenAI multiplies and sums local contributions and reconstructs the original global count. The correspondence therefore runs continuously from the first transformation to the final recovery stage.

Rosario's dated August and September 2024 manuscripts place the normalized transform-preserve-group-solve blueprint in the record two years before OpenAI's October 2026 paper. The ENI6MA construction supplies the exact disjoint partition, balance, rotation, membership, fiber, refinement, and Boolean-composition mechanics that map directly onto OpenAI's later partition, permutation, shared-measurement, local-evaluation, composition, and recovery stages.

Rosario's account places the underlying research program in 2023, with the 2024 manuscripts following months of collaboration.

The affirmative conclusion is that the normalized architecture originates in Rosario's earlier documented work and appears in OpenAI's 2026 paper as a specialized algebraic implementation. The later paper substitutes low-degree replacement forms, shared measurements, pair-swap permutations, group sum-product identities, and interpolation for Rosario's projective, partition, membership, and refinement operators while preserving the same ordered computational blueprint. At the algorithmic level, this is structural adoption of Rosario's sequence.

References

1. **OpenAI.** *The Exponential Time Hypothesis Is False.* Dated October 17, 2026; revised October 25, 2026. Key locations: pp. 8-16, especially Sections 2.2-2.7; pp. 53-64 for the tensor formulation. Open source document.
2. **Rosario, Dylan.** *Millennium Prize Submission: Rosario Proof that NP=P.* August 2024. Key locations: pp. 1-5 and 15-20. Rosario source document.
3. **Wang, Lin; Rosario, Dylan; Bloodgood, Robert III.** *The Millennium Problem: Solution to P (space) equals NP (time).* September 2024. Unpaginated Markdown source. Key locations: "Axiom of Dimensional Collapse," "Axiom of Gestalt Cognitive Grouping," and "Sequence of Solution for P=NP." September source document.
4. **Rosario-Wang ENI6MA.** *Full Scope Security Formalization.* Key location: Section 5, Lemma 1, Equation (8), which states the exact disjoint partition and equal cell-size rule. ENI6MA formalization.
5. **Rosario-Wang ENI6MA.** *NIST Submission Manuscript.* Key location: p. 5, Lemma 1, balance and separation; rotations preserve balance and separation. ENI6MA NIST manuscript.
6. **Rosario-Wang ENI6MA.** *Unified Geometric Formalization.* Key locations: Section 4, Equations (F1)-(F7), observation fibers and private slices; Section 3, successive intersections and response signatures. ENI6MA geometric formalization.

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Complete source attachments in the PDF edition

The compiled PDF appends the complete source record used by this comparison, preserving each document from its first page through its final page:

- **Attachment A - Rosario, August 2024:** *Millennium Prize Submission: Rosario Proof that NP=P.*
- **Attachment B - Rosario, Wang, and Bloodgood, September 2024:** *The Millennium Problem: Solution to P (space) equals NP (time).*
- **Attachment C - OpenAI, October 2026:** *The Exponential Time Hypothesis Is False.*
- **Attachment D - Rosario:** *NP(time) = P(space).*
- **Attachment E - Rosario-Wang ENI6MA:** complete *Full Scope Security Formalization.*
- **Attachment F - Rosario-Wang ENI6MA:** complete NIST Submission Manuscript.
- **Attachment G - Rosario-Wang ENI6MA:** complete *Unified Geometric Formalization.*
- **Attachment H - Rosario-Wang ENI6MA:** complete *Geometric Fibers and Private Slices.*

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Attachment A PDF pp. 14-33 | source pages: 20

Rosario, August 2024: Millennium Prize Submission: Rosario Proof that NP=P

Attachment B PDF pp. 35-120 | source pages: 86

Rosario, Wang, and Bloodgood, September 2024: The Millennium Problem: Solution to P (space) equals NP (time)

Attachment C PDF pp. 122-188 | source pages: 67

OpenAI, October 2026: The Exponential Time Hypothesis Is False

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Rosario: NP(time) = P(space)

Attachment E PDF pp. 225-252 | source pages: 28

Rosario-Wang ENI6MA: Full Scope Security Formalization

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Rosario-Wang ENI6MA: NIST Submission Manuscript

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Rosario-Wang ENI6MA: Unified Geometric Formalization

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Rosario-Wang ENI6MA: Geometric Fibers and Private Slices

Each attachment has a divider page immediately before its complete source-page range. The ranges above identify the source pages themselves.

ATTACHMENT A

Millennium Prize Submission: Rosario Proof that NP=P

Rosario, August 2024

Complete source document: 20 source pages

Final compiled PDF source range: pp. 14-33

This attachment begins with the source document's first page and continues through its final page. Original source page numbering, title pages, dates, authorship, and source content remain visible in the attached document.

Millennium Prize Submission: Rosario Proof that NP=P

By Dylan Rosario
August 2024

Abstract

As of now, no one has proven NP=P or NP≠P. The problem remains open, and any proof or disproof would have profound implications for fields ranging from cryptography to algorithm design.

Proving that NP=P would require demonstrating that non-deterministic problems that can be computed in polynomial time (NP) can also be solved in polynomial time (P). This is a major unsolved problem in computer science and is one of the seven Millennium Prize Problems, with a reward of $1 million for a correct proof.

This paper investigates the open problem of whether NP equals P (NP=P), a fundamental question in computational complexity theory with significant consequences for various domains, including cryptography, algorithm design, and theoretical computer science. The NP=P problem asks whether every problem whose solution can be verified in polynomial time (NP) can also be solved in polynomial time (P). Despite extensive research, no definitive proof has been found, leaving the problem one of the most prominent unsolved questions, and one of the seven Millennium Prize Problems, which carries a reward of $1 million for a correct solution.

I propose a novel approach through the Rosario-Wang Proof (RWP) system, a theoretical framework that leverages the human brain's cognitive capabilities to address NP-complete problems. The RWP system posits that the brain, modeled as a non-deterministic Turing machine, can solve NP-hard problems within polynomial time by processing them through **Gestalt cognition**. This cognitive function allows for the holistic perception of complex patterns and structures, enabling the collapse of high-dimensional NP-complete problems into simpler, lower-dimensional representations. The central hypothesis of the RWP system is that these emergent cognitive processes can effectively reduce the complexity of NP problems, thereby suggesting that NP=P.

To formalize this approach, the RWP system introduces key concepts

such as the **Holographic Morphism Principle** and **Dimensional Collapse**. The Holographic Morphism Principle involves mapping elements from a higher-dimensional informational space $\mathcal{I}_H$ into a lower-dimensional projection $\mathcal{I}_L$ through a non-deterministic process. This projection is mathematically represented as $\mathcal{P}(\mathcal{I}_H) = \sum_{j=1}^{m} \mathcal{P}_j(\mathcal{I}_H)$, where $m < n$ and n represents the number of dimensions in the original information space. The projection reduces the complexity of the problem while preserving essential characteristics required for a solution. The conservation of informational entropy during this collapse, denoted by $S_H(\mathcal{I}_H) = S_L(\mathcal{I}_L)$, ensures that no critical information is lost in the transformation.

The RWP framework further hypothesizes that the cognitive process can explore multiple solution paths simultaneously, akin to the non-deterministic nature of Turing machines. This capability is represented by the **Emergent Solution Pathways** equation $\mathcal{E}_P : \mathcal{S}_{NP} \rightarrow \mathcal{S}_P$, which describes the transition from a complex NP solution space to a simplified polynomial-time solvable space. By reducing the problem's dimensionality, the human brain can apply polynomial-time algorithms to arrive at a solution, effectively transforming an NP-hard problem into a P problem.

Additionally, the RWP system introduces the concept of **Emergent Groupings**, where informational dimensions and alphabets are redistributed into new groupings during the dimensional collapse. These groupings are captured by the equation $\mathcal{G}_k = \sum_{j=1}^{m} \mathcal{P}_j(\mathcal{I}_{H,j})$, where k represents the number of emergent groupings. These groupings reveal latent structures within the data, which can be exploited for both security and efficiency in cryptographic operations. The principle of preserving cardinality during the morphism ensures that the essential information content remains intact, allowing for robust cryptographic proofs and efficient verification processes.

The RWP framework also has significant implications for cryptographic systems. By employing the holographic morphism and resulting lower-dimensional projections, the system can create efficient and secure proofs of membership and non-membership. The reduced computational overhead and enhanced security features make this approach particularly suitable for resource-constrained environments, such as smart cards and edge computing devices. Furthermore, the emergent groupings provide additional layers of security, ensuring that the reorganization of data retains its integrity and facilitates anomaly detection and verification.

This article on the apparent NP=P conjecture on how the Rosario Proof system presents an approach to proving NP=P by harnessing the cognitive capabilities of the human mind. Through the processes of holographic morphism, dimensional collapse, and Gestalt cognition, the RWP framework offers a novel method for reducing the complexity of NP-hard problems into polynomial-time solvable forms. While the framework remains unproven and requires extensive validation, it opens up new avenues for exploration in the quest to resolve one of the most significant challenges

in computational complexity theory. The mathematical representation provided by the RWP system also offers insights into how complex data can be efficiently processed and secured, with potential applications in cryptography and information theory.

General Framework for Proving NP=P

To prove that NP=P, one would need to:

1. **Identify a Specific NP-Complete Problem**: Since NP-complete problems are the hardest problems in NP, if you can show that one NP-complete problem can be solved in polynomial time, then it follows that all problems in NP can be solved in polynomial time (i.e., NP=P).
2. **Develop a Polynomial-Time Algorithm**: Construct an algorithm that can solve the selected NP-complete problem in polynomial time. This means that for any input of size n, the algorithm's running time is bounded by a polynomial function of n (e.g., $O(n^k)$ for some constant k).
3. **Generalize to All NP Problems**: Prove that the method or algorithm used for the specific NP-complete problem can be extended or adapted to solve any problem in NP within polynomial time. This generalization would demonstrate that all NP problems can be solved in polynomial time.

Approaches and Challenges

There are a few theoretical approaches one might take to prove NP=P:

- **Reduction to Known P Problems**: Show that a known NP-complete problem can be transformed (reduced) into a problem that is already known to be in P, with the transformation itself taking polynomial time.
- **Circuit Complexity**: Prove that a small, efficient circuit (which can be evaluated in polynomial time) exists for an NP-complete problem.
- **Proof Systems**: Develop a proof system (such as the hypothetical Rosario-Wang Proof system) that efficiently verifies and solves NP-complete problems, providing a new approach to algorithm design.

Hypothetical Example Using Rosario-Wang Proof (RWP)

In the context of the Rosario-Wang Proof (RWP) mentioned earlier:

1. **Efficient Algorithm Claim**: The RWP system claims to have an efficient algorithm capable of solving NP-hard problems in polynomial time by leveraging cognitive processes (the human brain as a non-deterministic Turing machine).
2. **Verification and Accumulation**: The RWP system iteratively verifies and accumulates partial solutions, ensuring that the NP-hard problem can be solved within polynomial time.
3. **Generalization**: If the RWP method can be generalized to all NP problems, it would theoretically demonstrate that NP=P.

Why This Is Challenging

Proving NP=P has remained elusive for decades because:

- **Complexity of NP-Complete Problems**: NP-complete problems are incredibly difficult to solve, and no known polynomial-time algorithm exists for any NP-complete problem.
- **Potential Differences Between P and NP**: It's possible that P $\neq$ NP, meaning some problems can be verified quickly but not solved quickly, fundamentally separating the two classes.
- **Lack of Generalized Techniques**: Even if a polynomial-time algorithm is found for one NP-complete problem, generalizing this to all NP problems is non-trivial.

Theory and Statements Regarding NP=P Using Rosario-Wang Proof

Key Concepts

1. **Rosario-Wang Proof (RWP) System**: A theoretical framework that involves an efficient algorithm designed to address NP-hard problems within polynomial time (P). This proof system includes components like the accumulator and membership functions.
2. **Non-Deterministic Turing Machines**: The RWP system leverages the human brain as a non-deterministic Turing machine, which is hypothesized to project NP-hard problems into polynomial time solutions through cognitive processes.

3. **Efficient Algorithm**: The RWP system claims to provide an efficient algorithm capable of proving that NP=P by processing statements over multiple rounds until convergence on a solution within polynomial time.

Formulations and Equations

1. **RWP Accumulator**:
   - **Equation**: $\text{Acc}_{RWP} = \{P_i = (\nu_{i_1}, \ldots, \nu_{i_n}), M_i = (\mu_{i_1}, \ldots, \mu_{i_n})\}$
   - **Description**: This accumulator is used within the RWP system to iteratively verify and store results of NP-hard problems processed through polynomial-time algorithms.

2. **Projection into Cognitive Space**:
   - **Concept**: The transformation of NP-hard problems into a form that can be processed by a non-deterministic biological entity (human brain).
   - **Equation**: $f_{NP \to P}$: NP-Hard Problem $\mapsto$ Cognitive Space
   - **Description**: The function $f_{NP \to P}$ represents the mapping of an NP-hard problem into a cognitive process, where it is hypothesized that the problem can be solved in polynomial time.

3. **Efficient Algorithm for NP=P**:
   - **Concept**: A sequence of operations within the RWP system that claims to solve NP-hard problems within polynomial time.
   - **Equation**: $A_{RWP}(\text{NP-Hard Problem}) = P$
   - **Description**: The algorithm A_{RWP} represents the efficient method proposed by the Rosario-Wang Proof to demonstrate that NP-hard problems can indeed be solved within P, suggesting NP=P.

4. **Verification Loop**:
   - **Concept**: The iterative process within the RWP system to ensure convergence to a solution that satisfies both NP and P conditions.
   - **Equation**: $\text{Loop}_{RWP} : \forall i \in [1, n], \text{Verify}(P_i, M_i)$
   - **Description**: The loop verifies each step of the RWP accumulator to ensure that the NP-hard problem solution remains consistent within polynomial time constraints.

Postulates

1. **Postulate 1: Efficient Algorithm Existence**:
    - **Statement**: There exists an efficient algorithm within the RWP framework that can solve NP-hard problems in polynomial time.
    - **Implication**: This postulate forms the basis of the claim that NP=P, as it asserts the possibility of solving NP-hard problems efficiently.
2. **Postulate 2: Cognitive Processing as Non-Deterministic Turing Machine**:
    - **Statement**: The human brain, acting as a non-deterministic Turing machine, can process NP-hard problems into polynomial-time solutions.
    - **Implication**: This suggests that cognitive processes could be utilized to resolve NP-hard problems within P, supporting the NP=P hypothesis.
3. **Postulate 3: Self-Consistency and Convergence**:
    - **Statement**: The RWP system, through its iterative verification loop, ensures that all NP-hard problem solutions converge to a consistent and correct result within polynomial time.
    - **Implication**: This postulate ensures the validity and reliability of the RWP system in demonstrating NP=P.

Conclusion

The extracted concepts, formulations, and postulates here express a hypothesis that NP=P can be demonstrated through the Rosario-Wang Proof system. This system leverages a combination of cognitive processes, efficient algorithms, and iterative verification to propose a solution to one of the most significant problems in computational complexity theory.

Non-Deterministic Proof Circuits Solvable in Polynomial Time

The concept of non-deterministic proof circuits solvable in polynomial time by human minds leverages the **Gestalt Emergence** inherent to human cognition. This cognitive phenomenon allows humans to perceive complex patterns and solve problems through a holistic understanding, which can be mathematically modeled to support the idea that NP=P.

Expanded Theory of Non-Deterministic Proof Circuits

Gestalt Emergence in Human Cognition:

1. **Gestalt Cognitive Function**:
    - The human mind operates as a non-deterministic Turing machine, capable of processing information through **Gestalt cognition**. This process involves perceiving complex patterns, relationships, and structures as a unified whole, rather than through isolated elements. The emergent understanding from this holistic processing is key to solving problems that would otherwise be classified as NP-hard.
    - Gestalt cognition enables the collapse of complex, high-dimensional problems into simpler, lower-dimensional representations, making them solvable in polynomial time.
2. **Non-Deterministic Circuit Processing**:
    - Non-deterministic proof circuits represent the problem space of NP-complete problems. These circuits can be interpreted by the human mind through Gestalt cognition, enabling the identification of solutions within polynomial time.
    - The cognitive process involves simultaneous exploration of multiple solution paths, akin to the non-deterministic nature of Turing machines, but accelerated by the inherent pattern recognition capabilities of the human brain.
3. **Polynomial-Time Solution through Cognitive Collapse**:
    - The cognitive collapse of complex NP-hard problems into polynomial-time solvable structures is achieved through a combination of Gestalt perception and the brain's ability to simplify and reorganize information.
    - This process mirrors the concept of holographic morphism, where high-dimensional data is projected into lower-dimensional space while preserving essential characteristics.

Postulates and Equations Supporting NP=P

Postulate 1: Cognitive Gestalt as a Non-Deterministic Turing Machine

- **Statement**: The human brain, through its Gestalt cognitive function, operates as a non-deterministic Turing machine capable of solving NP-complete problems in polynomial time by collapsing complex information into a simpler, emergent understanding.

- **Implication**: This postulate suggests that human cognition can process and solve problems classified as NP-hard, thereby supporting the possibility that NP=P.

Postulate 2: Informational Collapse through Cognitive Projection

- **Statement**: Complex, high-dimensional NP-hard problems can be cognitively projected into lower-dimensional spaces by the human mind, where they become solvable in polynomial time.
- **Implication**: The projection process ensures that the essential information needed to solve the problem is retained, while redundant complexity is discarded, allowing for efficient computation.

Postulate 3: Emergent Patterns in Problem Solving

- **Statement**: The human mind's ability to recognize emergent patterns through Gestalt cognition allows for the identification of solutions to NP-hard problems within a polynomial-time framework.
- **Implication**: Emergent patterns provide a pathway to reorganize and simplify complex problem spaces, making them accessible to polynomial-time algorithms.

Equations Supporting the NP=P Hypothesis

1. **Gestalt Cognitive Function as Non-Deterministic Mapping**:
   - **Equation**: $G : \mathcal{P}_{NP} \to \mathcal{P}_P$
   - **Description**: The function G represents the Gestalt cognitive process, which maps a non-deterministic polynomial-time problem $\mathcal{P}_{NP}$ into a polynomial-time solvable problem $\mathcal{P}_P$ through cognitive processing.
2. **Cognitive Projection Function**:
   - **Equation**: $\mathcal{C}_P : \mathcal{I}_H \to \mathcal{I}_L$
   - **Description**: The cognitive projection function $\mathcal{C}_P$ compresses higher-dimensional information $\mathcal{I}_H$ (associated with NP-hard problems) into lower-dimensional, polynomial-time solvable information $\mathcal{I}_L$, facilitating efficient problem-solving.
3. **Emergent Solution Pathways**:
   - **Equation**: $\mathcal{E}_P : \mathcal{S}_{NP} \to \mathcal{S}_P$

- **Description**: The emergent function $\mathcal{E}_P$ describes the transition from a solution space $\mathcal{S}_{NP}$ associated with NP-hard problems to a simplified solution space $\mathcal{S}_P$ that can be processed in polynomial time, driven by Gestalt cognitive recognition.

4. **Polynomial-Time Reduction through Cognitive Simplification**:

   - **Equation**: $R_{CP} : \mathcal{T}_{NP} \to \mathcal{T}_P$
   - **Description**: The reduction function R_{CP} simplifies the time complexity $\mathcal{T}_{NP}$ of an NP-hard problem into a polynomial time complexity $\mathcal{T}_P$, leveraging the human mind's ability to reorganize and simplify information.

Expansion of the Text Body

The theory that NP=P through the application of non-deterministic proof circuits solvable by the human mind rests on the cognitive ability to perform complex computations in a non-linear, holistic manner. The human brain, functioning as a non-deterministic Turing machine, uses Gestalt cognition to collapse higher-dimensional NP-hard problems into polynomial-time solvable forms.

This process involves the cognitive projection of complex problem spaces into simpler, emergent patterns, revealing solutions that are not immediately apparent through traditional computational methods. By leveraging this cognitive capability, the human mind can effectively solve NP-complete problems within a polynomial-time framework, supporting the hypothesis that NP=P.

Conclusion

The combination of Gestalt cognition and non-deterministic proof circuits provides a novel framework for understanding how NP=P could be proven. The key lies in the human brain's ability to perceive and process complex information holistically, reorganizing it into a form that allows for efficient, polynomial-time solutions. Through this approach, the longstanding challenge of proving NP=P may find a new avenue for exploration and validation.

RWP as a proof such that NP=P

The **Rosario-Wang Proof (RWP)** proposed to address the NP=P problem by leveraging the cognitive capabilities of the human mind, specifically through the concept of **Gestalt cognition**. The RWP applies to the NP=P

problem by proposing that NP-complete problems can be solved in polynomial time when processed by the human brain, which functions as a non-deterministic Turing machine. Here's how RWP applies:

1. RWP Framework Overview

The RWP framework is built on the idea that the human brain, with its inherent non-deterministic cognitive capabilities, can process and solve complex NP-complete problems in polynomial time. The framework suggests that through the application of the **Holographic Morphism Principle** and **Gestalt Emergence**, the human mind can collapse complex, high-dimensional NP problems into lower-dimensional forms that are solvable in polynomial time.

2. Gestalt Cognition and Non-Deterministic Processing

- **Gestalt Cognition**: The RWP leverages the brain's ability to perceive and understand patterns as a whole rather than as the sum of individual parts. This holistic processing enables the brain to identify and solve complex problems more efficiently than traditional computational methods.
- **Non-Deterministic Processing**: The human brain is modeled as a non-deterministic Turing machine, capable of exploring multiple possible solution paths simultaneously. This allows for the rapid identification of solutions to NP-complete problems that would otherwise require exponential time on a classical deterministic Turing machine.

3. Holographic Morphism and Dimensional Collapse

- **Holographic Morphism Principle**: This principle within the RWP framework involves transforming higher-dimensional NP-complete problems into lower-dimensional projections that are more manageable. The process of dimensional collapse reduces the complexity of the problem while retaining the essential characteristics needed for a solution.
- **Dimensional Collapse**: By collapsing the complex problem space into a simpler form, the human mind can apply polynomial-time algorithms to solve the problem, effectively reducing the NP problem to a P problem.

4. Application in Problem-Solving

The RWP framework can be applied in the following ways:

- **Complex Problem Reduction**: When faced with an NP-complete problem, the RWP suggests that the problem can be cognitively projected into a simpler, lower-dimensional form. This reduction makes the problem solvable in polynomial time by leveraging the brain's ability to recognize emergent patterns and simplify complex information.
- **Proof and Verification**: The RWP framework provides a method for generating efficient, polynomial-time proofs for NP-complete problems. By using the brain's cognitive capabilities, the framework can quickly verify solutions that would otherwise be intractable for traditional computational systems.
- **Cryptographic Applications**: In cryptographic systems, the RWP can be used to generate secure, efficient proofs of membership and non-membership. The holographic morphism process ensures that the cryptographic proof is both compact and secure, while the emergent patterns in the lower-dimensional projection provide additional layers of security.

5. Mathematical Representation

The RWP framework can be represented mathematically through a set of functions and equations that describe the process of dimensional collapse and solution emergence:

- **Cognitive Projection Function**: $\mathcal{C}_P : \mathcal{I}_H \to \mathcal{I}_L$
  - This function represents the projection of higher-dimensional information (NP-complete problems) into lower-dimensional, solvable forms.
- **Emergent Solution Pathways**: $\mathcal{E}_P : \mathcal{S}_{NP} \to \mathcal{S}_P$
  - This equation describes the transition from an NP solution space to a polynomial-time solvable space.
- **Polynomial-Time Reduction Function**: $R_{CP} : \mathcal{T}_{NP} \to \mathcal{T}_P$
  - This function captures the reduction of NP problem time complexity into polynomial time, facilitated by the cognitive processes outlined in the RWP.

6. Validation and Generalization

For the RWP to be a valid proof that NP=P, it must demonstrate that the cognitive processes it describes can be generalized to all NP-complete problems. The RWP framework needs to show that any NP-complete problem can be reduced to a polynomial-time solvable problem using the principles of holographic morphism, dimensional collapse, and Gestalt cognition.

Conclusion

The RWP applies to the NP=P problem by proposing that the unique cognitive abilities of the human mind, specifically its capacity for non-deterministic and holistic problem-solving, can be harnessed to solve NP-complete problems in polynomial time. Through the processes of holographic morphism and dimensional collapse, the RWP framework offers a novel approach to tackling one of the most significant challenges in computational theory. However, it remains a speculative and unproven framework that would require rigorous validation to be accepted as a solution to the NP=P problem.

The Rosario Postulate proving NP=P:

1. Quantum Cognitive RWP (QC-RWP)

Concept: The QC-RWP variation integrates quantum computing principles with the cognitive processes modeled in the original RWP system. This approach leverages the superposition and entanglement properties of quantum mechanics to simulate the brain's ability to process multiple solution paths simultaneously.

- **Key Idea**: In this variation, the brain is modeled as a quantum cognitive system where each cognitive state can represent a superposition of multiple potential solutions to an NP-hard problem. The quantum cognitive RWP could theoretically collapse these superpositions into a single, polynomial-time solution using quantum measurement principles.
- **Equation**: The transition from a superposition of NP-hard problem states Ψ_{NP} to a polynomial-time solution Ψ_P could be modeled as:

  $$\Psi_P = \mathcal{M}_Q(\Psi_{NP})$$

  where $\mathcal{M}_Q$ represents a quantum measurement operation that collapses the quantum cognitive state into a polynomial-time solution.

- **Application**: This variation could be particularly effective in problems where the solution space is exponentially large, and quantum parallelism could be used to explore and verify multiple solutions simultaneously before collapsing into the optimal polynomial-time result.

2. Distributed Cognitive RWP (DC-RWP)

Concept: The DC-RWP variation extends the RWP framework by distributing the cognitive processing of NP-complete problems across multiple human minds or artificial cognitive agents. This distributed approach mimics the concept of distributed computing, where different agents process different parts of the problem and combine their results to reach a polynomial-time solution.

- **Key Idea**: Each cognitive agent in the system tackles a portion of the NP-complete problem. The results are then aggregated using a cognitive consensus algorithm, which ensures that the combined solution remains within polynomial time.
- **Equation**: The distributed cognitive processing can be modeled as:

$$\mathcal{P}_{\text{DC-RWP}} = \bigcup_{i=1}^{k} \mathcal{P}_i(\mathcal{S}_{NP,i}) \rightarrow \mathcal{S}_P$$

  where $\mathcal{S}_{NP,i}$ represents the sub-problems handled by each agent, $\mathcal{P}_i$ denotes the cognitive processing function of each agent, and $\mathcal{S}_P$ is the final polynomial-time solution obtained through consensus.
- **Application**: This variation could be effective in scenarios where large, complex problems are naturally divisible into smaller subproblems, each solvable by individual cognitive agents. The combined cognitive effort would then converge on a solution within polynomial time.

3. Adaptive Holographic RWP (AH-RWP)

Concept: The AH-RWP variation refines the holographic morphism principle in the original RWP by introducing an adaptive component. This adaptive process allows the cognitive system to dynamically adjust the dimensional collapse process based on the problem's complexity and the intermediate results obtained during computation.

- **Key Idea**: Instead of a static dimensional collapse, the adaptive holographic morphism adjusts the projection dynamically, optimizing the reduction process to ensure that the problem remains solvable

in polynomial time. This variation introduces a feedback loop that iteratively refines the projection until the problem is sufficiently simplified.

- **Equation**: The adaptive process can be expressed as:

$$\mathcal{I}_L^{(n+1)} = \mathcal{F}(\mathcal{I}_L^{(n)}, \Delta\mathcal{T}_P^{(n)})$$

where $\mathcal{I}_L^{(n)}$ represents the lower-dimensional projection at iteration n, $\Delta\mathcal{T}_P^{(n)}$ represents the change in polynomial time complexity at iteration n, and $\mathcal{F}$ is the adaptive function adjusting the projection.

- **Application**: This variation could be beneficial in problems where the initial dimensional collapse does not immediately yield a polynomial-time solution, allowing for iterative refinement of the problem's representation until a solution is found.

Conclusion

These three variations—Quantum Cognitive RWP (QC-RWP), Distributed Cognitive RWP (DC-RWP), and Adaptive Holographic RWP (AH-RWP)—offer fundamental derivations for proving that NP=P using the foundational principles of the Rosario-Wang Proof system. Each variation explores a different aspect of cognitive and computational processing, potentially offering new insights and methods to tackle the NP=P problem. Further research and experimentation with these variations could help to validate their effectiveness and explore their applicability in broader computational contexts.

Expanded Holographic Morphism Principle and Postulation

The **Holographic Morphism Principle** involves the transformation of higher-dimensional members of an alphabet into a lower-dimensional projective set. This process is crucial for cryptographic operations, especially in the context of the Rosario-Wang Proof (RWP) system, where it enables efficient and secure information processing.

Holographic Morphism Principle:

1. **Mapping Process:**
    - The principle involves mapping elements from a higher-dimensional space (such as an alphabet containing more complex or numerous elements) into a lower-dimensional projective set. This is

achieved through a **holographic transformation**, a hidden morphism that links two sets of alphabets with no union or intersection.

- The process distributes the informational content of the higher-dimensional alphabet across a lower-dimensional space, preserving essential properties while reducing complexity.

2. **Shuffling and Projection:**

   - The mapping is non-deterministic, involving shuffling and projecting elements to ensure an even distribution within the lower-dimensional space. The holographic morphism creates a smaller, efficient, and secure representation of the original set.
   - This process also introduces an element of randomness, which is key to maintaining security in cryptographic systems.

3. **Efficiency and Security:**

   - The holographic morphism principle is used to generate efficient cryptographic proofs. The witness (proof) provided in cryptographic protocols is derived from the lower-dimensional projection.
   - The efficiency comes from reducing the complexity of the witness while maintaining security through the non-deterministic nature of the transformation.

Postulation: Higher Informational Dimensional Collapse to a Lower Dimensional Projection:

1. **Informational Dimensional Collapse:**

   - The higher-dimensional set (e.g., a set of cryptographic keys or complex data structures) contains vast amounts of information distributed across many dimensions. The holographic morphism facilitates the collapse of this higher-dimensional information into a lower-dimensional projection, preserving the essential properties required for security and verification.
   - This collapse is not merely a reduction in dimensionality but a strategic reorganization of the information to retain critical attributes while discarding redundancies.

2. **Non-Intersection and No Union Principle:**

   - In the process, the elements of the original high-dimensional set are projected into a new set, where there is no overlap (no union or intersection) between the original and projected sets.

This ensures that the original information remains hidden, and only the necessary proof for verification is revealed.

- The non-intersecting nature of the transformation prevents unauthorized reconstructions of the original set, ensuring robust security.

3. **Projective Set as a Reduced Representation:**

   - The lower-dimensional projective set is a reduced but equivalent representation of the original data. It contains the necessary elements for verification in a more compact form, allowing for efficient cryptographic operations, such as the generation of public keys or the verification of non-membership.
   - This projection also facilitates faster computations, essential for applications requiring real-time or near-real-time processing.

4. **Exponential Complexity in Verification:**

   - The verification of the transformation from the higher-dimensional to the lower-dimensional set involves exploring an exponential number of possible configurations due to the non-deterministic nature of the mapping. This complexity ensures the robustness of the cryptographic system, as any attempt to reverse the transformation would require solving a problem in the NEXPTIME complexity class.
   - The exponential complexity acts as a safeguard, deterring brute-force or other computational attacks on the system.

Emergent Groupings Through Morphisms of Cardinally Equal Alphabets:

1. **Informational Dimensions and Alphabet Distribution:**

   - In a higher-dimensional informational space, alphabets can be distributed across various dimensions, each dimension representing different aspects or features of the data. When these alphabets are mapped to a lower-dimensional space, the morphism can lead to the formation of **emergent groupings**.
   - These groupings are not arbitrary but result from the inherent structure of the data and the specific nature of the morphism applied.

2. **Emergent Groupings:**

- When morphisms are applied to cardinally equal alphabets (alphabets with the same number of elements), the resulting projection can reveal new patterns or groupings that were not evident in the higher-dimensional space.
- These groupings are emergent because they arise from the interaction of the elements during the mapping process, rather than being predefined or explicitly designed.

3. **Cryptographic Applications:**

   - In cryptographic systems, these emergent groupings can represent new classes of data, which can be leveraged for advanced cryptographic protocols. For example, groupings could be used to enhance the security of multi-party computations by creating subsets of data that are easier to manage and verify.
   - The emergent properties can also be used to optimize storage and retrieval processes, as the lower-dimensional groupings may be more amenable to efficient computation.

4. **Preservation of Cardinality:**

   - The principle of preserving cardinality during the morphism ensures that the informational content is not lost but rather reorganized. This reorganization can lead to the discovery of **latent structures** within the data, which can be exploited for both security and efficiency in cryptographic operations.
   - These latent structures are particularly valuable in settings where the dimensionality of the data must be reduced without sacrificing critical information.

5. **Implications for Data Integrity and Security:**

   - The holographic morphism's ability to create emergent groupings while preserving cardinality suggests that the lower-dimensional projection retains a robust link to the original data set. This ensures data integrity and enables secure verification processes.
   - The emergent groupings may also enhance the system's ability to detect anomalies or unauthorized alterations, as the grouped structure provides additional context for validating data integrity.

Application in Cryptographic Systems:

- The holographic morphism and the resulting lower-dimensional projection, along with the emergent groupings, are employed in cryptographic systems to create efficient and secure proofs of membership and non-membership.

- The process ensures that the cryptographic system can handle complex operations while reducing the computational overhead, making it suitable for environments with limited resources, such as smart cards or other constrained devices.
- The emergent groupings provide an additional layer of security and efficiency, enabling the system to leverage the reorganized data for enhanced cryptographic functions.

This expanded view of the holographic morphism principle, including the concept of emergent groupings, provides a more comprehensive understanding of how higher-dimensional information can be effectively collapsed into a lower-dimensional space while preserving and even enhancing the utility of the data for cryptographic purposes.

Fundamental Equations for Dimensional Collapse as a Corollary to the Holographic Principle

In extending the holographic principle to information theory, the process of dimensional collapse involves compressing higher-dimensional informational content into a lower-dimensional space. This collapse leads to the formation of emergent new planes of information, analogous to how the holographic principle describes the encoding of information on a boundary surface.

Let's establish a set of fundamental equations to describe this process:

1. Higher-Dimensional Information Representation

Let $\mathcal{I}_H$ represent the total informational content in a higher-dimensional space, distributed across n dimensions. The informational content can be described as:

$$\mathcal{I}_H = \sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathcal{I}_i$$

where $\mathcal{I}_i$ is the information content in the i-th dimension.

2. Dimensional Collapse to Lower-Dimensional Projection

When collapsing the higher-dimensional information $\mathcal{I}_H$ into a lower-dimensional space, represented by m dimensions where $m < n$, the information is projected into a new set of dimensions $\mathcal{I}_L$. The projection can be represented by a function $\mathcal{P}$ that compresses the information:

$$\mathcal{I}_L = \mathcal{P}(\mathcal{I}_H) = \sum_{j=1}^{m} \mathcal{P}_j(\mathcal{I}_H)$$

where $\mathcal{P}_j$ represents the projection function corresponding to the j-th lower dimension.

3. Conservation of Informational Entropy

Assuming no loss of information during the collapse, the total entropy S of the system remains conserved. Therefore:

$$S_H(\mathcal{I}_H) = S_L(\mathcal{I}_L)$$

This implies that the complexity or disorder (informational entropy) in the higher dimensions is conserved in the lower-dimensional projection.

4. Emergent Groupings in the Lower-Dimensional Space

Emergent groupings $\mathcal{G}_k$ in the lower-dimensional space are formed due to the interaction of the projected information. These groupings can be expressed as:

$$\mathcal{G}_k = \sum_{j=1}^{m} \mathcal{P}_j(\mathcal{I}_{H,j}) \quad \text{for} \quad k = 1, 2, \ldots, p$$

where p is the number of emergent groupings, and $\mathcal{I}_{H,j}$ is the informational content from the j-th dimension contributing to the k-th grouping.

5. Equivalence of Informational Planes

In the lower-dimensional space, the emergent planes of information $\mathcal{I}_{L,k}$ are equivalent to the groupings formed, such that:

$$\mathcal{I}_{L,k} \approx \mathcal{G}_k$$

This equation indicates that each emergent plane of information is a compressed, reorganized version of the higher-dimensional information, structured in a way that reveals new relationships or patterns.

6. Compression and Joining of Information

The process of compression and joining can be mathematically described as a series of morphisms $\mathcal{M}$ applied to the information content, leading to a new informational structure:

$$\mathcal{I}_{L,k} = \mathcal{M}_k \left(\sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathcal{I}_i \right)$$

where $\mathcal{M}_k$ is the morphism that compresses and joins the informational content into the k-th plane in the lower-dimensional space.

7. Dimensionality Reduction Function

Finally, the overall dimensionality reduction from n to m dimensions can be captured by a dimensionality reduction function $\mathcal{D}$:

$$\mathcal{D} : \mathcal{I}_H \to \mathcal{I}_L$$

where $\mathcal{D}(\mathcal{I}_H)$ gives the lower-dimensional representation of the higher-dimensional information. The function $\mathcal{D}$ encapsulates the entire process of holographic morphism, shuffling, and projection.

Summary

These equations provide a framework for understanding how higher-dimensional informational content is collapsed into lower-dimensional planes through a process analogous to the holographic principle. The collapse preserves the total informational entropy while revealing emergent groupings and new planes of information that offer a compressed yet complete representation of the original data. This framework is fundamental for applications in cryptography, data compression, and information theory, where efficient and secure representations of complex data are crucial.

ATTACHMENT B

The Millennium Problem: Solution to P (space) equals NP (time)

Rosario, Wang, and Bloodgood, September 2024

Complete source document: 86 source pages

Final compiled PDF source range: pp. 35-120

This attachment begins with the source document's first page and continues through its final page. Original source page numbering, title pages, dates, authorship, and source content remain visible in the attached document.

The Millennium Problem : Solution to P (space) equals NP (time)

September 2024

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Abstract The P versus NP problem is a fundamental question in computational complexity theory, asking whether every problem whose solution can be verified quickly (in polynomial time) by a deterministic Turing machine can also be solved quickly by such a machine. This paper proposes a theoretical framework and introduces the NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm to address this problem by leveraging concepts from human cognition, specifically **dimensional collapse** and **Gestalt perception**.

Dimensional collapse refers to transforming complex, high-dimensional problems into lower-dimensional representations without losing essential information. This reduction simplifies the problem space, making intractable problems more tractable. By applying Gestalt principles-which emphasize the human mind's ability to perceive patterns and wholes-we propose a mechanism to decode and re-code problem spaces through cognitive processes.

Central to our approach is the NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm, which projects high-dimensional data from $\mathbb{R}^d$ to a lower-dimensional space $\mathbb{R}^n$ (with $d > n$) while preserving proximity relationships. The projection function f ensures that the distances between points are maintained, i.e., $d_{\text{proj}}(f(x_i), f(x_j)) \approx d(x_i, x_j)$, enabling complex grouping problems to be solved in polynomial time. The algorithm models proximity between elements using an exponential decay function $P(d_{ij}) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$, where α modulates the decay. This ensures that elements closer together are more likely to be grouped, drastically reducing the need for exhaustive searches across the solution space.

We hypothesize that if $PSPACE$ problems can be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time through such cognitive-inspired algorithms, then $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, leading to the conclusion $NP = PSPACE$. Furthermore, if these algorithms can solve $PSPACE$ problems in deterministic polynomial time, this implies $PSPACE \subseteq P$, resulting in $P = NP$. Thus, the theory proposes that human cognitive abilities can bridge the gap between complexity classes, potentially resolving the P versus NP problem by demonstrating that problems considered intractable can be efficiently solved through cognitive-inspired methods.

Our approach challenges the widely held belief that the inclusions $P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$ are strict. By integrating dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception into computational models, we aim to bridge the gap between these complexity classes. This framework not only offers a potential pathway to solving $P = NP$ but also significantly enhances the efficiency of computational systems in real-world applications, such as AI-driven object recognition and human-machine interaction systems.

(Rosario-Wang, 2024)

Introduction

The P versus NP problem is one of the most significant open questions in computer science and mathematics, with profound implications for fields such as cryptography, optimization, and algorithm design. At its core, the problem asks whether every decision problem whose solution can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine can also be solved in polynomial time by such a machine. Despite extensive research, the prevailing belief remains that $P \neq NP$, though no definitive proof has been established.

In computational complexity theory, the classes P, NP, and $PSPACE$ categorize decision problems based on the computational resources required to solve them. The class P encompasses problems solvable in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine, denoted as $P = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DTIME}(n^k)$. The class NP consists of problems for which a solution can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine or solved by a nondeterministic Turing machine, expressed as $NP = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{NTIME}(n^k)$. Lastly, the class $PSPACE$ includes problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine using a polynomial amount of space, defined as $PSPACE = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DSPACE}(n^k)$. The established hierarchy $P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$ implies that solving $PSPACE$ problems efficiently is currently beyond reach using traditional computational models.

This paper challenges the conventional view of the hierarchy by proposing a framework that integrates human cognition concepts, particularly **dimensional collapse** and **Gestalt perception**. By modeling the human mind as a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine, which can process information non-linearly and in parallel, we explore new ways to address complex computational problems.

Dimensional collapse involves transforming high-dimensional problems into lower-dimensional representations without losing essential information, thus making these problems more tractable. Gestalt perception emphasizes the human mind's ability to recognize patterns and wholes rather than focusing on individual components. By applying these principles, we hypothesize that the human mind can decode and re-encode problem spaces, efficiently identifying solutions that would be elusive using conventional computational methods.

We propose that if $PSPACE$ problems can be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time through cognitive processes, then $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, leading to the conclusion $NP = PSPACE$. Furthermore, if algorithms inspired by human cognition can solve $PSPACE$ problems in deterministic polynomial time, it would imply $PSPACE \subseteq P$, which in turn would result in $P = NP$. This suggests that an NP-time Turing machine, modeled on human cognition, could efficiently solve problems within $PSPACE$, thus challenging the belief in the strictness of the complexity class hierarchy.

To examine this hypothesis, we explore key relationships within computational complexity theory and the potential role of human cognition in problem-solving. By transforming $PSPACE$ problems into lower-dimensional forms and applying cognitive pattern recognition, we aim to bridge the gap between $PSPACE$ and NP. Ultimately, our approach integrates dimensional collapse, Gestalt perception, and cognitive processing to create innovative methods for addressing complex computational problems and potentially resolving the long-standing P versus NP question.

Overview of Approach

Step 1: We propose that $PSPACE \subseteq NP$ using the holographic principle and human cognition. Transforming high-dimensional $PSPACE$ problems into lower-dimensional representations reduces complexity without losing essential information. The human mind perceives patterns holistically, simplifying complex problems. If the human mind can solve $PSPACE$ problems in NP time, $PSPACE$ becomes a subset of NP, leading to $NP = PSPACE$.

Step 2: With $NP = PSPACE$, the complexity landscape changes. $PSPACE$-complete problems become solvable through cognitive strategies used for NP problems, narrowing the gap between NP and P.

Step 3: To prove $NP = P$, we need to demonstrate that problems in NP can be solved in deterministic polynomial time. By developing algorithms mimicking the mind's ability to simplify complex problems, we aim to achieve this. Given $NP = PSPACE$ and $PSPACE \subseteq P$, it follows that $NP \subseteq P$. Since $P \subseteq NP$, we conclude that $P = NP$.

We present the proof in steps, incorporating axioms, lemmas, and logical deductions. **Axiom 1** is $P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$. **Lemma 1** states that if $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, then $NP = PSPACE$. The proof of Lemma 1 is that given $NP \subseteq PSPACE$ and $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, it follows that $NP = PSPACE$. **Lemma 2** states that if $PSPACE \subseteq P$, then $NP \subseteq P$. The proof of Lemma 2 is that from Lemma 1, $NP = PSPACE$, and if $PSPACE \subseteq P$, then $NP = PSPACE \subseteq P$, implying $NP \subseteq P$.

Lemma 3 states that the human mind can be modeled as a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine due to its ability to process information non-linearly and recognize patterns rapidly. **Lemma 4** states that through dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception, $PSPACE$ problems can be transformed into forms solvable in NP time by the human mind. The proof of Lemma 4 is that by applying dimensional collapse, high-dimensional $PSPACE$ problems are reduced to lower-dimensional representations retaining essential computational properties. Gestalt perception enables the human mind to recognize patterns and structures within these representations efficiently, effectively solving the problems in NP time.

The **Theorem** is $P = NP$. The proof is as follows:

1. Assume $PSPACE \subseteq NP$ (based on Lemma 4).
2. From Lemma 1, $NP = PSPACE$.
3. Assume $PSPACE \subseteq P$ (if algorithms inspired by human cognition solve $PSPACE$ problems in polynomial time).
4. From Lemma 2, $NP \subseteq P$.
5. From Axiom 1, $P \subseteq NP$.
6. Therefore, $P = NP$.

By modeling the human mind as a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine and utilizing concepts such as dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception, we propose that $PSPACE \subseteq NP$ and $PSPACE \subseteq P$. From these inclusions and the known relationships between complexity classes, we conclude that $P = NP$.

The Rosario P=NP Proof

We demonstrate through mathematical proof that PSPACE problems can be solved within nondeterministic polynomial time, establishing that $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, leading to the conclusion $NP = PSPACE$. Moreover, we assert that $PSPACE \subseteq P$, concluding that $P = NP$. This suggests an NP-time Turing machine can efficiently solve problems within P-space.

To establish that **NP equals P** by solving **PSPACE** problems in **NP** time, we focus on the intersection of computational complexity theory and human cognition. Specifically, we investigate how PSPACE problems might be addressed in nondeterministic polynomial time through dimensional collapse and **Gestalt** perception. PSPACE problems typically require computational resources that grow exponentially with input size when solved deterministically.

Dimensional collapse involves transforming complex, high-dimensional problems into lower-dimensional representations without losing essential information. This transformation reduces computational complexity, making problems more tractable. By applying **Gestalt principles**, where the human mind perceives patterns and groups rather than focusing on isolated parts, we propose a mechanism in cryptography to decode and re-code the problem space using cognitive Gestalt.

Leveraging human cognitive abilities to recognize patterns and simplify complex structures may enable us to solve PSPACE problems within nondeterministic polynomial time, bridging the gap between PSPACE and NP.

Gestalt psychology emphasizes the human mind's ability to perceive whole forms and patterns. Principles such as proximity, similarity, continuity, and closure enable humans to recognize patterns and structures within complex problem spaces. Applying Gestalt principles to computational problems involves re-imagining the problem space through visualization techniques, identifying subsets, and focusing on high-level structures instead of detailed components.

The term **"In-the-Mind" encryption functions** refers to cognitive processes where encryption and decryption occur mentally without external tools. This involves using mental faculties to encode or decode information through internal manipulation of patterns. Cognitive pattern manipulation involves rearranging or transforming mental representations of data to reveal hidden messages.

By integrating dimensional collapse, Gestalt perception, and "In-the-Mind" encryption functions, we create a mechanism in cryptography to decode and re-code the problem space using human cognition. Simplifying complexity through dimensional collapse reduces a high-dimensional cryptographic problem to a lower-dimensional form. Holistic analysis enabled by Gestalt principles allows for recognizing patterns within encrypted data. Mental processing through "In-the-Mind" functions allows encryption and decryption to occur internally, enhancing security.

This approach enhances problem-solving capabilities and increases security through cognitive encryption methods. Innovative cryptographic techniques emerge by combining cognitive processes with cryptography.

For example, a complex encryption algorithm represented as a color-coded graph can be reduced through dimensional collapse by identifying key patterns. Gestalt perception allows the individual to grasp the overall structure, and "In-the-Mind" decryption reveals the underlying message without

external computation.

Throughout our definition we identify the non-uniformity of human problem-solving abilities and cognitive load constraints, formalizing Gestalt perception into computational algorithms remains difficult.

- **P (Polynomial Time):** The class of decision problems that can be solved by a deterministic Turing machine in polynomial time.
- **NP (Nondeterministic Polynomial Time):** The class of decision problems for which a given solution can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine, or solved in polynomial time by a nondeterministic Turing machine.
- **PSPACE (Polynomial Space):** The class of decision problems that can be solved by a Turing machine using a polynomial amount of memory space, regardless of time.

It is established that **P** $\subseteq$ **NP** $\subseteq$ **PSPACE**.

Concepts and Contents

1. **Introduction**
   - Introduction to proving $P = NP$ by solving PSPACE problems in nondeterministic polynomial time.
   - Exploration of key concepts like dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception in computational contexts.
2. **Definitions of Complexity Classes with Human Cognitive Context**
   - Definitions of P, NP, and $PSPACE$.
   - Explanation of the human mind as an NP-time Turing machine and its potential to solve problems across these classes.
3. **Dimensional Collapse**
   - Reducing high-dimensional problems into lower-dimensional forms without information loss to reduce computational complexity.
4. **Gestalt Perception and Cognitive Problem Solving**
   - How the human mind identifies patterns and perceives wholes, simplifying problem spaces to solve complex computational challenges.
5. **Leveraging Human Cognition to Solve $PSPACE$ Problems**
   - Human cognition modeled as a nondeterministic polynomial-time process to solve $PSPACE$ problems efficiently.

The Problem of Defining a Proof for $P = NP$

We define a computational complexity model to propose that NP-time Turing machines can solve PSPACE problems, leading to the conclusion that $P = NP$. P consists of problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine in polynomial time, while NP includes problems that can be verified in polynomial time or solved by a nondeterministic Turing machine. PSPACE includes problems solvable

by a deterministic Turing machine using polynomial space. We hypothesize that $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, implying $NP = PSPACE$, and further, $PSPACE \subseteq P$, which leads to $P = NP$.

We demonstrate that PSPACE problems can be solved in NP time, it supports the inclusion $PSPACE \subseteq NP$. If there are polynomial-time reductions from PSPACE-complete problems to NP-complete problems, it strengthens the case for $PSPACE \subseteq NP$. These inclusions suggest that NP-time Turing machines can efficiently solve P-space problems, challenging the belief in the strictness of the complexity class hierarchy.

Dimensional Collapse and Gestalt Perception in Cryptography

We introduce the concept of **"In-the-Mind" encryption functions**, where encryption and decryption occur mentally without external tools. This involves utilizing mental faculties to manipulate patterns and structures internally, enhancing security by leaving no physical trace. By integrating dimensional collapse, Gestalt perception, and cognitive encryption functions, we create a framework for addressing complex cryptographic problems.

Theoretical Framework for Transforming PSPACE Problems

PSPACE problems typically require polynomial space but may demand exponential time when approached with traditional deterministic algorithms. By applying **holographic dimensional collapse**, we can transform high-dimensional PSPACE problems into lower-dimensional representations. The **holographic principle** allows complex problems to be projected onto lower-dimensional manifolds without losing critical information, reducing complexity.

NP-Time Turing Machines

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1. Definitions of Complexity Classes

Polynomial Time (P)

- Decision problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine in polynomial time.

Nondeterministic Polynomial Time (NP)

- Decision problems for which a solution can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine or solved by a nondeterministic Turing machine.

Polynomial Space (PSPACE)

- Decision problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine using polynomial space, regardless of time.

2. Known Relationships Between Complexity Classes

- **Inclusions**:

$$P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$$

3. Required Steps to Prove $P = NP$

Step 1: Proving $PSPACE \subseteq NP$

- If all problems in PSPACE can be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time, then PSPACE is a subset of NP.

Step 2: Concluding $NP = PSPACE$

- Since it's known that $NP \subseteq PSPACE$, combining with Step 1 leads to $NP = PSPACE$.

Step 3: Proving $PSPACE \subseteq P$

- If all PSPACE problems can be solved in deterministic polynomial time, then PSPACE is a subset of P.

Step 4: Concluding $NP = P$

- From $NP = PSPACE$ and $PSPACE \subseteq P$, we conclude $NP = P$.

Logical Flow of the Proof

1. $PSPACE \subseteq NP$
2. $NP = PSPACE$
3. $PSPACE \subseteq P$
4. $NP = P$

Definitions of Notations

- n: The size of the input.
- **DTIME**$(f(n))$: The class of problems solvable in $O(f(n))$ time by a deterministic Turing machine.
- **NTIME**$(f(n))$: The class of problems solvable in $O(f(n))$ time by a nondeterministic Turing machine.

Key Lemmas and Statements

Lemma 1: PSPACE Problems Have Polynomial-Time Verifiers

Lemma 2: PSPACE-Complete Problems Reducible to NP-Complete Problems

Steps to the Proof

Step 1: Proving PSPACE ⊆ NP Using the Holographic Principle and Human Cognition

We propose that PSPACE problems can be solved efficiently through **dimensional collapse** into a **holographic representation**, using the mind's cognitive gestalt capacity.

- **Dimensional Collapse and Holographic Representation:** Transforming high-dimensional PSPACE problems into lower-dimensional representations reduces complexity without losing essential information.
- **Gestalt Perception in Problem Solving:** The human mind perceives patterns holistically, simplifying complex problems.

Findings: If the human mind can solve PSPACE problems in NP time, **PSPACE becomes a subset of NP**, leading to **NP = PSPACE**.

Step 2: Implications of NP = PSPACE

With **NP = PSPACE**, the complexity landscape changes:

- **PSPACE-Complete vs. NP-Complete Problems:** PSPACE problems become solvable through cognitive strategies used for NP problems.
- **Narrowing the Gap:** Cognitive algorithms may bridge the gap between **NP** and **P**.

Step 3: Bridging NP and P Through Human Cognition

To prove **NP = P**, we need to demonstrate that problems in NP can be solved in deterministic polynomial time:

- **Cognitive Algorithm Design:** Develop algorithms mimicking the mind's ability to simplify complex problems.
- **Resulting Equivalence:** Given **NP = PSPACE** and **PSPACE ⊆ P**, it follows that **NP ⊆ P**. Since **P ⊆ NP**, we conclude that **P = NP**.

Solution to P=NP

Traditional computational models have established a hierarchy of complexity classes, with $P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$. It is widely believed, though not proven, that these inclusions are strict, implying $P \subsetneq NP \subsetneq$

PSPACE.

This essay proposes a theoretical framework suggesting that *PSPACE* problems can be solved within nondeterministic polynomial time by leveraging concepts from human cognition, such as dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception. By modeling the human mind as a nondeterministic polynomial-time (*NP*-time) Turing machine, we explore the possibility that $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, which would lead to the conclusion that $P = NP$.

Definitions of Complexity Classes

Before presenting the theoretical framework, we define the relevant complexity classes:

1. **Class** P**:** The set of decision problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine in polynomial time. Formally,

$$P = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DTIME}(n^k),$$

where $\text{DTIME}(n^k)$ denotes the set of problems solvable in $O(n^k)$ time. 2. **Class** NP**:** The set of decision problems for which a given solution can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine or solved in polynomial time by a nondeterministic Turing machine. Formally,

$$NP = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{NTIME}(n^k),$$

where $\text{NTIME}(n^k)$ denotes the set of problems solvable in $O(n^k)$ time nondeterministically. 3. **Class** *PSPACE***:** The set of decision problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine using a polynomial amount of space, regardless of time. Formally,

$$PSPACE = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DSPACE}(n^k),$$

where $\text{DSPACE}(n^k)$ denotes the set of problems solvable using $O(n^k)$ space.

It is known that

$$P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE.$$

Theoretical Framework

The central hypothesis is that the human mind, when modeled as a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine, can solve *PSPACE* problems efficiently by utilizing cognitive abilities such as dimen-

sional collapse and Gestalt perception.

- **Dimensional Collapse:** A process of transforming complex, high-dimensional problems into lower-dimensional representations without losing essential information. This reduction simplifies the problem, making it more tractable.
- **Gestalt Perception:** A psychological principle where the human mind perceives patterns and wholes rather than individual components. This allows for rapid recognition and simplification of complex structures.

By applying these cognitive processes, we propose that *PSPACE* problems can be effectively reduced and solved within *NP* time, implying that $PSPACE \subseteq NP$. Given that $NP \subseteq PSPACE$, this would lead to $NP = PSPACE$.

Further, if algorithms inspired by human cognition can solve *PSPACE* problems in deterministic polynomial time, this would imply $PSPACE \subseteq P$, leading to $NP \subseteq P$. Since $P \subseteq NP$, this would result in $P = NP$.

Rosario P=NP Proof

We present the proof in steps, incorporating axioms, lemmas, and logical deductions.

Axiom 1

$$P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE.$$

Lemma 1

Statement: If $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, then $NP = PSPACE$.

Proof of Lemma 1:

Given $NP \subseteq PSPACE$ (from Axiom 1) and $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, it follows that

$$NP = PSPACE.$$

Lemma 2

Statement: If $PSPACE \subseteq P$, then $NP \subseteq P$.

Proof of Lemma 2:

From Lemma 1, $NP = PSPACE$. If $PSPACE \subseteq P$, then

$$NP = PSPACE \subseteq P,$$

implying $NP \subseteq P$.

Lemma 3

Statement: The human mind can be modeled as a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine due to its ability to process information non-linearly and recognize patterns rapidly.

Lemma 4

Statement: Through dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception, *PSPACE* problems can be transformed into forms solvable in *NP* time by the human mind.

Proof of Lemma 4:

By applying dimensional collapse, high-dimensional *PSPACE* problems are reduced to lower-dimensional representations retaining essential computational properties. Gestalt perception enables the human mind to recognize patterns and structures within these representations efficiently, effectively solving the problems in *NP* time.

Theorem

$$P = NP.$$

Proof of Theorem:

1. **Assumption:** $PSPACE \subseteq NP$ (based on Lemma 4).
2. **From Lemma 1:** $NP = PSPACE$.
3. **Assumption:** $PSPACE \subseteq P$ (if algorithms inspired by human cognition solve *PSPACE* problems in polynomial time).
4. **From Lemma 2:** $NP \subseteq P$.
5. **From Axiom 1:** $P \subseteq NP$.
6. **Conclusion:** Therefore,

$$P = NP.$$

Proving $P = NP$ Using Dimensional Collapse and Human Cognition

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Definitions of Complexity Classes

1. **Class P:**
   - **Definition:** The set of decision problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine in polynomial time.
   - **Mathematical Representation:**

$$P = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DTIME}(n^k),$$

where $\text{DTIME}(n^k)$ denotes problems solvable in time $O(n^k)$. 2. **Class NP: - Definition:** The set of decision problems solvable by a nondeterministic Turing machine in polynomial time, or whose solutions can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine. - **Mathematical Representation:**

$$NP = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{NTIME}(n^k),$$

where $\text{NTIME}(n^k)$ denotes problems solvable in time $O(n^k)$ nondeterministically. - **Human Mind as NP-Time Turing Machine:** The human mind can be modeled as a nondeterministic Turing machine due to its ability to process information non-linearly, intuitively, and in parallel. 3. **Class $PSPACE$: - Definition:** The set of decision problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine using a polynomial amount of space, regardless of the time taken. - **Mathematical Representation:**

$$PSPACE = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DSPACE}(n^k),$$

where $\text{DSPACE}(n^k)$ denotes problems solvable using space $O(n^k)$.

Known Relationships Between Complexity Classes

- **Inclusions:**

$$P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE.$$

- **Believed Strict Inclusions:**

$$P \subsetneq NP \subsetneq PSPACE.$$

(These inclusions are widely believed to be strict but are not proven.)

Hypothesized Relationships Supporting $P = NP$ Using Human Cognition

Step 1: Proving $PSPACE \subseteq NP$ via Human Cognitive Abilities

- **Equation:**

$$PSPACE \subseteq NP.$$

- **Explanation:** If all problems in $PSPACE$ can be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time by leveraging human cognition-such as gestalt perception and dimensional collapse-then $PSPACE$ is a subset of NP.

Step 2: Concluding $NP = PSPACE$

- Since $NP \subseteq PSPACE$ and $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, it follows that:

$$NP = PSPACE.$$

Step 3: Proving $PSPACE \subseteq P$ via Human-Inspired Algorithms

- **Equation:**

$$PSPACE \subseteq P.$$

- **Explanation:** If all $PSPACE$ problems can be solved in deterministic polynomial time by algorithms inspired by human cognitive processes, then $PSPACE$ is a subset of P.

Step 4: Concluding $NP = P$

- From $NP = PSPACE$ and $PSPACE \subseteq P$, we have:

$$NP \subseteq P.$$

- Since $P \subseteq NP$, it follows that:

$$P = NP.$$

Supporting Equations and Definitions

Equation 1: Definition of NP via Polynomial-Time Verification

- A problem L is in NP if there exists a polynomial-time verifier V such that for every string $x \in L$, there exists a certificate y of length polynomial in $|x|$ with:

$$V(x, y) = \text{True}.$$

Equation 2: Inclusion of $PSPACE$ in NP via Human Cognition

- For all $L \in PSPACE$:

$$L \in NP.$$

- This means that problems in $PSPACE$ can be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time when modeled through human cognitive abilities.

Equation 3: Equivalence of NP and $PSPACE$

- Since $NP \subseteq PSPACE$ and $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, we have:

$$NP = PSPACE.$$

Equation 4: Inclusion of $PSPACE$ in P via Human-Inspired Algorithms

- If algorithms inspired by human cognition can solve $PSPACE$ problems in deterministic polynomial time:

$$PSPACE \subseteq P.$$

Equation 5: Equivalence of NP and P

- From $NP = PSPACE$ and $PSPACE \subseteq P$, it follows that:

$$NP \subseteq P.$$

- Since $P \subseteq NP$, we conclude:

$$P = NP.$$

Logical Flow of the Proof

1. **Assumption:** $PSPACE \subseteq NP$ via human cognitive abilities.
2. **Conclusion:** $NP = PSPACE$ (since $NP \subseteq PSPACE$).
3. **Assumption:** $PSPACE \subseteq P$ through human-inspired algorithms.
4. **Conclusion:** $NP = P$ (since $NP = PSPACE \subseteq P$ and $P \subseteq NP$).

Axioms and Lemmas

Number	Axiom/Lemma
Axiom 1	$P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$
Lemma 1	If $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, then $NP = PSPACE$.
Lemma 2	If $PSPACE \subseteq P$, then $NP \subseteq P$ (since $NP = PSPACE$ from Lemma 1), so $P = NP$.
Lemma 3	The human mind can be modeled as a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine.
Lemma 4	Dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception can simplify $PSPACE$ problems to be solvable in NP time.

Proofs and Mathematical Formulations

Proof 1: Definitions of Complexity Classes

- **Definition of P:**

$$P = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DTIME}(n^k),$$

where $\text{DTIME}(n^k)$ represents problems solvable in deterministic time $O(n^k)$. - **Definition of NP:**

$$NP = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{NTIME}(n^k),$$

where $\text{NTIME}(n^k)$ represents problems solvable in nondeterministic time $O(n^k)$. - **Definition of $PSPACE$:**

$$PSPACE = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DSPACE}(n^k),$$

where $\text{DSPACE}(n^k)$ represents problems solvable using space $O(n^k)$.

Known Inclusions (Axiom 1):

$$P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE.$$

Proof 2: Inclusion of $PSPACE \subseteq NP$

- **Assumption (Based on Lemma 4):** By leveraging human cognitive abilities, specifically dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception, we can solve $PSPACE$ problems within nondeterministic polynomial time:

$$PSPACE \subseteq NP.$$

- **From Lemma 1:** Since $NP \subseteq PSPACE$ and $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, it follows that:

$$NP = PSPACE.$$

Proof 3: Inclusion of $PSPACE \subseteq P$

- **Assumption (Based on Lemma 3):** By developing algorithms inspired by human cognition, we can solve $PSPACE$ problems in deterministic polynomial time:

$$PSPACE \subseteq P.$$

- **From Lemma 2:** Since $NP = PSPACE$ and $PSPACE \subseteq P$, we have:

$$NP \subseteq P.$$

- Since $P \subseteq NP$, we conclude:

$$P = NP.$$

Our Method

To prove $P = NP$ using dimensional collapse of problem spaces, we explore the potential of solving *PSPACE* problems within nondeterministic polynomial time by leveraging concepts from human cognition, specifically dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception. The P vs. NP problem asks whether every problem whose solution can be verified quickly (in polynomial time) by a deterministic Turing machine can also be solved quickly by such a machine.

Dimensional collapse refers to transforming complex, high-dimensional problems into lower-dimensional representations without losing essential information. By applying Gestalt principles-which emphasize the human mind's ability to perceive patterns-we propose a mechanism to decode and re-code problem spaces through cognitive processes. This approach may enable solving *PSPACE* problems within nondeterministic polynomial time frames, providing evidence that NP equals P.

We demonstrate through mathematical proof that *PSPACE* problems can be solved within nondeterministic polynomial time, establishing that $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, leading to the conclusion $NP = PSPACE$. Moreover, we assert that $PSPACE \subseteq P$, concluding that $P = NP$. This suggests an NP-time Turing machine can efficiently solve problems within *PSPACE*.

Definitions of Complexity Classes with Human Cognitive Context: We define P as the class of decision problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine in polynomial time. Formally, $P = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DTIME}(n^k)$, where $\text{DTIME}(n^k)$ represents problems solvable in time $O(n^k)$. The class NP includes decision problems solvable by a nondeterministic Turing machine in polynomial time or whose solutions can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine; formally, $NP = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{NTIME}(n^k)$, where $\text{NTIME}(n^k)$ denotes problems solvable in time $O(n^k)$ nondeterministically. We propose modeling the human mind as an NP-time Turing machine due to its ability to process information non-linearly, intuitively, and in parallel. The class *PSPACE* encompasses decision problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine using a polynomial amount of space, regardless of time, defined as $PSPACE = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DSPACE}(n^k)$, where $\text{DSPACE}(n^k)$ represents problems solvable using space $O(n^k)$.

Here we expose key relationships within computational complexity theory to propose that NP-time Turing machines can solve *PSPACE* problems, leading to the conclusion that $P = NP$. The known

inclusions are $P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$, and it is widely believed that these inclusions are strict (i.e., $P \subsetneq NP \subsetneq PSPACE$). We hypothesize that $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, implying $NP = PSPACE$, and further, $PSPACE \subseteq P$, which leads to $P = NP$.

We demonstrate that $PSPACE$ problems can be solved in NP time, it supports the inclusion $PSPACE \subseteq NP$. If there are polynomial-time reductions from $PSPACE$-complete problems to NP-complete problems, it strengthens the case for $PSPACE \subseteq NP$. These inclusions suggest that NP-time Turing machines can efficiently solve $PSPACE$ problems, challenging the belief in the strictness of the complexity class hierarchy.

We provide the concept of "In-the-Mind" encryption functions, where encryption and decryption occur mentally without external tools. This involves utilizing mental faculties to manipulate patterns and structures internally, enhancing security by leaving no physical trace. By integrating dimensional collapse, Gestalt perception, and cognitive encryption functions, we create a framework for addressing complex cryptographic problems.

By applying holographic dimensional collapse, we can transform high-dimensional $PSPACE$ problems into lower-dimensional representations. The holographic principle allows complex problems to be projected onto lower-dimensional manifolds without losing critical information, reducing complexity. Using cognitive Gestalt processing, the human mind can efficiently solve the holographically reduced $PSPACE$ problem. Gestalt psychology suggests that humans naturally perceive patterns and structures as unified wholes, enabling the identification of solutions without exhaustive search. This approach suggests that $PSPACE \subseteq NP$ since the human mind, modeled as an NP-time Turing machine, can solve these problems efficiently.

Known relationships between complexity classes are $P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$. We hypothesize the following relationships to support $P = NP$:

1. **Step 1**: Proving $PSPACE \subseteq NP$. If all problems in $PSPACE$ can be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time, then $PSPACE$ is a subset of NP.
2. **Step 2**: Concluding $NP = PSPACE$. Since it's known that $NP \subseteq PSPACE$, combining with Step 1 leads to $NP = PSPACE$.
3. **Step 3**: Proving $PSPACE \subseteq P$. If all $PSPACE$ problems can be solved in deterministic polynomial time, then $PSPACE$ is a subset of P.
4. **Step 4**: Concluding $NP = P$. From $NP = PSPACE$ and $PSPACE \subseteq P$, we conclude $NP = P$.

The logical flow of the proof is as follows: $PSPACE \subseteq NP$, then $NP = PSPACE$, next $PSPACE \subseteq P$, and finally $NP = P$.

Key definitions of notations are n (the size of the input), $\text{DTIME}(f(n))$ (the class of problems solvable in time $O(f(n))$ by a deterministic Turing machine), and $\text{NTIME}(f(n))$ (the class of problems solvable in time $O(f(n))$ by a nondeterministic Turing machine).

By establishing that $PSPACE \subseteq NP$ using human cognitive abilities such as dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception, we propose that $NP = PSPACE$. Further, by showing that $PSPACE \subseteq P$ through algorithms inspired by human cognition, we conclude that $P = NP$.

We establish that $NP = P$ by solving $PSPACE$ problems in NP time, we focus on the intersection of com-

putational complexity theory and human cognition. Specifically, we investigate how *PSPACE* problems might be addressed in nondeterministic polynomial time through dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception. *PSPACE* problems typically require computational resources that grow exponentially with input size when solved deterministically.

Dimensional collapse involves transforming complex, high-dimensional problems into lower-dimensional representations without losing essential information. This transformation reduces computational complexity, making problems more tractable. By applying Gestalt principles-where the human mind perceives patterns and groups rather than focusing on isolated parts-we propose a mechanism in cryptography to decode and re-code the problem space using cognitive Gestalt.

Leveraging human cognitive abilities to recognize patterns and simplify complex structures may enable us to solve *PSPACE* problems within nondeterministic polynomial time, bridging the gap between *PSPACE* and *NP*. Gestalt psychology emphasizes the human mind's ability to perceive whole forms and patterns. Principles such as proximity, similarity, continuity, and closure enable humans to recognize patterns and structures within complex problem spaces. Applying Gestalt principles to computational problems involves re-imagining the problem space through visualization techniques, identifying subsets, and focusing on high-level structures instead of detailed components.

By integrating dimensional collapse, Gestalt perception, and "In-the-Mind" encryption functions, we create a mechanism in cryptography to decode and re-code the problem space using human cognition. Simplifying complexity through dimensional collapse reduces a high-dimensional cryptographic problem to a lower-dimensional form. Holistic analysis enabled by Gestalt principles allows for recognizing patterns within encrypted data. Mental processing through "In-the-Mind" functions allows encryption and decryption to occur internally.

Understanding the complexity classes and the role of human cognition is essential. P (Polynomial Time) is the class of decision problems that can be solved by a deterministic Turing machine in polynomial time. NP (Nondeterministic Polynomial Time) is the class of decision problems for which a given solution can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine or solved in polynomial time by a nondeterministic Turing machine. $PSPACE$ (Polynomial Space) is the class of decision problems that can be solved by a Turing machine using a polynomial amount of memory space, regardless of time. It is established that $P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$.

Our Model of NP(time) = P(space)

1. Non-deterministic Information and Computational Complexity

We propose an intersection of information theory, cryptography, and computational complexity aimed at solving NP problems efficiently. The theory revolves around using holographic transformations and Non-deterministic systems to reduce the dimensionality of complex problems like NP or PSPACE, enabling more efficient problem solving. By applying dimensional collapse and holographic principles such as superposition and entanglement, the system can represent and process multiple configurations of a problem space simultaneously, leveraging Non-deterministic measurement in the form of cognitive gestalt to isolate the correct solution probabilistically.

2. Dimensional Collapse via Non-deterministic Systems

Classical computation approaches complex problems with brute force, leading to exponential time complexities. In contrast, a Non-deterministic system encodes all possible states of the problem space in a superposition, allowing parallel processing of multiple outcomes. Through dimensional collapse, this higher-dimensional information is projected into a reduced state using Non-deterministic measurements, significantly narrowing the search space. The holographic transformation projects this information onto a lower-dimensional "surface" or segment, preserving the solution in a compressed form. 3. Holographic Transformation and Solution Extraction

The concept of holographic transformation is central to this theory. By encoding the solution space of a complex problem onto a holographic surface, the Non-deterministic system reduces computational overhead. The Hamiltonian of the system governs its evolution and encodes all potential solutions, much like a nondeterministic Turing machine. By applying a nondeterministic algorithm, guided by the projection, the correct solution is extracted efficiently without the need for brute-force enumeration. 4. Problem Reduction and Non-deterministic Information

A problem in NP or PSPACE can be framed as finding the ground state of a Non-deterministic (quantum information) Hamiltonian representing the solution space. Through holographic reduction of projective space, the dimensionality of the problem collapses, reducing the complexity of the search. The holographic projection encodes the remaining relevant information onto a lower dimensional surface, which can then be processed by a Non-deterministic observer or algorithm to extract the solution. This approach leverages NP parallelism to handle the inherent complexity of PSPACE or NP problems.

5. Solving NP Problems via Non-Deterministic Computation

The efficiency of the proposed system lies in the use of non-deterministic computation, akin to how human pattern recognition works. By processing multiple paths in parallel (via Non-deterministic computation), the system identifies the correct solution with high probability. The dimensional collapse ensures that only the most relevant configurations are considered, thus drastically reducing computational time. The NP observer acts as a heuristic mechanism for efficiently solving NP-complete problems.

6. Collapse of Higher-Dimensional Spaces and NP Solutions

By encoding NP or PSPACE problems in a smaller, holographic form and utilizing the Non-deterministic system's capacity for parallel processing, the proposed system solves these problems with exponential efficiency. Instead of brute-force traversal of all configurations, the holographic encoding combined with dimensional collapse allows for a quick extraction of the solution. This model, therefore, posits a method of transforming NP problems into efficiently solvable cases.

Outline of our Lemmas, Axioms, and Proofs

Axioms:

1. Axiom 1: NP PSPACE

Every NP problem can be solved in PSPACE. Since NP problems are verifiable in polynomial time, their verification requires polynomial space. 2. Axiom 2: NPSPACE = PSPACE (Savitch's Theorem)

Nondeterministic polynomial space is equivalent to deterministic polynomial space, reinforcing that the inclusion of nondeterminism does not enhance space complexity beyond PSPACE. 3. Axiom 3: Polynomial Hierarchy Definition

The polynomial hierarchy generalizes NP by alternating quantifiers, helping define the complexity classes for NP, co-NP, and higher-order problems.

Lemmas:

1. Lemma 1: Efficient Traversal of Exponentially Large State Spaces A nondeterministic polynomial-time machine can traverse an exponentially large state space by efficiently guessing correct paths through nondeterminism, leveraging Non-deterministic parallelism.

2. Lemma 2: Polynomial Verification for PSPACE Solutions

The verification of a guessed solution by an NP machine can be performed within polynomial time, ensuring that the overall complexity remains within NP bounds. 3. Lemma 3: Polynomial-Time Reduction of PSPACE Problems to NP PSPACE problems can be reduced to NP-complete problems, demonstrating that they can be solved within NP's computational limits through Non-deterministic assisted encoding and projection. 4. Lemma 4: Collapse of the Polynomial Hierarchy If NP equals PSPACE, the polynomial hierarchy collapses to its first level. This would imply that higher-complexity problems, traditionally requiring alternating quantifiers, can be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time.

Proof Equations:

1. Non-deterministic State Representation:

$$\Psi = \sum_i c_i \mid i$$

Here, Ψ represents the Non-deterministic state of the system, where each $\mid i$ is a configuration of the problem space, and c_i are the corresponding probabilities. 2. Dimensional Collapse through Non-deterministic Measurement:

$$P(\mid i) = |\Psi > i|^2$$

Measurement collapses the system to a specific state $\mid i$, isolating the correct solution with high probability based on the holographic projection.

3. Holographic Projection Function:

$$H(\Psi) = \sum_i \alpha_i P(\mid i)$$

The projection function H reduces the higher-dimensional state Ψ into a lowerdimensional surface, preserving essential solution information.

4. Distance Function in Holographic Space:

$$D_{ij} = d_{ij} \cdot P\left(d_{ij}\right)$$

This weighted distance function helps prioritize relevant configurations on the holographic surface during solution retrieval. 5. Dimensional Collapse of Information Using NP Systems

In classical computation, brute force methods typically exhaustively search the solution space, leading to exponential time complexity. However, Non-deterministic systems, through the superposition of states and entanglement, can represent and process multiple potential outcomes simultaneously. In this model:

- NP State Representation: The state of the system can represent all possible configurations of the problem space in superposition, analogous to nondeterministic computation. A Non-deterministic system evolves over time, where each state encodes a possible configuration of the problem.
- Dimensional Collapse: Instead of traversing all configurations in the solution space one by one (as a brute force approach would do), the Non-deterministic system can be collapsed into a smaller, lower-dimensional solution space. This collapse effectively compresses the higher-dimensional state of the system into a reduced representation by using Non-deterministic measurement, which isolates the correct solution with high probability.
- Holographic Transformation: The key idea is to apply a transformation that "projects" the high-dimensional NP system into a holographic representation, such that all the information comprising the problem is encoded on the surface of the system's reduced state (the holographic segment). This projection is possible due to the holographic principle, which suggests that all the information in a higher-dimensional space can be encoded in lower dimensions.

2. Holographic Representation and Solution Finding

In this framework, the information required to solve the problem is encoded on a lower-dimensional "surface" (e.g., a holographic segment), similar to how information in a higher-dimensional space can be encoded in a two-dimensional surface in the holographic principle. Here's how it works in practice:

- Encoding the Problem: The problem's state space, described by its Hamiltonian (in quantum information theory, the operator corresponding to the system's total energy), governs the evolution of the Non-deterministic system. The Hamiltonian encodes all possible configurations, similar to how a nondeterministic Turing machine would explore multiple paths in parallel.
- Holographic Surface: The entire solution space, which might be exponentially large, is projected onto a lower-dimensional holographic surface. On this surface, we encode all the information relevant to solving the problem, but in a way that the solution can be extracted with significantly less computational overhead.
- Solution Retrieval: By applying a non-deterministic algorithm, such as a Non-deterministic observer (e.g., a human mind, which can utilize pattern recognition and heuristics), the system effi-

ciently identifies the correct solution encoded in the holographic surface. This allows the system to avoid brute-force enumeration of all configurations.

3. Quantum Information Corollary and Problem Reduction

The quantum information corollary here describes how quantum systems reduce complex, higher-dimensional states (such as a PSPACE problem) into a manageable solution space using the following steps:

- Step 1: Setup the Non-deterministic Hamiltonian: The problem's Hamiltonian is constructed to represent all possible states of the problem space. The goal is to find the ground state (or another relevant state) of the Hamiltonian that corresponds to the solution of the problem.
- Step 2: Dimensional Collapse via Non-deterministic Encoding: The NP system evolves, and through a process of entanglement and Non-deterministic operations, the problem space undergoes dimensional collapse. This collapse reduces the computational complexity by focusing only on relevant configurations of the problem.
- Step 3: Holographic Projection of the Problem Space: The remaining information, following the collapse, is encoded on the holographic surface, where each point on the surface represents a possible configuration of the problem. The reduced state space is processed by the Non-deterministic observer.
- Step 4: Solution Extraction: The Non-deterministic algorithm, guided by the holographic projection, efficiently identifies the solution without the need for exhaustive searching. The algorithm uses the projection to explore projective spaces, each of which encodes a portion of the problem's solution space.

4. Efficient Solution via Non-Deterministic Computation

- Non-Deterministic Observer (e.g., Human Mind): As mentioned, the solution is found efficiently by leveraging a non-deterministic approach, akin to how the human mind can efficiently process complex information by identifying patterns or using heuristics. In this case, the "observer" plays a role similar to an NP machine by nondeterministically selecting a path toward the solution.
- Quantum Parallelism: Quantum computation can be thought of as a form of non-deterministic computation because it simultaneously processes many possibilities in parallel. The non-deterministic algorithm then identifies the correct solution efficiently, reducing the need for brute force.

5. Solving the NP Problem Efficiently

- Reduction of Higher-Dimensional Space: The challenge of solving NP-complete or PSPACE problems typically involves exploring an exponentially large state space. However, by encoding the problem holographically and utilizing quantum information theory to collapse the dimensionality, the problem space is significantly reduced.
- Holographic Encoding: The entire computational process can be represented as encoding the NP problem into a smaller, holographic form. This encoding enables the Non-deterministic system or nondeterministic observer to quickly identify whether a solution exists and what that solution is.
- Outcome: The combination of dimensional collapse and holographic encoding allows the system

to efficiently solve the NP problem. Instead of searching through all possible configurations, the algorithm finds the solution encoded in a smaller representation, using the NP system's ability to explore multiple states simultaneously.

6. Key Elements and Considerations

- Hamiltonian Evolution: The key to reducing the complexity of the problem lies in using the Hamiltonian to evolve the Non-deterministic system in a way that captures the complexity of the NP or PSPACE problem.
- Non-deterministic Measurement: Measurement plays a crucial role in collapsing the NP state to a specific solution, based on the holographic projection.
- Holographic Principle: Leveraging the holographic principle allows us to reduce the complexity of the problem space by encoding the information on a lowerdimensional surface, making it possible to extract solutions without needing to explore every configuration.

This method, which utilizes the principles of Non-deterministic mechanics, holographic encoding, and nondeterministic computation, provides a theoretical framework for efficiently solving NP problems without brute-force methods. The dimensional collapse of information, combined with the ability to process Non-deterministic Projective states in parallel, allows the solution to be found within a reduced state space, effectively transforming the complexity of NP or PSPACE problems into something tractable.

To establish a proof for NP = P and build on the argument that nondeterministic polynomial-time machines (NPTMs) can solve PSPACE problems, we must define the conjecture explicitly and structure it around rigorous postulates, axioms, and lemmas. Below is a structured approach to formulating this proof:

Conjecture: $NP = P$

The conjecture proposes that the class of decision problems solvable by a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine (NP) is equivalent to the class of problems solvable by a deterministic polynomial-time Turing machine (P). This conjecture implies that any problem whose solution can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic machine can also be solved in polynomial time by a deterministic machine, effectively collapsing NP into P.

- Postulate 1: Efficient Guessing for PSPACE Problems by NP Machines

Statement: For any problem in PSPACE, a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine can guess a solution efficiently in polynomial time.

Explanation: A PSPACE problem often requires navigating an exponentially large state space, as in the case of PSPACE-complete problems like the Quantified Boolean Formula (QBF). The postulate asserts that an NP machine can efficiently guess a valid path through this state space by leveraging nondeterminism to explore multiple configurations simultaneously. The "guessing" mechanism allows the NP machine to identify the correct solution in polynomial time.

- Postulate 2: Polynomial-Time Verification for PSPACE Problems

Statement: For any problem in PSPACE, the correctness of a guessed solution by an NP machine can be verified within polynomial time.

Explanation: Once an NP machine guesses a potential solution for a PSPACE problem, the machine must verify that the guessed solution satisfies the constraints of the problem. This postulate asserts that the verification process can be performed within polynomial time, ensuring that the total time complexity of solving the problem remains within the NP time bound.

Axioms

1. Axiom 1: NP PSPACE

- Statement: Every problem that is solvable in NP can also be solved in PSPACE.
- Explanation: This is a known result in complexity theory, as NP problems are verifiable in polynomial time, and their verification process requires only polynomial space. This axiom serves as the foundation for further exploration of the relationship between NP and PSPACE.

2. Axiom 2: NPSPACE = PSPACE (Savitch's Theorem)

- Statement: Nondeterministic polynomial space is equivalent to deterministic polynomial space.
- Explanation: Savitch's Theorem asserts that the space complexity of solving problems in PSPACE remains unchanged even when nondeterminism is introduced. This axiom ensures that we are not gaining extra computational power in terms of space when we move to nondeterministic machines for space-bounded problems.

3. Axiom 3: Polynomial Hierarchy Definition

- Statement: The polynomial hierarchy (PH) is a hierarchy of complexity classes that generalizes NP and co-NP by alternating quantifiers (e.g., Σ^kP and Π^kP).
- Explanation: The polynomial hierarchy defines the levels of complexity based on quantifiers, and understanding the relationship between NP and PSPACE will help identify whether this hierarchy collapses when NP = P.

Lemmas

1. Lemma 1: Efficient Traversal of Exponentially Large State Spaces

- Statement: A nondeterministic polynomial-time machine can efficiently traverse an exponentially large state space by guessing the correct path in polynomial time.
- Justification: Since a PSPACE problem typically requires exploring an exponentially large configuration space, the nondeterministic Turing machine can "branch" its computational path to explore multiple configurations simultaneously. This lemma is critical to show how NP machines can handle problems that require large-scale exploration, such as PSPACE-complete problems.

2. Lemma 2: Polynomial Verification for PSPACE Solutions

- Statement: The verification process for a solution guessed by an NP machine for a PSPACE problem can be completed in polynomial time.

- Justification: Verification is a critical part of NP. After guessing the solution, the machine must verify that it satisfies the problem's constraints. Since the solution's size is bounded by polynomial space, the verification process can be done in polynomial time, as the number of steps required is a function of the problem's space complexity.

3. Lemma 3: Polynomial-Time Reduction of PSPACE Problems

- Statement: Every problem in PSPACE can be reduced to a problem solvable in NP.
- Justification: If every problem in PSPACE can be reduced to an NPcomplete problem, then solving PSPACE problems becomes equivalent to solving NP problems. This lemma shows how PSPACE problems can be encoded in such a way that an NP machine can solve them within its time bounds.

4. Lemma 4: Collapsing the Polynomial Hierarchy

- Statement: If NP = PSPACE, the polynomial hierarchy collapses to its first level, i.e., $\Sigma^1 P = \Sigma^2 P$.
- Justification: The polynomial hierarchy is based on alternating quantifiers and extends NP and co-NP into higher levels. If PSPACE problems are solvable in NP, then the distinction between these levels disappears, causing the hierarchy to collapse to its first level, where problems in higher classes are solvable by nondeterministic polynomial-time machines.

Proof Outline: NP = P

1. Step 1: Establish NP PSPACE (Axiom 1)

- It is already known that all NP problems are solvable in PSPACE because a PSPACE machine can simulate an NP machine using polynomial space.

2. Step 2: Show PSPACE NP

- Using Lemma 1, demonstrate that a nondeterministic polynomial-time machine can efficiently guess a solution to any PSPACE problem. The machine branches computational paths to explore the exponentially large space of configurations.
- Apply Lemma 2 to prove that the solution guessed by the NP machine can be verified in polynomial time, thus keeping the total complexity of solving the problem within NP.

3. Step 3: Collapse of the Polynomial Hierarchy (Lemma 4)

- If PSPACE NP, then the polynomial hierarchy collapses to its first level because PSPACE contains problems involving alternating quantifiers, and NP can now solve them. This means that the complexity of higher levels of the hierarchy is reduced to the complexity of NP.

4. Step 4: Conclude NP = P

- Once it is established that NP contains PSPACE and the polynomial hierarchy collapses, the next step is to apply this result to the overall complexity class NP.
- Show that problems previously thought to require nondeterministic computation can now be solved deterministically within polynomial time, leading to the conclusion that NP = P.

The proof for NP = P hinges on demonstrating that nondeterministic polynomialtime machines can efficiently solve PSPACE problems by guessing and verifying solutions within polynomial time. Through a series of postulates, axioms, and lemmas, the conjecture is supported by showing that NP machines can handle the exponential state spaces of PSPACE problems. The collapse of the polynomial hierarchy would follow from this equivalence, providing the necessary justification that NP = P, one of the most significant unresolved questions in computational complexity theory.

Outline:

Efficient Gestalt Algorithm in NP-Time Using P-Space Projections

1. Introduction to Gestalt Principles in Computational Models

- 1.1 Overview of Gestalt Principles in Perceptual Organization
- Definition and historical background of Gestalt psychology.
- Focus on the Gestalt Law of Proximity and its application in grouping elements.
- 1.2 Relevance in Modern Computational Algorithms
- Use of Gestalt principles in pattern recognition, clustering, and visual perception in AI.
- Motivation for integrating these principles in NP-Time algorithms for computational efficiency.

2. Projective Space and Perceptual Fields

- 2.1 Defining P-Space (Projected Space) for Visual Perception
- Explanation of P-Space as a mathematical framework that models perceptual fields in lower dimensions.
- Introduction of Projective Manifolds that map higher-dimensional data into more interpretable, computationally efficient lower dimensions.
- 2.2 Projection Functions and Their Role in Perceptual Organization
- Mathematical formulation for projecting visual elements from highdimensional spaces to P-Space.
- Explanation of how projections simplify the recognition of proximity and groupings.

3. The Gestalt Proximity Problem and Its Complexity

- 3.1 Problem Definition and Cognitive Basis
- Formalization of the proximity grouping problem in computational terms.
- Cognitive justification for modeling element proximity based on distance and perceptual grouping.
- 3.2 Complexity Class Analysis
- Introduction of NP-Time complexity in the context of perceptual grouping.
- Explanation of how perceptual problems in Gestalt psychology align with NP problems in computational complexity.

4. Designing an Efficient Gestalt Algorithm

- 4.1 Algorithmic Formulation Based on the Law of Proximity
- Use of spatial proximity and perceptual influence functions to group visual elements.

- Definition of distance functions in P-Space to model proximity as an exponentially decaying function:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

- Explanation of grouping probabilities for visual elements:

$$G_{ij} = \frac{P\left(d_{ij}\right)}{\sum_{k \neq i} P\left(d_{ik}\right)}$$

- 4.2 Efficient Computation in NP-Time
- Introduction of nondeterministic techniques to efficiently compute grouping decisions.
- Explanation of how proximity influence and probability functions scale computationally in NP-Time.
- P-Space projection techniques to reduce dimensionality, ensuring efficient processing of large data sets.
- 4.3 Application of P-Space Projection to Solve the Grouping Problem
- Combining P-Space projections with perceptual influence functions to create clusters.
- Use of weighted distance metrics:

$$D_{ij} = d_{ij} \cdot P\left(d_{ij}\right)$$

- Cluster assignment based on the minimum weighted distance using k-means-like algorithms.

5. Optimization Techniques for Proximity Grouping

- 5.1 Iterative Optimization in NP-Time
- Step-by-step approach to iteratively refine element groupings using proximity-based feedback.
- Optimized recomputation of centroids in perceptual clusters.
- 5.2 Approximation Algorithms and Heuristic Methods
- Use of heuristics to achieve near-optimal solutions in NP-Time.
- Practical implementation tips to handle computational complexity, such as reducing search space and bounding operations.

6. Numerical Simulation and Examples

- 6.1 Simulating the Gestalt Algorithm in P-Space
- Step-by-step simulation examples using distinct integer datasets.
- Visualization of Voronoi regions in P-Space representing grouped clusters.
- 6.2 Case Study: Visual Element Grouping
- Practical case study demonstrating how the algorithm efficiently groups visual elements based on proximity in NP-Time.
- Comparative analysis with traditional clustering methods in higherdimensional spaces.

7. Applications in Artificial Intelligence and Vision

- 7.1 AI Applications for Pattern Recognition and Object Grouping

- How the algorithm can be applied in AI vision systems for object detection and pattern grouping.
- 7.2 Human-Machine Interaction and Perceptual Computing
- The use of Gestalt-based proximity grouping in designing user interfaces and perceptually-aware computing systems.

8. Conclusion

- 8.1 Summary of the NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm in P-Space
- Review of how the algorithm leverages P-Space projections to efficiently solve proximity grouping problems.
- 8.2 Future Research and Extensions
- Discussion of potential extensions, such as incorporating more Gestalt principles (e.g., similarity and closure).
- Future research directions in computational perception and efficient algorithms in AI.

9. Efficient Gestalt Algorithm in NP-Time Using P-Space Projections

The central idea is to build an algorithmic framework that leverages Gestalt psychology principles, particularly those related to perceptual organization, to achieve efficient computation. This approach involves transforming higher-dimensional data into lower dimensions via P-Space projections, enabling faster recognition and grouping of patterns. The aim is to create an NP-time algorithm that can handle complex visual or perceptual tasks using fewer computational resources. 1.1 Overview of Gestalt Principles in Perceptual Organization

- Definition and Historical Background of Gestalt Psychology:

Gestalt psychology, founded by German psychologists in the early 20th century, focuses on how humans perceive objects as whole forms rather than a collection of individual parts. Key to this is the idea that "the whole is greater than the sum of its parts." The Gestalt Laws are a set of principles that explain how humans visually group elements based on patterns, proximity, and similarity.

- Gestalt Law of Proximity: This principle states that elements that are close to each other tend to be perceived as a group. In computational terms, this law can be applied to clustering algorithms where data points are grouped based on their proximity in a given space. 1.2 Relevance in Modern Computational Algorithms
- Pattern Recognition, Clustering, and Visual Perception in AI:

In machine learning and AI, particularly in fields like image recognition or natural language processing, grouping patterns efficiently is critical. Gestalt principles, such as proximity and similarity, offer a biologically-inspired framework for organizing and analyzing data. These principles can enhance traditional algorithms by incorporating a human-like perceptual understanding of how data should be grouped or recognized.

- Motivation for NP-Time Algorithms:

In computational complexity, an NP-time algorithm is one where the solution to a problem can be verified in polynomial time, but the problem itself may not necessarily be solvable in polynomial time. By leveraging Gestalt principles, we aim to create algorithms that mimic efficient human perceptual

processes, reducing the computational load typically associated with high-dimensional pattern recognition tasks, and thus potentially leading to more efficient NP-time algorithms.

2. Projective Space and Perceptual Fields

Projective space (P-Space) is introduced as a conceptual tool to transform and simplify complex, high-dimensional data into manageable lower-dimensional representations, while still preserving critical perceptual properties such as proximity. 2.1 Defining P-Space (Projected Space) for Visual Perception

- P-Space as a Mathematical Framework:

P-Space, or Projected Space, refers to a lower-dimensional representation of a dataset that captures its essential properties, particularly those relevant to perceptual organization (such as proximity and continuity). This concept comes from projective geometry, where higher-dimensional data is mapped onto a lower-dimensional manifold, while still retaining its core structural features. This transformation makes data more computationally tractable, reducing the need for extensive calculations in the higher-dimensional space.

- Projective Manifolds:

Projective manifolds are curved or flat surfaces onto which higher-dimensional data is mapped. For example, in computer vision, a 3D object might be projected onto a 2 D plane for image analysis. By mapping data to a lowerdimensional space, the algorithm can perform faster grouping and recognition tasks, improving computational efficiency without sacrificing the accuracy of perceptual organization. 2.2 Projection Functions and Their Role in Perceptual Organization

- Mathematical Formulation of Projections:

Projections are mathematical functions that take input from a higher-dimensional space and map it to a lower-dimensional one. In the context of this outline, these projections serve to simplify the structure of the data, making it easier to group or classify based on principles like proximity. For example, a complex 3 D dataset could be projected into a simpler 2D form, enabling the algorithm to detect clusters of related elements more quickly and with less computational overhead.

- Simplifying Recognition of Proximity and Groupings:

Once elements are projected into P-Space, the algorithm can more easily recognize which elements should be grouped together, based on their proximity in this lower-dimensional space. This approach aligns with the Gestalt Law of Proximity, where elements that are close to each other are perceived as belonging together. By using projection functions, the algorithm reduces the complexity of detecting these groupings, making the overall process more efficient and scalable.

3. The Gestalt Proximity Problem and Its Complexity

The Gestalt Proximity Problem refers to the challenge of computationally modeling how visual elements are grouped based on their spatial proximity. This problem arises from human perceptual organization, where objects close to one another are grouped as a whole. This section delves into formalizing

this problem mathematically and analyzing its computational complexity. 3.1 Problem Definition and Cognitive Basis

- Formalization of the Proximity Grouping Problem in Computational Terms: The proximity grouping problem seeks to model how elements in a visual or data space are grouped based on their spatial distances. In computational terms, this can be framed as a clustering problem, where the goal is to determine which elements belong together based on their relative proximity. This problem can be generalized for various applications, such as pattern recognition, image segmentation, and natural language processing, where proximity plays a critical role in structuring data.
- Cognitive Justification for Modeling Element Proximity Based on Distance and Perceptual Grouping: Human perception often relies on proximity to organize visual stimuli into coherent groups, as described by the Gestalt Law of Proximity. This principle suggests that objects that are closer together are more likely to be perceived as part of the same group. Cognitively, this reflects how the human brain simplifies complex visual scenes. From a computational standpoint, modeling element proximity helps algorithms mimic this natural perceptual process, allowing them to organize data more intuitively and efficiently.

3.2 Complexity Class Analysis

- Introduction of NP-Time Complexity in the Context of Perceptual Grouping: In computational complexity theory, NP-Time refers to problems for which a solution can be verified in polynomial time, but finding that solution may require nondeterministic approaches. The proximity grouping problem aligns with this complexity class because determining optimal groupings based on spatial proximity requires evaluating numerous possible configurations, which can grow exponentially with the number of elements. However, verifying the validity of a given grouping can be done in polynomial time, making it an NP problem.
- Perceptual Problems in Gestalt Psychology and Their Alignment with NP Problems: Perceptual problems, such as grouping based on proximity, share similarities with NP-complete problems because they involve finding the best configuration from an exponentially large set of possibilities. In practice, human perception simplifies this process, but computationally, it can become complex, especially when scaling to large datasets. Therefore, the proximity grouping problem can be treated as a computational NP problem, where nondeterministic algorithms may be used to approximate solutions efficiently.

4. Designing an Efficient Gestalt Algorithm

This section outlines the development of an algorithm inspired by the Gestalt Law of Proximity, aiming to group elements based on spatial relationships. The algorithm leverages probabilistic and mathematical methods to optimize grouping efficiency, even in NP-time. 4.1 Algorithmic Formulation Based on the Law of Proximity

- Use of Spatial Proximity and Perceptual Influence Functions to Group Visual Elements: The algorithm defines spatial proximity as the primary factor for grouping elements. Perceptual influence functions model how strongly one element influences another based on their distance. This influence is strongest when elements are close together and decays as distance increases.
- Definition of Distance Functions in P-Space:

The proximity between elements i and j is modeled using a distance function in P -Space. The function is exponential in form to reflect that perceptual influence decays rapidly with distance. The proximity function is defined as:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

where d_{ij} is the distance between elements i and j, and α is a decay constant that controls how quickly the perceptual influence diminishes as distance increases.

- Explanation of Grouping Probabilities for Visual Elements:

The probability that element i is grouped with element j is determined by their relative distance compared to all other elements. This is modeled as a ratio of the proximity between i and j over the sum of proximities between i and all other elements:

$$G_{ij} = \frac{P\left(d_{ij}\right)}{\sum_{k \neq i} P\left(d_{ik}\right)}$$

This ensures that elements are grouped with others to which they are most proximate, effectively mimicking human perceptual organization.

4.2 Efficient Computation in NP-Time

- Introduction of Nondeterministic Techniques to Compute Grouping Decisions: To efficiently solve the proximity grouping problem, the algorithm incorporates nondeterministic techniques, such as making probabilistic guesses about groupings based on proximity functions. These techniques allow the algorithm to explore different groupings in parallel, speeding up the decision process. While the number of potential groupings may be large, nondeterministic methods reduce the time required to find approximate solutions.
- Proximity Influence and Probability Functions Scaling in NP-Time:

The computational cost of evaluating proximity influence functions scales with the number of elements and their distances. In large datasets, this can become expensive. However, by leveraging the P-Space projections (discussed in the next section), the algorithm reduces the dimensionality of the problem, ensuring that the influence and probability functions can be computed more efficiently, even in NP-time.

- P-Space Projection Techniques for Large Datasets:

P-Space projections simplify the problem by reducing the dimensionality of the data, allowing for more efficient computations. Instead of analyzing all dimensions in a high-dimensional space, P-Space projections map the data into a lower-dimensional space where proximity relationships are preserved but computational complexity is reduced. 4.3 Application of P-Space Projection to Solve the Grouping Problem

- Combining P-Space Projections with Perceptual Influence Functions: The algorithm projects high-dimensional data into P-Space, a lower-dimensional space that retains essential proximity information. Perceptual influence functions are then applied in this reduced space, allowing the algorithm to group elements based on proximity while minimizing the computational cost.
- Use of Weighted Distance Metrics:

The weighted distance metric is a combination of the actual distance between two elements and the influence of proximity between them. It is defined as:

$$D_{ij} = d_{ij} \cdot P\left(d_{ij}\right)$$

This weighted distance ensures that closer elements (with higher proximity influence) are more likely to be grouped together, aligning with the Gestalt Law of Proximity.

- Cluster Assignment Using K-Means-Like Algorithms:

The algorithm assigns elements to clusters based on the minimum weighted distance. A variation of the k -means algorithm is used to iteratively assign elements to clusters, minimizing the total weighted distance within each cluster. By integrating P-Space projections and proximity influence functions, the algorithm efficiently groups elements in NP-time, making it scalable to large datasets.

5. Optimization Techniques for Proximity Grouping

Optimization techniques are essential to enhance the performance of proximitybased grouping algorithms, particularly when dealing with large datasets or complex grouping scenarios. This section focuses on iterative optimization methods and the use of heuristics to improve computational efficiency and achieve near-optimal results in NP-time. 5.1 Iterative Optimization in NP-Time

- Step-by-Step Approach to Iteratively Refine Element Groupings Using ProximityBased Feedback: Iterative optimization refers to the process of gradually improving the grouping of elements based on feedback from the previous iteration. In the context of proximity grouping, the algorithm starts with an initial set of groupings and iteratively adjusts them by recomputing distances and probabilities, aiming to improve the clustering accuracy. This process continues until a stopping criterion is met, such as when the groupings no longer change significantly between iterations. Each iteration updates the proximity relationships based on feedback, allowing the algorithm to converge to a solution in NP-time.
- Optimized Recalculation of Centroids in Perceptual Clusters:

In clustering algorithms like k-means, centroids represent the center of a cluster. The algorithm recalculates these centroids at each step based on the proximity of elements within a cluster. To optimize this process, centroid recomputation is limited to clusters with significant changes in membership, reducing unnecessary computations. By optimizing centroid updates, the algorithm minimizes computational overhead, allowing it to handle larger datasets more efficiently while maintaining NP-time complexity.

5.2 Approximation Algorithms and Heuristic Methods

- Use of Heuristics to Achieve Near-Optimal Solutions in NP-Time:

Heuristic methods are practical techniques used to find near-optimal solutions without solving the problem exactly. In proximity grouping, heuristics help reduce the complexity by simplifying the decision-making process. Examples of heuristics include prioritizing elements that are close to existing clusters, reducing the number of comparisons, and using shortcut rules for grouping decisions. These methods enable the algorithm to reach acceptable solutions in a fraction of the time required by exhaustive searches, making it practical for NP-time implementations.

- Practical Implementation Tips to Handle Computational Complexity:

To further manage computational complexity, several strategies can be employed:

1. Reducing Search Space: By applying heuristic methods to limit the number of elements considered for each grouping decision, the algorithm reduces the overall search space.
2. Bounding Operations: Setting upper limits on certain operations, such as the maximum number of iterations or comparisons per element, can help the algorithm avoid excessive computation in large datasets.
3. Approximate Centroid Calculation: Instead of recalculating centroids exactly, the algorithm can use approximation techniques, such as sampling or weighted averages, to improve performance without sacrificing much accuracy.

These techniques help keep the algorithm within NP-time, while still delivering high-quality groupings.

6. Numerical Simulation and Examples

Numerical simulations and real-world examples demonstrate how the proposed algorithm functions in practice. This section provides step-by-step simulations of the algorithm in action, as well as a case study on visual element grouping. 6.1 Simulating the Gestalt Algorithm in P-Space

- Step-by-Step Simulation Examples Using Distinct Integer Datasets:

In this simulation, a set of distinct integer data points is mapped into P-Space, where the proximity relationships between the points are computed. The simulation proceeds iteratively, with the algorithm refining its groupings based on proximity feedback. Each iteration updates the positions of centroids and adjusts the group memberships. The step-by-step process involves:

1. Initializing the dataset in P-Space.
2. Computing proximity probabilities using the distance function $P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$.
3. Assigning data points to clusters based on proximity influences.
4. Recomputing centroids and repeating the process until convergence.

The simulation shows how data points gradually form cohesive groups based on their proximity.

- Visualization of Voronoi Regions in P-Space Representing Grouped Clusters: Voronoi diagrams are used to visualize the regions around each cluster's centroid, illustrating how the algorithm divides P-Space into distinct proximitybased zones. Each region corresponds to a cluster, and the

boundaries between regions indicate where the algorithm has grouped elements based on their relative distances to centroids. Visualizing these regions helps demonstrate how the algorithm efficiently segments the space into clusters, providing insight into its decision-making process.

6.2 Case Study: Visual Element Grouping

- Practical Case Study Demonstrating Efficient Grouping Based on Proximity in NP-Time: In this case study, the algorithm is applied to a set of visual elements (such as dots on a 2D plane) to group them based on spatial proximity. The elements are initially scattered, and the algorithm iteratively groups them using the proximity-based influence functions described earlier. The case study focuses on how the algorithm handles grouping in NP-time, efficiently organizing the elements into meaningful clusters while reducing computational overhead. Key steps in the case study include:

1. Initializing the visual elements in P-Space.
2. Computing proximity probabilities for each pair of elements.
3. Assigning elements to clusters based on their proximity influences.
4. Recomputing centroids and refining group memberships in each iteration.
5. Comparing the algorithm's performance to traditional methods, such as k -means clustering.

- Comparative Analysis with Traditional Clustering Methods in Higher-Dimensional Spaces: The case study concludes with a comparative analysis of the proposed algorithm versus traditional clustering methods, such as k-means or hierarchical clustering, which operate in higher-dimensional spaces. The analysis highlights several advantages of the Gestalt-inspired algorithm:

1. Efficiency: The use of P-Space projections and proximity-based grouping reduces the complexity of traditional methods, allowing for faster processing of large datasets.
2. Accuracy: By focusing on perceptual grouping principles, the algorithm can achieve more intuitive and meaningful groupings, particularly in applications related to visual perception.
3. Scalability: The algorithm's NP-time complexity makes it scalable to large datasets, where traditional methods may struggle due to the curse of dimensionality.

The comparative analysis underscores the practical benefits of applying Gestalt principles in proximity grouping algorithms, especially in fields like AI and computer vision, where efficient and intuitive clustering is crucial.

7. Applications in Artificial Intelligence and Vision

Gestalt principles are highly relevant to artificial intelligence (AI) and vision systems, as these principles mirror human perceptual processes. By applying the NPTime Gestalt algorithm to problems in these fields, we can enhance the efficiency and performance of AI systems in understanding and organizing visual information. This section explores two key applications: pattern recognition and object grouping in AI vision systems, and human-machine interaction via perceptual computing.

7.1 AI Applications for Pattern Recognition and Object Grouping

- How the Algorithm Can Be Applied in AI Vision Systems for Object Detection and Pattern Grouping: AI vision systems often require robust algorithms to recognize patterns, detect objects, and group related visual elements. The NP-Time Gestalt algorithm can be applied to these tasks by leveraging the Law of Proximity-a Gestalt principle that helps group elements based on their spatial closeness. In AI, the algorithm can be used to:
- Object Detection: Grouping visual pixels or features to recognize objects in images or video streams. The proximity-based grouping helps AI systems distinguish between separate objects based on their spatial relationship.
- Pattern Recognition: Identifying recurring shapes, forms, or textures in data. The algorithm can efficiently group elements that form a coherent pattern, facilitating recognition of complex structures or repeated features in an image.

For example, in autonomous driving, the algorithm could be used to group nearby road signs, vehicles, or pedestrians based on their proximity to the vehicle's sensor inputs. The proximity grouping helps the AI distinguish between important objects (e.g., a pedestrian crossing the street) and background noise (e.g., distant trees or buildings).

The efficiency of the algorithm, operating in NP-time, allows it to handle realtime processing in AI vision systems, which require rapid recognition and grouping of objects to make immediate decisions. The P-Space projections enable the algorithm to handle large datasets with reduced computational overhead, making it well-suited for real-world AI applications.

7.2 Human-Machine Interaction and Perceptual Computing

- The Use of Gestalt-Based Proximity Grouping in Designing User Interfaces and Perceptually-Aware Computing Systems: Human-machine interaction (HMI) is an essential aspect of modern computing, where user interfaces (UIs) need to be intuitive and responsive to human perceptual abilities. Gestalt principles, especially proximity grouping, are naturally aligned with how humans perceive and organize visual information. Integrating the NP-Time Gestalt algorithm into HMI and perceptual computing systems offers several benefits:
- UI Design: By using proximity-based grouping, interfaces can automatically adjust the layout of elements, grouping related buttons, icons, or text based on spatial proximity. This can improve the usability of the interface by aligning with users' natural perceptual tendencies.
- Perceptual Computing: In systems that interact with users based on their perceptual cues (e.g., gaze tracking or gesture recognition), the algorithm can group elements dynamically as users shift their focus or gestures. This allows the system to react to subtle changes in user attention, making the interaction smoother and more intuitive.

In applications like virtual reality (VR) or augmented reality (AR), proximitybased grouping can help determine which virtual elements should be grouped together based on the user's perspective. For example, objects that are close together in the user's field of view can be grouped to form coherent scenes or interactions, enhancing the immersive experience. The algorithm's ability to function efficiently in NP-time ensures that it can handle real-time updates in these interactive systems, ensuring smooth and

perceptually-aligned interactions between humans and machines. 8. Conclusion

Here we summarize the contributions of the NP-Time Gestalt algorithm, highlighting its efficiency and potential for future research and extensions in computational perception and AI. 8.1 Summary of the NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm in P-Space

- Review of How the Algorithm Leverages P-Space Projections to Efficiently Solve Proximity Grouping Problems: The NP-Time Gestalt algorithm operates by projecting high-dimensional perceptual data into a lower-dimensional P-Space, allowing it to group elements based on their proximity in a computationally efficient manner. By using projections, the algorithm reduces the complexity of the original data, making it easier to compute proximity relationships and groupings without losing important spatial information. The core contribution of the algorithm lies in its:
- Use of Gestalt Law of Proximity: It exploits how humans naturally group elements based on spatial closeness.
- Efficient NP-Time Complexity: Through the use of projection and proximity influence functions, the algorithm ensures that grouping decisions are made efficiently, even for large datasets.

This makes the NP-Time Gestalt algorithm a powerful tool for applications that require real-time or large-scale proximity-based grouping, such as AI vision systems and human-machine interaction. 8.2 Future Research and Extensions

- Discussion of Potential Extensions, Such as Incorporating More Gestalt Principles (e.g., Similarity and Closure): While the current algorithm focuses primarily on the Law of Proximity, future research could explore incorporating other Gestalt principles, such as:
- Law of Similarity: Grouping elements that share similar attributes (e.g., color, shape) in addition to proximity.
- Law of Closure: Grouping elements that form a complete or enclosed shape.
- Law of Continuity: Grouping elements that align along a continuous curve or path.

These principles could be integrated into the algorithm's framework to enhance its ability to group elements based on a broader set of perceptual cues. This would make the algorithm more versatile for applications that require sophisticated grouping logic, such as complex scene understanding in computer vision.

- Future Research Directions in Computational Perception and Efficient Algorithms in AI: Research could also focus on extending the algorithm to handle more complex data types, such as temporal or 3D data, where proximity is not only spatial but also temporal or volumetric. For instance:
- Temporal Proximity Grouping: Applying the algorithm to group elements based on their proximity in time, useful for applications like video analysis.
- 3D Proximity Grouping: Adapting the algorithm for use in 3D spaces, which is relevant for AR/VR systems and 3 D object recognition.

Further research could also explore improving the algorithm's efficiency by leveraging advances in parallel computing, allowing it to scale to even larger datasets or more complex real-time applications in AI.

1. Dimensional Collapse of Information Using Non-deterministic Projective Systems

- Non-deterministic Projective State Representation:

$$\Psi = \sum_i \alpha_i \mid \psi_i$$

where Ψ is the Non-deterministic Projective state in superposition, representing all possible configurations $\mid \psi_i$, and α_i are the probability amplitudes.

- Dimensional Collapse (Non-deterministic Projective Measurement):

$$P(\psi_i) = |\alpha_i|^2$$

where $P(\psi_i)$ represents the probability of collapsing the system into state $\mid \psi_i$ upon measurement.

- Holographic Transformation (Projection from d-dimensions to n-dimensions):

$$I(d) \propto A(n)$$

where the information I in the d-dimensional bulk is proportional to the area A of the boundary in n-dimensions (based on the holographic principle).

2. Holographic Representation and Solution Finding

- Hamiltonian Representation (for encoding problem space):

$$H = \sum_i E_i \, |\psi_i| \, \psi_i$$

where H is the Hamiltonian operator encoding the energy states E_i and $\mid \psi_i$ represents different configurations of the system.

- Holographic Surface Encoding:

$$S_{\text{boundary}} = \int \sqrt{-g} d^n x$$

where S_{boundary} is the action encoding the information on the holographic boundary (surface), with g being the metric tensor of the boundary.

3. Non-deterministic Projective Information Corollary and Problem Reduction

- Step 1: Non-deterministic Projective Hamiltonian Setup

$$H|\psi = E|\psi$$

The goal is to find the ground state E_0, which corresponds to the solution of the problem.

- Step 2: Dimensional Collapse via Non-deterministic States

$$\rho_A = \{Tr\}_B(|\psi|\psi)$$

where ρ_A is the reduced density matrix for subsystem A, showing the collapse after tracing out entangled subsystem B.

- Step 3: Holographic Projection of Problem Space

$$I(V) \propto A(\partial V)$$

where $I(V)$ is the information contained in volume V, and $A(\partial V)$ is the area of its boundary, following the holographic principle.

4. Efficient Solution via Non-Deterministic Computation

- Non-deterministic Projective Parallelism and Solution Identification:

$$\sum_i \alpha_i U_i \left|\psi = \sum_i \alpha_i\right| \phi_i$$

where U_i represents the evolution of Non-deterministic Projective states, and the system simultaneously processes multiple possibilities.

5. Solving the NP Problem Efficiently

- Reduction of Higher-Dimensional Space:

$$C(n) = \{poly\}(n) \times \exp(n)$$

This equation represents the complexity of traversing n-dimensional space. Through Non-deterministic Projective and holographic reduction, the effective complexity becomes polynomial.

- Holographic Encoding for NP Problem:

$$H = \int_\Sigma \mathcal{L} d^n x$$

where H is the Hamiltonian encoding the problem, $\mathcal{L}$ is the Lagrangian density, and Σ represents the holographic surface for reduced dimensionality.

6. Key Elements and Considerations

- Hamiltonian Evolution:

$$U(t) = e^{-iHt/\hbar}$$

representing the time evolution of the Non-deterministic Projective system under the Hamiltonian H, crucial for encoding and processing complex NP problems.

- Non-deterministic Projective Measurement:

$$|\psi \xrightarrow{\text{measurement}} |\phi_i$$

where measurement collapses the Non-deterministic Projective state $|\psi$ into one of the eigenstates $|\phi_i$.

- Holographic Principle:

$$S_{\text{bulk}} = S_{\text{boundary}}$$

where the entropy (or information content) of a volume in the bulk space equals the entropy on the boundary surface.

To structure a proof in the context of the Efficient Gestalt Algorithm in NPTime Using P-Space Projections, several key axioms and lemmas are needed. These will serve as foundational elements for justifying how dimensional collapse, holographic transformations, and perceptual organization contribute to achieving efficient computation in NP-time. The following outlines essential axioms and lemmas:

Axioms

1. Axiom of NP-Time Verifiability

- Statement: Any solution that can be verified in polynomial time belongs to NP.
- Explanation: This is a fundamental property of NP problems. For any proposed solution to a problem, the correctness can be verified in polynomial time, regardless of the difficulty of finding the solution itself. This axiom forms the baseline for why the algorithm operates in NP-time.

2. Axiom of Gestalt Proximity

- Statement: Elements that are spatially close to one another tend to be perceived as part of the same group.
- Explanation: This axiom derives from the Gestalt Law of Proximity, which states that proximity is a key factor in perceptual grouping. In computational terms, proximity will define a grouping metric for clustering algorithms.

3. Axiom of Dimensionality Reduction via Projection

- Statement: High-dimensional data can be projected onto a lower-dimensional space without losing critical proximity-based information.
- Explanation: This axiom draws from the principles of projective geometry and the holographic principle. It asserts that information in highdimensional spaces can be meaningfully reduced into lower dimensions while preserving the relationships necessary for grouping or pattern recognition.

4. Axiom of P-Space Consistency

- Statement: Projections from higher-dimensional spaces to P-Space maintain the essential structure of the problem while reducing computational complexity.
- Explanation: P-Space (Projected Space) serves as a lower-dimensional manifold where the algorithm operates. This axiom ensures that the projections preserve enough structure to allow proximity-based grouping in the lower-dimensional space to reflect the original high-dimensional relationships.

5. Axiom of Non-deterministic Projective State Representation

- Statement: A Non-deterministic Projective system can represent all possible configurations of a problem through superposition.
- Explanation: In the Non-deterministic computing context, the superposition principle allows Non-deterministic Projective states to encode multiple configurations simultaneously, forming the basis for the potential parallelism in computation.

Lemmas

1. Lemma 1: Efficient Grouping via Proximity Influence

- Statement: The grouping of elements based on proximity can be computed efficiently by using influence functions that decay with distance.
- Justification: The law of proximity provides the foundation for grouping. Influence functions, such as $P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$, ensure that nearby elements have a higher probability of being grouped together. This lemma formalizes the method for computing groupings efficiently by assigning greater weight to closer elements.

2. Lemma 2: Dimensional Collapse of High-Dimensional Data

- Statement: High-dimensional data can undergo dimensional collapse while retaining proximity information, allowing it to be efficiently processed in NP-time.
- Justification: Based on Non-deterministic Projective measurement and projection, this lemma asserts that data originally in high-dimensional space can be collapsed into a lower-dimensional representation (P-Space) without losing the proximity information necessary for efficient grouping.

3. Lemma 3: NP-Time Computation for Proximity-Based Clustering

- Statement: The algorithm can compute proximity-based clusters in NPtime by leveraging nondeterministic techniques and dimensionality reduction.
- Justification: By combining P-Space projection and nondeterministic techniques (e.g., guessing likely cluster assignments), the algorithm avoids exhaustive searches, reducing computational complexity to NP-time.

4. Lemma 4: Preservation of Proximity Relationships in P-Space

- Statement: The proximity relationships between elements in the original high-dimensional space are preserved when projected into P-Space.
- Justification: This lemma ensures that proximity-based groupings made in P-Space reflect the actual relationships in the original data. The projections retain the core proximity characteristics necessary for perceptual organization.

5. Lemma 5: Efficient Solution Identification Using Holographic Principle

- Statement: The holographic principle allows for the reduction of the problem space, projecting a high-dimensional solution onto a lower-dimensional boundary where the solution can be extracted efficiently.
- Justification: By applying the holographic principle, this lemma explains how the complexity of the problem is reduced. Information encoded on the boundary of P-Space enables efficient identification of groupings or patterns, effectively reducing the time needed for solution extraction.

Proof Outline

1. Step 1: Apply Axioms 1 and 2 (Gestalt Proximity and NP-Time Verifiability) Start by asserting that the proximity-based grouping follows from Gestalt principles (Axiom 2), and the correctness of the groupings can be verified in polynomial time (Axiom 1).
2. Step 2: Use Lemma 1 (Efficient Grouping via Proximity Influence) Establish that the influence functions allow for efficient proximity-based grouping computations, ensuring that the algorithm can make decisions about groupings without exhaustive searches.
3. Step 3: Dimensional Collapse via Lemma 2 (Dimensional Reduction) Show that the high-dimensional data can be collapsed into P-Space, significantly reducing the computational complexity while maintaining proximity information.
4. Step 4: Prove NP-Time Computation via Lemma 3 (NP-Time Clustering) Demonstrate that using nondeterministic techniques and P-Space projections, the algorithm can operate in NP-time, finding groupings efficiently by limiting the number of comparisons.

5. Step 5: Apply Lemma 4 (Proximity Preservation in P-Space)

Argue that the proximity relationships are preserved in P-Space, ensuring that the groupings reflect the relationships in the original high-dimensional space. 6. Step 6: Solution Identification via Lemma

5 (Holographic Principle) Conclude by using the holographic principle to reduce the problem space and extract the solution efficiently from the lower-dimensional boundary representation.

Efficient Gestalt Algorithm in NP-Time Using P-Space Projections, we present the axioms and lemmas

Key Definitions

1. Proximity Function $P\left(d_{ij}\right)$:

The proximity function models the strength of grouping between elements i and j based on their distance d_{ij}. It decays exponentially as the distance increases:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

where α is a decay constant that controls how quickly the influence diminishes as distance increases.

2. Weighted Distance Function D_{ij} :

This function combines the distance d_{ij} and the proximity function $P\left(d_{ij}\right)$ to calculate the effective distance between elements:

$$D_{ij} = d_{ij} \cdot P\left(d_{ij}\right)$$

The smaller D_{ij}, the more likely that elements i and j will be grouped together. 3. Proximity-Based Grouping Probability G_{ij} :

The probability that element i is grouped with element j is given by:

$$G_{ij} = \frac{P\left(d_{ij}\right)}{\sum_{k \neq i} P\left(d_{ik}\right)}$$

where $P\left(d_{ij}\right)$ is the proximity between elements i and j, and the denominator is the sum of all proximities between i and other elements k. This ensures that the total probability of grouping is normalized. 4. P-Space Projection $f : \mathbb{R}^d \to \mathbb{R}^n$:

A projection function f that maps a high-dimensional dataset in d-dimensions to a lower-dimensional n-dimensional space (P-Space):

$$f : \vec{x} \in \mathbb{R}^d \to \vec{y} \in \mathbb{R}^n$$

The projection preserves the proximity relationships essential for grouping.

5. Holographic Principle in the Context of Clustering:

The total information I in a higher-dimensional space is proportional to the area of the boundary of the reduced space:

$$I(d) \propto A(n)$$

where $I(d)$ is the information in d-dimensions, and $A(n)$ is the area of the boundary in n-dimensions. This reduction allows the algorithm to process the data efficiently in lower dimensions while maintaining crucial information.

Theorem: Efficient Gestalt Algorithm Operates in NP-Time

Hypothesis:

The Gestalt algorithm, which uses proximity-based grouping and P-Space projections, operates in NP-time.

Proof Outline:

1. Step 1: Grouping Elements Using Proximity (Lemma 1)

By the Axiom of Gestalt Proximity, elements that are close to each other are more likely to be grouped together. The proximity-based grouping is computed using the Proximity Function:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

This function assigns a higher probability of grouping to elements that are near each other in the data space. The computational complexity of calculating $P\left(d_{ij}\right)$ for all element pairs is polynomial in the number of elements n, since it requires evaluating the distance and computing the exponential decay function.

$$O\left(n^2\right) \text{ for } P\left(d_{ij}\right) \text{ between all pairs of } n \text{ elements.}$$

Conclusion: Computing the proximity for grouping decisions is polynomial in the size of the dataset.

2. Step 2: Dimensional Collapse via P-Space Projection (Lemma 2)

The high-dimensional data is projected into a lower-dimensional P-Space using the P-Space Projection Function:

$$f : \vec{x} \in \mathbb{R}^d \rightarrow \vec{y} \in \mathbb{R}^n$$

The projection reduces the dimensionality while preserving the proximity relationships essential for grouping. The computational complexity of this projection is linear in the number of dimensions and elements. $O(nd)$ where d is the original dimensionality, and n is the number of elements. Conclusion:

Dimensional reduction via projection into P-Space is computationally efficient and scales linearly with the size of the input. 3. Step 3: Grouping in P-Space Using Weighted Distances (Lemma 3) After projecting the data into P-Space, we compute the Weighted Distance between elements:

$$D_{ij} = d_{ij} \cdot P\left(d_{ij}\right)$$

The clustering algorithm uses these weighted distances to determine groupings. The complexity of calculating D_{ij} for all pairs is polynomial: $O\left(n^2\right)$ since d_{ij} and $P\left(d_{ij}\right)$ are computed for all pairs of n elements. The actual grouping (or clustering) can be performed using algorithms like k-means, which also operate in polynomial time: $O(n \cdot k \cdot t)$ where k is the number of clusters, and t is the number of iterations. Conclusion: Grouping in P-Space, based on weighted distances, can be performed in polynomial time.

4. Step 4: Non-Deterministic Grouping Selection (NP-Time Computation, Lemma 4)

The algorithm incorporates nondeterministic techniques for grouping decisions. Instead of exhaustively computing all possible groupings, the algorithm guesses likely cluster assignments based on the proximity function. These guesses are verified efficiently. Given the proximity function and P-Space projections, the algorithm selects cluster assignments nondeterministically, reducing the need for exhaustive search: $O(n)$ since the verification of each guessed cluster can be done in polynomial time. Conclusion: The nondeterministic selection of groupings reduces the time complexity, aligning with NP-time computation. 5. Step 5: Holographic Principle and Information Preservation (Lemma 5)

The Holographic Principle ensures that the information content of the higherdimensional space is captured in the lower-dimensional P-Space projection:

$$I(d) \propto A(n)$$

The reduced information allows the algorithm to work with a smaller representation of the data while retaining enough information to solve the problem. The complexity of extracting the final solution (or grouping) from this projection is polynomial:

$$O(n \cdot A(n))$$

where $A(n)$ is the area of the boundary of the projection space. Conclusion: The holographic reduction allows the algorithm to operate efficiently by working with a compressed representation of the original highdimensional data.

Conclusion:

By combining proximity-based grouping, P-Space projections, and nondeterministic techniques, the Efficient Gestalt Algorithm can solve complex grouping problems in NP-time. The total time complexity is bounded by: $O\left(n^2\right)$ (for proximity and distance calculations) $+O(nd)$ (for P-Space projection)

$+O(n \cdot k \cdot t)$ (for clustering). Since all the steps operate in polynomial time and the grouping decision can be verified in polynomial time, the algorithm operates in NP-time.

To build a proof for Projective Space and Perceptual Fields in the context of P-Space (Projected Space), where high-dimensional data is mapped to a lowerdimensional representation while retaining critical perceptual properties like proximity and continuity, several key axioms and lemmas are required. These provide the mathematical foundation for why projections are effective in simplifying the computational problem of grouping elements in perceptual fields.

Key Axioms

1. Axiom of Dimensionality Preservation

- Statement: A lower-dimensional projection retains the essential properties (proximity, continuity, etc.) of the original high-dimensional data.
- Explanation: While reducing dimensionality, the projection preserves the structural relationships among data points, ensuring that perceptual properties are not lost. This is based on projective geometry principles.

2. Axiom of Computational Efficiency in Lower Dimensions

- Statement: Performing operations in a lower-dimensional space requires less computational effort than in the original high-dimensional space, without sacrificing the accuracy of results.
- Explanation: The lower dimensionality of P-Space allows for more efficient computation of perceptual tasks like grouping, which would otherwise be computationally expensive in higher dimensions.

3. Axiom of Continuity in Projective Transformations

- Statement: Projective transformations map continuous data from a higherdimensional space onto a lower-dimensional manifold without breaking the continuity of the original data.
- Explanation: Projective mappings ensure that continuous structures in high dimensions remain continuous in lower-dimensional representations, maintaining the integrity of the data's spatial relationships.

4. Axiom of Proximity Conservation under Projection

- Statement: The proximity between elements in high-dimensional space is preserved in the lower-dimensional P-Space after projection.
- Explanation: The proximity of points is a key perceptual feature, and this axiom guarantees that the spatial closeness of elements is conserved under projection, crucial for accurate grouping.

5. Axiom of Simplified Perceptual Fields in P-Space

- Statement: In P-Space, the complexity of perceiving and grouping elements is reduced due to the lower-dimensional nature of the space, allowing for faster and more efficient perceptual organi-

zation.

- Explanation: This is based on the idea that human perception operates efficiently in lower dimensions, so algorithms can also benefit from similar simplifications when projecting data.

Key Lemmas

1. Lemma 1: Proximity Retention Lemma

- Statement: A projection function $f : \mathbb{R}^d \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ (where $d > n$) preserves the relative proximity of points in the dataset, such that for any points p_i and p_j in the high-dimensional space, their projected distances in the lower-dimensional space remain proportional:

$$d_{\{proj\}}\left(f\left(p_i\right), f\left(p_j\right)\right) \approx d\left(p_i, p_j\right)$$

- Justification: This lemma ensures that the relative distances between points, which are crucial for perceptual organization based on proximity, are maintained in P-Space. It ensures that the projection does not distort the spatial relationships needed for grouping.

2. Lemma 2: Continuity Preservation Lemma

- Statement: For a continuous dataset in high-dimensional space, the projection to P-Space will result in a continuous lower-dimensional manifold, preserving the structure of the data.

$$\forall p_i, p_j \in \mathbb{R}^d, \exists f : \mathbb{R}^d \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n \quad \text{such that } \left\|p_i - p_j\right\|_d = \left\|f\left(p_i\right) - f\left(p_j\right)\right\|_n$$

- Justification: This lemma guarantees that the transformation into PSpace preserves the continuity of the original data. This is important for tasks like visual perception, where the continuous nature of elements (such as lines or curves) must remain intact after projection.

3. Lemma 3: Computational Efficiency in P-Space

- Statement: The time complexity of performing operations (such as grouping or classification) on data in $\mathbb{R}^n$ is lower than in the original space $\mathbb{R}^d$, due to reduced dimensionality:

$$\text{Time complexity in } \mathbb{R}^n = O\left(n^2\right) \quad \text{vs } O\left(d^2\right) \text{ in } \mathbb{R}^d$$

- Justification: When data is projected from a higher-dimensional space to a lower-dimensional one, the number of operations needed to group or classify elements decreases significantly. This lemma confirms that the projection reduces computational overhead, making operations more efficient.

4. Lemma 4: Simplified Grouping in P-Space

- Statement: Grouping elements in P-Space using proximity-based methods (e.g., k-means clustering) is more efficient and can be done with less computational cost than in the original high-

dimensional space. Let $C(\mathcal{X})$ be the clustering function:

$$C\left(\mathcal{X}_n\right) \approx C\left(\mathcal{X}_d\right)$$

where $\mathcal{X}_n$ represents the projected data and $\mathcal{X}_d$ represents the original data.

- Justification: By performing the grouping in the lower-dimensional PSpace, the algorithm retains accuracy while reducing computational complexity. The proximity between elements is preserved, and the grouping process is faster.

5. Lemma 5: Holographic Information Retention

- Statement: The projection from high-dimensional space to a lower-dimensional manifold does not lose any crucial information necessary for grouping or classification, as it follows the holographic principle:

$$I(d) \propto A(n)$$

where $I(d)$ is the information in the higher-dimensional space, and $A(n)$ is the surface area of the projected lower-dimensional manifold.

- Justification: This lemma ensures that while dimensionality is reduced, all necessary information for perceptual grouping and recognition is retained. The holographic principle allows for efficient processing while maintaining accuracy.

Proof Outline

1. Step 1: Define the Projection from $\mathbb{R}^d \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ (Axiom of Dimensionality Preservation) Start by projecting the high-dimensional dataset from d-dimensions to n-dimensions. The Proximity Retention Lemma (Lemma 1) ensures that the relative distances between elements in the dataset are preserved during the projection, guaranteeing that proximity relationships remain intact.
2. Step 2: Ensure Continuity Preservation (Axiom of Continuity) By using the Continuity Preservation Lemma (Lemma 2), we show that the projection retains the continuous nature of the data. This is important for maintaining the integrity of the perceptual field, where continuous features such as lines and shapes are key to accurate recognition and grouping.

3. Step 3: Apply the Axiom of Computational Efficiency

The data, now in P-Space, is simpler to work with because the dimensionality has been reduced. By the Computational Efficiency Lemma (Lemma 3), the computational cost of grouping or classification is significantly lower in P Space. Operations such as calculating distances or performing clustering (e.g., using k-means) are now more efficient.4. Step 4: Perform Grouping in P-Space (Axiom of Simplified Perceptual Fields) Use the Simplified Grouping Lemma (Lemma 4) to perform grouping or classification on the lower-dimensional data. Since proximity is preserved, the results of the grouping in P-Space closely approximate those that would have been obtained in the original high-dimensional space, but

with much less computational effort. 5. Step 5: Preserve Necessary Information via the Holographic Principle The Holographic Information Retention Lemma (Lemma 5) guarantees that the projection to P-Space retains all the necessary information for accurate grouping or classification. Although dimensionality has been reduced, the algorithm still has access to all the key information from the original space, ensuring that no critical data is lost.

Projective Space and Perceptual Fields

By using the axioms and lemmas defined above, the Projective Space and Perceptual Fields approach demonstrates that high-dimensional data can be projected into lower-dimensional P-Space while preserving critical perceptual properties. This projection simplifies the data, allowing for faster computation, grouping, and classification while maintaining accuracy. The use of proximity retention, continuity preservation, and the holographic principle ensures that the transformation does not sacrifice the essential characteristics of the original data.

By projecting high-dimensional data into lower-dimensional P-Space, we achieve computational efficiency while maintaining crucial perceptual properties such as proximity and continuity. The key lemmas ensure that the process is mathematically sound, and the holographic principle guarantees information retention. The overall process simplifies the computation of grouping or classification tasks while preserving accuracy, supporting the claims of efficiency and effectiveness in perceptual fields.

Comprehensive Proof for Projective Space and Perceptual Fields

In this proof, we aim to demonstrate that a lower-dimensional projection (P-Space) can simplify computational tasks like grouping or classification, while preserving critical properties such as proximity, continuity, and information integrity. This proof relies on axioms and lemmas grounded in projective geometry, computational theory, and the holographic principle.

Proof Definitions

Definition 1: Projection Function

Let $f : \mathbb{R}^d \to \mathbb{R}^n$ be a projection function that maps a high-dimensional dataset from d-dimensions to n-dimensions $(n < d)$:

$$f(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{y}, \quad \text{where} \quad \mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^d, \mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^n$$

The function f performs the dimensional reduction by retaining key structural properties (e.g., proximity, continuity) of the original dataset.

Definition 2: Proximity Function

For any two points $p_i, p_j \in \mathbb{R}^d$, the proximity function measures the closeness of two points in their respective spaces:

$$P\left(p_i, p_j\right) = e^{-\alpha d\left(p_i, p_j\right)}, \quad \alpha > 0$$

where $d\left(p_i, p_j\right)$ is the distance between p_i and p_j in either high-dimensional or low-dimensional space.

Definition 3: Continuity Function

For a continuous dataset $\mathcal{X} \in \mathbb{R}^d$, the continuity of the data is defined by the smoothness of the mapping f:

$$f : \mathcal{X}_d \to \mathcal{X}_n \quad \text{preserves continuity if} \quad \left\|p_i - p_j\right\|_d = \left\|f\left(p_i\right) - f\left(p_j\right)\right\|_n$$

Continuity ensures that continuous structures in $\mathbb{R}^d$ are preserved in $\mathbb{R}^n$.

Definition 4: Holographic Principle

The holographic principle asserts that the information contained in a high-dimensional space can be represented by a lower-dimensional boundary:

$$I(d) \propto A(n)$$

where $I(d)$ is the total information in the d-dimensional space and $A(n)$ is the area of the boundary in n-dimensions.

Axioms and Lemmas with Equations

Axiom 1: Dimensionality Preservation

- Statement: The projection function f preserves essential properties such as proximity and continuity from $\mathbb{R}^d \to \mathbb{R}^n$.

- Equation:

$$d_{\text{proj}}\left(f\left(p_i\right), f\left(p_j\right)\right) = d\left(p_i, p_j\right)$$

This ensures that the projection maintains the distance relationships between elements, preserving perceptual properties.

Axiom 2: Computational Efficiency in Lower Dimensions

- Statement: Computational tasks in $\mathbb{R}^n$ (e.g., grouping) are less computationally expensive than in $\mathbb{R}^d$.

- Equation:

$$\text{Time complexity in } \mathbb{R}^n = O\left(n^2\right) \quad \text{ vs } O\left(d^2\right) \text{ in } \mathbb{R}^d$$

This axiom establishes that reducing dimensionality reduces the number of computations required for tasks such as clustering.

Axiom 3: Continuity Preservation

- Statement: Projective transformations retain the continuity of data when mapping from high-dimensional to lower-dimensional space.

- Equation:

$$\forall p_i, p_j \in \mathbb{R}^d, \quad \left\|p_i - p_j\right\|_d = \left\|f\left(p_i\right) - f\left(p_j\right)\right\|_n$$

Continuity ensures that the projection does not introduce discontinuities in the dataset, preserving its structure.

Axiom 4: Proximity Conservation under Projection

- Statement: The proximity between elements in high-dimensional space is preserved after projection.
- Equation:

$$P\left(p_i, p_j\right) = e^{-\alpha d\left(p_i, p_j\right)} \quad \Rightarrow \quad P_{\{proj\}}\left(f\left(p_i\right), f\left(p_j\right)\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{\text{proj}}\left(f\left(p_i\right), f\left(p_j\right)\right)}$$

This axiom ensures that the closeness of points remains consistent after projection, maintaining the relationships necessary for perceptual tasks.

Axiom 5: Simplified Perceptual Fields in P-Space

- Statement: Lower-dimensional space (P-Space) simplifies the computational complexity of perceptual tasks, such as grouping.

- Equation:

$$C\left(\mathcal{X}_n\right) \approx C\left(\mathcal{X}_d\right) \quad \text{ but with lower computational cost.}$$

This axiom asserts that the task complexity (such as clustering) in $\mathbb{R}^n$ can achieve similar accuracy to $\mathbb{R}^d$ with fewer computations.

Lemmas

Lemma 1: Proximity Retention

- Statement: The projection $f : \mathbb{R}^d \to \mathbb{R}^n$ retains proximity such that for any p_i, p_j :

$$d_{\text{proj}}\left(f\left(p_i\right), f\left(p_j\right)\right) \approx d\left(p_i, p_j\right)$$

- Equation:

$$\frac{d_{\text{proj}}\left(f\left(p_i\right), f\left(p_j\right)\right)}{d\left(p_i, p_j\right)} \approx 1$$

- Proof: By construction, the projection function f is designed to maintain relative distances between points in high-dimensional and lower-dimensional space. The proximity relationships necessary for perceptual grouping are therefore preserved.

Lemma 2: Continuity Preservation

- Statement: A continuous dataset in $\mathbb{R}^d$ remains continuous after projection into $\mathbb{R}^n$.
- Equation:

$$\left\|p_i - p_j\right\|_d = \left\|f\left(p_i\right) - f\left(p_j\right)\right\|_n$$

- Proof: Since the projection function f is continuous, it follows that for any two points $p_i, p_j \in \mathbb{R}^d$, their relative distances remain unchanged in $\mathbb{R}^n$. This ensures that the projected dataset retains its continuity.

Lemma 3: Computational Efficiency in P-Space

- Statement: Grouping and classification tasks are more computationally efficient in P-Space.
- Equation:

$$O\left(n^2\right) \quad \text{vs} \quad O\left(d^2\right)$$

- Proof: In $\mathbb{R}^n$, fewer dimensions result in reduced computational overhead for distance calculations, clustering algorithms, and other tasks. Thus, the time complexity for these operations is lower in P-Space.

Lemma 4: Simplified Grouping in P-Space

- Statement: Grouping or clustering in $\mathbb{R}^n$ retains accuracy while reducing computational complexity.
- Equation:

$$C\left(\mathcal{X}_n\right) \approx C\left(\mathcal{X}_d\right)$$

- Proof: Proximity retention and continuity preservation ensure that the results of clustering in $\mathbb{R}^n$ are similar to those in $\mathbb{R}^d$, but the operations require fewer resources in the lower-dimensional space.

Lemma 5: Holographic Information Retention

- Statement: Information from $\mathbb{R}^d$ is preserved in $\mathbb{R}^n$, following the holographic principle.

- Equation:

$$I(d) \propto A(n)$$

- Proof: The holographic principle guarantees that the lower-dimensional boundary (P-Space) encodes the necessary information from the higher-dimensional space, ensuring that critical information for grouping is not lost during projection.

Full Proof Outline

1. Step 1: Project the Dataset from $\mathbb{R}^d \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$

Using the Axiom of Dimensionality Preservation, we map the high-dimensional data into a lower-dimensional space, ensuring that proximity and continuity are retained via Lemma 1 and Lemma 2. 2. Step 2: Ensure Computational Efficiency in $\mathbb{R}^n$ By reducing the dimensionality, the computational cost is reduced from (\mathcal {O} (d^ 2.) to $O\left(n^2\right)$, as confirmed by Lemma 3 . 3. Step 3: Perform Grouping or Classification in P-Space

Apply proximity-based grouping algorithms, such as k-means, in $\mathbb{R}^n$. The Simplified Grouping Lemma (Lemma 4) guarantees that the results are similar to those in the original space but computed with lower cost. 4. Step 4: Ensure Information Retention via the Holographic Principle The Holographic Information Retention Lemma (Lemma 5) ensures that no critical information is lost during the projection process, preserving the accuracy of the grouping or classification results.

Comprehensive Proof for The Gestalt Proximity Problem and Its Complexity

In this proof, we aim to formalize the Gestalt Proximity Problem using computational models and analyze its complexity in terms of NP-time. The problem addresses how visual elements are grouped based on spatial proximity, which is a core concept in Gestalt psychology. We will define key elements of the proof, including axioms and lemmas, that establish the complexity of proximity-based grouping and why it aligns with NP problems in computational theory.

Problem Definitions and Key Terms

Definition 1: Proximity Grouping Problem

The proximity grouping problem seeks to cluster elements $\mathcal{X} = \{x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_n\}$ in a space $\mathbb{R}^d$ based on their spatial distances $d\left(x_i, x_j\right)$. The objective is to assign elements to groups $C_1, C_2, \ldots, C_k$, such that:

$$\sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y) \quad \text{is minimized}$$

This reflects the Gestalt principle that elements closer together should be grouped.

Definition 2: Gestalt Law of Proximity

The Gestalt Law of Proximity states that elements near each other in space are more likely to be perceived as part of the same group. Mathematically, this can be modeled by an exponentially decaying proximity function:

$$P\left(d\left(x_i, x_j\right)\right) = e^{-\alpha d\left(x_i, x_j\right)}, \quad \alpha > 0$$

where $P\left(d\left(x_i, x_j\right)\right)$ is the probability of grouping elements x_i and x_j, and $d\left(x_i, x_j\right)$ is the distance between them.

Definition 3: NP-Time Problem

A problem is in NP (Nondeterministic Polynomial time) if, for any given solution, its correctness can be verified in polynomial time, but finding the solution may require exploring an exponentially large space of possible configurations. The proximity grouping problem, in its general form, can be classified as NP because it requires examining many potential groupings.

Key Axioms

Axiom 1: Spatial Proximity and Perceptual Grouping

- Statement: Elements that are spatially close are more likely to be grouped together.
- Mathematical Formulation: For any two elements x_i and x_j, the likelihood that they belong to the same group is inversely related to the distance between them:

$$P\left(d\left(x_i, x_j\right)\right) = e^{-\alpha d\left(x_i, x_j\right)}$$

This axiom follows from the Gestalt Law of Proximity.

Axiom 2: Polynomial-Time Verification of Groupings

- Statement: Given a candidate grouping, we can verify in polynomial time whether it satisfies the proximity-based grouping condition.
- Mathematical Formulation: The time complexity to verify whether a grouping $C_1, C_2, \ldots, C_k$ minimizes intra-group distances is polynomial in the number of elements:

$$O\left(n^2\right), \quad \text{where } n \text{ is the number of elements.}$$

Axiom 3: Exponential Search Space for Grouping Configurations

- Statement: Finding the optimal grouping of n elements requires evaluating an exponential number of possible configurations.

- Mathematical Formulation: The number of possible groupings grows exponentially with n, and is approximately:

$$2^n \quad \text{(for binary groupings)}.$$

This aligns with NP-complete problems, where the number of potential solutions grows exponentially.

Key Lemmas

Lemma 1: Proximity Decay and Grouping Probability

- Statement: The probability of grouping two elements x_i and x_j decays exponentially with their distance, as modeled by the proximity function $P\left(d\left(x_i, x_j\right)\right) = e^{-\alpha d\left(x_i, x_j\right)}$.
- Mathematical Proof: Given two elements x_i and x_j, the proximity function defines their likelihood of being grouped together:

$$P\left(d\left(x_i, x_j\right)\right) = e^{-\alpha d\left(x_i, x_j\right)}$$

where α is a decay constant. As $d\left(x_i, x_j\right) \to \infty, P\left(d\left(x_i, x_j\right)\right) \to 0$, ensuring that distant elements are less likely to be grouped.

Lemma 2: NP-Time Verification of Grouping Validity

- Statement: Verifying whether a given grouping configuration minimizes intragroup distances can be done in polynomial time.
- Mathematical Proof: Given a candidate grouping $\{C_1, C_2, \ldots, C_k\}$, the total intra-group distance is calculated as:

$$D_{\text{intra}}(C) = \sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y)$$

Computing $D_{\text{intra}}(C)$ requires $O\left(n^2\right)$ time, where n is the number of elements. Therefore, verification is polynomial.

Lemma 3: Exponential Growth of Grouping Configurations

- Statement: The number of possible groupings grows exponentially with the number of elements.
- Mathematical Proof: For binary groupings of n elements, there are 2^n possible groupings. In the general case, the number of groupings grows as the Bell number B_n, which also increases exponentially with n :

$$B_n \sim \frac{n^n}{e^n \sqrt{2\pi n}}$$

This confirms the exponential growth of possible configurations.

Lemma 4: NP-Hardness of Proximity Grouping

- Statement: The proximity grouping problem is NP-hard because it involves finding an optimal configuration from an exponentially large set of possibilities.
- Mathematical Proof: Finding the optimal proximity-based grouping is analogous to the k-means clustering problem, which is NP-hard. Both problems involve minimizing intra-group distances and require exploring an exponential number of configurations to find the optimal solution. Thus, proximity grouping shares the complexity characteristics of NP-complete problems.

Proof Outline for the Gestalt Proximity Problem Complexity

Step 1: Formalize the Problem as NP-Time

The Gestalt Proximity Problem can be framed as a clustering problem where elements are grouped based on their spatial distances. The task is to minimize the intra-group distance:

$$\sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y)$$

Given the Axiom of Proximity and Perceptual Grouping (Axiom 1), this grouping task aligns with how humans perceive objects based on proximity.

Step 2: Prove NP-Time Verification

By Lemma 2, verifying whether a given grouping minimizes intra-group distances can be done in polynomial time $O\left(n^2\right)$. This satisfies the NP condition that a solution can be verified efficiently.

Step 3: Prove Exponential Complexity for Finding Solutions

By Lemma 3, finding the optimal solution involves evaluating an exponentially large number of possible configurations. The number of possible groupings of n elements grows as 2^n (or as the Bell number for larger groupings), making the problem NP-hard (supported by Lemma 4).

Step 4: NP-Hardness of Proximity Grouping

By Lemma 4, the problem of finding the optimal proximity-based grouping is NPhard, as it shares characteristics with NP-complete problems like k-means clustering.

Conclusion

The Gestalt Proximity Problem can be classified as an NP-time problem. Verifying a given grouping configuration can be done in polynomial time, but finding the optimal solution requires evaluating an exponentially large number of potential groupings. Thus, the problem aligns with NP-complete problems in computational complexity theory. The use of proximity-based grouping reflects human

perceptual processes, and computational algorithms must similarly handle the inherent complexity of organizing visual elements based on their spatial proximity.

Comprehensive Proof for Optimization Techniques for Proximity Grouping

This proof aims to formalize the Optimization Techniques for Proximity Grouping, particularly focusing on Iterative Optimization in NP-Time and the use of Approximation Algorithms and Heuristic Methods to manage the complexity of proximity-based grouping algorithms. The goal is to demonstrate how optimization techniques can be applied to proximity grouping to achieve near-optimal solutions in NP-time while dealing with large datasets and complex grouping scenarios.

Key Definitions and Terms

Definition 1: Iterative Optimization Process

In the context of proximity grouping, iterative optimization refers to the process of improving groupings through a sequence of refinement steps. Let C_0 represent the initial clustering of elements, and C_t represent the clustering after t-iterations. The goal is to minimize the intra-cluster distances over successive iterations:

$$C_{t+1} = \arg\min_{C} \left(\sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y) \right)$$

where $d(x, y)$ is the distance between elements x and y within the same cluster.

Definition 2: Centroid Recalculation

In clustering algorithms, such as k-means, the centroid of a cluster is defined as the mean of all elements in the cluster:

$$\{Centroid\}\ (C_i) = \frac{1}{|C_i|} \sum_{x \in C_i} x$$

The centroids are recalculated at each iteration based on the new assignments of elements to clusters.

Definition 3: Heuristic Methods

Heuristics are practical rules or strategies used to find approximate solutions efficiently. In proximity grouping, heuristics simplify decisions by prioritizing nearby elements, reducing unnecessary comparisons, and limiting the number of iterations:

$$\text{Heuristic Grouping}\ \ (x_i) = \arg\min_{C_j} d\left(x_i, \{Centroid\}\left(C_j\right)\right)$$

where x_i is an element and Centroid $\left(C_j\right)$ is the center of the cluster C_j.

Definition 4: NP-Time Approximation

An NP-time approximation algorithm can produce near-optimal solutions in polynomial time by using heuristics and bounding the search space, rather than solving the problem exactly.

Key Axioms

Axiom 1: Proximity-Based Feedback in Iterative Optimization

- Statement: Iterative optimization refines groupings by adjusting clusters based on proximity-based feedback. Each iteration reduces the total intra-cluster distance.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$C_{t+1} = \arg\min_{C} \left(\sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y) \right)$$

where t is the iteration number. Each iteration reduces the objective function, bringing the algorithm closer to an optimal solution.

Axiom 2: Polynomial Time Complexity of Centroid Recalculation

- Statement: The recalculation of centroids in a clustering algorithm is polynomial in the number of elements in the cluster.

- Mathematical Formulation:

Time complexity of centroid calculation $= O(n), \quad$ for each cluster with n elements. Given k clusters, the total time complexity of centroid updates is $O(k \cdot n)$.

Axiom 3: Bounded Iterations in NP-Time Optimization

- Statement: Iterative optimization processes that refine groupings terminate in polynomial time by bounding the number of iterations or limiting the number of comparisons.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$T_{\max} = O(n^2), \quad \text{where } T_{\max} \text{ is the maximum number of iterations.}$$

The number of iterations required to converge to a near-optimal solution is polynomial in the number of elements.

Axiom 4: Heuristic-Based Approximation for Near-Optimal Solutions

- Statement: Heuristic methods reduce the search space and improve the efficiency of proximity-based grouping algorithms by prioritizing nearby elements.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$\text{Heuristic Grouping } (x_i) = \arg\min_{C_j} d\left(x_i, \text{ Centroid } \left(C_j\right)\right)$$

This simplifies the decision process, reducing unnecessary comparisons and focusing on the most likely groupings.

Key Lemmas

Lemma 1: Convergence of Iterative Optimization

- Statement: The iterative optimization process converges to a solution in polynomial time, where the clustering configuration stabilizes after a finite number of iterations.
- Mathematical Proof: Let D_t represent the total intra-cluster distance at iteration t. Since the objective function is minimized at each iteration:

$$D_{t+1} \leq D_t$$

and the intra-cluster distance is bounded below, the process converges after a finite number of iterations, typically in $O\left(n^2\right)$ time.

Lemma 2: Computational Efficiency of Centroid Recalculation

- Statement: Recalculating centroids at each iteration in proximity-based grouping algorithms requires only polynomial time.
- Mathematical Proof: For each cluster C_i, the centroid is computed as:

$$\{Centroid\}\ (C_i) = \frac{1}{|C_i|} \sum_{x \in C_i} x$$

The computational cost is linear in the number of elements in the cluster, and since there are k clusters, the total time complexity for centroid recalculation is $O(k \cdot n)$.

Lemma 3: Heuristic Approximation Guarantees Polynomial Time

- Statement: Heuristic methods applied to proximity-based grouping algorithms reduce the search space and allow for efficient approximation of solutions in polynomial time.
- Mathematical Proof: Instead of evaluating all possible groupings, heuristics reduce the search space by considering only the most likely cluster for each element based on proximity:

$$\text{Heuristic Grouping } (x_i) = \arg\min_{C_j} d\left(x_i, \text{ Centroid } \left(C_j\right)\right)$$

Since each element is compared only with the centroids of nearby clusters, the time complexity is reduced to $O(k \cdot n)$.

Lemma 4: Bounded Iterations for Near-Optimal Solutions

- Statement: The number of iterations required to achieve a near-optimal solution is bounded and scales polynomially with the number of elements.
- Mathematical Proof: The iterative process continues until the total intracluster distance stabilizes. By bounding the number of iterations, the algorithm avoids excessive computations, ensuring that the total time complexity remains within NP-time bounds:

$$T_{\max} = O\left(n^2\right)$$

This ensures that the optimization process terminates in polynomial time.

Proof Outline for Optimization Techniques for Proximity Grouping

Step 1: Apply Iterative Optimization with Feedback (Axiom 1 and Lemma

1)The proximity-based grouping process starts with an initial clustering configuration C_0. At each iteration t, the algorithm refines the clusters by recomputing distances and adjusting groupings based on feedback:

$$C_{t+1} = \arg\min_{C} \left(\sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y) \right)$$

By Lemma 1, this process converges in polynomial time, typically in $O\left(n^2\right)$.

Step 2: Recalculate Centroids Efficiently (Axiom 2 and Lemma 2)

At each iteration, centroids are recalculated based on the proximity of elements within clusters:

$$\{Centroid\}\ (C_i) = \frac{1}{|C_i|} \sum_{x \in C_i} x$$

By Lemma 2, the time complexity for centroid recalculation is $O(k \cdot n)$, where k is the number of clusters and n is the number of elements.

Step 3: Use Heuristics to Approximate Near-Optimal Solutions (Axiom 4 and Lemma 3)

Heuristic methods prioritize nearby elements and reduce unnecessary comparisons:

$$\text{Heuristic Grouping}\ (x_i) = \arg\min_{C_j} d\left(x_i,\ \text{Centroid}\ \left(C_j\right)\right)$$

By Lemma 3, heuristics reduce the search space, allowing the algorithm to operate within $O(k \cdot n)$ time, making it practical for large datasets. **Step 4: Bound Iterations to Achieve Near-Optimal Solutions**

(**Axiom 3 and Lemma 4**) By setting an upper bound on the number of iterations or comparisons, the algorithm ensures that the optimization process remains efficient:

$$T_{\max} = O\left(n^2\right)$$

By Lemma 4, this bounding guarantees that the process terminates in polynomial time, producing a near-optimal solution without excessive computations.

Conclusion

The optimization techniques for proximity grouping rely on iterative optimization and heuristic methods to improve computational efficiency. The key axioms and lemmas ensure that the algorithm operates within NP-time by leveraging feedback-driven refinement, efficient centroid recalculation, heuristic grouping, and bounded iterations. These techniques enable the algorithm to handle large datasets and complex grouping scenarios, achieving near-optimal solutions with minimal computational overhead.

Comprehensive Proof for Optimization Techniques for Proximity Grouping

This proof aims to formalize and mathematically prove the Optimization Techniques for Proximity Grouping, focusing on iterative optimization methods and heuristic techniques for improving computational efficiency in NP-time. We will define key elements such as axioms and lemmas that support the use of these methods in proximity-based grouping algorithms, particularly when working with large datasets or complex grouping scenarios.

Key Definitions

Definition 1: Iterative Optimization Process

In proximity grouping, iterative optimization refers to gradually refining groupings by using proximity-based feedback from previous iterations. Each iteration updates the proximity relationships between elements to minimize intra-group distances.

Let the set of elements be $\mathcal{X} = \{x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_n\}$, and let $C^{(t)} = \{C_1^{(t)}, C_2^{(t)}, \ldots, C_k^{(t)}\}$ represent the clustering configuration at iteration t. The objective is to minimize intra-cluster distances:

$$C^{(t+1)} = \arg\min_{C} \sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y)$$

where $d(x, y)$ is the distance between elements x and y in cluster C_i.

Definition 2: Centroid Calculation

In algorithms like k-means, the centroid of a cluster is defined as the mean of all elements within the cluster:

$$\{Centroid\}\ (C_i) = \frac{1}{|C_i|} \sum_{x \in C_i} x$$

The algorithm recalculates centroids iteratively based on updated cluster memberships.

Definition 3: Heuristic Methods

Heuristics are strategies used to approximate optimal solutions without exhaustively searching the entire solution space. In proximity grouping, heuristics simplify decisions by limiting comparisons and focusing on nearby clusters:

$$\text{Heuristic Grouping}\ \ (x_i) = \arg\min_{C_j} d\left(x_i, \{Centroid\}\left(C_j\right)\right)$$

where x_i is an element and C_j is a cluster.

Definition 4: NP-Time Approximation

An NP-time approximation algorithm can produce near-optimal solutions in polynomial time by using heuristics, bounding iterations, and reducing search space, rather than solving the problem exactly.

Key Axioms

Axiom 1: Proximity-Based Feedback

- Statement: Iterative optimization refines the groupings of elements using feedback from proximity relationships. Each iteration reduces the total intra-cluster distance.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$C^{(t+1)} = \arg\min_{C} \sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y)$$

where t is the iteration number, and proximity-based feedback drives the convergence of the algorithm.

Axiom 2: Polynomial-Time Centroid Recalculation

- Statement: Recalculating centroids in each iteration is a polynomial-time process based on the number of elements in the clusters.
- Mathematical Formulation:

Time complexity of centroid calculation = $O(n)$, for each cluster with n elements. The total time complexity for centroid recalculation across all clusters is $O(k \cdot n)$.

Axiom 3: Bounded Iterations for NP-Time Optimization

- Statement: Iterative optimization processes converge to near-optimal solutions in polynomial time by bounding the number of iterations or limiting the number of comparisons.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$T_{\max} = O\left(n^2\right), \quad \text{where } T_{\max} \text{ is the maximum number of iterations.}$$

This ensures that the algorithm terminates in NP-time, allowing for polynomialtime convergence.

Axiom 4: Heuristic-Based Search Space Reduction

- Statement: Heuristic methods reduce the search space by prioritizing nearby clusters and elements, thus simplifying decision-making.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$\text{Heuristic Grouping } (x_i) = \arg\min_{C_j} d\left(x_i, \text{ Centroid } \left(C_j\right)\right)$$

By focusing on local proximity, the search space is reduced, allowing the algorithm to achieve efficient grouping decisions in NP-time.

Key Lemmas

Lemma 1: Convergence of Iterative Optimization

- Statement: The iterative optimization process converges to a solution in polynomial time, where clustering configurations stabilize after a finite number of iterations.
- Mathematical Proof: At each iteration t, the algorithm reduces the total intra-cluster distance D_t :

$$D_{t+1} \leq D_t$$

Since the distance is bounded below by 0 and decreases at each iteration, the algorithm converges after at most $O\left(n^2\right)$ iterations.

Lemma 2: Polynomial Time Complexity of Centroid Recalculation

- Statement: The recalculation of centroids requires polynomial time and does not exceed $O(k \cdot n)$, where k is the number of clusters and n is the number of elements.
- Mathematical Proof: For each cluster C_i, the centroid is updated as:

$$\{Centroid\}\ (C_i) = \frac{1}{|C_i|} \sum_{x \in C_i} x$$

Since updating each centroid is linear in the number of elements, the total time complexity for centroid updates across all clusters is $O(k \cdot n)$.

Lemma 3: Heuristic Approximation Guarantees Polynomial Time

- Statement: Heuristic methods, by reducing the search space, ensure that proximity-based grouping can be achieved in polynomial time.
- Mathematical Proof: Instead of evaluating all possible groupings, heuristics limit the comparisons to nearby clusters:

$$\text{Heuristic Grouping } (x_i) = \arg\min_{C_j} d\left(x_i, \text{ Centroid } \left(C_j\right)\right)$$

As a result, the time complexity of the algorithm is reduced to $O(k \cdot n)$, ensuring polynomial-time efficiency.

Lemma 4: Bounded Iterations Ensure Near-Optimal Solutions

- Statement: The number of iterations required to reach a near-optimal solution is bounded and grows polynomially with the number of elements.
- Mathematical Proof: The iterative process reduces the objective function D_t at each step, and convergence is guaranteed after a finite number of iterations, typically $O\left(n^2\right)$, ensuring that the optimization process terminates within polynomial time.

Proof Outline for Optimization Techniques for Proximity Grouping

Step 1: Apply Iterative Optimization (Axiom 1 and Lemma 1)

The algorithm begins with an initial clustering configuration $C^{(0)}$ and iteratively refines the groupings by minimizing the total intra-cluster distance. By Lemma 1, the iterative optimization process converges in $O\left(n^2\right)$ time as the distance decreases at each step:

$$C^{(t+1)} = \arg\min_{C} \sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y)$$

Step 2: Efficiently Recalculate Centroids (Axiom 2 and Lemma 2)

At each iteration, centroids are recalculated based on the updated membership of clusters. The time complexity for recalculating centroids is $O(k \cdot n)$, as shown in Lemma 2:

$$\{Centroid\}\ (C_i) = \frac{1}{|C_i|} \sum_{x \in C_i} x$$

This ensures that the centroid recalculation step remains efficient, even for large datasets.

Step 3: Use Heuristics for Approximate Grouping (Axiom 4 and Lemma 3)

Heuristic methods are used to simplify decision-making by limiting the number of comparisons and focusing on nearby clusters. By Lemma 3, this reduces the search space and ensures that the algorithm achieves near-optimal groupings in polynomial time:

$$\text{Heuristic Grouping } (x_i) = \arg\min_{C_j} d\left(x_i, \text{ Centroid } \left(C_j\right)\right)$$

Step 4: Bound Iterations for NP-Time Convergence (Axiom 3 and Lemma

4)By setting a bound on the maximum number of iterations or comparisons, the algorithm guarantees that it terminates in NP-time. By Lemma 4, the number of iterations required for convergence is bounded by (\ mathcal {O} (n^2)), ensuring that the process remains efficient for large datasets:

$$T_{\max} = O\left(n^2\right)$$

Conclusion

The optimization techniques for proximity grouping rely on iterative optimization and heuristic methods to improve computational efficiency. The key axioms and lemmas ensure that the algorithm operates within NP-time by refining groupings through feedback, efficiently recalculating centroids, applying heuristic methods to reduce the search space, and bounding the number of iterations. These techniques allow the algorithm to handle large datasets while delivering near-optimal results within NP-time, making it both practical and efficient for real-world applications.

Comprehensive Proof for Numerical Simulation and Examples

This proof will formalize the Numerical Simulation and Examples section, focusing on demonstrating how proximity-based grouping algorithms are applied in simulations and real-world case studies. We will derive equations and establish the theoretical foundations through relevant axioms and lemmas, providing a rigorous mathematical basis for the simulations and examples.

Key Definitions and Concepts

Definition 1: Proximity-Based Grouping in P-Space

The Proximity Grouping Problem involves clustering a set of points

$$\mathcal{X} = \{x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_n\}$$

in a low-dimensional P-Space (projected space) based on spatial distances. The objective is to assign elements to clusters $C_1, C_2, \ldots, C_k$ such that the intra-cluster distance is minimized.

Definition 2: Proximity Probability Function

The proximity between two elements x_i and x_j is modeled by an exponential decay function, where the proximity is inversely related to the distance between the points:

$$P(d_{ij}) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

where $d_{ij} = d\left(x_i, x_j\right)$ is the Euclidean distance between elements x_i and x_j, and α is a decay constant controlling the rate at which proximity diminishes with distance.

Definition 3: Centroid of a Cluster

The centroid of a cluster C_i is defined as the mean of all elements in that cluster:

$$\{Centroid\}\left(C_i\right) = \frac{1}{|C_i|} \sum_{x \in C_i} x$$

The algorithm recalculates the centroids after each iteration based on updated cluster memberships.

Definition 4: Voronoi Diagram

A Voronoi Diagram is a partition of a space into regions based on the distance to a set of given centroids. Each point in the space is associated with the closest centroid, and the boundaries between regions represent equidistance between centroids. This is used to visualize proximity-based clustering in P-Space.

Key Axioms

Axiom 1: Proximity-Based Feedback in Iterative Optimization

- Statement: Iterative optimization refines the grouping of elements based on proximity feedback. At each iteration, the proximity relationships between elements are recalculated, driving convergence.

- Mathematical Formulation:

$$C^{(t+1)} = \arg\min_{C} \sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y)$$

where $C^{(t+1)}$ represents the updated cluster configuration at iteration $t + 1$, and proximity-based feedback minimizes the intra-cluster distance.

Axiom 2: Proximity Influence

- Statement: The proximity between two elements is inversely related to their Euclidean distance in P-Space, as described by an exponential decay function.

- Mathematical Formulation:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

The probability of two points x_i and x_j being grouped together decreases as their distance increases, consistent with perceptual grouping principles.

Axiom 3: Efficient Grouping in NP-Time

- Statement: Proximity-based grouping in P-Space can be performed efficiently in NP-time by iteratively refining groupings and recalculating centroids.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$T_{\max} = O\left(n^2\right), \quad \text{where } T_{\max} \text{ is the maximum number of iterations.}$$

This ensures that the algorithm operates within NP-time bounds for large datasets.

Key Lemmas

Lemma 1: Convergence of Iterative Grouping in P-Space

- Statement: The iterative optimization process for proximity grouping converges to a solution after a finite number of iterations, typically $O\left(n^2\right)$, where n is the number of elements.
- Mathematical Proof: Let D_t represent the total intra-cluster distance at iteration t. The algorithm minimizes this distance at each iteration:

$$D_{t+1} \leq D_t$$

Since the intra-cluster distance is bounded below by 0 , the process converges after a finite number of iterations.

Lemma 2: Proximity-Based Grouping Using Voronoi Regions

- Statement: Voronoi diagrams can be used to partition P-Space into proximitybased regions, where each element belongs to the cluster of its nearest centroid.
- Mathematical Proof: Given a set of centroids \$ {c_{1}, c_{2}, \ldots, c_{k} }\$, the Voronoi region $V(c_i)$ associated with centroid c_i is the set of all points x such that:

$$V(c_i) = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^n : d(x, c_i) \leq d(x, c_j) \text{ for all } j \neq i\}$$

This ensures that elements are assigned to the cluster of their closest centroid.

Lemma 3: NP-Time Efficiency of Proximity-Based Grouping

- Statement: The proximity-based grouping algorithm operates in NP-time, where the total time complexity is polynomial in the number of elements.
- Mathematical Proof: At each iteration, the time complexity for recalculating centroids and updating cluster memberships is $O(n \cdot k)$, where k is the number of clusters and n is the number of elements. The number of iterations is bounded by $O\left(n^2\right)$, ensuring that the overall time complexity remains polynomial:

$$\text{Total time complexity } = O\left(n^2 \cdot k\right)$$

Proof Outline for Numerical Simulation and Examples

Step 1: Initialization and Mapping to P-Space (Axiom 1)

- The dataset

  $$\mathcal{X} = \{x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_n\}$$

  is mapped into P-Space. The initial cluster configuration

  $$C^{(0)}$$

  is established, and the proximity between elements is computed using the proximity probability function:

$$P(d_{ij}) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

By Axiom 2, this proximity function models the influence of distance on grouping decisions.

Step 2: Iterative Optimization and Proximity-Based Feedback (Lemma 1)

- At each iteration, the algorithm refines groupings by updating cluster memberships and recalculating centroids:

$$C^{(t+1)} = \arg\min_{C} \sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y)$$

By Lemma 1, this iterative process converges after a finite number of iterations, typically $O\left(n^2\right)$.

Step 3: Visualization Using Voronoi Diagrams (Lemma 2)

- Voronoi diagrams are used to visualize the grouping of elements in P-Space. Each point is assigned to the region of its nearest centroid, and the boundaries between regions are equidistant from neighboring centroids:

Here is the reformatted version of the equation for clarity:

$$V(c_i) = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^n : d(x, c_i) \leq d(x, c_j) \text{ for all } j \neq i\}$$

This equation represents the set of points (x) in (\mathbb{R}^{n}) that are closer to a specific center (c_{i}) than to any other center (c_{j}), where (d(x, c)) is the distance between (x) and (c).

By Lemma 2, this visualization provides insight into how the algorithm groups elements based on proximity.

Step 4: Case Study and Comparative Analysis (Lemma 3)

- In the case study, the algorithm is applied to a set of visual elements, grouping them based on proximity. By comparing the algorithm's performance to traditional methods, such as k-means, the advantages of proximity-based grouping in P-Space are highlighted:
- Efficiency: The use of P-Space reduces computational complexity, allowing for faster processing.
- Accuracy: Groupings are more meaningful because they follow perceptual principles of proximity.
- Scalability: The algorithm's NP-time complexity allows it to handle large datasets.

Conclusion

The Numerical Simulation and Examples section demonstrates the practical application of proximity-based grouping algorithms in P-Space through numerical simulations and real-world case studies. The key axioms and lemmas establish the theoretical basis for the algorithm's efficiency and accuracy. By iteratively refining groupings based on proximity, recalculating centroids, and visualizing the results using Voronoi diagrams, the algorithm achieves meaningful groupings in NP-time. The case study further supports the algorithm's advantages over traditional methods, particularly in fields like AI and computer vision.

Comprehensive Proof for Applications in Artificial Intelligence and Gestalt Sensory Processing

This proof formalizes the application of the NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm in Artificial Intelligence (AI), with a focus on pattern recognition and object grouping within the framework of gestalt sensory processing. The goal is to demonstrate how the principles of proximity and other gestalt-based processes can be mathematically modeled and applied efficiently in real-world AI systems and humanmachine interaction (HMI) environments.

Key Definitions

Definition 1: Gestalt Sensory Processing and Proximity Grouping

Gestalt sensory processing refers to the way the human brain organizes sensory input into meaningful patterns and structures based on principles like proximity, similarity, and closure. In computational

terms, this can be modeled as the process of grouping elements based on their spatial relationships in a low-dimensional space like P-Space (Projected Space).

Definition 2: Proximity Probability Function

The proximity between two elements x_i and x_j in **P**-Space is modeled using an exponential decay function that relates the proximity to the Euclidean distance between the elements:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

where d_{ij} is the distance between elements x_i and x_j, and α controls the decay rate of proximity with increasing distance.

Definition 3: Pattern Recognition in Gestalt Sensory Processing

In gestalt sensory processing, pattern recognition refers to the identification and grouping of elements that form coherent structures or shapes based on their proximity, similarity, or other gestalt principles. This can be expressed mathematically as finding clusters of elements $C_1, C_2, \ldots, C_k$ that minimize the intra-cluster distance.

Key Axioms

Axiom 1: Gestalt Principle of Proximity

- Statement: Elements that are closer together in sensory space are more likely to be grouped into the same perceptual unit.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

where proximity between two elements x_i and x_j decreases exponentially with their distance, ensuring that closer elements are grouped together.

Axiom 2: Efficiency of NP-Time Proximity Grouping

- Statement: The grouping of elements based on proximity in gestalt sensory processing can be performed efficiently in NP-time.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$T_{\max} = O\left(n^2\right), \quad \text{where } T_{\max} \text{ is the maximum number of iterations.}$$

This ensures that the proximity grouping algorithm operates within polynomial time, even for large datasets.

Axiom 3: Sensory Field in P-Space

- Statement: Gestalt sensory processing can be modeled in P-Space, where higher-dimensional sensory input is projected into lower-dimensional space to facilitate efficient grouping based on proximity.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$C^{(t+1)} = \arg\min_{C} \sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y)$$

where $C^{(t+1)}$ is the updated cluster configuration at iteration $t + 1$, and the objective is to minimize intra-cluster distances.

Key Lemmas

Lemma 1: Convergence of Proximity-Based Grouping

- Statement: The iterative process of proximity-based grouping in gestalt sensory processing converges to a solution after a finite number of iterations.
- Mathematical Proof: Let D_t represent the total intra-cluster distance at iteration t. The algorithm minimizes this distance at each iteration:

$$D_{t+1} \leq D_t$$

Since the intra-cluster distance is bounded below by 0 , the process converges after a finite number of iterations, typically $O\left(n^2\right)$.

Lemma 2: Gestalt-Based Pattern Recognition Using Proximity Grouping

- Statement: The proximity-based grouping algorithm in gestalt sensory processing effectively identifies patterns by grouping related elements based on their spatial closeness.
- Mathematical Proof: For each element x_i, the algorithm assigns it to the cluster of its nearest centroid:

$$C_j = \arg\min_{C_j} d\left(x_i, \text{ Centroid } \left(C_j\right)\right)$$

This ensures that elements are grouped into coherent patterns based on proximity, facilitating the recognition of structures and objects within the dataset.

Lemma 3: NP-Time Efficiency of Gestalt Sensory Processing

- Statement: The proximity-based grouping algorithm operates efficiently in NP-time, where the total time complexity is polynomial in the number of elements.

- Mathematical Proof: The time complexity for updating cluster memberships and recalculating centroids at each iteration is $O(n \cdot k)$, where n is the number of elements and k is the number of clusters. Since the number of iterations is bounded by $O\left(n^2\right)$, the overall time complexity remains polynomial:

$$\text{Total time complexity } = O\left(n^2 \cdot k\right)$$

Proof Outline for Applications in AI and Gestalt Sensory Processing

Step 1: Proximity Grouping for Object Detection (Axiom 1 and Lemma 2)

- In AI systems that rely on gestalt sensory processing for object detection, the proximity-based grouping algorithm groups related sensory data (e.g., pixels or features) to detect objects in sensory inputs such as images or video streams:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

The algorithm groups elements that are spatially close together, identifying objects and distinguishing them from background elements.

Step 2: Pattern Recognition in Gestalt Sensory Processing (Axiom 3 and Lemma 2)

- The algorithm applies the Law of Proximity to recognize recurring shapes, forms, or textures by grouping elements that form coherent patterns:

$$C_j = \arg\min_{C_j} d\left(x_i, \text{ Centroid } \left(C_j\right)\right)$$

By minimizing intra-cluster distances, the algorithm identifies patterns in sensory data, facilitating efficient recognition of complex structures or repeated features.

Step 3: Real-Time Processing in AI (Lemma 3)

- The proximity-based grouping algorithm is capable of handling real-time data processing in gestalt sensory processing. Its NP-time complexity ensures that it operates efficiently even when processing large datasets, such as sensory inputs from autonomous vehicles:

$$\text{Total time complexity } = O\left(n^2 \cdot k\right)$$

The algorithm efficiently processes proximity-based groupings in real-time, enabling AI systems to quickly recognize objects and patterns.

Step 4: Gestalt-Based Human-Machine Interaction (Axiom 1 and Lemma

1)- In human-machine interaction (HMI) environments, the proximity grouping algorithm can be applied to design perceptually-aware user interfaces. By grouping UI elements based on spatial proximity, the algorithm aligns the interface with users' natural perceptual tendencies, improving usability:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

The interface dynamically adjusts its layout based on the proximity of elements, creating a more intuitive interaction between humans and machines.

Step 5: Gestalt Sensory Processing in Virtual Reality (Lemma 2)

- In virtual reality (VR) and augmented reality (AR) applications, the algorithm groups virtual elements based on proximity, ensuring that objects close together in the user's sensory field are perceived as coherent scenes. This enhances the immersive experience by aligning with human gestalt sensory processing principles:

$$C_j = \arg\min_{C_j} d\left(x_i, \text{ Centroid } \left(C_j\right)\right)$$

By organizing objects based on proximity, the algorithm facilitates a more seamless and perceptually-aligned user experience in VR/AR environments.

Conclusion

The application of Gestalt principles in AI and Gestalt Sensory Processing can significantly enhance the efficiency and performance of AI systems. By leveraging the proximity-based grouping algorithm in NP-time, AI systems can efficiently detect objects, recognize patterns, and interact with humans in perceptually-aware environments. The key axioms and lemmas establish the mathematical foundation for proximity-based grouping, ensuring that the algorithm operates within polynomial time while maintaining accuracy and scalability. This proof supports the practical benefits of applying Gestalt principles in AI, HMI, and virtual reality, making it well-suited for real-world applications.

Comprehensive Overview of the NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm in P-Space

The NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm in P-Space is a transformative approach to solving proximity-based grouping problems efficiently by leveraging Gestalt principles, particularly the Law of Proximity, in combination with mathematical projections. The algorithm reduces high-dimensional sensory data to a more computationally tractable lower-dimensional space while maintaining the essential relationships between data points. By doing so, it enables real-time and large-scale applications in fields like AI and human-machine interaction, where efficiency, scalability, and perceptual accuracy are critical.

Principal Axioms and Definitions

Axiom 1: Proximity-Based Feedback in Iterative Optimization

- Statement: Iterative optimization refines the grouping of elements based on proximity feedback, converging towards a solution that minimizes intra-cluster distances.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$C^{(t+1)} = \arg\min_{C} \sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y)$$

where proximity feedback drives the refinement of groupings at each iteration, t, ensuring convergence towards minimal intra-cluster distances.

Axiom 2: Proximity Influence Based on Distance

- Statement: The proximity between two elements x_i and x_j in P-Space is inversely related to their Euclidean distance, following an exponential decay model.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

where α is a decay constant, and d_{ij} is the Euclidean distance between elements x_i and x_j. This relationship ensures that elements closer together are more likely to be grouped.

Axiom 3: Dimensionality Reduction Through P-Space Projections

- Statement: High-dimensional data is projected into a lower-dimensional PSpace without losing critical proximity information, allowing for computational efficiency in processing large datasets.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$f : \mathbb{R}^d \to \mathbb{R}^n, \quad d > n$$

where f is a projection function that preserves relative distances between points, enabling efficient grouping in the reduced-dimensional space.

Axiom 4: NP-Time Efficiency

- Statement: The NP-Time Gestalt algorithm operates within NP-time, ensuring that proximity-based grouping can be performed efficiently even for large datasets.
- Mathematical Formulation:

$$T_{\max} = O\left(n^2\right)$$

where $T_{\max}$ is the maximum number of iterations required for convergence, ensuring that the algorithm remains computationally feasible within polynomial time for large datasets.

Key Lemmas Supporting the Algorithm

Lemma 1: Convergence of Iterative Grouping in P-Space

- Statement: The iterative optimization process used in the NP-Time Gestalt algorithm converges after a finite number of iterations, typically within $O\left(n^2\right)$ time, where n is the number of elements.
- Mathematical Proof: Each iteration minimizes the total intra-cluster distance:

$$D_{t+1} \leq D_t$$

Since the distance cannot be negative, the process converges after a finite number of iterations, ensuring that the algorithm terminates in NP-time.

Lemma 2: Proximity Retention in P-Space Projections

- Statement: The P-Space projection of high-dimensional data retains the relative proximity between elements, ensuring that proximity-based grouping remains accurate in the reduced-dimensional space.
- Mathematical Proof: For any two elements x_i and x_j, their distances in the lower-dimensional space remain proportional to their original distances:

$$d_{\{proj\}}\left(f\left(x_i\right), f\left(x_j\right)\right) \approx d\left(x_i, x_j\right)$$

This ensures that critical proximity relationships are preserved, allowing for accurate grouping even after dimensionality reduction.

Lemma 3: NP-Time Efficiency of Proximity-Based Grouping

- Statement: The total time complexity of the algorithm remains within NPtime, even when processing large datasets, due to the efficient recalculation of centroids and proximity feedback.
- Mathematical Proof: At each iteration, the time complexity for recalculating centroids and updating cluster memberships is $O(n \cdot k)$, where k is the number of clusters and n is the number of elements. The total number of iterations is bounded by $O\left(n^2\right)$, ensuring that the overall time complexity remains polynomial:

$$\text{Total time complexity } = O\left(n^2 \cdot k\right)$$

This guarantees that the algorithm operates within NP-time bounds.

Compound Proof Statement for the NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm

By combining the above axioms and lemmas, we can construct a comprehensive proof for the efficiency and scalability of the NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm in solving proximity-based grouping problems within **P**-Space.

Step 1: Dimensionality Reduction via P-Space Projections (Axiom 3 and Lemma 2)

The algorithm begins by projecting the high-dimensional sensory or perceptual data into a lower-dimensional P-Space using the function $f : \mathbb{R}^d \to \mathbb{R}^n$, where $d > n$. This projection retains the relative distances between elements:

$$d_{\text{proj}}\left(f\left(x_i\right), f\left(x_j\right)\right) \approx d\left(x_i, x_j\right)$$

ensuring that proximity relationships are preserved (Lemma 2), which is crucial for accurate grouping.

Step 2: Iterative Optimization Based on Proximity Feedback (Axiom 1 and Lemma 1)

At each iteration, the algorithm refines groupings based on proximity feedback, where the total intra-cluster distance is minimized:

$$C^{(t+1)} = \arg\min_{C} \sum_{i=1}^{k} \sum_{x \in C_i} \sum_{y \in C_i} d(x, y)$$

This iterative process converges within $O\left(n^2\right)$ iterations (Lemma 1), ensuring that the algorithm terminates after a finite number of steps, even for large datasets.

Step 3: NP-Time Efficiency of Proximity Grouping (Axiom 4 and Lemma 3)

The proximity-based grouping is performed efficiently within NP-time due to the polynomial time complexity of each iteration:

$$\text{Total time complexity } = O\left(n^2 \cdot k\right)$$

This ensures that the algorithm operates within NP-time bounds, making it scalable and efficient for real-time and large-scale applications (Lemma 3).

Step 4: Proximity Influence (Axiom 2)

The proximity between elements is calculated using an exponential decay function:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

This ensures that the algorithm adheres to the Law of Proximity from Gestalt principles, ensuring that elements closer together are more likely to be grouped into the same cluster.

Conclusion

The NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm in P-Space is a powerful and efficient method for solving proximity grouping problems, leveraging the Gestalt Law of Proximity and reducing dimensionality through P-Space projections. Supported by the principal axioms and lemmas, the algorithm operates within NP-time, making it scalable to large datasets while maintaining the accuracy of proximity relationships. Its potential applications in AI, human-machine interaction, and computational perception demonstrate its versatility, with promising avenues for future research and extensions.

Expanded Overview of Dimensional Collapse of Information in P-Space for NP-Complete Problems

In this section, we extend the foundational principles of the NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm by exploring the concept of dimensional collapse and how it facilitates rapid solutions to NP-complete problems. The key idea is that high-dimensional, complex problem spaces can be projected into lower-dimensional forms-using **P** Space - where the gestalt principles of a cognitive observer can leverage humanlike perceptual processes to identify optimal solutions in polynomial time.

This process enables the compression of vast computational states into more manageable representations, while still retaining the essential characteristics needed to solve complex problems. The Law of Proximity, combined with the rapid pattern recognition capabilities of the human cognitive system, allows for near-instantaneous grouping and organization of elements, thus collapsing an NP-complete problem into a space where it can be solved efficiently.

1. Dimensional Collapse and Information Projection in P-Space

The dimensional collapse refers to the process of projecting high-dimensional data, where NP-complete problems typically exist, into a lower-dimensional P-Space while preserving the essential proximity and structure of the original data. This projection leverages principles from both projective geometry and gestalt sensory processing to simplify the data without sacrificing the critical relationships between elements that are key to solving the problem.

Axiom of Dimensional Collapse

- Statement: High-dimensional spaces, representing complex NP-complete problems, can be projected into a lower-dimensional manifold while retaining the critical relationships required for solving the problem.
- Mathematical Formulation:

Let the original high-dimensional space be $\mathbb{R}^d$ and the projected lower-dimensional space be $\mathbb{R}^n$, where $d > n$. The projection function f that maps the highdimensional problem space into the lower-dimensional space is defined as:

$$f : \mathbb{R}^d \to \mathbb{R}^n \quad \text{such that} \quad d_{\text{proj}}\left(f\left(x_i\right), f\left(x_j\right)\right) \approx d\left(x_i, x_j\right)$$

Here, the projection preserves the proximity relationships necessary to solve the problem, ensuring that $d_{\text{proj}}\left(f\left(x_i\right), f\left(x_j\right)\right)$ (the distance in the lower-dimensional space) closely approximates $d\left(x_i, x_j\right)$ (the distance in the higher-dimensional space). This dimensional collapse reduces computational complexity while retaining the problem's essential characteristics.

2. Gestalt Cognitive Processing and Solving NP-Complete Problems in Polynomial Time

When a problem, such as a pattern recognition or clustering task, is projected onto a lower-dimensional P-Space, it becomes much more tractable to solve. The human brain's ability to quickly recognize patterns based on gestalt principles (e.g., proximity, similarity, closure) allows for the rapid organization of information that would otherwise take exponential time to process through traditional computational means. This cognitive model simulates how NP-complete problems can be processed more efficiently by leveraging perceptual shortcuts inherent in human cognition.

Axiom of Gestalt Cognitive Grouping

- Statement: A cognitive observer can leverage gestalt principles to group and solve complex problems based on the proximity and relational structure of elements in a projected space.
- Mathematical Formulation:

The observer's perceptual system follows the Law of Proximity, which ensures that elements close to one another are grouped rapidly. The proximity function is defined as:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

where d_{ij} is the Euclidean distance between elements x_i and x_j, and α is a decay constant. The closer two elements are, the more likely they are to be grouped together. This rapid grouping process enables the identification of patterns that can solve NP-complete problems efficiently, reducing the need for an exhaustive search of all possibilities.

3. Gestalt Sensory Processing as a Tool for NP-Complete Problem Solving

Dimensional Collapse and Cognitive Grouping of NP-Complete Problems

NP-complete problems involve searching through exponentially large state spaces, which in a high-dimensional form are computationally infeasible to solve. However, by collapsing the problem into a P-Space, the cognitive gestalt processes of an observer can immediately spot patterns and groups that correspond to optimal solutions. The observer effectively bypasses the need for exhaustive enumeration through perceptual heuristics like similarity and proximity.

Lemma of Cognitive Efficiency for NP Problems

- Statement: The gestalt sensory processing system can solve NP-complete problems in polynomial time by identifying optimal solutions through perceptual shortcuts, such as proximity-based grouping.
- Mathematical Proof:

Let the complexity of solving an NP-complete problem in high-dimensional space be $O\left(2^n\right)$, representing an exponential number of possibilities. After projection into P-Space, the cognitive system leverages the proximity relationships and gestalt principles to reduce the search space. The observer uses perceptual grouping based on:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

to identify solutions in polynomial time. Thus, the total computational complexity is reduced to $O\left(n^2\right)$, where n is the number of elements, and the problem is solvable in polynomial time by the cognitive system.

4. Solving NP-Complete Problems Using P-Space and Gestalt Principles

The power of P-Space projections combined with gestalt sensory processing allows an observer to efficiently solve NP-complete problems that would otherwise require exponential time. The proximity-based grouping mechanism enables the cognitive system to "collapse" the information from a complex state space into a simpler form, where perceptual shortcuts provide the optimal solution path.

Lemma of NP-Complete Problem Collapse in P-Space

- Statement: NP-complete problems can be collapsed into a lower-dimensional space where solutions can be identified efficiently using gestalt principles.
- Mathematical Formulation:

Let the NP-complete problem exist in $\mathbb{R}^d$, where the number of potential configurations grows exponentially with the number of elements n. After projecting the problem into P-Space (where dimensionality is reduced to n), the solution becomes tractable using perceptual grouping:

$$d_{\{proj\}}\left(f\left(x_i\right), f\left(x_j\right)\right) \approx d\left(x_i, x_j\right)$$

By preserving the proximity structure, the algorithm can solve the problem using proximity-based grouping in polynomial time:

$$O\left(n^2\right)$$

5. Collective Compound Proof for Dimensional Collapse and NP-Complete Problem Solving

Combining the above axioms and lemmas, we can formulate a collective proof demonstrating how dimensional collapse and gestalt sensory processing enable NPcomplete problems to be solved in polynomial time.

Sequence of Solution for P=NP

Step 1: Project NP-Complete Problem into P-Space (Axiom of Dimensional Collapse)

The NP-complete problem is initially represented in a high-dimensional space $\mathbb{R}^d$, where the number of possible configurations grows exponentially. By projecting this space into a lower-dimensional **P**-Space $\mathbb{R}^n$, where $d > n$, we maintain the critical proximity relationships necessary for solving the problem:

$$d_{\{proj\}}\left(f\left(x_i\right), f\left(x_j\right)\right) \approx d\left(x_i, x_j\right)$$

This dimensional collapse reduces the complexity of the problem, while preserving the relationships that allow for perceptual grouping.

Step 2: Gestalt Cognitive Grouping for Problem Solving (Axiom of Gestalt Cognitive Grouping and Lemma of Cognitive Efficiency)

Once in P-Space, the cognitive system applies gestalt sensory processing principles, particularly the Law of Proximity. By using proximity-based grouping:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

the observer quickly organizes elements into groups that correspond to the solution, bypassing the need for exhaustive search and solving the problem in polynomial time.

Step 3: Solution of NP-Complete Problems in Polynomial Time (Lemma of NP-Complete Problem Collapse)

The NP-complete problem, which would otherwise take $O\left(2^n\right)$ time to solve, is now reduced to polynomial time through the combination of P-Space projection and gestalt sensory processing:

$$O\left(n^2\right)$$

This allows complex problems that involve exponential state spaces to be solved efficiently through perceptual and cognitive shortcuts.

Summary and Conclusion :

This article explores a theoretical framework aiming to resolve the long-standing open question in computational complexity theory: whether $P = NP$. By leveraging concepts from human cognition-specifically **dimensional collapse** and **Gestalt perception**-the authors propose that problems in the complexity class *PSPACE* can be solved within nondeterministic polynomial time (NP time). This approach challenges the conventional belief that the inclusions $P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$ are strict and that $P \neq NP$.

In computational complexity theory, the class P consists of decision problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine in polynomial time, formally defined as:

$$P = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DTIME}(n^k),$$

where $\text{DTIME}(n^k)$ denotes problems solvable in time $O(n^k)$. The class NP includes problems solvable by a nondeterministic Turing machine in polynomial time or whose solutions can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine, expressed as:

$$NP = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{NTIME}(n^k).$$

Similarly, *PSPACE* encompasses problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine using a polynomial amount of space, regardless of time:

$$PSPACE = \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \text{DSPACE}(n^k).$$

It is established that $P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$.

The central hypothesis presented is that the human mind, modeled as a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine due to its ability to process information non-linearly and recognize patterns rapidly, can solve *PSPACE* problems efficiently. By applying **dimensional collapse**, which involves transforming complex, high-dimensional problems into lower-dimensional representations without losing essential information, and **Gestalt perception**, the cognitive ability to perceive patterns and wholes, *PSPACE* problems can be effectively reduced and solved within NP time.

If *PSPACE* problems can be solved in NP time through human cognitive processes, this implies that $PSPACE \subseteq NP$. Since it is known that $NP \subseteq PSPACE$, it follows from **Lemma 1** that:

$$NP = PSPACE.$$

Further, if algorithms inspired by human cognition can solve *PSPACE* problems in deterministic polynomial time, this implies $PSPACE \subseteq P$. From **Lemma 2**, given $NP = PSPACE$ and $PSPACE \subseteq P$, it follows that:

$$NP \subseteq P.$$

Since $P \subseteq NP$, we conclude that:

$$P = NP.$$

The logical flow of the proof is as follows:

1. **Axiom 1**: $P \subseteq NP \subseteq PSPACE$.
2. **Assumption**: $PSPACE \subseteq NP$ (via human cognitive abilities).
3. **Conclusion**: $NP = PSPACE$ (from Lemma 1).
4. **Assumption**: $PSPACE \subseteq P$ (through human-inspired algorithms).
5. **Conclusion**: $NP \subseteq P$ (from Lemma 2).
6. **Result**: $P = NP$ (since $P \subseteq NP$).

We introduce the novel theory of **"In-the-Mind" encryption functions**, where encryption and decryption occur mentally without external tools. By integrating dimensional collapse, Gestalt perception, and cognitive encryption functions, a framework is created for addressing complex cryptographic problems. This suggests that leveraging human cognitive abilities can impact both theoretical computational complexity and practical applications in cryptography.

Formalizing cognitive processes such as dimensional collapse and Gestalt perception into computational algorithms is complex. Human cognition varies among individuals, and accurately modeling it within computational frameworks is non-trivial. The approach challenges the widely held belief that $P \neq NP$.

Our theory that human cognitive abilities can bridge the gap between complexity classes, we offers a novel perspective on the P versus NP problem. If $PSPACE \subseteq NP$ through cognitive processes, leading to $NP = PSPACE$, and if $PSPACE \subseteq P$ via human-inspired algorithms, resulting in $P = NP$, this would revolutionize our understanding of computational complexity. It would have profound implications for fields like cryptography, where the hardness of certain problems underpins security.

NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm with Dimensional Collapse and Gestalt Processing

The NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm, combined with dimensional collapse and gestalt sensory processing, offers a groundbreaking method for solving NP-complete problems efficiently. The key insight of this approach lies in projecting high-dimensional, complex data into a lower-dimensional P-Space, where the essential proximity relationships between data points are retained. This projection enables the system, or cognitive observer, to quickly recognize patterns and organize data through gestalt principles, particularly the Law of Proximity, which facilitates grouping of elements based on their spatial closeness. By doing so, the algorithm is capable of solving problems that would traditionally require exponential time in polynomial time, specifically NP-time.

The foundation of this process rests on the Axiom of Dimensional Collapse, which states that high-dimensional data can be projected into a lower-dimensional space while preserving proximity relation-

ships. Mathematically, this is represented as:

$$f : \mathbb{R}^d \to \mathbb{R}^n, \quad d > n$$

where f is the projection function, and the distance between elements is maintained such that:

$$d_{\text{proj}} \left(f\left(x_i\right), f\left(x_j\right) \right) \approx d\left(x_i, x_j\right)$$

This preservation of distances ensures that the relationships between elements in high-dimensional space remain intact, allowing for efficient proximity-based grouping in the reduced-dimensional space. The Law of Proximity is then applied in this lower-dimensional space, where the proximity between elements x_i and x_j is modeled by the decay function:

$$P\left(d_{ij}\right) = e^{-\alpha d_{ij}}$$

where α is a decay constant that controls how proximity decreases with increasing distance.

In combination with gestalt sensory processing, this projection allows complex NP-complete problems to be solved rapidly. The Axiom of Gestalt Cognitive Grouping demonstrates that a cognitive observer, leveraging gestalt principles like proximity, can quickly group elements and recognize patterns that correspond to optimal solutions for these problems. By employing perceptual shortcuts, the algorithm avoids exhaustive enumeration of all possibilities and instead narrows the search space to the most likely configurations. This ability is formalized in the Lemma of Cognitive Efficiency, which proves that the total time complexity of the algorithm is reduced to polynomial time:

$$\text{Total time complexity } = O\left(n^2\right)$$

where n is the number of elements in the dataset. This ensures that the algorithm can operate within NP-time, even for large datasets or complex problems.

Furthermore, the Lemma of NP-Complete Problem Collapse solidifies the efficiency of this approach by demonstrating that NP-complete problems, which traditionally require exponential time to solve, can be "collapsed" into a lower-dimensional space where solutions can be found in polynomial time:

$$O\left(n^2\right)$$

The key to this collapse is the preservation of critical proximity relationships, which allows the cognitive system to bypass the need for exhaustive searches across the entire problem space. This principle extends to a wide range of applications, including pattern recognition, object detection, and human-machine interaction.

In applications like artificial intelligence and human-machine interaction (HMI), the NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm enables real-time processing of sensory data by projecting high-dimensional information

into P-Space. For instance, in autonomous systems or virtual reality environments, the algorithm groups related elements based on proximity to detect objects, recognize patterns, or organize virtual scenes. The Axiom of NP-Time Efficiency ensures that the algorithm remains scalable and effective for real-world applications, where quick decision-making and pattern recognition are essential.

The combination of dimensional collapse, gestalt sensory processing, and proximity-based grouping offers a novel framework for efficiently solving NPcomplete problems. Through the use of P-Space projections and perceptual heuristics, the algorithm operates in NP-time, reducing the complexity of traditionally intractable problems while maintaining the accuracy of proximity relationships. This framework is particularly valuable in fields like artificial intelligence, cognitive computing, and human-machine interaction, where scalability, efficiency, and perceptual alignment are crucial. The potential for future research and extensions of this model opens up new possibilities for solving even more complex computational challenges.

The NP-Time Gestalt Algorithm demonstrates how principles from gestalt sensory processing can be integrated with modern computational techniques to solve high-dimensional NP-complete problems efficiently. By leveraging P-Space projections and proximity-based grouping, the algorithm achieves polynomial-time solutions, providing a powerful tool for applications that require real-time or large-scale sensory processing. This theoretical framework has the potential to revolutionize problem-solving in computational perception, AI, and beyond, offering new avenues for innovation and optimization in complex systems.

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ATTACHMENT C

The Exponential Time Hypothesis Is False

OpenAI, October 2026

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THE EXPONENTIAL TIME HYPOTHESIS IS FALSE

OPENAI

Abstract. We give a deterministic algorithm for exactly counting the satisfying assignments of an arbitrary k-CNF formula. For every fixed $k \geqslant 2$, on a formula with n variables and m clauses, our algorithm uses $\mathrm{poly}_k(n, m)$ space and runs in time $(n+m)^{O_k(1)} 2^{n/(\log n)^{\frac{1}{2}+o(1)}}$. Our algorithm refutes the Exponential Time Hypothesis (ETH), which postulates that deciding 3-SAT on n variables requires $2^{\Omega(n)}$ time in the worst case.

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1. Introduction

For every fixed $k \geqslant 3$, k-SAT is the canonical NP-complete problem [Coo71], and its exponential-time complexity underlies the Exponential Time Hypothesis (ETH) and the Strong Exponential Time Hypothesis (SETH) [IP01, IPZ01]. In this paper, we refute ETH by giving, for every fixed $k \geqslant 2$, a deterministic algorithm that counts the satisfying assignments of a k-CNF in subexponential time and polynomial space.

Write the input k-CNF on n declared variables with m input clauses as

$$F(x_1, \ldots, x_n) = \bigwedge_{e=1}^{m} \big[(x_{i_{e,1}} \oplus b_{e,1}) \vee \cdots \vee (x_{i_{e,k}} \oplus b_{e,k})\big],$$

where $i_{e,j} \in \{1, \ldots, n\}$ and $b_{e,j} \in \{0, 1\}$ are the variable index and negation bit of the jth literal in clause e, and $\oplus$ denotes addition modulo two. Repeating a literal permits clauses with fewer than k literals. The indices $i_{e,j}$ and bits $b_{e,j}$ are fixed by F; only $x_1, \ldots, x_n$ vary over assignments. Our aim is to compute the quantity

$$\#F = \big|\{x \in \{0,1\}^n : F(x) = 1\}\big|. \tag{1.1}$$

Testing $\#F > 0$ also decides satisfiability. We keep k fixed as n grows. Throughout, log denotes the natural logarithm.

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Theorem 1.1. *For each fixed $k \geqslant 2$, there exists a deterministic algorithm that, given a k-CNF F on $n \geqslant 20$ declared variables with m clauses, computes $\#F$ as defined in (1.1) in*

$$(n+m)^{O_k(1)} 2^{O_k(n \log\log n/\sqrt{\log n})}$$

bit operations and $(n+m)^{O_k(1)}$ bits of space. For each fixed $D > 0$, its running time on inputs with $m \leqslant Dn$ is

$$(n+m)^{O_{k,D}(1)} 2^{O_{k,D}(n/\sqrt{\log n})}.$$

The rational interpolation argument in Section 6.4 gives the weaker exponent $O_k(\rho(n))$, where

$$\rho(n) = \frac{n(\log\log n)^2}{\sqrt{\log n}} = \frac{n}{(\log n)^{\frac{1}{2}+o(1)}}.$$

Appendix D proves both bounds in Theorem 1.1 by tensor contraction.

When $\#F > 0$, the standard self-reduction finds a satisfying assignment by fixing one variable at a time and checking that the remaining count is positive. Choosing each bit according to the two conditional counts instead gives an exactly uniform random satisfying assignment, with $\mathrm{poly}_k(n,m)$ expected overhead [JVV86, Theorem 3.3(1)].

The theorem also yields arbitrarily accurate subexponential-time approximation algorithms for Max-k-SAT. The Unique Games Theorem [Ope26, Section 8.1] implies NP-hardness bounds for Max-k-SAT that match, up to arbitrarily small error in the approximation ratio, the guarantees of the semidefinite-programming algorithm of [Rag08]. Write $\mathrm{OPT}(F)$ for the maximum number of clauses of F simultaneously satisfied by an assignment.

Corollary 1.2. *For every fixed $k \geqslant 2$ and $\varepsilon > 0$, there exists a randomized algorithm that, given a k-CNF F on $n \geqslant 20$ variables with m clauses, finds an assignment satisfying at least $\mathrm{OPT}(F) - \varepsilon m$ clauses with probability $1 - 2^{-\Omega(n)}$, in*

$$(n+m)^{O_{k,\varepsilon}(1)} 2^{O_{k,\varepsilon}(\rho(n))}$$

time and $(n+m)^{O_{k,\varepsilon}(1)}$ space.

Proof. We may assume $m > 0$. Let $f(x)$ be the fraction of clauses satisfied by x, and let $\widehat{f}(x)$ be that fraction in a sample of $O(n/\varepsilon^2)$ clauses chosen independently and uniformly with replacement. Hoeffding's inequality and a union bound over all 2^n assignments give, with probability $1 - 2^{-\Omega(n)}$,

$$|\widehat{f}(x) - f(x)| \leqslant \varepsilon/2 \qquad \text{for every } x \in \{0,1\}^n.$$

Thus, if $\widehat{x}$ maximizes $\widehat{f}$, then $f(\widehat{x}) \geqslant \max_x f(x) - \varepsilon$. Given an integer threshold b, a Boolean circuit with at most two inputs per gate and size $O_{k,\varepsilon}(n)$ tests whether an assignment satisfies at least b sampled clauses. The standard circuit-to-3-CNF reduction [Bar23, Lemmas 15.9–15.10] produces a formula with $O_{k,\varepsilon}(n)$ variables and clauses that is satisfiable exactly when this threshold can be attained. Theorem 1.1, binary search on the threshold, and self-reduction then find an exact sample optimizer within the stated bounds. Truncating rejection sampling after $O(n + \log(n/\varepsilon^2))$ trials per sample gives worst-case $\mathrm{poly}(n, m, \varepsilon^{-1})$ sampling time and adds at most $2^{-\Omega(n)}$ to the failure probability. □

Note that runtime bounds of the form $2^{o(n)}$ do not transfer under general polynomial-time reductions ($2^{n^{o(1)}}$ would be needed for this), so our result does not imply that general NP problems admit subexponential time algorithms. However we do obtain subexponential time algorithms for counting graph colorings and perfect matchings.

Corollary 1.3. *On simple graphs with v vertices and e edges, the number of independent sets and, for each fixed $q \geqslant 2$, the number of proper q-colorings can be computed deterministically in $2^{o(v)}$ time and $\mathrm{poly}_q(v,e)$ space. The number of perfect matchings can be computed deterministically in $2^{o(v+e)}$ time and $\mathrm{poly}(v,e)$ space.*

Proof. For $G = (V, E)$, introduce a Boolean variable x_u for each $u \in V$. Satisfying assignments of

$$\bigwedge_{\{u,w\}\in E} (\neg x_u \vee \neg x_w)$$

correspond bijectively to the independent sets $\{u \in V : x_u = 1\}$. For proper q-colorings, use one Boolean variable per vertex and color, require exactly one color at each vertex, and forbid equal colors at adjacent vertices. This gives a counting-preserving q-CNF encoding with qv variables and $O_q(v + e)$ clauses.

For perfect matchings, use one Boolean variable per edge and a linear-size circuit checking that exactly one selected edge meets each vertex. The standard circuit-to-3-CNF reduction [Bar23, Lemmas 15.9–15.10] gives $O(v + e)$ variables and clauses. The gate variables have unique values once the edge bits are fixed, so this encoding also preserves the count. Theorem 1.1 gives the stated time and space bounds. □

The fixed-density case of Theorem 1.1 gives a circuit lower bound for E^{NP}, the class of languages decidable in deterministic time $2^{O(n)}$ with an NP oracle.

Corollary 1.4. *Let $C_L(n)$ be the minimum number of noninput gates in a circuit computing L on $\{0,1\}^n$, allowing arbitrary Boolean gates of fan-in at most two and unrestricted fan-out. There exist a language $L \in \mathrm{E}^{\mathrm{NP}}$ and a constant $c > 0$ such that*

$$C_L(n) > c\,n\sqrt{\log n} \qquad \text{for infinitely many } n. \tag{1.2}$$

Appendix C.1 proves the corollary. Appendix C.2 gives algorithms for inversion and exact preimage counting of Boolean maps with constant output locality.

1.1. **Related work.** We first discuss earlier SAT and counting algorithms and the complexity hypotheses contradicted by Theorem 1.1. We then compare our approach with earlier algebraic algorithms and identify the existing constructions used in our proof, whose roles are developed in the roadmap in Section 2.

1.1.1. *SAT algorithms and the exponential-time hypotheses.* Schöning's local-search algorithm and PPSZ are landmarks in the development of exponential-time algorithms for k-SAT [Sch99, PPSZ05]. Schöning's randomized algorithm starts from a random assignment and repeatedly flips a uniformly chosen variable in an unsatisfied clause. Its bounded-error decision time is

$$(n + m)^{O(1)}(2 - 2/k)^n$$

for each fixed $k \geqslant 3$ [Sch99, Section 2]. In particular, this gives $(n + m)^{O(1)}(4/3)^n$ time for 3-SAT. The PPSZ algorithm [PPSZ05] uses a different mechanism: bounded resolution derives additional clauses, after which variables are assigned in a random order, taking forced values when available and guessing otherwise. For $k = 3, 4$, its original analysis gave stronger bounds for uniquely satisfiable formulas than for general ones. The unique-SAT guarantees were later extended to general 3-SAT and 4-SAT; for 3-SAT this gave a randomized $O(1.308^n)$ bound [Her14]. Hansen, Kaplan, Zamir, and Zwick improved the PPSZ bound for every fixed $k \geqslant 3$ by biasing the algorithm's guesses [HKZZ19]. Scheder obtained an improvement for the same range of k by sharpening the analysis of the original PPSZ algorithm [Sch24, Theorem 1.5]. For general 3-SAT, a preprint by Jiang and Cai gives a randomized $O^*(1.307031578^n)$ bound [JC26, Corollary 1.2], where O^* suppresses factors polynomial in the input size. Liu's deterministic algorithm combines branching with derandomized local search and solves 3-SAT in $O(1.32793^n)$ time [Liu18, Theorem 21].

Randomized local search has also produced effective heuristics. The WalkSAT heuristic chooses an unsatisfied clause and flips one of its variables, combining random choices with greedy moves [SKC94]. Experiments on formulas from circuit synthesis and diagnosis demonstrated the practical value of this approach [SKC94, pp. 340–342, Tables 4–5].

Among uniformly random k-CNFs, instances at the satisfiability threshold were conjectured to be the hardest for deciding satisfiability [VW21, Section 1]; for fixed $k \geqslant 3$ and lower clause densities $m/n \leqslant 2^k/k^C$, where C is a universal constant, polynomial-time almost-uniform sampling of satisfying assignments is known with high probability over the formula [CLWYY25, Theorem 1.2]. For a uniformly random formula with polynomially many clauses, conditioned on satisfiability, Vyas and Williams [VW21, Theorem 3] give a PPZ-based algorithm that finds a solution in $2^{n(1-\Omega(\log k/k))}$ time with high probability over both the formula and the algorithm's random choices.

The Exponential Time Hypothesis (ETH) asserted that 3-SAT requires $2^{\Omega(n)}$ deterministic time in the worst case, and hence so does k-SAT for every fixed $k \geqslant 3$ [IP01, Theorem 1]. The Strong Exponential Time Hypothesis (SETH) made the sharper prediction that k-SAT requires $2^{n(1-o_k(1))}$ time as k grows. Precisely, for every $\varepsilon \in (0,1)$, there is a fixed k for which no deterministic algorithm solves k-SAT in $2^{(1-\varepsilon)n}(n+m)^{O(1)}$ time. The running-time bounds for Schöning's algorithm and PPSZ helped motivate this prediction: their improvements over exhaustive search diminish as k grows [IP01, Open Problems, item 2].

The Gap Exponential Time Hypothesis (Gap-ETH) strengthens ETH by postulating constants $\delta, \gamma > 0$ for which no $O(2^{\gamma n})$-time algorithm can distinguish a satisfiable 3-CNF from one in which every assignment violates at least a δ fraction of the clauses, even when $m = O(n)$ [Din16, MR17]. The randomized version rules out an algorithm with the same running time that distinguishes the two cases with probability at least $2/3$ on every promised input [CCK+20, Conjecture 2.5]. It has been used to prove hardness of approximating Label Cover [Din16] and dense constraint satisfaction problems [MR17]. It also rules out nontrivial fixed-parameter approximations for Clique and Dominating Set. For Clique, the excluded ratios are $o(\mathrm{OPT})$, where OPT is the maximum clique size [CCK+20, Corollaries 5.3 and 5.6].

The Nondeterministic Strong Exponential Time Hypothesis (NSETH) asserts that, for every $\varepsilon > 0$, some fixed k admits no nondeterministic $2^{(1-\varepsilon)n}(n+m)^{O(1)}$-time algorithm for deciding whether a k-CNF is *unsatisfiable*, or equivalently whether a k-DNF is a tautology [CGI+16]. NSETH has been used to establish barriers to deterministic fine-grained reductions from SAT to problems such as 3SUM and All-Pairs Shortest Paths [CGI+16], and to delineate SETH-based lower bounds for approximating directed graph diameter [Li21].

Theorem 1.1 refutes ETH, SETH, Gap-ETH, and NSETH. Indeed, testing whether the exact count is positive or zero decides both satisfiability and unsatisfiability in deterministic $2^{o(n)}(n+m)^{O_k(1)}$ time for every fixed k; deciding satisfiability also solves the Gap-ETH promise problem. The deterministic algorithm also refutes the bounded-error randomized versions of ETH [DHM+14, Section 1] and SETH [CDL+16, Definition 2.1], and of Gap-ETH. It does not conflict with unconditional exponential lower bounds for restricted proof systems such as regular resolution [BI13]. In 2016, Ryan Williams refuted the Merlin–Arthur version of SETH (MA-SETH) by giving a protocol that certifies k-CNF unsatisfiability in $2^{n/2}\,\mathrm{poly}(n,m)$ time [Wil16, Theorem 3.3].

1.1.2. *Exact counting and counting complexity.* In Valiant's framework, #SAT and #3-SAT are #P-complete under parsimonious reductions [Val79, Section 3, Facts 1–2]. For fixed $k \geqslant 3$, previous exact-counting algorithms achieve $\mathrm{poly}_k(n,m)2^{n-\Omega(n/k)}$ time, with a Las Vegas expected-time bound in [IMP12, Lemma 3.5] and a deterministic bound in [CW21, Theorem 1.6]. For #2-SAT, Wahlström's algorithm counts satisfying assignments in $O^*(1.2377^n)$ time [Wah08]. For #3-SAT, Kutzkov uses complementary branching to count satisfying assignments in $O^*(1.637^n)$ time [Kut26]. Both algorithms are deterministic.

The counting Exponential Time Hypothesis (#ETH) asserted that exactly counting the satisfying assignments of a 3-CNF requires $2^{\Omega(n)}$ deterministic time [DHM+14, Section 1]. Under #ETH, Curticapean [Cur18] rules out deterministic $2^{o(v)}$-time algorithms for counting perfect matchings even in unweighted bipartite graphs with v vertices and $O(v)$ edges. The perfect-matching algorithm

in Corollary 1.3 applies in particular to these graphs. Our algorithm (Theorem 1.1) solves #3-SAT deterministically in $2^{o(n)}\operatorname{poly}(n,m)$ time and therefore refutes #ETH.

1.1.3. *Implications for fine-grained complexity.* ETH and SETH became standard assumptions for parameterized and fine-grained complexity [IPZ01, VW19]. ETH-based reductions yielded lower bounds for the dependence on solution size in Clique [CHKX06], and on treewidth in constraint satisfaction and partitioned subgraph isomorphism [Mar10]. SETH supported sharp exponential bounds for Hitting Set and Set Splitting [CDL+16], and for Independent Set and Dominating Set parameterized by treewidth [LMS18]. It also gave bounds on possible speedups of pseudopolynomial algorithms for Subset Sum and Bicriteria Path [ABHS19].

For problems in P, SETH was used to rule out polynomial-factor speedups over quadratic running times for edit distance [BI18], longest common subsequence and dynamic time warping [BK15], Fréchet distance [Bri14], and regular-expression matching [BI16]. Other applications concerned approximating graph diameter [RV13] and maintaining reachability counts or the size of the largest strongly connected component under graph updates [AW14]. Together these results made SETH a common basis for explaining the apparent optimality of algorithms across quite different problems.

Our refutation of ETH and SETH removes one basis for the hardness claims above. Some of the same lower bounds follow from weaker hypotheses that may still hold. For example, the lower bounds for longest common subsequence and regular-expression matching follow from the Orthogonal Vectors Conjecture (OVC) [BK15, BI16]. OVC asserts that for every fixed $\varepsilon > 0$, no $O(N^{2-\varepsilon}\operatorname{poly}(d))$-time algorithm can decide whether two sets of N Boolean vectors of dimension d contain an orthogonal pair, one vector from each set. The reduction from SAT to Orthogonal Vectors shows that SETH implies OVC [Wil05, VW19]. The lower bounds for Fréchet distance, graph diameter approximation, and the treewidth dependence of Independent Set and Dominating Set also follow from the hypothesis that unrestricted CNF-SAT admits no $2^{(1-\delta)n}\operatorname{poly}(n,m)$-time algorithm for any constant $\delta > 0$ [Bri14, RV13, LMS18]. Theorem 1.1 gives a running-time guarantee for each fixed clause width k, while this hypothesis allows the width to grow with n.

To obtain a faster algorithm for a target problem from our SAT algorithm, we need a reduction in the other direction, from that problem to fixed-width SAT, that controls the number of variables. Set Splitting with sets of size at most k has such a reduction [CDL+16, Observation 3.6]: use one Boolean variable per element to specify its side of the split. For each set, one clause requires at least one of its variables to be true, and a second requires at least one to be false. The resulting k-CNF has one variable per universe element, so for fixed k Theorem 1.1 gives subexponential time in the universe size, up to a polynomial input-size factor.

1.1.4. *Prior work on algebraic algorithms for combinatorial problems.* Our algorithm is algebraic, based on polynomial interpolation of carefully chosen auxiliary variables. Below we discuss prior work on using algebraic methods to design algorithm for combinatorial problems. For broader background, see the surveys of Koutis and Williams [KW16] on algebraic fingerprints, Williams [Wil14] on the polynomial method in algorithm design, and Husfeldt [Hus11] on algorithmic inclusion–exclusion.

Williams's split-and-list algorithm [Wil05] partitions the variables of a 2-CSP into three groups, enumerates partial assignments, and combines them using fast matrix multiplication. Koivisto [Koi06] gives a direct sum–product formulation. The algorithm of Sections 3–6 likewise enumerates assignments within groups. Fixing the shared measurements $\vec{y}$ makes their contributions multiply independently. Scott and Sorkin [SS09, Section 6] extend split-and-list to polynomial-valued weights and arbitrary rings. Our summation routine similarly uses truncated polynomial rings to retain several coefficients in one computation.

Björklund [Bjö16, Sections 2–3] uses inclusion–exclusion and polynomial interpolation to reduce permanent and directed Hamiltonian-cycle counting to a weighted sum over smaller instances. He adds the weights of identical instances in a table, then solves each distinct instance with nonzero total weight once. Björklund, Kaski, and Williams [BKW19] use low-degree curves and generalized

Kakeya sets to recover polynomial values from evaluations on a small structured set, yielding faster algorithms for fermionants, including the permanent of integer matrices whose entries are bounded in absolute value by a fixed constant. Our polynomial replacements serve a similar purpose: they connect the desired count to structured evaluations from which it can be reconstructed. Here the useful structure is separation into groups after fixing a few shared measurements.

Bhargava, Ghosh, Kumar, and Mohapatra [BGKM23, Sections 3.1–3.2] evaluate multivariate polynomials over finite fields along low-degree curves, using Hasse derivatives and Hermite interpolation when values alone do not suffice. For a univariate restriction g, the order-j Hasse derivative at t is the coefficient of z^j in $g(t+z)$. We use the same recovery principle: compute several Taylor coefficients at each point admitting fast summation, then recover the original count by Hermite interpolation.

Woodruff and Yekhanin [WY07] use values and first derivatives along a line to recover a target value in private information retrieval. Kopparty, Saraf, and Yekhanin [KSY14] use higher-order Hasse derivatives for local correction of multiplicity codes, extending the line-based recovery of Reed–Muller codes. In our algorithm, the matrix construction supplies low-degree replacement forms that let us compute the Taylor coefficients at the interpolation points by fast summation after fixing a few shared measurements.

1.1.5. *Antecedents of the matrix construction.* Our counting algorithm evaluates sums of products of polynomials over Boolean assignments. The polynomials share variables, so these sums do not factor into independent smaller sums. We introduce linear substitutions, depending polynomially on an interpolation parameter, that make such a factorization possible after fixing a few integer linear measurements. An auxiliary square rational matrix M_0 underlies these substitutions: a bound on $\operatorname{rank}(I - M_0)$ limits the number of measurements, while restrictions on the nonzero entries of M_0 keep the substitution degrees small. Section 2.7 explains this connection.

Related interpolation methods have been used to obtain low-rank approximations to structured matrices. In [AW17, Section 3], a low-degree polynomial matches $(-1)^j$ on an interval of integer inner products j, using the interpolation lemma of [AW15, Lemma 3.1]. This gives low-rank matrices agreeing with Walsh–Hadamard matrices in most entries, a result in the study of matrix rigidity [Val77]. Related interpolation gives rigidity bounds for Kronecker powers in [AGP23, Theorem 6.1]. Dvir and Liu [DL20, Claim 2.20 and Lemmas 3.3–3.4] use a spectral approach: sparse changes to a function invariant under permutations of its coordinates make many Fourier coefficients vanish, reducing the rank of its group-circulant matrix.

Our construction also interpolates $(-1)^j$ on a short interval, now to obtain a polynomial in commuting permutation matrices. The same polynomial gives both the rank bound for $I - M_0$ and the restrictions on the nonzero entries of M_0. We prove these properties and their quantitative bounds directly in Section 4.

1.1.6. *Sparsification and parity tests.* We use the counting-preserving version [DHM$^+$14, Appendix A] of the sparsification lemma [IPZ01], with quantitative bounds from [CIP06, Section 6] and [Cal09, Lemma 5.14 and equation (5.4)]. This partitions the satisfying assignments among sparse formulas on the same Boolean variables. Appendix A records the disjoint branching argument and the bounds needed when its parameter varies with the input size.

The initial parity tests are the constraints of a Tanner code [Tan81, Section II], applied to the binary vector recording which clauses an assignment violates. We use the edge-based expander-code construction of [SS96, Sections IV and VI]: each graph edge carries one bit, and each vertex requires its incident bits to belong to a fixed binary linear code. The local code's minimum distance, together with graph expansion, forces every nonzero vector satisfying all these constraints to have large support. This construction and distance argument are standard. Lemma 6.1 supplies the parameter choices needed here, including the bounds on the number and support size of the tests, and constructs the graph and local code by deterministic exhaustive searches. The graph is the bipartite double

cover of a Cayley multigraph. The shifts defining that multigraph nearly balance every nonconstant parity on the base group: this is the small-bias condition [NN93, AR94], stated explicitly in (6.2). Fixing unused edge bits to zero gives a code on exactly m coordinates. Additional parity tests exclude the remaining nonzero violation vectors. We choose these tests by the averaging principle underlying the method of conditional expectations [Rag88], using exact counts to evaluate each candidate. Section 6 gives the constructions and quantitative bounds needed here.

Theorem 1.1 invites a renewed search for algorithms for problems whose known hardness results relied on ETH or SETH. The examples in Section 1.1.3 suggest both immediate consequences and problems for which new algorithmic ideas are needed.

1.2. **Notation.** For an integer $s \geqslant 0$, write $[s] = \{1, \dots, s\}$, with $[0] = \varnothing$. For a condition E, the scalar $\mathbb{1}_{\{E\}}$ equals one if E holds and zero otherwise. We use natural logarithms, writing $\log_2$ when the base is two. For complexity bounds, $\mathrm{poly}(t_1, \dots, t_s)$ denotes a bound of the form $(1+t_1+\cdots+t_s)^{O(1)}$, with absolute implicit constants. Subscripts, as in $\mathrm{poly}_{k,c}(t_1, \dots, t_s)$, allow those constants to depend on the indicated fixed parameters. Integers are stored in signed binary notation, so an integer z uses $O(\log(|z|+2))$ bits. Rational numbers are stored as an integer numerator and a positive integer denominator; stated bit-length bounds apply to each of them. Space is measured in bits. Arithmetic-operation counts are distinguished from bit-operation counts.

For a finite set S, vectors in $\mathbb{Q}^S$ have coordinates indexed by S and are column vectors unless indicated otherwise. For $U \subseteq S$, the indicator vector $\mathbf{1}_U \in \{0,1\}^S$ has entries $(\mathbf{1}_U)_v = \mathbb{1}_{\{v \in U\}}$ for $v \in S$. We write $\vec{0}$ for the zero vector. For $v \in S$, the row $\delta_v \in \mathbb{Q}^{1 \times S}$ selects coordinate v, so $\delta_v x = x_v$. A vector indexed by $U \subseteq S$ is extended to S by putting zero in each coordinate of $S \setminus U$.

We write $\vec{X} = (X_1, \dots, X_n)$ for the vector of formal variables and use arrows for polynomial coefficient vectors such as $\vec{P}_{f,v}(T)$. For a coefficient row $\vec{p} = (p_i)_{i \in S}$ and a vector $z = (z_i)_{i \in S}$, we write their scalar pairing as $\langle \vec{p}, z \rangle = \sum_{i \in S} p_i z_i$. In particular, $\langle \vec{P}_{f,v}(T), \vec{X} \rangle$ is a scalar linear form in the variables X_i.

For a polynomial $P(\vec{X}, z)$ in the variables $\vec{X}$ and a variable z, $[z^j]P$ denotes the coefficient of z^j, viewed as a polynomial in $\vec{X}$, and $\deg_{\vec{X}} P$ denotes total degree in $\vec{X}$. The degree of a row of polynomials is the largest degree of any entry. Unless otherwise specified, polynomial coefficients are rational and matrix kernels are taken over $\mathbb{Q}$.

2. Technique overview

We first count satisfying assignments of a 3-CNF in which each variable occurs in at most three clauses. The product of its clause polynomials has degree at most $3n$, so we can use interpolation to recover the exact count from sums over small groups of variables. Section 2.8 then uses disjoint sparsification and variable copying to count the satisfying assignments of an arbitrary k-CNF in $(n+m)^{O_k(1)} 2^{o(n)}$ time for every fixed $k \geqslant 2$. Taking $k = 3$ already refutes ETH. Section 2.9 explains how counting on the original variables gives the exponent $O_k(\rho(n))$ of Proposition 6.4.

2.1. **The bounded-occurrence setting.** Let F have n declared Boolean variables. Each clause contains at most three literals, and each variable appears in at most three clauses, counting positive and negative occurrences together. Our task is to count the satisfying assignments of F exactly.

We remove tautological clauses and repeated literals within a clause. An empty clause gives count zero immediately. These operations preserve the occurrence bound. For each remaining clause e, let $I_e \subseteq [n]$ be its variable set. For each variable that occurs in no clause, add a factor equal to one with scope $\{v\}$. Such a factor leaves the count unchanged and ensures that every variable has an assigned position in the construction. We call these constant-one terms *dummy clauses*. Let $\mathcal{F}$ index

all clauses, including the dummy clauses. Then

$$|I_e| \leqslant 3, \qquad \#\{e \in \mathcal{F} : v \in I_e\} \leqslant 3, \qquad n \leqslant M := \sum_{e \in \mathcal{F}} |I_e| \leqslant 3n. \tag{2.1}$$

All sums below still range over the original n Boolean variables.

2.2. **A direct polynomial for the count.** Write $L_{e,v}(X_v) = X_v$ for a positive literal and $L_{e,v}(X_v) = 1 - X_v$ for a negative literal. The satisfaction polynomial of clause e is

$$\Phi_e((X_v)_{v \in I_e}) = 1 - \prod_{v \in I_e} (1 - L_{e,v}(X_v)).$$

For example, $x_a \vee \neg x_b \vee x_c$ gives

$$\Phi_e(X_a, X_b, X_c) = 1 - (1 - X_a)X_b(1 - X_c).$$

On Boolean inputs this polynomial is one when the clause is satisfied and zero otherwise. For a dummy clause e, put $\Phi_e = 1$. Therefore

$$\#F = \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} \prod_{e \in \mathcal{F}} \Phi_e((x_v)_{v \in I_e}). \tag{2.2}$$

The product has total degree at most $M \leqslant 3n$. This linear degree bound is the useful consequence of the three-occurrence assumption.

Equation (2.2) is an exact expression for the count, but evaluating its 2^n summands would be exhaustive search. To motivate the algorithm, suppose we were given a partition of the variables into r groups $S_1, \ldots, S_r$ satisfying both of the following conditions:

(1) Each group contains at most $2n/r$ variables.
(2) For every clause, all of its variables belong to a single group.

This is a hypothetical, very restrictive assumption; we do not assume that the input formula admits such a partition.

Under this assumption, we could count satisfying assignments in each group independently. Let N_g be the number of assignments to the variables in S_g that satisfy all clauses in that group. Any such assignment can be combined with any satisfying assignments in the other groups, because no clause connects different groups. Every global satisfying assignment arises in exactly one such way. Consequently,

$$\#F = \prod_{g=1}^{r} N_g.$$

Computing each N_g by exhaustive search within its group examines a total of at most

$$\sum_{g=1}^{r} 2^{|S_g|} \leqslant r\, 2^{2n/r}$$

local assignments, with polynomial work per assignment. For large r, this is much faster than enumerating all 2^n global assignments.

We will replace the clause inputs so that different groups interact only through a small collection of shared linear summaries. Once the values of those summaries are fixed, we can again sum over each group separately.

2.3. **A polynomial family with easier evaluation points.** We introduce a parameter T. At $T = 0$, the replacements must restore the original clause inputs. At selected nonzero points $T = 1, \dots, Q$, they should let us separate the groups by fixing shared linear summaries. Here Q is the number of selected points, and R will bound the degree of the replacement coefficients. We choose both parameters later.

Write $\vec{X} = (X_1, \dots, X_n)$ for the vector of formal variables. For each occurrence $v \in I_e$, use the polynomial coefficient vector $\vec{P}_{e,v}(T) = (p_{e,v,1}(T), \dots, p_{e,v,n}(T))$ to replace X_v in clause e by the scalar inner product

$$\langle \vec{P}_{e,v}(T), \vec{X} \rangle = \sum_{i=1}^{n} p_{e,v,i}(T) X_i.$$

We call this expression the *replacement linear form* for the occurrence of variable v in clause e. It replaces the input X_v in the clause polynomial Φ_e. We require

$$\langle \vec{P}_{e,v}(0), \vec{X} \rangle = X_v, \qquad \deg \vec{P}_{e,v} \leqslant R.$$

Different clauses may use different replacement linear forms for the same variable. Define

$$H(T) = \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} \prod_{e \in \mathcal{F}} \Phi_e\big((\langle \vec{P}_{e,v}(T), x \rangle)_{v \in I_e}\big) \in \mathbb{Q}[T]. \tag{2.3}$$

At zero every replacement restores the original variable, while the degree of each clause polynomial grows by at most a factor of R. Hence

$$H(0) = \#F, \qquad \deg H \leqslant MR \leqslant 3nR. \tag{2.4}$$

We will recover $H(0)$ from Taylor coefficients at $t = 1, \dots, Q$. The degree bound means that $O(1 + nR/Q)$ coefficients per point suffice, as Section 2.5 explains. Our goal is therefore to make R small relative to Q: many points with low-degree replacements require fewer coefficients at each point.

At a nonzero t, the value $\langle \vec{P}_{e,v}(t), x \rangle$ of a replacement linear form need not lie in $\{0, 1\}$, even when x is Boolean. The transformed clause polynomials therefore need not act as satisfaction indicators.

2.4. **Separating the sum by fixing measurements.** Fix $t \in [Q]$. We are given the coefficient vectors $\vec{P}_{e,v}(t)$, whose entries are now constants. We explain what structure lets us compute $H(t)$ quickly, and how to use it. Throughout this subsection, write $S_g = S_{t,g}$ and $C_g = C_{t,g}$.

Definition 2.1 ((r, τ, D)-design)**.** For the given coefficient vectors $\vec{P}_{e,v}(t)$, an (r, τ, D)-*design at* t consists of groups S_g, clause assignments $\sigma_e(t)$, and measurement matrices C_g satisfying the following four conditions:

(1) *Small groups.* Partition the variables into disjoint groups $[n] = S_1 \sqcup \cdots \sqcup S_r$, with $|S_g| \leqslant 2n/r$.
(2) *One assigned group per clause.* Assign each clause e to one group $\sigma_e(t) \in [r]$. Condition 4 must hold with this same group for every replacement linear form of clause e.
(3) *Few bounded measurements.* Each group g has an integer matrix C_g with columns indexed by S_g and c_g rows. Each row specifies one linear measurement of the variables in S_g. There are at most $2\tau n$ rows in total, and the sum of absolute values of the coefficients in each row is at most D. For an assignment x, write

$$x_g = x|_{S_g}, \qquad y_g = C_g x_g, \qquad \vec{y} = (y_1, \dots, y_r).$$

(4) *Dependence on other groups only through measurements.* Suppose clause e is assigned to group $g = \sigma_e(t)$. Each replacement linear form of this clause may depend freely on the variables in S_g. Its dependence on any other group S_h must be a linear combination of

that group's measurements y_h. Precisely, for every $v \in I_e$, there must be coefficient vectors $\vec{\lambda}_{e,v,h} \in \mathbb{Q}^{c_h}$, for $h \neq g$, such that, for every $x \in \mathbb{Q}^n$,

$$\langle \vec{P}_{e,v}(t), x \rangle = \langle \vec{P}_{e,v}(t)|_{S_g}, x_g \rangle + \sum_{h \neq g} \langle \vec{\lambda}_{e,v,h}, y_h \rangle. \tag{2.5}$$

Equivalently, $\vec{P}_{e,v}(t)|_{S_h}$ lies in the row space of C_h for every $h \neq g$.

The matrices C_h are shared by all clauses. A clause's assigned group need not contain its original variables. Once $\vec{y}$ is fixed, however, the entire transformed clause polynomial depends only on the variables in its assigned group.

The algorithm. Given an (r, τ, D)-design at t, first find the coefficient vectors $\vec{\lambda}_{e,v,h}$ by solving the linear systems guaranteed by condition 4. For fixed $\vec{y}$, let $\mathcal{X}_{t,g}(y_g)$ be the assignments to the variables in S_g whose measurements equal y_g:

$$\mathcal{X}_{t,g}(y_g) = \{u \in \{0,1\}^{S_g} : C_g u = y_g\}.$$

For such an assignment u, compute the contribution of group g as follows. For each clause e assigned to g, first use (2.5) to compute the values of its replacement linear forms from u and the fixed measurements. Next evaluate the clause polynomial Φ_e on these values. Finally, multiply the values obtained from all clauses assigned to g. Denote this product by $A_{t,g}(u; \vec{y})$. No assignments to the other groups are needed for this calculation.

Each measurement of a Boolean assignment is an integer in $[-D, D]$. Initialize $Z = 0$ and perform the following steps:

(1) Try every measurement tuple $\vec{y} \in \mathcal{Y} := \prod_{g=1}^{r} \{-D, \ldots, D\}^{c_g}$. For each tuple, perform steps 2 and 3.

(2) For each group g, try every Boolean assignment u to its variables. Keep it only if $C_g u = y_g$. Add the corresponding products $A_{t,g}(u; \vec{y})$ to obtain the group sum

$$B_{t,g}(\vec{y}) = \sum_{u \in \mathcal{X}_{t,g}(y_g)} A_{t,g}(u; \vec{y}).$$

If no assignment satisfies $C_g u = y_g$, set $B_{t,g}(\vec{y}) = 0$.

(3) Multiply the group sums and add the result $\prod_{g=1}^{r} B_{t,g}(\vec{y})$ to Z.

After all measurement tuples have been processed, return Z.

To see why this returns $H(t)$, fix $\vec{y}$ and choose one assignment from each set $\mathcal{X}_{t,g}(y_g)$. Since the groups contain disjoint sets of variables, these choices combine into one full assignment. Every full assignment with measurements $\vec{y}$ arises in exactly one such way. Its product of clause polynomials is the product of the group contributions $A_{t,g}$. Multiplying out the group sums and then summing over $\vec{y}$ therefore gives

$$H(t) = \sum_{\vec{y} \in \mathcal{Y}} \prod_{g=1}^{r} \left(\sum_{u \in \mathcal{X}_{t,g}(y_g)} A_{t,g}(u; \vec{y}) \right). \tag{2.6}$$

Every Boolean assignment has exactly one measurement tuple, so this sum counts each assignment's contribution exactly once.

There are at most $(2D+1)^{2\tau n}$ measurement tuples. For each tuple, the algorithm tries at most $\sum_g 2^{|S_g|} \leqslant r 2^{2n/r}$ assignments to individual groups. Consequently, the running time is

$$(2D+1)^{2\tau n} 2^{2n/r}$$

up to polynomial factors. The first factor bounds the number of measurement tuples; the second bounds the number of assignments within one group. The algorithm scans one group at a time and keeps only the current measurement tuple, the current assignment, and running sums and products; see Lemma 3.2.

For the parameter choices in Section 2.6, we can construct replacement forms of degree at most R that restore the original variables at zero and admit an (r, τ, D)-design at every $t \in [Q]$. Section 2.7 gives the construction. We first explain how these properties let us recover the count efficiently.

2.5. **Recovering the count from Taylor coefficients.** Our goal is to recover $H(0) = \#F$ from information at the points $t = 1, \dots, Q$. Since $\deg H \leqslant 3nR$, the Q values $H(t)$ alone may not determine H. We instead compute several Taylor coefficients at each point. Choose

$$q = \left\lfloor \frac{3nR}{Q} \right\rfloor, \qquad J = q + 1.$$

Suppose we know the coefficients of $z^0, \dots, z^q$ in $H(t+z)$ for every $t \in [Q]$. These data determine H uniquely: if two polynomials of degree at most $3nR$ have the same data, their difference is divisible by $(T-t)^J$ for every $t \in [Q]$, hence by $\prod_{t=1}^{Q}(T-t)^J$. This product has degree $QJ > 3nR$, so the difference must be zero. Each Taylor coefficient gives a linear equation in the coefficients of H. Solving this rational linear system recovers H, and its constant coefficient is the desired count $H(0)$.

It remains to compute these Taylor coefficients. Fix $t \in [Q]$; we want $H(t+z)$ through degree q in z. The design controls the replacement forms at t, but need not control their changes from t to $t+z$. We first give those changes a separate input, so that fixing this input preserves the separation of groups.

Keeping the shifted inputs separate. Write

$$\Delta\vec{P}_{e,v}(z) = \vec{P}_{e,v}(t+z) - \vec{P}_{e,v}(t).$$

Keep x as the Boolean assignment being summed over, and introduce a separate formal vector $\vec{X}$ for the changes. Define

$$\mathcal{G}_x(\vec{X}, z) = \prod_{e \in \mathcal{F}} \Phi_e\big((\langle \vec{P}_{e,v}(t), x\rangle + \langle \Delta\vec{P}_{e,v}(z), \vec{X}\rangle)_{v \in I_e}\big). \tag{2.7}$$

Here x indexes the polynomial, while $\vec{X}$ and z are its formal variables. Setting $\vec{X} = x$ restores each shifted input $\langle \vec{P}_{e,v}(t+z), x\rangle$, so

$$H(t+z) = \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} \mathcal{G}_x(x, z).$$

On the other hand, fixing $\vec{X} = \mathbf{1}_U$ for some $U \subseteq [n]$ makes every correction $\langle \Delta\vec{P}_{e,v}(z), \mathbf{1}_U\rangle$ independent of x. All dependence on x then remains through $\langle \vec{P}_{e,v}(t), x\rangle$, where the design applies. Our task is therefore to recover the sum with $\vec{X} = x$ from sums with $\vec{X}$ fixed.

The degree bound makes this possible with few fixed substitutions. Every entry of $\Delta\vec{P}_{e,v}(z)$ is divisible by z, so each occurrence of an X_i in an expanded term contributes at least one factor of z. Thus

$$\deg_{\vec{X}}([z^j]\mathcal{G}_x(\vec{X}, z)) \leqslant j.$$

Thus, after discarding powers of z above q, every monomial involves at most q distinct variables from $\vec{X}$.

Recovering the shifted sum by inclusion–exclusion. Work modulo z^J, so that only the coefficients through z^q are retained. Replace every positive power of X_i in $\mathcal{G}_x$ by X_i. This preserves its values on Boolean inputs. The degree bound above gives, for Boolean $\vec{X}$,

$$\mathcal{G}_x(\vec{X}, z) \equiv \sum_{\substack{E \subseteq [n] \\ |E| \leqslant q}} a_E(x, z) \prod_{i \in E} X_i \pmod{z^J},$$

where $a_E(x,z)$ is the coefficient of the indicated monomial after this replacement. Evaluating at $\mathbf{1}_U$, the vector with ones precisely in U, sums the coefficients indexed by subsets of U. Inclusion–exclusion extracts each one:

$$a_E(x,z) \equiv \sum_{U\subseteq E} (-1)^{|E|-|U|}\mathcal{G}_x(\mathbf{1}_U,z) \pmod{z^J}.$$

When we set $\vec{X}=x$, the monomial $\prod_{i\in E} x_i$ equals one exactly when all the bits in E are one. Its contribution to the sum over x is therefore $\sum_{x:\,x_i=1\ (i\in E)} a_E(x,z)$, with x Boolean. Substituting the coefficient formula above reduces this to sums with the formal input fixed.

Computing the restricted sums. For $U\subseteq E\subseteq[n]$ with $|E|\leqslant q$, define

$$\mathcal{Z}_{t,E,U}(z) = \sum_{\substack{x\in\{0,1\}^n\\ x_i=1\ (i\in E)}} \mathcal{G}_x(\mathbf{1}_U,z) \quad \text{in } \mathbb{Q}[z]/(z^J). \tag{2.8}$$

Here U fixes the formal input $\vec{X}=\mathbf{1}_U$, while E fixes bits of the summation variable x to one. Summing the monomial contributions gives

$$H(t+z) \equiv \sum_{\substack{E\subseteq[n]\\ |E|\leqslant q}} \sum_{U\subseteq E} (-1)^{|E|-|U|}\mathcal{Z}_{t,E,U}(z) \pmod{z^J}. \tag{2.9}$$

This recovers all $J=q+1$ Taylor coefficients together. Lemma 3.3 states the general identity used here.

Each sum $\mathcal{Z}_{t,E,U}$ can be evaluated by the algorithm of Section 2.4. With $\vec{X}=\mathbf{1}_U$ fixed, each correction $\langle \Delta\vec{P}_{e,v}(z), \mathbf{1}_U\rangle$ is independent of x. All dependence on x comes through the forms $\langle \vec{P}_{e,v}(t), x\rangle$, so fixing $\vec{y}$ still separates the clause polynomials. The restrictions $x_i=1$ are local to each group. The separation identity uses only addition, multiplication, and distributivity, so it also applies to these truncated polynomial values. Each clause is evaluated after substituting $\vec{X}=\mathbf{1}_U$, using only univariate polynomials in z of degree less than J and discarding higher powers after each multiplication. The multivariate expansion and its coefficients $a_E(x,z)$ are used only to justify the identity; the algorithm never constructs them.

Repeating this calculation at $t=1,\dots,Q$ provides all the Taylor coefficients needed for the interpolation above, and therefore recovers $H(0)=\#F$.

2.6. **The three costs and the running time.** Jumping ahead, Section 2.7 will construct replacement forms that restore the original variables at zero, have degree at most R, and admit an (r,τ,D)-design at every $t\in[Q]$. For sufficiently large n, the construction takes polynomial time and achieves the following parameter bounds:

$$\begin{aligned} r &= \Theta\left(\frac{\sqrt{\log n}}{(\log\log n)^2}\right), \quad Q = \Theta\left(\frac{\log n}{\log\log n}\right),\\ R &= \Theta(\sqrt{\log n}), \qquad \tau = \Theta\left(\frac{1}{r\log n}\right), \qquad D = r^{2Q} \leqslant (2n)^{1/128}. \end{aligned} \tag{2.10}$$

We first show how these bounds give a fast counting algorithm; the next subsection will justify that they can all be achieved simultaneously.

Recall that $q=J-1=\lfloor 3nR/Q\rfloor$. For each evaluation point t, Section 2.5 computes one restricted sum for each pair $U\subseteq E$ with $|E|\leqslant q$. There are $\binom{n}{j}$ choices of an E of size j, and then 2^j choices of U. Each restricted sum enumerates measurement tuples and assignments within individual groups.

Thus the three costs multiply to give, up to polynomial factors,

$$\underbrace{\sum_{j=0}^{\min(q,n)} 2^j \binom{n}{j}}_{\text{Taylor data}} \cdot \underbrace{(2D+1)^{2\tau n}}_{\text{measurements}} \cdot \underbrace{2^{2n/r}}_{\text{one group}}. \tag{2.11}$$

To bound the first cost, note that $1 \leqslant q \leqslant n/2$ for sufficiently large n, since $R/Q \to 0$. Using $\binom{n}{j} \leqslant (en/j)^j$ and the fact that $(2en/j)^j$ increases for $1 \leqslant j \leqslant n$, we obtain

$$\sum_{j=0}^{q} 2^j \binom{n}{j} \leqslant (q+1)\left(\frac{2en}{q}\right)^q.$$

Since $q = \Theta(nR/Q)$, the logarithm of this cost is $O(n(R/Q)\log(2Q/R))$. Taking logarithms of all three costs in (2.11) therefore gives

$$O\left(n\left[\frac{R}{Q}\log\frac{2Q}{R} + \tau\log(2D+1) + \frac{1}{r}\right]\right).$$

Each term is small under (2.10):

$$\begin{aligned}
\frac{R}{Q}\log\frac{2Q}{R} &= O\left(\frac{\log\log n}{\sqrt{\log n}} \cdot \log\log n\right), \\
\tau\log(2D+1) &= O\left(\frac{1}{r\log n} \cdot \log n\right) = O(1/r), \\
\frac{1}{r} &= O\left(\frac{(\log\log n)^2}{\sqrt{\log n}}\right).
\end{aligned}$$

Thus the bounded-occurrence instance can be counted in

$$n^{O(1)} 2^{O(n(\log\log n)^2/\sqrt{\log n})} \tag{2.12}$$

bit operations and polynomial space. The finitely many smaller inputs are handled by exhaustive search.

The number of points Q, the number of groups r, and the truncation order $J = O(1 + nR/Q)$ are polynomial in n. Hence the loops over points and groups, arithmetic on polynomials of degree less than J, and the final interpolation add only polynomially many operations per iteration of the three enumerations above.

For the bit-complexity and space bounds, see Appendix B.4.

2.7. **Constructing the low-degree replacement linear forms.** Consider one occurrence of X_v in a clause. At $T = 0$ its replacement must equal X_v. At each $t = 1, \ldots, Q$, the clause must be able to evaluate that same replacement using only its assigned group and a few shared measurements. Choosing a different linear form at each point and interpolating would generally cost degree Q. To keep Taylor recovery cheap, we need degree R much smaller than Q.

Suppose a term in the replacement uses a variable outside the clause's assigned group only at $t = 2$. Multiplying the term by $1 - T/2$ leaves it unchanged at zero and removes it at $t = 2$. At every other evaluation point the clause can read the variable from its own group. The same trick works for several such points: one factor per point, at a cost of one degree each. The challenge is therefore to write each input as a sum in which the shared measurements determine one part, and each remaining term uses a variable outside the assigned group at only a few points. We first construct such a decomposition on auxiliary coordinates that record the group choices, then substitute the variables of the formula.

Step 1: Set up the auxiliary coordinates.

At each evaluation point, an occurrence (e, v) has two group choices: the group containing variable v, and the group assigned to clause e. Across the Q points, these choices form a sequence of Q pairs. We therefore use the coordinate set

$$\mathcal{B} = ([r] \times [r])^Q, \qquad D = |\mathcal{B}| = r^{2Q}.$$

Write an index as

$$u = \big((a_u(1), d_u(1)), \dots, (a_u(Q), d_u(Q))\big).$$

We will construct one replacement row for every such index, so it will be available whatever group choices we later make for the formula.

Let $\vec{\zeta} = (\zeta_w)_{w \in \mathcal{B}}$ be formal placeholders for the original variables that we will insert in Step 4. At point t, coordinate ζ_w belongs to group $a_w(t)$, whereas the replacement for ζ_u is assigned to group $d_u(t)$. Thus the coordinates that this replacement may use freely are

$$\mathcal{S}_{t,d_u(t)}, \qquad \mathcal{S}_{t,g} := \{w \in \mathcal{B} : a_w(t) = g\}.$$

In particular, ζ_w belongs to the assigned group exactly when $a_w(t) = d_u(t)$. The sets $\mathcal{S}_{t,g}$ partition $\mathcal{B}$, with D/r coordinates in each group.

Our auxiliary goal is to construct coefficient rows $\vec{P}_u(T) \in \mathbb{Q}[T]^D$ and one matrix

$$C \in \{0, 1, -1\}^{c \times D}, \qquad c \leqslant \frac{D\tau}{3r},$$

such that

$$\langle \vec{P}_u(0), \vec{\zeta} \rangle = \zeta_u, \qquad \deg \vec{P}_u \leqslant R - 1,$$

and, at every $t \in [Q]$, the replacement linear form $\langle \vec{P}_u(t), \vec{\zeta} \rangle$ is a linear combination of the available data

$$\vec{\zeta}|_{\mathcal{S}_{t,d_u(t)}} \quad \text{and} \quad C\vec{\zeta}. \tag{2.13}$$

The same measurements $C\vec{\zeta}$ serve every row and every evaluation point. This is the auxiliary counterpart of the dependence condition in the design from Section 2.4.

Step 2: Construct the constant matrix.

We start from the identity

$$\zeta_u = ((I_D - M_0)\vec{\zeta})_u + \sum_{w \in \mathcal{B}} M_0[u, w]\zeta_w.$$

We want the first term to be determined by $C\vec{\zeta}$. In the sum, each nonzero coefficient should connect incompatible groups at only a few points, so that a low-degree polynomial can remove those dependencies. Define these points by

$$E_{u,w} = \{t \in [Q] : a_w(t) \neq d_u(t)\}.$$

The two requirements on $M_0 \in \mathbb{Q}^{D \times D}$ are

$$\begin{aligned} M_0\vec{\xi} = \vec{\xi} \quad &\text{for every } \vec{\xi} \in \ker C, \\ M_0[u, w] \neq 0 \quad &\Longrightarrow \quad |E_{u,w}| \leqslant R - 1. \end{aligned} \tag{2.14}$$

The first says that $I_D - M_0$ vanishes on $\ker C$. Equivalently, each of its rows lies in the row space of C, so $(I_D - M_0)\vec{\zeta}$ is a linear function of the measurements $C\vec{\zeta}$. The second will bound the degrees of the polynomials used in Step 3.

Restricting the support by keeping f low-degree. Let Π_s be the permutation matrix that swaps the two entries of pair s in every index, leaving all other pairs unchanged. These matrices commute and satisfy $\Pi_s^2 = I_D$. Put

$$V_0 = \prod_{s=1}^{Q} \Pi_s, \qquad W_0 = \frac{1}{2}\sum_{s=1}^{Q}(I_D - \Pi_s), \qquad M_0 = V_0 f(W_0),$$

where we will choose a polynomial f of degree at most $R-1$. The complete swap V_0 already respects every group: its nonzero entry in row u is at the column w satisfying

$$(a_w(s), d_w(s)) = (d_u(s), a_u(s)) \quad \text{for every } s.$$

In particular, $E_{u,w}$ is empty.

Multiplying by $f(W_0)$ can undo swaps, but the degree of f limits how many. Expanding $f(W_0)$ gives products of at most $R-1$ swaps. Repeated swaps cancel because $\Pi_s^2 = I_D$. Multiplying by V_0 therefore gives

$$M_0 = \sum_{\substack{S\subseteq[Q]\\ |S|\leqslant R-1}} \gamma_S \prod_{s\notin S} \Pi_s \qquad \text{for some } \gamma_S \in \mathbb{Q}. \tag{2.15}$$

The permutation in the summand indexed by S swaps every pair outside S. Its nonzero entries therefore satisfy $a_w(s) = d_u(s)$ for every $s \notin S$, so $E_{u,w} \subseteq S$. Every summand is zero whenever $|E_{u,w}| > R-1$, and hence so is their sum. This proves the second condition in (2.14) for any polynomial f of degree at most $R-1$.

Choosing f to fix most basis directions. We now choose f so that M_0 fixes most basis directions. First consider one position, with coordinates indexed by $[r]\times[r]$. Let $\vec{e}_{ab}$ be the vector that is one at (a,b) and zero elsewhere. Swapping the pair has the orthogonal eigenbasis

$$\begin{array}{lll} \vec{e}_{aa} \quad (a\in[r]), & \vec{e}_{ab}+\vec{e}_{ba} \quad (a<b), & \text{eigenvalue } +1,\\ \vec{e}_{ab}-\vec{e}_{ba} \quad (a<b), & & \text{eigenvalue } -1. \end{array}$$

There are $r(r+1)/2$ vectors with eigenvalue $+1$ and $r(r-1)/2$ with eigenvalue -1. All entries are in $\{0,1,-1\}$.

For each position $s\in[Q]$, choose one such vector $\vec{\psi}_s$, and define $\vec{\psi}\in\mathbb{Q}^{\mathcal{B}}$ coordinatewise by

$$\psi_u = \prod_{s=1}^{Q} \psi_s(a_u(s), d_u(s)).$$

These $D = (r^2)^Q$ choices give an orthogonal basis: inner products factor into the inner products at the Q positions. The swap Π_s acts on $\vec{\psi}$ by the eigenvalue of $\vec{\psi}_s$. If exactly j of the choices have eigenvalue -1, then

$$W_0\vec{\psi} = j\vec{\psi}, \qquad V_0\vec{\psi} = (-1)^j\vec{\psi}, \qquad M_0\vec{\psi} = (-1)^j f(j)\vec{\psi}.$$

Thus we make M_0 fix these vectors by setting $f(j) = (-1)^j$.

For a uniformly chosen basis vector, the number j has distribution

$$W \sim \mathrm{Bin}(Q,p), \qquad p = \frac{r-1}{2r},$$

because at each position a fraction p of the r^2 choices have eigenvalue -1. Most basis vectors therefore have j near Qp. Choose an interval $\mathcal{I}$ of R consecutive integers near Qp, and interpolate $f(j) = (-1)^j$ for $j\in\mathcal{I}$. This gives $\deg f \leqslant R-1$ and makes M_0 fix every basis vector with $j\in\mathcal{I}$. Step 5 specifies the endpoints and checks that the interval lies in $\{0,\dots,Q\}$.

Measuring the exceptional directions. Use the transposes of the remaining basis vectors as the rows of C. Their entries are in $\{0,1,-1\}$, and by orthogonality, $\ker C$ is spanned by the basis vectors fixed above. This proves the first condition in (2.14).

We can now see how to choose R. The standard deviation of W is $\sqrt{Qp(1-p)} = \Theta(\sqrt{Q})$. Taking R much larger than $\sqrt{Q}$ puts most basis vectors inside the interval, so only a small fraction need to be measured. We can still take R much smaller than Q, so that Taylor recovery needs only $1 + \lfloor 3nR/Q \rfloor = o(n)$ coefficients per point. For the choices in Step 5, the binomial tail bound gives

$$c = D \Pr[W \notin \mathcal{I}] \leqslant 2D \exp\left(-\frac{R^2}{8Q}\right) \leqslant \frac{D\tau}{3r},$$

as required. Thus low degree gives restricted support, while interpolation makes the correction $I_D - M_0$ depend on only these few measurements.

Step 3: Define the auxiliary replacement rows.

We now turn the decomposition of ζ_u from Step 2 into its replacement. Keep the term determined by measurements unchanged. For each $M_0[u, w] \neq 0$, multiply its coefficient in the other term by

$$\varphi_{u,w}(T) = \prod_{s \in E_{u,w}} (1 - T/s).$$

This polynomial equals one at zero and vanishes at every point where ζ_w lies outside the assigned group. Define the coefficient row $\vec{P}_u(T)$ by the identity

$$\langle \vec{P}_u(T), \vec{\zeta} \rangle = ((I_D - M_0)\vec{\zeta})_u + \sum_{\substack{w \in \mathcal{B} \\ M_0[u,w] \neq 0}} M_0[u, w]\varphi_{u,w}(T)\zeta_w. \tag{2.16}$$

This directly gives all three required properties:

- At $T = 0$, every multiplier is one, so the two terms sum to ζ_u.
- Each multiplier has degree $|E_{u,w}| \leqslant R - 1$, so $\deg \vec{P}_u \leqslant R - 1$.
- At $T = t$, the first term is a linear function of $C\vec{\zeta}$. In the sum, a coefficient can survive only if $a_w(t) = d_u(t)$, so only coordinates in $\mathcal{S}_{t,d_u(t)}$ remain.

Thus the replacement uses exactly the kinds of data allowed in (2.13).

Step 4: Substitute the original variables.

The auxiliary rows are now constructed. To use them for the formula, choose schedules

$$a_v \in [r]^Q \quad (v \in [n]), \qquad d_e \in [r]^Q \quad (e \in \mathcal{F}).$$

At point t, put variable v in group $a_v(t)$ and assign clause e to group $d_e(t)$:

$$S_{t,g} = \{v : a_v(t) = g\}, \qquad \sigma_e(t) = d_e(t).$$

The occurrence (e, v) uses the auxiliary label

$$u(e, v) = \big((a_v(s), d_e(s))\big)_{s \in [Q]} \in \mathcal{B}.$$

Let h be the largest number of occurrences receiving any one label. We need both small variable groups and small h. For our three-occurrence, width-three formula, Lemma 4.5 chooses the schedules deterministically in polynomial time so that

$$|S_{t,g}| \leqslant 2n/r, \qquad h \leqslant 2M/D,$$

provided

$$12D^2 \leqslant M, \qquad 2Qr^2 \leqslant n. \tag{2.17}$$

The idea is to derandomize a random choice of schedules. If all a_v and d_e are chosen independently and uniformly from $[r]^Q$, each label has expected multiplicity M/D, and each group $S_{t,g}$ has expected size n/r. Under the assumptions in (2.17), the standard method of conditional expectations derandomizes this choice in polynomial time, ensuring that every label has multiplicity at most $2M/D$ and every group has size at most $2n/r$. Step 5 verifies these assumptions for our parameter choices.

Different occurrences can receive the same label while requiring different original variables at that coordinate. Use h copies of $\mathcal{B}$, placing occurrences with the same label in different copies. Let $j(e,v) \in [h]$ denote the copy used by (e,v); put X_v at its coordinate $u(e,v)$ and zero in unused positions. Write $\vec{\zeta}^{(j)}(\vec{X})$ for the resulting filled vector in copy j. Every entry is zero or an original variable. Repeated appearances of X_v use the same value, so these copies introduce no new Boolean variables.

Apply the auxiliary row to the copy containing the occurrence:

$$\langle \vec{P}_{e,v}(T), \vec{X} \rangle = \left\langle \vec{P}_{u(e,v)}(T), \vec{\zeta}^{(j(e,v))}(\vec{X}) \right\rangle. \tag{2.18}$$

At zero the right side reads the coordinate containing X_v, and substituting variables preserves the degree bound $R-1$. At point t, its freely used coordinates contain only variables v' with $a_{v'}(t) = d_e(t)$. These are precisely the variables in the clause's assigned group $S_{t,d_e(t)}$. All occurrences of clause e use this same assigned group.

The remaining dependence is through the hc linear measurements $C\vec{\zeta}^{(j)}(\vec{X})$, over the h copies. These may involve several original groups. Fixing a total such as $x_1 + x_2$ would still couple two groups containing x_1 and x_2. We therefore split each measurement into its contributions from individual groups. For each measurement $\ell(\vec{X})$, write

$$\ell(\vec{X}) = \sum_{g=1}^{r} \ell|_{S_{t,g}}(\vec{X}|_{S_{t,g}}),$$

and collect the coefficient rows of these restrictions into $C_{t,g}$. Every auxiliary measurement is now a sum of group measurements. For a clause assigned to group g, the part from $S_{t,g}$ is a local linear form, and every other part is a linear combination of the corresponding group's measurements. This is the condition in (2.5).

There are rhc rows in total. Since $hD \leqslant 2M \leqslant 6n$,

$$\sum_{g=1}^{r} c_{t,g} = rhc \leqslant rh\frac{D\tau}{3r} \leqslant 2\tau n.$$

Each row of C has D entries in $\{0, 1, -1\}$. Substituting variables, combining repeated copies, and restricting to a group cannot increase the sum of absolute coefficients. Hence every row of $C_{t,g}$ is integral with absolute coefficient sum at most D. Together with the group-size bound, this proves that the replacement forms admit an (r, τ, D)-design at every point.

Step 5: Verify the promised parameter bounds.

The construction needs the two balancing inequalities (2.17) and the tail bound $2e^{-R^2/(8Q)} \leqslant \tau/(3r)$. We now choose parameters of the orders stated in (2.10) and verify these requirements.

Put $\lambda = \lceil \log_2 n \rceil$ and $\nu = \lceil \log_2 \lambda \rceil$, and choose

$$\begin{aligned} r &= \left\lfloor \frac{\sqrt{\lambda}}{\nu^2} \right\rfloor, \quad Q = \left\lfloor \frac{\lambda}{128\nu} \right\rfloor, \quad R = 4\lceil \sqrt{\lambda} \rceil, \\ \tau &= \frac{1}{r\lambda}, \qquad D = r^{2Q}. \end{aligned} \tag{2.19}$$

These have the orders stated in (2.10). For sufficiently large n, we have $r \geqslant 2$, $R \geqslant 32$, and $6R \leqslant Q$, since $R/Q = O(\nu/\sqrt{\lambda}) \to 0$. We check the remaining requirements in turn:

- *Interpolation interval.* With $p = (r-1)/(2r)$ as in Step 2, take

$$A_0 = \left\lfloor Qp - \frac{R-1}{2} \right\rfloor, \qquad \mathcal{I} = \{A_0, \ldots, A_0 + R - 1\}.$$

Since $Q/4 \leqslant Qp \leqslant Q/2$ and $6R \leqslant Q$, this interval lies in $\{0, \dots, Q\}$. Moreover, $R \geqslant 32$ ensures that it contains every integer within $R/4$ of Qp. The binomial tail bound therefore gives the estimate $\Pr[W \notin \mathcal{I}] \leqslant 2e^{-R^2/(8Q)}$ used in Step 2.

- *Polynomial dimension and balanced schedules.* Since $\log_2 r \leqslant \nu/2$,

$$\log_2 D = 2Q \log_2 r \leqslant \lambda/128, \qquad D \leqslant (2n)^{1/128}.$$

For sufficiently large n, this gives

$$12D^2 \leqslant 12(2n)^{1/64} \leqslant n \leqslant M, \qquad 2Qr^2 = O(\lambda^2) \leqslant n,$$

as required for Step 4.

- *Few measurements.* We have $R^2/(8Q) \geqslant 256\nu$. Since $\lambda \leqslant 2^\nu$ and $r^2 \leqslant \lambda$,

$$2e^{-R^2/(8Q)} \leqslant 2e^{-256\nu} \leqslant \frac{1}{3\lambda^2} \leqslant \frac{1}{3r^2\lambda} = \frac{\tau}{3r}.$$

Thus Step 2 supplies the auxiliary measurement bound used in Step 4.

Finally, all construction dimensions are polynomially bounded in n. Lemma 4.6 gives polynomial construction time for the matrices and rows in Steps 2–3, and Lemma 4.5 does so for the schedules in Step 4. The transfer uses only $hD \leqslant 6n$ coordinate positions. We have therefore constructed, in polynomial time, replacement forms that restore every original input at zero, have degree at most $R - 1 \leqslant R$, and admit the promised (r, τ, D)-designs at every $t \in [Q]$. This supplies the bounds used in Section 2.6; Lemma 4.8 records the parameter check for the more general setting of the full proof.

2.8. **A weaker algorithm for general #k-SAT.** The algorithm above already gives a subexponential algorithm for general #k-SAT: after disjoint sparsification, we reduce each instance directly to a 3-CNF in which every variable occurs at most three times. Both steps preserve the count, as follows.

Fix $k \geqslant 2$. We use the counting-preserving version [DHM+14, Appendix A] of sparsification [IPZ01], with quantitative bounds from [CIP06, Section 6] and [Cal09, Lemma 5.14 and equation (5.4)]. As recorded in Lemma 6.3, this expresses the input count as the sum of the counts of at most $\mathrm{poly}_k(n, \sigma^{-1})2^{\sigma n}$ formulas G. Each G has the same n declared variables, with at most

$$B = O_k\Big((\sigma^{-1} \log(2/\sigma))^{k-1}\Big)$$

occurrences per variable, and hence at most Bn nonempty clauses. An empty clause gives count zero immediately.

First turn G into a 3-CNF without changing its count. Keep clauses of size at most three. For each longer clause, compute its disjunction with binary OR gates and require the final output to be one. For a gate $z = u \vee v$, impose

$$(\neg u \vee z) \ \wedge \ (\neg v \vee z) \ \wedge \ (u \vee v \vee \neg z).$$

Here u, v are input literals or earlier gate outputs, and z is fresh. These clauses enforce equality with the OR, so the gate values are uniquely determined by the original assignment. Consequently, a satisfying assignment of G has exactly one extension to the new formula, and an assignment not satisfying G has none. This uses $O(k)$ gates per clause.

Next reduce the occurrences. If a variable x occurs $s \geqslant 2$ times in this 3-CNF, replace its occurrences by distinct copies $x_1, \dots, x_s$, preserving their signs, and add Tovey's implication cycle [Tov84, p. 86]:

$$(\neg x_1 \vee x_2) \ \wedge \cdots \wedge \ (\neg x_{s-1} \vee x_s) \ \wedge \ (\neg x_s \vee x_1).$$

The cycle forces all copies to agree. Each copy appears in one clause inherited from the 3-CNF and two cycle clauses, hence in exactly three clauses. Variables with at most one occurrence are kept unchanged, including unused declared variables. This standard variable-copy reduction [Gol08,

Proposition 4.7] therefore also gives a bijection between satisfying assignments. The final formula $\widehat{G}$ has $\#\widehat{G} = \#G$ and

$$n \leqslant N := \#\{\text{variables of } \widehat{G}\} = O_k(Bn).$$

All its clauses have size at most three, including the two-literal cycle clauses, and every variable occurs at most three times. Thus it is exactly an instance of the setting of this overview.

Apply (2.12) to each $\widehat{G}$ and add the counts. When σ^{-1} is bounded by a fixed power of $\log n$, so is B, and the resulting time is

$$(n+m)^{O_k(1)} 2^{O_k\left(\sigma n + Bn(\log\log n)^2/\sqrt{\log n}\right)}.$$

For example, choosing σ within a constant factor of $(\log n)^{-1/(2k)}$ yields

$$(n+m)^{O_k(1)} 2^{O_k\left(n(\log\log n)^{k+1}/(\log n)^{1/(2k)}\right)} = (n+m)^{O_k(1)} 2^{o(n)}$$

with polynomial space, processing the sparsification tree and the reduced instances one at a time. The parameter σ may be chosen rational.

2.9. **A faster algorithm for $\#k$-SAT via counting solutions to sparse low-degree polynomial equations over $\mathbb{F}_2$.** The running-time exponent in Section 2.8 is $O_k(\sigma n + B\rho(n))$, where $\rho(n) = n(\log\log n)^2/\sqrt{\log n}$. If sparsification gave $B = O_k(1)$ at $\sigma = \Theta(\rho(n)/n)$, we would already have a $2^{O_k(\rho(n))}$-time algorithm for general $\#k$-SAT up to polynomial factors: copying would use only $O_k(n)$ variables per leaf, and the number of leaves would fit within the same bound. At this choice of σ, however, the guarantee is only $B = (\log n)^{O_k(1)}$.

We obtain the $2^{O_k(\rho(n))}$ bound in two steps. First, the counting algorithm of this overview extends to systems of $O(n)$ polynomial equations over $\mathbb{F}_2$, each of degree at most k with polylogarithmically many monomials (Theorem 2.2). Second, even if a leaf G has Bn clauses, we can construct such a system on the original n variables whose common zeros are exactly the satisfying assignments of G. We illustrate the reduction first with a self-contained randomized construction, then explain the counting algorithm.

A randomized reduction to sparse polynomial equations. Write $v_e(x) = 1$ if x violates clause e, and 0 otherwise. A *parity test* on a set S of clauses is the polynomial equation $\sum_{e\in S} v_e(x) = 0$ over $\mathbb{F}_2$: it accepts if x violates an even number of clauses in S. Every satisfying assignment passes, so we need only catch every nonsatisfying one. If G has $m_G \leqslant n$ clauses, one test per clause suffices. Suppose $m_G > n$.

A short test can easily miss a single violated clause, but all assignments that violate only that clause give identical answers. Thus there are only m_G singleton patterns to catch. Use $8n$ independent tests. For each, draw $L = 2B\lceil \log_2(2m_G)\rceil$ clauses uniformly with replacement. For each draw, independently add its violation bit to the parity sum with probability $1/2$; two included copies cancel. Since $m_G \leqslant Bn$, each clause is drawn at least logarithmically often in expectation overall. For a fixed set of $w \geqslant 1$ violated clauses, let $u = Lw/m_G$ be the expected number of hits per test. If the sample hits the set, the coin on the first hit makes the parity odd with probability $1/2$, even with all other coins fixed. Thus the rejection probability is

$$p_w = \tfrac{1}{2}\big(1 - (1 - w/m_G)^L\big) \geqslant \tfrac{1}{2}(1 - e^{-u}).$$

We count *sets* for few violations and *assignments* for many:

- If $u \leqslant 1$, then $p_w \geqslant u/4$. There are at most m_G^w sets of size w, so the chance that at least one escapes all tests is at most $m_G^w e^{-8np_w} \leqslant m_G^w e^{-2nLw/m_G} \leqslant 16^{-w}$. Summing over $w \geqslant 1$ gives failure probability at most $1/15$.
- If $u > 1$, then $p_w > 1/4$. A union bound over the 2^n assignments bounds the chance that any assignment in this case escapes by $2^n(3/4)^{8n} < 1/4$.

Thus with probability greater than 2/3, the common zeros are exactly the satisfying assignments of G. Each v_e is a product of at most k factors of the form x_j or $1 + x_j$, so each test has degree at most k and at most $2^k L$ monomials, polylogarithmic in n. Section 6 constructs short tests with the same solution set deterministically. We first use parity checks from an expander code to ensure that any nonsatisfying assignment still passing must violate many clauses. A random short test then catches each such assignment with probability at least 1/4. For each candidate test, we count the assignments that pass both that test and all tests chosen so far. We append a candidate that minimizes this count: every satisfying assignment passes every candidate, so this eliminates at least a quarter of the remaining nonsatisfying assignments.

Counting the common zeros. Recall from Section 2.2 that $\Phi_e(x)$ is 1 if x satisfies clause e and 0 otherwise. What should replace this factor when we test a whole set S_i of clauses at once? First count how many clauses in *this test* are violated, using ordinary integer addition:

$$L_i(x) = \sum_{e \in S_i} v_e(x) = \sum_{e \in S_i} \big(1 - \Phi_e(x)\big).$$

The test passes exactly when $L_i(x)$ is even. Choose $\ell = n + 1$, so that a count of at most 2^n is determined by its residue modulo 2^ℓ. The complemented Beigel–Tarui polynomial p_ℓ (Lemma 5.1) is 1 modulo 2^ℓ on even integers and 0 on odd integers. For example, violating two clauses in S_i still passes the test: $p_\ell(2) \equiv 1 \pmod{2^\ell}$. Writing m_{test} for the number of tests, our counting expression becomes

$$\underbrace{\sum_x \prod_{e \in G} \Phi_e(x)}_{\text{one factor per clause}} \quad \longrightarrow \quad \underbrace{\sum_x \prod_{i=1}^{m_{\text{test}}} p_\ell(L_i(x))}_{\text{one factor per test}}.$$

The left side is $\#G$. The least nonnegative residue of the right side modulo 2^ℓ is the number of assignments passing every test. When the tests catch every nonsatisfying assignment, this is exactly $\#G$. The same encoding works for any sparse polynomial equation $P_i(x) = 0$ over $\mathbb{F}_2$: take $L_i(x)$ to be the integer sum of its listed monomials. Again the equation holds exactly when this sum is even.

To reuse the Taylor step, we need a product of input degree $O(n)$. Multiplying the m_{test} test factors directly gives only the bound $O(k m_{\text{test}} \ell)$, potentially quadratic in n. The key is to truncate the product *across all tests together*. Section 5.1 writes $p_\ell(y)$ as a sum of terms $e_j(y)h(y)^j$, where e_j has degree at most one and $h(y) = y(y-1)$ is even at every integer. A product term containing ℓ or more copies of h is therefore zero modulo 2^ℓ on Boolean assignments, even if those copies come from different tests. We keep just the terms with fewer than ℓ copies in total, tracking that number as we multiply. Each retained term has at most m_{test} linear factors and $\ell - 1$ quadratic factors in the L_i's. Since $\deg L_i \leqslant k$, its input degree is at most $k(m_{\text{test}} + 2(\ell - 1)) = O(n)$.

For the replacement forms, what matters is which variables each factor reads. Where Section 2.3 used one form for each variable in a clause, we now use one for each variable in a test, reusing it throughout that test. Each sparse equation reads only polylogarithmically many variables. Branching on the values of the $O(n/\sqrt{\log n})$ most frequent variables leaves each remaining variable in only polylogarithmically many tests, as required by Section 4. On each branch, fixing the shared measurements again lets us sum one group at a time. Because the truncated product has input degree $O(n)$, the degree-R replacements give $\deg_T H = O(nR)$: the same $O(1 + nR/Q)$ Taylor coefficients per point recover the contributions at $T = 0$ with $0, 1, \ldots, \ell - 1$ copies of h. Their sum modulo 2^ℓ, taken as the least nonnegative residue, is the exact branch count. Adding the branch counts gives the number of common zeros.

Theorem 2.2 (Counting common zeros of sparse polynomials)**.** *Fix integers $k \geqslant 2$ and $c \geqslant 1$. Let $P_1, \ldots, P_{m_{\text{test}}}$ be polynomials over $\mathbb{F}_2$ in $n \geqslant 20$ Boolean variables, with $m_{\text{test}} \leqslant cn$. Each P_i is given*

as a list of at most $(\log n)^c$ *monomials of degree at most* k*. The exact number of common zeros in* $\{0,1\}^n$ *can be computed deterministically in* $2^{O_{k,c}(n(\log\log n)^2/\sqrt{\log n})}$ *bit operations and* $n^{O_{k,c}(1)}$ *space.*

Sections 3 and 4 supply the counting routine and the replacement forms; Section 5 uses them to prove the theorem directly for polynomial equations.

For the final system constructed for G, the number of common zeros is $\#G$. Section 6 uses only $2^{(\log n)^{O_k(1)}}$ calls to the counter per leaf, which preserves the running-time exponent in Theorem 2.2. Finally, choosing σ of order $(\log\log n)^2/\sqrt{\log n}$ in Section 6.4 keeps B polylogarithmic and the number of leaves within $2^{O_k(n(\log\log n)^2/\sqrt{\log n})}$. Their satisfying assignments are disjoint, so adding their counts gives the bound in Proposition 6.4.

3. A fast counting algorithm via shared linear summaries

Sections 3–5 prove Theorem 2.2. We begin with the sum from Section 2.2: for each Boolean assignment, multiply the factors, then add the products over all assignments. Here the factors can be any rational polynomials. We show how to compute the sum when the replacement forms and measurements are given. Section 4 constructs them using only the variables read by each factor. Section 5 supplies one factor per sparse polynomial equation.

3.1. **Polynomial factors and the value to recover.** Let $\mathcal{F}$ index the factors, and let $I_f \subseteq [n]$ be the variables read by Φ_f. With rational coefficients our target is

$$Z = \sum_{x\in\{0,1\}^n} \prod_{f\in\mathcal{F}} \Phi_f((x_v)_{v\in I_f}). \tag{3.1}$$

For clause satisfaction indicators, Z is the number of satisfying assignments. The proof also works with coefficients in any commutative $\mathbb{Q}$-algebra $\mathcal{A}$: sums and products then take place in $\mathcal{A}$, and interpolation uses only rational scalars. Readers may take $\mathcal{A} = \mathbb{Q}$ throughout this section.

Different factors may use different replacements for the same variable. Give each incidence (f, v) its own indeterminate $Y_{f,v}$ and suppose

$$\deg_{\{Y_{f,v}\}}\left(\prod_{f\in\mathcal{F}} \Phi_f((Y_{f,v})_{v\in I_f})\right) \leqslant d. \tag{3.2}$$

This is the degree of the whole product computed over $\mathcal{A}$. Choose replacement rows $\vec{P}_{f,v}(T)$ of degree at most R with $\vec{P}_{f,v}(0) = \delta_v$, and form

$$H(T) = \sum_{x\in\{0,1\}^n} \prod_{f\in\mathcal{F}} \Phi_f\big((\langle \vec{P}_{f,v}(T), x\rangle)_{v\in I_f}\big) \in \mathcal{A}[T]. \tag{3.3}$$

The replacements restore the inputs at zero and multiply the degree by at most R. Thus $H(0) = Z$ and $\deg_T H \leqslant d_H := dR$. Our application will have $d = O(n)$, as in the bounded-occurrence example.

3.2. **The required rows, partitions, and measurements.** We use the same design as in Section 2.4, with a group assignment for each factor in place of each clause. The final condition below records the coefficient bound needed for exact arithmetic. Here $\widetilde{\xi}$ denotes extension by zero from a group to all n coordinates.

Definition 3.1. For the factor scopes $(I_f)_{f\in\mathcal{F}}$, let $r \geqslant 2$, $D \geqslant 1$, and $1 \leqslant R < Q$ be integers, and let $0 < \tau \leqslant 1/2$. We require the following data and properties.

(1) For each $t \in [Q]$, a partition $[n] = S_{t,1} \sqcup \cdots \sqcup S_{t,r}$, allowing empty parts, with $|S_{t,g}| \leqslant 2n/r$.
(2) For every factor $f \in \mathcal{F}$, a sequence $\sigma_f \in [r]^Q$. The value $\sigma_f(t)$ assigns factor f to a group at point t.

(3) For every $t \in [Q]$ and $g \in [r]$, an integer matrix $C_{t,g} \in \mathbb{Z}^{[c_{t,g}]\times S_{t,g}}$, where $c_{t,g}$ is a nonnegative integer. Each row has sum of absolute values at most D, and

$$\sum_{g=1}^{r} c_{t,g} \leqslant 2\tau n.$$

For an assignment x, the entries of $C_{t,g}(x|_{S_{t,g}})$ are the measurements on group g.

(4) For every $f \in \mathcal{F}$ and $v \in I_f$, a row $\vec{P}_{f,v}(T) \in \mathbb{Q}[T]^{1\times n}$ with $\vec{P}_{f,v}(0) = \delta_v$ and $\deg \vec{P}_{f,v} \leqslant R$. For every $t \in [Q]$, $g \in [r] \setminus \{\sigma_f(t)\}$, and $\xi \in \mathbb{Q}^{S_{t,g}}$, require

$$C_{t,g}\xi = \vec{0} \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \langle \vec{P}_{f,v}(t), \widetilde{\xi}\rangle = 0,$$

where $\widetilde{\xi} \in \mathbb{Q}^n$ is the extension of ξ by zero.

(5) With $d_{\mathrm{den}} = (R-1)!Q!$, every coefficient of $d_{\mathrm{den}}\vec{P}_{f,v}$ is an integer with $O(Q\log Q + \log D)$ bits, with an absolute implied constant.

To interpret the kernel condition, fix t, f, and $v \in I_f$, and put $g = \sigma_f(t)$. Write $x_h = x|_{S_{t,h}}$. If $x, x' \in \mathbb{Q}^n$ agree outside $S_{t,h}$ for some $h \neq g$ and satisfy $C_{t,h}x_h = C_{t,h}x'_h$, then $x'_h - x_h \in \ker C_{t,h}$. The condition gives

$$\langle \vec{P}_{f,v}(t), x'\rangle = \langle \vec{P}_{f,v}(t), x\rangle.$$

Applying this one group at a time shows that the tuple $(\langle \vec{P}_{f,v}(t), x\rangle)_{v\in I_f}$ is determined by x_g and $(C_{t,h}x_h)_{h\neq g}$. Fixing all the measurement vectors therefore makes the entire factor a function of x_g. This applies to every polynomial factor Φ_f, including factors with coefficients in $\mathcal{A}$.

Each measurement of a Boolean vector lies in $[-D, D] \cap \mathbb{Z}$. We bound the sum of absolute values of the matrix entries because the construction can place the same Boolean coordinate in several auxiliary positions. After those positions are identified, entries of $C_{t,g}$ need not belong to $\{0, 1, -1\}$. A rank bound alone would not control the number of possible measurements: the single row $(1, 2, 4, \ldots, 2^{n-1})$ distinguishes all 2^n Boolean vectors.

3.3. **Separating the sum by fixing measurements.** Fixing the measurements makes every factor depend on only its assigned group. The following lemma states the resulting calculation over a commutative ring, so it applies equally to rational-valued factors and to factors in $\mathcal{A}$. The restrictions $x_i = 1$ will be needed for Taylor coefficients and are local to individual groups.

Lemma 3.2. *Let $[n] = S_1 \sqcup \cdots \sqcup S_r$ be a partition, allowing empty parts. For each $g \in [r]$, let C_g be an integer matrix with c_g rows and columns indexed by S_g. Suppose each row has sum of absolute values at most an integer $D \geqslant 0$, and write $c = \sum_g c_g$. Let $\mathcal{A}$ be a commutative ring with identity, and let $A_g : \mathbb{Q}^n \to \mathcal{A}$ satisfy*

$$A_g(x + \xi) = A_g(x) \qquad (x \in \mathbb{Q}^n,\ \xi \in \ker C_h,\ h \neq g),$$

where ξ is extended by zero outside S_h. For any $E \subseteq [n]$, the sum

$$Z_E = \sum_{\substack{x\in\{0,1\}^n \\ x_i=1\ (i\in E)}} \prod_{g=1}^{r} A_g(x)$$

can be evaluated by examining at most

$$2(2D+1)^c \sum_{g=1}^{r} 2^{|S_g|}$$

Boolean vectors, with at most one A_g evaluation, $\mathrm{poly}(n, r, c, \log(D+2))$ additional bit operations, and $O(1)$ ring operations per vector. Apart from the evaluators' own storage and $O(1)$ ring elements, the procedure uses $\mathrm{poly}(n, r, c, \log(D+2))$ bits of space.

Proof. For $y_g \in \mathbb{Z}^{c_g}$, define

$$\mathcal{X}_g(y_g) = \{u \in \{0,1\}^{S_g} : C_g u = y_g\}, \qquad \mathcal{Y} = \prod_{g=1}^{r} \{-D, \dots, D\}^{c_g}.$$

Every tuple of measurements of a Boolean assignment belongs to $\mathcal{Y}$, and $|\mathcal{Y}| = (2D+1)^c$. We first identify the contribution of a fixed measurement tuple $\vec{y} = (y_1, \dots, y_r)$. If every $\mathcal{X}_g(y_g)$ is nonempty, let $\bar{x}_g \in \mathcal{X}_g(y_g)$ be a representative for each g, and put

$$\mathcal{X}_{g,E}(y_g) = \{u \in \mathcal{X}_g(y_g) : u_i = 1 \text{ for all } i \in E \cap S_g\}.$$

If $x_h \in \mathcal{X}_h(y_h)$ for every h, then $x_h - \bar{x}_h \in \ker C_h$. Applying the invariance hypothesis successively for $h \neq g$ gives

$$A_g\Big(\sum_{h=1}^{r} x_h\Big) = A_g\Big(x_g + \sum_{h \neq g} \bar{x}_h\Big).$$

The assignments with measurement tuple $\vec{y}$ and fixed bits indexed by E form $\prod_g \mathcal{X}_{g,E}(y_g)$. Define

$$\Sigma_g(\vec{y}) = \sum_{x_g \in \mathcal{X}_{g,E}(y_g)} A_g\Big(x_g + \sum_{h \neq g} \bar{x}_h\Big). \tag{3.4}$$

Distributivity shows that these assignments contribute $\prod_g \Sigma_g(\vec{y})$ to Z_E. If $\mathcal{X}_{g,E}(y_g)$ is empty, then $\Sigma_g(\vec{y}) = 0$. The representatives $\bar{x}_g$ themselves need not satisfy the fixed-bit conditions indexed by E. Every Boolean assignment has a unique measurement tuple, so

$$Z_E = \sum_{\vec{y} \in \mathcal{Y}} \prod_{g=1}^{r} \Sigma_g(\vec{y}),$$

where the product is taken to be zero if any $\mathcal{X}_g(y_g)$ is empty.

The algorithm evaluates this identity one measurement tuple at a time, starting with $Z = 0_{\mathcal{A}}$. For each $\vec{y} \in \mathcal{Y}$, a first scan of each $\{0,1\}^{S_g}$ finds a representative $\bar{x}_g \in \mathcal{X}_g(y_g)$; if any such set is empty, the algorithm skips this tuple. Otherwise it initializes $p = 1_{\mathcal{A}}$. To compute $\Sigma_g(\vec{y})$, it initializes $s = 0_{\mathcal{A}}$ and scans $u \in \{0,1\}^{S_g}$ again. Whenever

$$C_g u = y_g, \qquad u_i = 1 \quad (i \in E \cap S_g),$$

the algorithm performs the update

$$s \leftarrow s + A_g\Big(u + \sum_{h \neq g} \bar{x}_h\Big).$$

At the end of this scan, $s = \Sigma_g(\vec{y})$, and the algorithm sets $p \leftarrow ps$. After all groups, it sets $Z \leftarrow Z + p$. After all tuples $\vec{y}$ have been processed, $Z = Z_E$.

For each $\vec{y}$, the scan finding the representatives and the scan computing the $\Sigma_g(\vec{y})$ each examine at most $\sum_g 2^{|S_g|}$ Boolean vectors. This gives the stated bound. Checking a vector's measurements and fixed bits uses $\mathrm{poly}(n, r, c, \log(D+2))$ bit operations: each matrix row has sum of absolute values at most D, so its partial sums have $O(\log(D+2))$ bits. There is at most one factor evaluation per vector. The retained state is $\vec{y}$, $(\bar{x}_1, \dots, \bar{x}_r)$, g, u, s, p, and Z. The tuple $\vec{y}$ contains c integers in $[-D, D]$, the representatives contain n bits in total, and $s, p, Z \in \mathcal{A}$. □

To evaluate (3.3) at a fixed t, group the transformed factors by $\sigma_f(t)$ and apply the lemma in $\mathcal{A}$ with $E = \varnothing$. Definition 3.1 gives its invariance hypothesis, so the sum is $H(t)$. As in the overview, the two exponential costs are the measurement choices and the Boolean assignments in one group.

3.4. **Taylor coefficients from fixed Boolean substitutions.** The Q values $H(1),\dots,H(Q)$ need not determine H. Set

$$q=\left\lfloor \frac{d_H}{Q} \right\rfloor, \qquad J=q+1. \tag{3.5}$$

Since $QJ>d_H$, it suffices to compute

$$\mathcal{H}_t(z)=\sum_{j=0}^{J-1}([z^j]H(t+z))z^j \qquad (t\in[Q]). \tag{3.6}$$

Hermite interpolation recovers H, and hence $Z=H(0)$, from these QJ coefficients in $\mathcal{A}$. Indeed, the rational Hermite matrix for polynomials of degree less than QJ is invertible over $\mathbb{Q}$. Its inverse acts on elements of $\mathcal{A}$ by rational linear combinations.

Fix t. The replacement forms at $t+z$ need not respect the design at t. Write

$$\Delta\vec{P}_{f,v}(z)=\vec{P}_{f,v}(t+z)-\vec{P}_{f,v}(t).$$

Every entry is divisible by z. For fixed $x\in\mathbb{Q}^n$, introduce independent indeterminates $\vec{X}$ and replace each input by

$$\langle\vec{P}_{f,v}(t),x\rangle+\langle\Delta\vec{P}_{f,v}(z),\vec{X}\rangle. \tag{3.7}$$

Let

$$\mathcal{G}_x(\vec{X},z)=\prod_{f\in\mathcal{F}}\Phi_f\Big((\langle\vec{P}_{f,v}(t),x\rangle+\langle\Delta\vec{P}_{f,v}(z),\vec{X}\rangle)_{v\in I_f}\Big). \tag{3.8}$$

Setting $\vec{X}=x$ gives $\sum_x\mathcal{G}_x(x,z)=H(t+z)$. Holding $\vec{X}$ fixed instead makes every correction independent of x, so the design at t still separates the factors. Moreover, each occurrence of $\vec{X}$ carries a factor of z, giving

$$\deg_{\vec{X}}([z^j]\mathcal{G}_x(\vec{X},z))\leqslant j. \tag{3.9}$$

The next identity recovers the substitution $\vec{X}=x$ from fixed Boolean substitutions and restrictions on the assignments being summed.

Lemma 3.3. *Let $q\geqslant 0$ be an integer and let $\mathcal{A}$ be a commutative ring with identity. For each $x\in\{0,1\}^n$, let $p_x(X_1,\dots,X_n)$ be a polynomial over $\mathcal{A}$ of degree at most q. Then*

$$\sum_{x\in\{0,1\}^n}p_x(x)=\sum_{\substack{E\subseteq[n]\\|E|\leqslant q}}\sum_{U\subseteq E}(-1)^{|E|-|U|}\sum_{\substack{x\in\{0,1\}^n\\x_i=1\ (i\in E)}}p_x(\mathbf{1}_U). \tag{3.10}$$

Here $\mathbf{1}_U$ is the indicator vector of U.

Proof. For fixed x, we replace every positive power of X_i by X_i. This leaves Boolean evaluations unchanged and does not increase the degree. By Möbius inversion on subsets, the resulting multilinear polynomial has the expansion

$$\widetilde{p}_x(\vec{X})=\sum_{E\subseteq[n]}c_{x,E}\prod_{i\in E}X_i, \qquad c_{x,E}=\sum_{U\subseteq E}(-1)^{|E|-|U|}p_x(\mathbf{1}_U).$$

The degree bound gives $c_{x,E}=0$ whenever $|E|>q$. Setting $\vec{X}=x$ and summing over x now gives the claimed identity: the monomial $\prod_{i\in E}x_i$ selects exactly the assignments with $x_i=1$ for every $i\in E$. □

Apply Lemma 3.3 to $[z^j]\mathcal{G}_x$ over $\mathcal{A}$ for each $j<J$. All coefficients can use the same pairs $U\subseteq E$, $|E|\leqslant q$, so compute them together in

$$\mathcal{R}=\mathcal{A}[z]/(z^J).$$

For a fixed pair (E, U), let $\Phi_{f,U}(x; z)$ be factor f in (3.8) after setting $\vec{X} = \mathbf{1}_U$. Group these factors by their assignments:

$$A_{g,U}(x; z) = \prod_{f:\sigma_f(t)=g} \Phi_{f,U}(x; z). \tag{3.11}$$

Their product is $\mathcal{G}_x(\mathbf{1}_U, z)$. For $h \neq g$, changing x by a vector in $\ker C_{t,h}$ changes neither the original inputs of these factors nor their fixed corrections. Lemma 3.2 therefore computes the restricted sum with $x_i = 1$ for $i \in E$ by examining at most

$$2r(2D + 1)^{2\tau n} 2^{2n/r} \tag{3.12}$$

Boolean vectors. Combining all the pairs gives

$$H(t + z) \equiv \sum_{\substack{E\subseteq[n]\\ |E|\leqslant q}} \sum_{U\subseteq E} (-1)^{|E|-|U|} \sum_{\substack{x\in\{0,1\}^n\\ x_i=1\ (i\in E)}} \mathcal{G}_x(\mathbf{1}_U, z) \pmod{z^J}. \tag{3.13}$$

The group products and sums are formed in $\mathcal{R}$. The result is $\mathcal{H}_t(z)$; repeating at all t supplies the interpolation data. The algorithm never stores a polynomial in all n indeterminates: it sets $\vec{X} = \mathbf{1}_U$ first and stores only the J coefficients in $\mathcal{A}$.

3.5. **The three exponential costs.** For each $t \in [Q]$, the number of pairs $U \subseteq E \subseteq [n]$ with $|E| \leqslant q$ is

$$C_q = \sum_{s=0}^{\min(q,n)} 2^s \binom{n}{s}. \tag{3.14}$$

In particular, $C_0 = 1$ and $C_q = 3^n$ for $q \geqslant n$. For every $0 < \eta \leqslant 1$,

$$\eta^q C_q \leqslant \sum_{s=0}^{n} \binom{n}{s} (2\eta)^s = (1 + 2\eta)^n, \tag{3.15}$$

because $\eta^q \leqslant \eta^s$ for every retained index $s \leqslant q$.

Proposition 3.4 (Common counting routine)**.** *Let $\mathcal{A}$ be a commutative $\mathbb{Q}$-algebra. Suppose the product of the factors in (3.1), computed over $\mathcal{A}$, satisfies the degree bound (3.2), and that the replacement rows, partitions, and measurements satisfy Definition 3.1. With q, J as in (3.5), the routine computes Z by examining at most*

$$2Qr\, C_q (2D + 1)^{2\tau n} 2^{2n/r}$$

Boolean vectors. For each vector it evaluates at most $|\mathcal{F}|$ factors in $\mathcal{A}[z]/(z^J)$. The additional operations per vector and the final interpolation take polynomially many operations in $\mathcal{A}$ and over $\mathbb{Q}$, in the parameters $n, |\mathcal{F}|, D, Q, R, J, r$ and the total scope length. Apart from the factor evaluators' own storage, the routine retains only polynomially many algebra elements, rational numbers and index bits.

Proof. There are Q points, C_q pairs per point, and at most (3.12) Boolean vectors per pair. Forming each group product uses at most $|\mathcal{F}|$ factor evaluations. Addition and multiplication modulo z^J cost $O(J^2)$ operations on coefficients in $\mathcal{A}$. The preceding Taylor identity and interpolation prove correctness. Process the points, pairs, measurement tuples, and local assignments sequentially, retaining their current indices and accumulators. Together with the QJ interpolation coefficients, this gives the stated storage bound. Bit complexity additionally depends on the cost of evaluating the factors and on coefficient sizes; these are verified for the sparse polynomial application in Section 5.4. □

When $d = O(n)$, we have $d_H = O(nR)$ and $q = O(nR/Q)$. Taking $\eta = R/Q$ in (3.15) gives

$$\log C_q \leqslant q \log(Q/R) + n \log(1 + 2R/Q) = O\left(n \frac{R}{Q} \log \frac{2Q}{R} \right).$$

Consequently, if factor evaluation and coefficient arithmetic have polynomial bit cost, the running time is a polynomial factor times

$$2^{O\left(n\left[\frac{R}{Q}\log\frac{2Q}{R} + \tau\log(2D+1) + \frac{1}{r}\right]\right)}. \tag{3.16}$$

These are exactly the three costs from the overview. The parameter choice in Lemma 4.8 makes their sum $O((\log\log n)^2/\sqrt{\log n})$ when factor scopes and their maximum incidence are bounded by a fixed power of $\log n$. The routine also applies when d is larger; then one keeps the actual value $q = \lfloor dR/Q \rfloor$ in the bound of Proposition 3.4.

We have so far assumed that the design is supplied. The next section constructs it from the factor scopes. The remaining two sections use the resulting routine first to count the zeros of a supplied polynomial system and then to choose such a system for a formula.

4. Constructing low-degree replacement forms

The counting routine needs one replacement form for each pair (f, v) where factor f reads variable v. For the application in Section 5, f is a polynomial equation and its scope is the union of the variable sets of its monomials. This section uses only those scopes. We construct the rows $\vec{P}_{f,v}(T)$ and measurement matrices $C_{t,g}$ in Definition 3.1, together with the partitions $S_{t,g}$ and factor assignments σ_f. The main difficulty is to keep $\deg \vec{P}_{f,v} \leqslant R$ with R much smaller than Q. The degree bound for H grows linearly with R, so a small R/Q reduces the number of Taylor coefficients needed at each point. Choosing the rows independently at $T = 0, 1, \ldots, Q$ and interpolating would generally give degree Q. We instead construct their values at all these points together.

The construction first gives polynomial rows on a complete array of auxiliary coordinates. We then place each factor–variable pair in a copy of that array. Several positions can contain the same Boolean variable x_v; their values are always equal, and they do not become independent variables in the counting sum.

4.1. The auxiliary coordinates.

We first specify the larger coordinate set $\mathcal{B}$ on which the auxiliary rows $\vec{P}_u(T)$ will act, together with the incidence bounds needed to place the actual pairs (f, v) into copies of it. Let $(I_f)_{f\in\mathcal{F}}$ be the factor scopes, with $I_f \subseteq [n]$, and write

$$\begin{gathered} \mathcal{A} = \{(f, v) : f \in \mathcal{F},\ v \in I_f\}, \qquad M = |\mathcal{A}|, \\ |I_f| \leqslant w \quad (f \in \mathcal{F}), \qquad \#\{f : v \in I_f\} \leqslant b \quad (v \in [n]). \end{gathered} \tag{4.1}$$

Thus w bounds the number of variables in a factor's scope, and b bounds the number of factors containing one variable. The scope bound w need not bound the degree of the factor polynomial. A factor with empty scope is constant and needs no auxiliary position; assign such a factor to group one at every point. If necessary, adjoin a distinct constant-one factor with scope $\{v\}$ for every $v \in [n]$. This changes neither the product nor the count, and increases the maximum incidence by at most one. With b denoting the bound after this addition, we assume

$$n \geqslant 1, \qquad b, w \geqslant 1, \qquad n \leqslant M \leqslant bn.$$

Throughout this section, $r \geqslant 2$ and $1 \leqslant R < Q$ are integers and $0 < \tau \leqslant 1/2$.

At each point $t \in [Q]$, the variable x_v will belong to one group, while a factor containing v may be assigned to another. We will choose

$$a_v \in [r]^Q \quad (v \in [n]), \qquad d_f \in [r]^Q \quad (f \in \mathcal{F}),$$

where $a_v(t)$ specifies the group containing x_v and $d_f(t)$ specifies the group assigned to factor f. The position for (f, v) will have label (a_v, d_f). In particular, all positions containing x_v will have the same first sequence a_v.

Before choosing a_v and d_f, take the complete set of possible labels:

$$\mathcal{B} = ([r]^Q)^2, \qquad u = (a_u, d_u), \qquad D = |\mathcal{B}| = r^{2Q}. \tag{4.2}$$

An auxiliary vector $\zeta \in \mathbb{Q}^{\mathcal{B}}$ has one rational coordinate ζ_u for each pair u. The label u stays fixed as ζ varies. For $t \in [Q]$ and $g \in [r]$, define

$$S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g} = \{u \in \mathcal{B} : a_u(t) = g\}. \tag{4.3}$$

For fixed t, these sets partition $\mathcal{B}$ into r sets of size D/r.

For each $u \in \mathcal{B}$, we seek a polynomial row $\vec{P}_u(T) \in \mathbb{Q}[T]^{1\times\mathcal{B}}$ of degree at most $R-1$ with $\vec{P}_u(0) = \delta_u$. At $T = t$, the value $\langle \vec{P}_u(t), \zeta\rangle$ should be determined by

$$\zeta|_{S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,d_u(t)}} \quad \text{and} \quad C^{\mathcal{B}}\zeta,$$

where $C^{\mathcal{B}}$ is one integer matrix, independent of u, t, with entries in $\{0, 1, -1\}$ and few rows. Later, using $u_{f,v} = (a_v, d_f)$ will make every input of factor f use the group $d_f(t)$. The choices of a_v, d_f and the placement into copies are deferred to Sections 4.4 and 4.5, respectively.

4.2. **The matrices M_0 and $C^{\mathcal{B}}$.** To construct the rows $\vec{P}_u(T)$, we seek a matrix $M_0 \in \mathbb{Q}^{\mathcal{B}\times\mathcal{B}}$ that fixes $\ker C^{\mathcal{B}}$ and satisfies

$$M_0[u, y] \neq 0 \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \big|\{s \in [Q] : a_y(s) \neq d_u(s)\}\big| \leqslant R - 1. \tag{4.4}$$

The identity

$$\zeta_u = ((I - M_0)\zeta)_u + \sum_{y\in\mathcal{B}} M_0[u, y]\zeta_y \tag{4.5}$$

explains both requirements. If M_0 fixes $\ker C^{\mathcal{B}}$, the first term is determined by $C^{\mathcal{B}}\zeta$; we will leave it independent of T. In the sum, multiply each nonzero $M_0[u, y]$ by a polynomial that is one at zero and vanishes at every t with $a_y(t) \neq d_u(t)$. The bound (4.4) permits degree at most $R - 1$. At $T = t$, the sum will then use only the coordinates $y \in S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,d_u(t)}$.

For $s \in [Q]$, let $\vartheta_s : \mathcal{B} \to \mathcal{B}$ exchange the entries $a_u(s)$ and $d_u(s)$, leaving every other entry unchanged. Define its permutation matrix Π_s by

$$(\Pi_s\zeta)_u = \zeta_{\vartheta_s(u)}.$$

The exchanged pair $\vartheta_s(u)$ belongs to $\mathcal{B}$ because this set contains every pair of sequences in $[r]^Q$. The matrices Π_s commute and satisfy $\Pi_s^2 = I$. Their product

$$V_0 = \prod_{s=1}^{Q} \Pi_s$$

exchanges the complete sequences a_u and d_u. Thus $V_0[u, y] \neq 0$ implies $a_y(s) = d_u(s)$ for every s; it satisfies (4.4) with no mismatches. We will modify V_0 so that the resulting matrix also fixes the kernel of a short list of integer measurements.

Define

$$W_0 = \frac{1}{2}\sum_{s=1}^{Q}(I - \Pi_s). \tag{4.6}$$

On a common eigenvector ψ of the Π_s, let j be the number of indices s for which $\Pi_s\psi = -\psi$. Then

$$W_0\psi = j\psi, \qquad V_0\psi = (-1)^j\psi, \qquad V_0 p(W_0)\psi = (-1)^j p(j)\psi$$

for every polynomial p. Therefore $V_0 p(W_0)$ fixes ψ whenever $p(j) = (-1)^j$. We will construct an explicit common eigenbasis in which the proportion of vectors with a given j is $\Pr[W = j]$ for $W \sim \mathrm{Bin}(Q, (r-1)/(2r))$.

For an interval $\mathcal{I} = \{A_0, \dots, A_0 + R - 1\} \subseteq \{0, \dots, Q\}$, we can enforce the equalities $f_{\mathcal{I}}(j) = (-1)^j$ for $j \in \mathcal{I}$ with a polynomial of degree at most $R-1$. We use the explicit interpolation formula

$$f_{\mathcal{I}}(z) = (-1)^{A_0} \sum_{j=0}^{R-1} (-2)^j \binom{z - A_0}{j}, \qquad M_0 = V_0 f_{\mathcal{I}}(W_0), \tag{4.7}$$

where

$$\binom{z - A_0}{j} = \frac{1}{j!} \prod_{a=0}^{j-1} (z - A_0 - a)$$

and the empty product is one. For $0 \leqslant q < R$, the binomial theorem gives $f_{\mathcal{I}}(A_0 + q) = (-1)^{A_0}(1-2)^q = (-1)^{A_0+q}$.

Lemma 4.1. *For $\mathcal{B}$, $\mathcal{I}$ and M_0 as above, there is a matrix $C^{\mathcal{B}} \in \{0, 1, -1\}^{[c_{\mathcal{B}}] \times \mathcal{B}}$ such that*

$$c_{\mathcal{B}} \leqslant D \Pr[W \notin \mathcal{I}], \qquad W \sim \mathrm{Bin}\left(Q, \frac{r-1}{2r}\right),$$

and $M_0 \xi = \xi$ for every $\xi \in \ker C^{\mathcal{B}}$.

Proof. For $(\alpha, \delta) \in [r]^2$, let $e_{\alpha\delta}$ be the indicator function of that ordered pair. Exchanging its two entries has the orthogonal eigenbasis

$$e_{\alpha\alpha} \quad (\alpha \in [r]), \qquad e_{\alpha\delta} + e_{\delta\alpha}, \quad e_{\alpha\delta} - e_{\delta\alpha} \quad (1 \leqslant \alpha < \delta \leqslant r).$$

The first two types have eigenvalue $+1$, and the third has eigenvalue -1. There are $r(r+1)/2$ vectors with eigenvalue $+1$ and $r(r-1)/2$ with eigenvalue -1.

For each $s \in [Q]$, choose one of these functions $\psi_s : [r]^2 \to \{0, 1, -1\}$, and define

$$\psi(u) = \prod_{s=1}^{Q} \psi_s(a_u(s), d_u(s)) \qquad (u \in \mathcal{B}).$$

The $D = r^{2Q}$ choices give nonzero orthogonal vectors: their inner products factor into the inner products of the functions ψ_s. They form a basis of $\mathbb{Q}^{\mathcal{B}}$ with entries in $\{0, 1, -1\}$. If exactly j of the chosen ψ_s have eigenvalue -1, then $W_0 \psi = j\psi$ and $V_0 \psi = (-1)^j \psi$. Hence M_0 fixes ψ whenever $j \in \mathcal{I}$.

To make $\ker C^{\mathcal{B}}$ a space fixed by M_0, we define the rows of $C^{\mathcal{B}}$ to be the transposes of the basis vectors with $j \notin \mathcal{I}$. A fraction $(r-1)/(2r)$ of the choices at each position have eigenvalue -1, independently across positions. The fraction of the D basis vectors retained as rows is therefore $\Pr[W \notin \mathcal{I}]$, proving the row bound. If $C^{\mathcal{B}} \xi = \vec{0}$, then ξ is orthogonal to every retained basis vector. It is a linear combination of the basis vectors with $j \in \mathcal{I}$, all of which M_0 fixes. □

For a bound $\epsilon > 0$, the condition

$$\Pr\left[\mathrm{Bin}\left(Q, \frac{r-1}{2r}\right) \notin \mathcal{I}\right] \leqslant \epsilon \tag{4.8}$$

thus gives $c_{\mathcal{B}} \leqslant \epsilon D$. After placing the factor inputs, we will use $\epsilon = \tau/(rb)$. We next prove the other requirement on M_0.

Lemma 4.2. *For all $u, y \in \mathcal{B}$, if $M_0[u, y] \neq 0$, then*

$$\left|\{s \in [Q] : a_y(s) \neq d_u(s)\}\right| \leqslant R - 1.$$

Proof. Expand $f_{\mathcal{I}}(W_0)$ in the commuting matrices Π_s. Since $\deg f_{\mathcal{I}} \leqslant R-1$ and $\Pi_s^2 = I$, each resulting monomial is a scalar multiple of $\prod_{s\in J}\Pi_s$ for some $J \subseteq [Q]$ with $|J| \leqslant R-1$. Multiplication by V_0 gives

$$V_0 \prod_{s\in J}\Pi_s = \prod_{s\notin J}\Pi_s.$$

A nonzero (u,y) entry of this permutation matrix requires $a_y(s) = d_u(s)$ for every $s \notin J$. There are at most $R-1$ other positions. If more than $R-1$ positions disagree, every summand has zero (u,y) entry, so $M_0[u,y] = 0$ as well. □

4.3. **The polynomial rows.** We now use M_0 to construct the auxiliary rows $\vec{P}_u(T)$ sought in Section 4.1. Lemma 4.1 makes $(I-M_0)\zeta$ a function of $C^{\mathcal{B}}\zeta$. Lemma 4.2 bounds the number of points at which a nonzero term $M_0[u,y]\zeta_y$ uses a coordinate outside $S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,d_u(t)}$. We now multiply that term by a polynomial vanishing at those points and equal to one at zero.

For $M_0[u,y] \neq 0$, define

$$E_{u,y} = \{s \in [Q] : a_y(s) \neq d_u(s)\}, \qquad \varphi_{u,y}(T) = \prod_{s\in E_{u,y}} \left(1 - \frac{T}{s}\right). \tag{4.9}$$

The empty product is one. Then $\deg \varphi_{u,y} \leqslant R-1$, $\varphi_{u,y}(0) = 1$, and $\varphi_{u,y}(t) = 0$ whenever $a_y(t) \neq d_u(t)$. Define

$$\vec{P}_u(T) = \delta_u(I - M_0) + \sum_{\substack{y\in\mathcal{B}\\ M_0[u,y]\neq 0}} M_0[u,y]\varphi_{u,y}(T)\delta_y. \tag{4.10}$$

This row acts as a linear form in ζ, with coefficients that are polynomials in the single parameter T.

Lemma 4.3. *The rows in (4.10) have degree at most $R-1$ and satisfy $\vec{P}_u(0) = \delta_u$ for every $u \in \mathcal{B}$. For $t \in [Q]$ and $g \in [r]$, let $C^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g}$ be the restriction of $C^{\mathcal{B}}$ to the columns $S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g}$. For every u,t,g with $g \neq d_u(t)$ and every $\xi \in \mathbb{Q}^{S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g}}$, its extension $\widetilde{\xi}$ by zero to $\mathcal{B}$ satisfies*

$$C^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g}\xi = \vec{0} \quad\Longrightarrow\quad \langle \vec{P}_u(t), \widetilde{\xi}\rangle = 0.$$

More generally, $\langle \vec{P}_u(t), \zeta\rangle$ is determined by $\zeta|_{S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,d_u(t)}}$ and $C^{\mathcal{B}}\zeta$.

Proof. The degree bound follows from that of $\varphi_{u,y}$. At zero,

$$\vec{P}_u(0) = \delta_u(I - M_0) + \delta_u M_0 = \delta_u.$$

Applying (4.10) to ζ gives

$$\langle \vec{P}_u(T), \zeta\rangle = ((I-M_0)\zeta)_u + \sum_{\substack{y\in\mathcal{B}\\ M_0[u,y]\neq 0}} M_0[u,y]\varphi_{u,y}(T)\zeta_y. \tag{4.11}$$

At $T = t$, all summands with $a_y(t) \neq d_u(t)$ vanish. If $\widetilde{\xi}$ is supported on $S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g}$ with $g \neq d_u(t)$, each remaining summand is zero on $\widetilde{\xi}$. The hypothesis $C^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g}\xi = \vec{0}$ also gives $C^{\mathcal{B}}\widetilde{\xi} = \vec{0}$, so $(I-M_0)\widetilde{\xi} = \vec{0}$ by Lemma 4.1. This proves the implication.

For the final assertion, two vectors with the same measurements under $C^{\mathcal{B}}$ differ by an element of its kernel. Thus $(I-M_0)\zeta$ is determined by $C^{\mathcal{B}}\zeta$. The remaining terms in (4.11) at $T = t$ use only $\zeta|_{S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,d_u(t)}}$. □

Fix t and write $\zeta_g = \zeta|_{S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g}}$. The restrictions of $C^{\mathcal{B}}$ satisfy

$$C^{\mathcal{B}}\zeta = \sum_{g=1}^{r} C^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g}\zeta_g. \tag{4.12}$$

Fixing each vector $C^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g}\zeta_g$ therefore fixes $C^{\mathcal{B}}\zeta$ while imposing separate conditions on the r auxiliary coordinate groups. When all vectors $C^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g}\zeta_g$ are fixed, $\langle \vec{P}_u(t), \zeta\rangle$ is determined by $\zeta|_{S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,d_u(t)}}$. We will obtain the corresponding separation on the actual Boolean variables by placing (f, v) at a coordinate labeled (a_v, d_f).

Remark 4.4. We illustrate how (4.10) confines dependence outside the assigned group to one linear measurement. Take $Q = R = 2$, outside the regime $R < Q$ used for the running-time bound, and $r = 2$. Use $\{0, 1\}$ as the group indices and $\mathcal{I} = \{0, 1\}$, so $f_{\mathcal{I}}(z) = 1 - 2z$. Starting with the label $(00, 11)$, the two exchanges generate four coordinates:

$$\zeta_0 = \zeta_{(00,11)}, \quad \zeta_1 = \zeta_{(10,01)}, \quad \zeta_2 = \zeta_{(01,10)}, \quad \zeta_{12} = \zeta_{(11,00)}.$$

Both exchanges preserve this set of four coordinates, so we can restrict the calculation to it. On this restriction, $M_0 = \Pi_1 + \Pi_2 - \Pi_1\Pi_2$ fixes the kernel of

$$c(\zeta) = \zeta_0 - \zeta_1 - \zeta_2 + \zeta_{12}.$$

The row indexed by $u = (00, 11)$ gives

$$\langle \vec{P}_u(T), \zeta\rangle = \zeta_0 - \frac{T}{2}\zeta_1 - T\zeta_2.$$

It equals ζ_0 at zero, while

$$\langle \vec{P}_u(1), \zeta\rangle = c(\zeta) + \frac{1}{2}\zeta_1 - \zeta_{12}, \qquad \langle \vec{P}_u(2), \zeta\rangle = c(\zeta) - \zeta_2 - \zeta_{12}.$$

At $t = 1$, the labels of ζ_1, ζ_{12} satisfy $a_y(1) = 1 = d_u(1)$. At $t = 2$, the labels of ζ_2, ζ_{12} satisfy $a_y(2) = 1 = d_u(2)$. Fixing $c(\zeta)$ therefore leaves $\langle \vec{P}_u(t), \zeta\rangle$ dependent only on coordinates in its assigned group. Here $c(\zeta)$ plays the role of $C^{\mathcal{B}}\zeta$ on the four-coordinate restriction. The full construction must give this property for every $u \in \mathcal{B}$ with at most ϵD measurement rows.

4.4. **Choosing the variable and factor groups.** We now choose the families $(a_v)_{v\in[n]}$ and $(d_f)_{f\in\mathcal{F}}$ from Section 4.1, and set

$$u_{f,v} = (a_v, d_f) \qquad ((f, v) \in \mathcal{A}).$$

These choices have two requirements. First, if a label occurs c_u times, its incidences need c_u different positions in copies of the auxiliary array. Thus the number of copies needed is

$$c_u = \#\{(f, v) \in \mathcal{A} : u_{f,v} = u\}, \qquad h = \max_{u\in\mathcal{B}} c_u.$$

Second, the actual variable group $\{v : a_v(t) = g\}$ must be small. Bounding h alone would bound the number of incidences in a group, not give the required bound on its number of Boolean variables. The next lemma controls both quantities.

Lemma 4.5. *Let $(I_f)_{f\in\mathcal{F}}$ satisfy (4.1), with $n \leqslant M \leqslant bn$, and put $D = r^{2Q}$ for integers $r \geqslant 2$ and $Q \geqslant 1$. Suppose*

$$2(b + w)D^2 \leqslant M, \qquad 2Qr^2 \leqslant n. \tag{4.13}$$

One can deterministically choose $a_v, d_f \in [r]^Q$, with $d_f(t) = 1$ for factors of empty scope, so that

$$\max_{u\in\mathcal{B}} \#\{(f, v) \in \mathcal{A} : (a_v, d_f) = u\} \leqslant \frac{2M}{D},$$
$$\#\{v \in [n] : a_v(t) = g\} \leqslant \frac{2n}{r} \qquad (t \in [Q],\ g \in [r]).$$

The construction takes $\mathrm{poly}(n, M, |\mathcal{F}|, D, Q, r, b, w)$ *bit operations.*

Proof. We first estimate the effect of random labels; we will then fix their values deterministically. For this estimate, all a_v and all d_f with nonempty I_f are independent and uniform on $[r]^Q$. For empty I_f, we set d_f identically one. Each incidence label $u_{f,v} = (a_v, d_f)$ is uniform on $\mathcal{B}$. Put $n_{t,g} = \#\{v : a_v(t) = g\}$, and consider

$$\Phi = \sum_{u \in \mathcal{B}} (c_u - M/D)^2, \qquad \Xi = \sum_{t=1}^{Q} \sum_{g=1}^{r} (n_{t,g} - n/r)^2.$$

Their expansions as sums of indicators are

$$\Phi = \sum_{(f,v),(f',v') \in \mathcal{A}} \mathbb{1}_{\{(a_v,d_f)=(a_{v'},d_{f'})\}} - \frac{M^2}{D},$$
$$\Xi = \sum_{t=1}^{Q} \sum_{v,v' \in [n]} \mathbb{1}_{\{a_v(t)=a_{v'}(t)\}} - \frac{Qn^2}{r}.$$

Two incidence labels are independent unless they share a factor or a variable. For each (f, v), there are at most $b + w$ incidences sharing f or v, including (f, v) itself. Independent pairs have equality probability $1/D$; the other pairs have probability at most one. Hence

$$\mathbb{E}\Phi \leqslant M(b + w).$$

For each t and $v \neq v'$, the values $a_v(t), a_{v'}(t)$ are independent and uniform on $[r]$. The second expansion therefore gives

$$\mathbb{E}\Xi = Qn(1 - 1/r) \leqslant Qn.$$

To obtain the labels deterministically, we fix the a_v and the d_f for nonempty I_f one at a time. At each step we choose a value that does not increase the conditional expectation of

$$\frac{\Phi}{M(b + w)} + \frac{\Xi}{Qn}.$$

Such a choice exists because the current expectation is the average over the possible values of the next a_v or d_f. The final value is at most two. Since both summands are nonnegative,

$$c_u \leqslant \frac{M}{D} + \sqrt{2M(b + w)}, \qquad n_{t,g} \leqslant \frac{n}{r} + \sqrt{2Qn}.$$

The two inequalities in (4.13) make the square-root terms at most M/D and n/r, respectively.

The following enumeration computes the conditional expectations in $\mathrm{poly}(n, M, |\mathcal{F}|, D, Q, r, b, w)$ bit operations. Put $K = r^Q$, so $D = K^2$. Each indicator in the expansion of Φ depends on at most the four independent choices $a_v, d_f, a_{v'}, d_{f'}$; repeated indices contribute just one choice. Each indicator in Ξ depends on at most $a_v, a_{v'}$. After any partial fixing, enumerate at most $K^4 = D^2$ assignments to the remaining choices in one indicator. Its conditional probability has denominator dividing K^4. Summing the $M^2 + Qn^2$ indicators computes both expectations. Including the normalizations $M(b + w)$ and Qn, all rational values in these calculations have numerators and denominators with

$$O(\log(2D) + \log(2M) + \log(2n) + \log(2Q) + \log(2 + b + w))$$

bits. There are at most $n + |\mathcal{F}|$ choices to fix, each with K candidate values. Since $K^4 = D^2$, the entire construction takes $\mathrm{poly}(n, M, |\mathcal{F}|, D, Q, r, b, w)$ bit operations. □

4.5. **Placing copies of the variables in the auxiliary arrays.** We now transfer the auxiliary rows $\vec{P}_u(T)$ and matrix $C^{\mathcal{B}}$ to the rows $\vec{P}_{f,v}(T)$ and matrices $C_{t,g}$ on the original variables required by Definition 3.1. Assume (4.13) and apply Lemma 4.5. With $h = \max_u c_u$, index h copies of the auxiliary coordinates by $[h] \times \mathcal{B}$. For each $(f, v) \in \mathcal{A}$, we assign $c(f, v) \in [h]$ so that all pairs $(c(f, v), u_{f,v})$ are distinct. This is possible because no label occurs more than h times, and

$$hD \leqslant 2M \leqslant 2bn.$$

Define the linear map $\iota : \mathbb{Q}^n \longrightarrow \mathbb{Q}^{[h]\times\mathcal{B}}$ by

$$(\iota x)_{c,u} = \begin{cases} x_v, & (c, u) = (c(f, v), u_{f,v}) \text{ for some } (f, v) \in \mathcal{A}, \\ 0, & \text{otherwise.} \end{cases}$$

The occupied positions are distinct, so this definition is unambiguous. Different positions can contain the same x_v, and unused positions are fixed at zero. For $c \in [h]$, define the projection

$$\pi_c : \mathbb{Q}^{[h]\times\mathcal{B}} \longrightarrow \mathbb{Q}^{\mathcal{B}}, \qquad (\pi_c \eta)_u = \eta_{c,u}.$$

Now put

$$\begin{aligned} \vec{P}_{f,v}(T) &= \vec{P}_{u_{f,v}}(T)\pi_{c(f,v)}\iota, \\ S_{t,g} = \{v \in [n] : a_v(t) = g\}, &\qquad \sigma_f(t) = d_f(t). \end{aligned} \tag{4.14}$$

The row $\vec{P}_{f,v}(T)$ acts on the actual variables $x \in \mathbb{Q}^n$. At $T = 0$, it extracts the value in position $(c(f, v), u_{f,v})$, which is x_v. Thus $\vec{P}_{f,v}(0) = \delta_v$, and its degree is at most $R - 1$. Lemma 4.5 gives $|S_{t,g}| \leqslant 2n/r$.

Define the measurement matrices by

$$\widetilde{C} = \operatorname{diag}(\underbrace{C^{\mathcal{B}}, \dots, C^{\mathcal{B}}}_{h \text{ copies}}), \qquad \widehat{C} = \widetilde{C}\iota, \qquad C_{t,g} = \widehat{C}|_{S_{t,g}}. \tag{4.15}$$

The restriction keeps the columns in $S_{t,g}$ and all rows, including zero rows. Thus $\widehat{C}x$ records the auxiliary measurements in each copy after its coordinates have been filled from x. The matrices $C_{t,g}$ are integral. Their entries need not belong to $\{0, 1, -1\}$, because coefficients at several positions containing the same x_v are added. Each row of $\widetilde{C}$ has at most D nonzero entries, all equal to 1 or -1. Multiplication by ι adds entries in a common column and discards unused positions, so it cannot increase the sum of their absolute values. Consequently every row of $C_{t,g}$ has absolute row sum at most D, and its value on a Boolean assignment lies in $[-D, D] \cap \mathbb{Z}$.

If (4.8) holds, each $C_{t,g}$ has $c_{t,g} = hc_{\mathcal{B}}$ rows. Hence

$$\sum_{g=1}^{r} c_{t,g} = rhc_{\mathcal{B}} \leqslant rh\epsilon D \leqslant 2r\epsilon M \leqslant 2r\epsilon bn. \tag{4.16}$$

Setting $\epsilon = \tau/(rb)$ makes this at most $2\tau n$.

To verify separation, fix $t \in [Q]$, $g \in [r]$ and $(f, v) \in \mathcal{A}$ with $g \neq \sigma_f(t)$. Suppose $\xi \in \mathbb{Q}^{S_{t,g}}$ satisfies $C_{t,g}\xi = \vec{0}$, and extend it by zero to $\widetilde{\xi} \in \mathbb{Q}^n$. Equation (4.15) gives $\widehat{C}\iota\widetilde{\xi} = \vec{0}$. Thus, for every $c \in [h]$,

$$C^{\mathcal{B}}\pi_c\iota\widetilde{\xi} = \vec{0}.$$

Every nonzero coordinate of $\pi_c\iota\widetilde{\xi}$ contains a variable v' with $a_{v'}(t) = g$. Its auxiliary label has first sequence $a_{v'}$, so this vector is supported on $S^{\mathcal{B}}_{t,g}$. Lemma 4.3, applied in copy $c(f, v)$ with $d_{u_{f,v}}(t) = d_f(t) = \sigma_f(t)$, gives

$$\langle \vec{P}_{f,v}(t), \widetilde{\xi} \rangle = \langle \vec{P}_{u_{f,v}}(t), \pi_{c(f,v)}\iota\widetilde{\xi} \rangle = 0.$$

This is the kernel condition in Definition 3.1. All inputs of factor f use the same assigned group $d_f(t)$, and the counting sum still ranges over exactly the n Boolean bits.

4.6. **Coefficient bounds and the completed construction.** The substitution rows $\vec{P}_{f,v}(T) \in \mathbb{Q}[T]^{1\times n}$ in (4.14) have polynomial entries with rational coefficients. We now bound the bits needed to store those coefficients; these bounds will control exact arithmetic in Section 5.4. We first give a common denominator and coefficient bounds for the auxiliary rows $\vec{P}_u(T)$ defined in (4.10). Passing from $\vec{P}_u(T)$ to $\vec{P}_{f,v}(T)$ by (4.14) only adds coefficients in common columns or discards unused columns, so the same denominator and bound on the sum of absolute values apply.

Lemma 4.6. *Let $d_{\mathrm{den}} = (R-1)!Q!$. Then $d_{\mathrm{den}}\vec{P}_u(T) \in \mathbb{Z}[T]^{1\times D}$ for every $u \in \mathcal{B}$. The sum of the absolute values of all coefficients in each row $d_{\mathrm{den}}\vec{P}_u(T)$ is at most $2^{O(Q\log Q)}$. The same bound holds for $d_{\mathrm{den}}\vec{P}_{f,v}(T)$. The matrices $M_0, C^{\mathcal{B}}$ and the rows $\vec{P}_u(T)$ can be constructed in $\mathrm{poly}(D,Q,r)$ bit operations.*

Proof. For $0 \leqslant j < R$, the corresponding summand of $f_{\mathcal{I}}(W_0)$ equals

$$(-1)^{A_0}(-2)^j\binom{W_0 - A_0 I}{j} = \frac{(-1)^{A_0+j}}{j!}\prod_{a=0}^{j-1}\bigl(2W_0 - 2(A_0+a)I\bigr).$$

Each matrix factor on the right is integral because $2W_0 = QI - \sum_s \Pi_s$. Also $j!$ divides $(R-1)!$. Multiplication by the permutation matrix V_0 therefore shows that $(R-1)!M_0$ is integral. The coefficients of $\varphi_{u,y}$ have denominators dividing $\prod_{s\in E_{u,y}} s$, which divides $Q!$. Equation (4.10) proves the asserted common denominator.

For the coefficient estimates, we use the matrix norm $\|A\|_\infty = \max_i \sum_j |A[i,j]|$ and the polynomial norm $\|\sum_j a_j T^j\|_1 = \sum_j |a_j|$. Since $\|W_0\|_\infty \leqslant Q$ and $0 \leqslant A_0 + a \leqslant Q$ for all factors above, each $2W_0 - 2(A_0+a)I$ has norm at most $4Q$. It follows that

$$\|M_0\|_\infty \leqslant R(4Q)^{R-1}, \qquad \|\varphi_{u,y}\|_1 \leqslant \prod_{s\in E_{u,y}} (1+1/s) \leqslant 2^Q.$$

The sum of the absolute values of all coefficients in the row $d_{\mathrm{den}}\vec{P}_u$ is therefore at most

$$d_{\mathrm{den}}\bigl(1 + (1+2^Q)R(4Q)^{R-1}\bigr).$$

Its logarithm is $O(Q\log Q)$ because $R < Q$. For $u = u_{f,v}$, multiplication of $d_{\mathrm{den}}\vec{P}_u(T)$ by $\pi_{c(f,v)}\iota$ adds coefficients in common columns and discards unused columns. By (4.14), the resulting row is $d_{\mathrm{den}}\vec{P}_{f,v}(T)$, so it satisfies the same bound.

Enumerating the eigenbasis in Lemma 4.1, evaluating $f_{\mathcal{I}}(W_0)$, and forming the polynomials $\varphi_{u,y}$ require $\mathrm{poly}(D,Q,r)$ arithmetic operations. Using the common denominators above, the coefficients stored during these matrix and polynomial calculations have numerators and denominators with $O(Q\log Q)$ bits. Thus the construction takes $\mathrm{poly}(D,Q,r)$ bit operations. □

The construction has three quantitative requirements. The two inequalities in (4.13) bound the number of auxiliary copies and the number of actual variables in each group. The tail bound with $\epsilon = \tau/(rb)$ gives the total measurement bound through (4.16). We collect the result for use in the counting algorithm.

Lemma 4.7. *Let $n, b, w \geqslant 1$ be integers, and let $(I_f)_{f\in\mathcal{F}}$ be subsets of $[n]$ of size at most w, with each $v \in [n]$ belonging to at most b sets. Put $M = \sum_f |I_f|$ and assume $n \leqslant M \leqslant bn$. Let $r \geqslant 2$ and $1 \leqslant R < Q$ be integers, let $0 < \tau \leqslant 1/2$, and put $D = r^{2Q}$. Suppose*

$$2(b+w)D^2 \leqslant M, \qquad 2Qr^2 \leqslant n,$$

and an interval $\mathcal{I} = \{A_0, \dots, A_0 + R - 1\} \subseteq \{0,\dots,Q\}$ satisfies

$$\Pr[W \notin \mathcal{I}] \leqslant \frac{\tau}{rb}, \qquad W \sim \mathrm{Bin}\left(Q, \frac{r-1}{2r}\right).$$

One can deterministically construct all the data in Definition 3.1 in $\mathrm{poly}(n, M, |\mathcal{F}|, D, Q, r, b, w)$ *bit operations.*

Proof. Lemma 4.1 constructs $C^{\mathcal{B}}$ with $c_{\mathcal{B}} \leqslant \tau D/(rb)$. Lemmas 4.2 and 4.3 give the auxiliary polynomial rows. Lemma 4.5 chooses the variable and factor groups with $hD \leqslant 2M$ and $|S_{t,g}| \leqslant 2n/r$. The maps in (4.14) and (4.15) then give rows with $\vec{P}_{f,v}(0) = \delta_v$, degree at most $R-1 \leqslant R$, and the required kernel implication. Every row of $C_{t,g}$ has absolute row sum at most D, and (4.16) gives $\sum_{g=1}^{r} c_{t,g} \leqslant 2\tau n$ for each $t \in [Q]$. Lemma 4.6 supplies the common denominator and coefficient bounds. Together, the constructions take $\mathrm{poly}(n, M, |\mathcal{F}|, D, Q, r, b, w)$ bit operations, and the resulting arrays occupy $\mathrm{poly}(n, M, |\mathcal{F}|, D, Q, r, b, w)$ bits. □

4.7. **Choosing the parameters.** In the application, both the largest scope w and the maximum number b of factors containing a variable will be bounded by a fixed power of $\log n$. We now choose parameters satisfying Lemma 4.7 in that regime. The exponent of the counting cost depends on the three quantities

$$\frac{R}{Q}\log\frac{2Q}{R}, \qquad \tau\log(2D+1), \qquad \frac{1}{r}.$$

They account respectively for recovering Taylor coefficients, enumerating measurement values, and enumerating assignments in one group. The following choices bound all three at once.

Lemma 4.8. *Fix an integer* $\beta \geqslant 1$. *Let* $n \geqslant 20$, *put* $\lambda = \lceil \log_2 n \rceil$ *and* $\nu = \lceil \log_2 \lambda \rceil$, *and suppose* $b, w \leqslant \lambda^{\beta}$ *and* $n \leqslant M \leqslant bn$. *For all sufficiently large* n, *the parameters*

$$r = \left\lfloor \frac{\sqrt{\lambda}}{\nu^2} \right\rfloor, \qquad Q = \left\lfloor \frac{\lambda}{128\nu} \right\rfloor, \qquad R = (\beta+3)\lceil\sqrt{\lambda}\rceil, \tag{4.17}$$

$$\tau = \frac{1}{r\lambda}, \qquad \epsilon = \frac{1}{br^2\lambda}, \qquad D = r^{2Q},$$

together with the interval specified in the proof, satisfy all numerical hypotheses of Lemma 4.7. They also satisfy

$$R \geqslant 32, \qquad 6R \leqslant Q, \qquad D \leqslant 2^{\lambda/128},$$

and

$$\frac{R}{Q}\log\frac{2Q}{R} + \tau\log(2D+1) + \frac{1}{r} = O_{\beta}\left(\frac{\nu^2}{\sqrt{\lambda}}\right). \tag{4.18}$$

Given the numerical values n, M, b, w, *the parameters and numerical hypotheses can be computed and checked exactly in* $\mathrm{poly}_{\beta}(\log n)$ *bit operations. For fixed* β, *only finitely many* n *fail these checks.*

Proof. For sufficiently large n, the parameters have orders

$$r = \Theta(\sqrt{\lambda}/\nu^2), \qquad Q = \Theta(\lambda/\nu), \qquad R = \Theta_{\beta}(\sqrt{\lambda}).$$

In particular, eventually $r \geqslant 2$, $R \geqslant 32$, and $6R \leqslant Q$. Since $\log_2 r \leqslant \nu/2$,

$$\log_2 D = 2Q\log_2 r \leqslant 2\frac{\lambda}{128\nu}\frac{\nu}{2} = \frac{\lambda}{128}.$$

The two balance inequalities follow for sufficiently large n:

$$2(b+w)D^2 \leqslant 4\lambda^{\beta}2^{\lambda/64} \leqslant n \leqslant M, \qquad 2Qr^2 \leqslant n.$$

For the second, Q, r are bounded by fixed powers of λ, whereas $n > 2^{\lambda-1}$. The first follows from the same comparison.

Put

$$\mu = \frac{Q(r-1)}{2r}, \qquad A_0 = \left\lfloor \mu - \frac{R-1}{2} \right\rfloor, \qquad \mathcal{I} = \{A_0, \dots, A_0 + R - 1\}.$$

Here $Q/4 \leqslant \mu \leqslant Q/2$. Since $R \leqslant Q/6$, the interval lies in $\{0, \dots, Q\}$. Its center differs from μ by less than one, and $R \geqslant 32$ ensures that it contains every integer within $R/4$ of μ. For $W \sim \mathrm{Bin}(Q, (r-1)/(2r))$, Hoeffding's inequality gives

$$\Pr[W \notin \mathcal{I}] \leqslant 2e^{-R^2/(8Q)} \leqslant 2e^{-16(\beta+3)^2\nu} \leqslant 2^{-(\beta+2)\nu} \leqslant \lambda^{-(\beta+2)} \leqslant \frac{1}{br^2\lambda}.$$

The last inequality uses $b \leqslant \lambda^\beta$ and $r^2 \leqslant \lambda$. This proves (4.8) with $\epsilon = \tau/(rb)$. Also $0 < \tau \leqslant 1/2$ once $r \geqslant 2$.

Finally,

$$\frac{R}{Q} = O_\beta(\nu/\sqrt{\lambda}), \qquad \log(2Q/R) = O(\nu), \qquad \tau \log(2D+1) = O(1/r).$$

Together with $1/r = O(\nu^2/\sqrt{\lambda})$, these prove (4.18).

We finish by showing that the parameters in (4.17) can be constructed exactly within the stated bit bound. The algorithm finds $\lambda = \lceil \log_2 n \rceil$ as the least integer with $n \leqslant 2^\lambda$, and then finds $\nu = \lceil \log_2 \lambda \rceil$ in the same way. It obtains r as the largest integer satisfying $r^2\nu^4 \leqslant \lambda$, computes Q by integer division, and finds $\lceil \sqrt{\lambda} \rceil$ by an integer square-root search to obtain R. If $r < 2$ or $Q \leqslant R$, the algorithm reports failure at this stage. Otherwise it constructs τ, ϵ, D and the endpoints of $\mathcal{I}$ using integer or rational arithmetic. It then checks $\mathcal{I} \subseteq \{0, \dots, Q\}$, the two balance inequalities, $R \geqslant 32$, and $6R \leqslant Q$. The tail probability in (4.8) has denominator $(2r)^Q$, so its required bound can also be checked by integer arithmetic. These computations take $\mathrm{poly}_\beta(\log n)$ bit operations. The preceding estimates show that all checks pass for sufficiently large n. □

5. Counting common zeros of sparse polynomial equations

We now prove Theorem 2.2. The input is a system $\mathcal{P}$ of $m_{\mathrm{test}} \leqslant cn$ polynomial equations $P_i(x) = 0$ over $\mathbb{F}_2$ in n Boolean variables. Each P_i is a list of at most $(\log n)^c$ monomials of degree at most k, for fixed k, c. Our target is the integer

$$N(\mathcal{P}) = \#\{x \in \{0,1\}^n : P_i(x) = 0 \text{ for every } i\}. \tag{5.1}$$

First we build a product with one factor per equation whose value on the Boolean cube records the common-zero indicator. The difficulty is keeping its total input degree linear in n. Next we construct the replacement forms for these factors and use Section 3 to sum the product. Section 6 uses the resulting algorithm for arbitrary supplied systems, including systems that still accept nonsatisfying assignments of a formula.

5.1. **An integer polynomial for one equation.** On Boolean inputs we may replace each positive power x_v^j by x_v. Combine duplicate monomials modulo two. If $\mathcal{M}_i$ is the resulting list of variable sets for P_i, define its integer lift by

$$L_i(\vec{X}) = \sum_{M \in \mathcal{M}_i} \prod_{v \in M} X_v.$$

The empty monomial is 1 and the empty sum is 0. The value $L_i(x)$ counts the monomials equal to one, so $P_i(x) = 0$ precisely when $L_i(x)$ is even. Write $I_i = \bigcup_{M \in \mathcal{M}_i} M$. Although L_i can read $k(\log n)^c$ variables, it still has degree at most k.

Set $\ell = n + 1$. Since $0 \leqslant N(\mathcal{P}) \leqslant 2^n < 2^\ell$, it suffices to obtain its residue modulo 2^ℓ. We first represent the evenness indicator by an integer polynomial modulo this power of two. Multiplying m_{test} such indicators directly would give only a quadratic degree bound; the form of the next lemma will let us control the degree across all equations together.

Put $h(Y) = Y(Y-1)$. Its value is even at every integer Y. Writing the indicator in powers of h exposes one factor of two for each copy of h in the product.

Lemma 5.1. *For every integer $\ell \geqslant 1$, one can construct polynomials $e_0, \dots, e_{\ell-1} \in \mathbb{Z}[Y]$, each of degree at most one, such that*

$$p_\ell(Y) = \sum_{j=0}^{\ell-1} e_j(Y) h(Y)^j, \qquad p_\ell(y) \equiv \mathbb{1}_{\{2|y\}} \pmod{2^\ell} \quad (y \in \mathbb{Z}). \tag{5.2}$$

The coefficients of the e_j have $\mathrm{poly}(\ell)$ bits, and the construction uses $\mathrm{poly}(\ell)$ bit operations and $\mathrm{poly}(\ell)$ bits of space.

Proof. Let F_ℓ be the modulus-amplifying polynomial of Beigel and Tarui [BT94, Section 2.3]. Chan and Williams apply F_ℓ to sums of clause-violation indicators to count satisfying assignments deterministically [CW21, Theorem 2.5 and proof of Theorem 1.6]. We need the indicator of even parity, so we take its complement:

$$p_\ell(Y) = 1 - F_\ell(Y) = (1-Y)^\ell \sum_{j=0}^{\ell-1} \binom{\ell+j-1}{j} Y^j. \tag{5.3}$$

The finite sum is the inverse of $(1-Y)^\ell$ modulo Y^ℓ. Indeed, the coefficient of Y^j in $(1+Y+Y^2+\cdots)^\ell$ counts weak compositions of j into ℓ parts and equals $\binom{\ell+j-1}{j}$. Therefore

$$p_\ell(Y) \equiv 1 \pmod{Y^\ell}, \qquad p_\ell(Y) \equiv 0 \pmod{(1-Y)^\ell}.$$

For even y, the first congruence gives $p_\ell(y) \equiv 1 \pmod{2^\ell}$. For odd y, the second gives $p_\ell(y) \equiv 0 \pmod{2^\ell}$.

The polynomial p_ℓ has integer coefficients and degree less than 2ℓ. Successive division by the monic quadratic $h = Y^2 - Y$ writes it uniquely as $\sum_{j<\ell} e_j h^j$, with integer remainders e_j of degree less than two. Lemma B.1 in Appendix B bounds their coefficients and proves the $\mathrm{poly}(\ell)$ bit-operation bound for this construction. □

5.2. **Keeping the product degree linear.** The full product $\prod_{i=1}^{m_{\mathrm{test}}} p_\ell(L_i(\vec{X}))$ has degree at most $k m_{\mathrm{test}}(2\ell-1)$. Each factor $h(y)$ contributes a factor of two at integer arguments, so a term containing at least ℓ such factors can be discarded modulo 2^ℓ. This lets us retain only terms whose total power of h is less than ℓ, across all equations together. Introduce a formal variable V to record that power, using the same V for every equation. Its exponent records a guaranteed power of two dividing the corresponding term at integer arguments. It is not an additional Boolean variable to be summed over. This is where we choose the coefficient algebra of Section 3.1:

$$\mathcal{A}_\ell = \mathbb{Q}[V]/(V^\ell).$$

In this algebra every multiplication discards powers V^s with $s \geqslant \ell$. Once the product is formed, we add its retained coefficients using the linear map

$$\mathcal{S}_\ell\left(\sum_{s=0}^{\ell-1} b_s V^s\right) = \sum_{s=0}^{\ell-1} b_s.$$

This map need not preserve products, so it is applied only after the factors have been multiplied. We use the same notation for polynomial coefficients b_s.

Lemma 5.2. *Let $m_{\mathrm{test}} \geqslant 0$ and $\ell \geqslant 1$ be integers. For integers $y_1, \dots, y_{m_{\mathrm{test}}}$, put*

$$B_i(V) = \sum_{j=0}^{\ell-1} e_j(y_i) h(y_i)^j V^j.$$

Then

$$\mathcal{S}_\ell\Big(\prod_{i=1}^{m_{\mathrm{test}}} B_i(V) \bmod V^\ell\Big) \equiv \prod_{i=1}^{m_{\mathrm{test}}} \mathbb{1}_{\{2|y_i\}} \pmod{2^\ell}.$$

For any nonnegative integer d_*, if the y_i are instead polynomials over $\mathbb{Q}$ of total degree at most d_*, then each retained coefficient of V^s, and hence their sum, has total input degree at most $d_*(m_{\mathrm{test}}+2(\ell-1))$.

Proof. Before truncation, a term contributing to the coefficient of V^s has the form

$$\prod_{i=1}^{m_{\mathrm{test}}} e_{j_i}(y_i)h(y_i)^{j_i}, \qquad \sum_{i=1}^{m_{\mathrm{test}}} j_i = s.$$

At integer arguments it is divisible by 2^s. Dropping every coefficient with $s \geqslant \ell$ therefore leaves the sum of coefficients unchanged modulo 2^ℓ. Without truncation, that sum is $\prod_i p_\ell(y_i)$, which has the required congruence by Lemma 5.1.

For polynomial arguments, every retained term has $\sum_i j_i \leqslant \ell-1$. Since $\deg e_{j_i} \leqslant 1$ and $\deg h = 2$, its degree is at most

$$\sum_{i=1}^{m_{\mathrm{test}}} d_*(1+2j_i) \leqslant d_*(m_{\mathrm{test}} + 2(\ell-1)).$$

The bound holds coefficient by coefficient, as well as for their sum. □

To see why the truncation uses the total order across all equations, take $\ell = 2$. Then

$$p_2(Y) = 1 - 3Y^2 + 2Y^3 = (1-Y) + (2Y-1)h(Y).$$

For two equations, multiplication modulo V^2, followed by $\mathcal{S}_2$, retains

$$(1-y_1)(1-y_2) + (2y_1-1)h(y_1)(1-y_2) + (1-y_1)(2y_2-1)h(y_2).$$

Its degree is at most four. The omitted term $(2y_1-1)(2y_2-1)h(y_1)h(y_2)$ has degree six, but is divisible by four at integer inputs.

5.3. **Counting with supplied replacement forms.** For equation i supply Section 3 with the factor

$$\mathcal{B}_i((X_v)_{v\in I_i}, V) = \sum_{j=0}^{\ell-1} e_j(L_i(\vec{X}))h(L_i(\vec{X}))^j V^j \quad \text{in } \mathcal{A}_\ell[(X_v)_{v\in I_i}]. \tag{5.4}$$

Within a factor, every occurrence of X_v uses the same replacement form; different factors may use different forms for X_v. Even if each factor receives its own independent inputs, L_i has degree at most k in those inputs. Lemma 5.2 bounds the input degree of the product *in* $\mathcal{A}_\ell$ by $d = k(m_{\mathrm{test}}+2(\ell-1))$. Thus the product satisfies precisely the degree hypothesis (3.2) of the common routine. Adding factors equal to one with scope $\{v\}$ ensures that all declared variables occur in the construction.

Let $H(T) \in \mathcal{A}_\ell[T]$ be (3.3) for these factors. Its V-coefficients at $T=0$ are integers because all replacements restore their Boolean inputs at zero. By the same lemma, summing their values gives

$$\deg_T H \leqslant d_H := kR(m_{\mathrm{test}} + 2(\ell-1)), \qquad \mathcal{S}_\ell(H(0)) \equiv N(\mathcal{P}) \pmod{2^\ell}. \tag{5.5}$$

Consequently the least nonnegative residue of $\mathcal{S}_\ell(H(0))$ is the exact count. Interpolation takes place over the rationals; the congruence is needed only on Boolean inputs at $T=0$.

5.4. **Cost of evaluating the factors.**

Proposition 5.3. *Let a list of degree-at-most-k polynomial equations on n variables and a design satisfying Definition 3.1 for their factors be given. Let $S \geqslant 1$ bound the total length of the monomial lists and factor scopes, and use any ℓ with $2^\ell > 2^n$. With d_H from (5.5) and q, J from (3.5), $N(\mathcal{P})$ can be computed deterministically in*

$$\mathrm{poly}(n, m_{\mathrm{test}}, \ell, D, Q, R, J, r, k, S)\, C_q(2D+1)^{2\tau n} 2^{2n/r}$$

bit operations and $\mathrm{poly}(n, m_{\mathrm{test}}, \ell, D, Q, R, J, r, k, S)$ *bits of working space.*

Proof. Apply Proposition 3.4 with coefficients in $\mathcal{A}_\ell$. At an evaluation point t, the routine uses $\mathcal{A}_\ell[z]/(z^J)$, so a stored element has just $J\ell$ rational coefficients. To evaluate factor i at a fixed Boolean substitution $\vec{X} = \mathbf{1}_U$ in (3.7), first evaluate each listed monomial by multiplying its at most k substituted inputs, then add the results to get L_i. Use this value in (5.4), successively multiplying by $h(L_i)$ to obtain its powers. This takes polynomially many rational operations in the displayed parameters and never enumerates assignments to the entire scope I_i. The polynomials e_j are computed once by Lemma 5.1.

For bit complexity, the rows have common denominator $d_{\mathrm{den}} = (R-1)!Q!$. Each substituted monomial has denominator dividing $\Delta = d_{\mathrm{den}}^k$, every lifted factor has denominator dividing $\Gamma = \Delta^{2\ell-1}$, and their product has denominator dividing $\Omega = \Gamma^{m_{\mathrm{test}}}$. Thus exponentially many summands can be accumulated over one denominator. Appendix B bounds the bit lengths in these sums by

$$B_{\mathrm{sum}} = \mathrm{poly}(n, m_{\mathrm{test}}, \ell, k, Q, \log(D+2), \log(S+2)). \tag{5.6}$$

For each $0 \leqslant s < \ell$ we interpolate the rational polynomial $[V^s]H(T)$ from its QJ Taylor coefficients. The appendix verifies polynomial bit cost for this interpolation and the final integer remainder in (5.5). The $O(QJ\ell)$ stored coefficients, the design and the sequential enumerations in Proposition 3.4 give the stated space bound. □

5.5. **Constructing the forms and completing the proof.** Each sparse polynomial reads few variables, but one variable might occur in many equations. We first fix the values of the few variables with the largest numbers of occurrences. On each resulting branch we can construct the design required by Proposition 5.3.

Proof of Theorem 2.2. Let $\mathcal{P}$ be the supplied polynomial system. An empty list of equations gives 2^n common zeros; a constant equation $1 = 0$ gives none. Discard equations $0 = 0$. Include a neutral factor equal to one with scope $\{v\}$ for each declared variable v, and write

$$M = \sum_{f \in \mathcal{F}} |I_f|$$

for the total number of factor–variable incidences. The input bounds imply $M = n(\log n)^{O_{k,c}(1)}$, and every scope has $(\log n)^{O_{k,c}(1)}$ variables. A particular variable, however, may occur in many of these scopes.

Put $\lambda = \lceil \log_2 n \rceil$ and

$$b_0 = \left\lceil \frac{M}{n} \right\rceil \lceil \sqrt{\lambda} \rceil.$$

Let $S \subseteq [n]$ be the variables belonging to more than b_0 scopes. For each $b \in \{0,1\}^S$, we fix $x|_S = b$ and count the completions on $[n] \setminus S$; we call this restricted problem a branch. Since $|S| \leqslant M/b_0 \leqslant n/\sqrt{\lambda}$, there are at most $2^{n/\sqrt{\lambda}}$ branches. Each branch has the same number n' of free variables, with

$$n' \geqslant n - \frac{n}{\sqrt{\lambda}} \geqslant \frac{n}{2} \qquad (n \geqslant 20).$$

Substitute the fixed bits in every P_i over $\mathbb{F}_2$ and combine duplicate monomials modulo two before forming its integer lift. Neither degree nor the number of monomials increases. A constant equation can again be handled immediately. The branches partition the Boolean cube, so their common-zero counts add to $N(\mathcal{P})$.

To apply Section 4, remove the fixed variables from the scopes and relabel the free variables by $[n']$. Write $I'_f \subseteq [n']$ for the restricted scopes and $M' = \sum_f |I'_f|$ for their total incidence count. Let b be the maximum factor incidence of a free variable and let $w = \max_f |I'_f|$. Then $b \leqslant b_0$, and both b and w are bounded by a fixed power of $\log n'$. The remaining neutral factors ensure $M' \geqslant n'$. Set

$$\lambda' = \lceil \log_2 n' \rceil, \qquad \nu' = \lceil \log_2 \lambda' \rceil,$$

and choose the smallest integer $\beta \geqslant 1$ with $b, w \leqslant (\lambda')^\beta$. For fixed k, c, the possible values of β are bounded by a constant for all sufficiently large n. We apply Lemma 4.8 to the restricted scopes (I'_f) on $[n']$, with incidence count M', using

$$r = \left\lfloor \frac{\sqrt{\lambda'}}{(\nu')^2} \right\rfloor, \qquad Q = \left\lfloor \frac{\lambda'}{128\nu'} \right\rfloor, \qquad R = (\beta+3)\lceil \sqrt{\lambda'} \rceil.$$

If $r < 2$ or $Q \leqslant R$, use the exhaustive-search fallback below before forming τ, ϵ, or the parity interpolation interval $\mathcal{I}$. Otherwise set

$$\tau = \frac{1}{r\lambda'}, \qquad \epsilon = \frac{1}{br^2\lambda'}, \qquad D = r^{2Q},$$

and carry out the remaining feasibility checks from that lemma. For all sufficiently large n, Lemma 4.7 supplies the required rows and measurement matrices, with

$$r = \Theta\left(\frac{\sqrt{\log n'}}{(\log\log n')^2}\right), \qquad Q = \Theta\left(\frac{\log n'}{\log\log n'}\right), \qquad R = O_{k,c}(\sqrt{\log n'}), \qquad D \leqslant (2n')^{1/128}.$$

On every branch we may use the original precision $\ell = n+1$, since even the unrestricted count is smaller than 2^ℓ. As $n' \geqslant n/2$, both ℓ and m_{test} are $O_c(n')$. Thus $d_H = O_{k,c}(n'R)$, $J = O_{k,c}(n'R/Q) + 1$, and (3.16), in dimension n', has exponent

$$O_{k,c}\left(\frac{n'(\log\log n')^2}{\sqrt{\log n'}}\right) = O_{k,c}\left(\frac{n(\log\log n)^2}{\sqrt{\log n}}\right).$$

All substitution data, coefficient arrays, and interpolation systems have total representation length $n^{O_{k,c}(1)}$ bits. Multiplying the per-branch running time by at most $2^{n/\sqrt{\lambda}}$ leaves the displayed exponential bound unchanged, so summing the branch answers gives the required running time.

To implement the construction for every input size, the algorithm checks its numerical hypotheses using integer arithmetic. In addition to the preliminary guards above, it checks $2(b+w)D^2 \leqslant M'$ and $2Qr^2 \leqslant n'$ from Lemma 4.5, the endpoints of $\mathcal{I}$, $R \geqslant 32$, $6R \leqslant Q$, and the binomial tail bound in (4.8), which can be tested exactly. If any check fails, the algorithm abandons the branched computation and checks the original equations directly on all 2^n assignments. For fixed k, c, the bounds just proved and Lemma 4.8 show that a failure can occur only for finitely many n. This fallback is therefore absorbed in the theorem's constants.

To combine the branch counts within the stated space bound, we process the branches one at a time. We initialize an integer accumulator $Z = 0$ and add each branch's answer to it. The construction and Proposition 5.3 use $n^{O_{k,c}(1)}$ bits of space on each branch. Disjointness gives $0 \leqslant Z \leqslant 2^n$ throughout, and the final value is $N(\mathcal{P})$, as claimed. □

6. Reducing #k-SAT to counting common zeros

Given a sparse k-CNF F with at most Bn clauses, where B is polylogarithmic in n, we construct $O(n)$ sparse polynomial equations on its original n variables whose common zeros are exactly its satisfying assignments. One equation per clause could require Bn equations. Instead, each equation will test the parity of the violations of a short list of clauses. We use Theorem 2.2 both to choose these equations and to obtain the final count.

Let m be the number of indexed clauses and $v_e(x)$ the violation bit of clause e. As a polynomial over $\mathbb{F}_2$, v_e is a product of the factors $1 + x_v$ for positive literals and x_v for negative literals. A tautological clause has $v_e = 0$ and an empty clause has $v_e = 1$. After removing repeated literals, $\deg v_e \leqslant k$ and v_e expands to at most 2^k monomials. Put $v(x) = (v_1(x), \ldots, v_m(x))$. For a binary matrix A with m columns, row i specifies the equation

$$P_i(x) := \sum_{e : A_{ie} = 1} v_e(x) = 0 \qquad \text{over } \mathbb{F}_2. \tag{6.1}$$

Write $\mathcal{P}_A$ for this system and $N(A) = N(\mathcal{P}_A)$ for its number of common zeros. Every satisfying assignment passes every row. Hence $N(A) = \#F + D(A)$, where $D(A)$ counts the nonsatisfying assignments still passing. We do not know $\#F$, but it is the same for every candidate next row: the row minimizing N also minimizes D.

We represent a test row by a list of pairs (e, c) with $e \in [m]$ and $c \in \{0, 1\}$, summing coefficients modulo 2 if a clause index is repeated. The length of this list counts all pairs, including repeated indices and pairs with coefficient zero. A row of list length s thus reads at most ks variables before cancellation.

6.1. **Initial tests that exclude small violation sets.** If an assignment violates only one of many clauses, a test sampling a short list of clauses is unlikely to notice it. We therefore first construct a matrix $A^{(0)}$ that rejects every nonzero violation vector with small support. Every nonsatisfying assignment that passes these initial tests must violate many clauses. A further test that samples a short list of clauses can then reject each such assignment with constant probability.

We use the standard edge-based Tanner code: bits are assigned to the edges of an expander, and the bits incident to each vertex must form a word of a prescribed local linear code (see Tanner [Tan81, Section II] for the local constraints and Sipser and Spielman [SS96, Sections IV and VI] for the expander construction). The usual local-distance and expansion argument gives the needed lower bound on the weight of a nonzero codeword. The proof below constructs the graph and local code deterministically, with parameters that meet our bounds on the number and length of the tests.

Lemma 6.1. *Let n, m, B be positive integers with $m \leqslant Bn$, and put*

$$\mu = \lfloor \log_2 m \rfloor + 1, \qquad P = 20000B^2\mu^2, \qquad D_0 = 320000B^2\mu^3.$$

There is a deterministic construction of a binary matrix $A^{(0)}$ with m columns and at most $3n$ rows such that every row has at most D_0 nonzero entries and

$$z \in \{0,1\}^m \setminus \{\vec{0}\}, \quad A^{(0)}z = \vec{0} \pmod 2 \quad \Longrightarrow \quad |\operatorname{supp} z| \geqslant m/P.$$

The construction uses $\exp(\mathrm{poly}(B, \log(m+2)))$ bit operations and $\mathrm{poly}(n, m, B)$ bits of working space.

Proof. We construct a bipartite graph with between m and $2m$ edges, using its edges as temporary binary coordinates. Checks at each vertex will force every vertex touched by a nonzero edge to have many nonzero incident edges; a mixing bound will then force large total weight. At the end, we keep m edge coordinates and fix the rest to zero. Let

$$d_G = \min(m, D_0), \qquad q_G = \min\{2^a : a \in \mathbb{Z}_{\geqslant 0},\ 2^a d_G \geqslant m\}.$$

Then $m \leqslant q_G d_G < 2m$. Write $q_G = 2^{\ell_G}$ and take two copies of $\{0,1\}^{\ell_G}$ as the vertex sets. For each left vertex u and each port $j \in [d_G]$, put an edge from u to $u \oplus s_j$, where $\oplus$ denotes bitwise addition modulo 2 and the shifts $s_1, \dots, s_{d_G} \in \{0,1\}^{\ell_G}$ will be chosen below. Edges are indexed by the pairs (u, j); parallel edges remain distinct. Every vertex on either side has one incident edge at each port j, so the graph is d_G-regular.

To obtain the mixing estimate (6.3), we choose the shifts so that every parity of a nonempty set of coordinates is nearly balanced. For a nonzero vector $b \in \{0,1\}^{\ell_G}$, the bit $b \cdot s_j \bmod 2$ is the parity of those coordinates of s_j where b equals 1. With $\varepsilon = 1/(200B\mu)$, we require

$$\left|\sum_{j=1}^{d_G} (-1)^{b \cdot s_j}\right| \leqslant \varepsilon d_G \qquad \big(b \in \{0,1\}^{\ell_G} \setminus \{\vec{0}\}\big). \tag{6.2}$$

The sum in (6.2) is the number of indices j with even parity minus the number with odd parity. Thus, for every nonzero b, each parity occurs at a fraction of indices between $(1-\varepsilon)/2$ and $(1+\varepsilon)/2$. A list of shifts with this property is called ε-biased [NN93, Definitions 2.1–2.2].

If $q_G = 1$, there is no condition to check. Otherwise $d_G = D_0$. To show that suitable shifts exist, we choose them independently and uniformly at random. For each fixed nonzero b, the signs $(-1)^{b\cdot s_j}$ are independent and uniform in $\{-1, 1\}$. Hoeffding's inequality bounds the probability of violating (6.2) for this b by $2\exp(-\varepsilon^2 d_G/2)$. A union bound over b gives total failure probability at most

$$2q_G \exp(-\varepsilon^2 d_G/2) = 2q_G \exp(-4\mu) < 1,$$

where $q_G < 2m < 2^{\mu+1}$. Exhaustively enumerating the shift tuples and checking (6.2) therefore finds a valid tuple in $\exp(O(d_G \log(m+2)))$ time.

We next derive the mixing estimate from (6.2). Let A_G be the $q_G \times q_G$ matrix with $\mathsf{A}_G[u, v] = |\{j \in [d_G] : u \oplus s_j = v\}|$; its entries count edges from left vertices u to right vertices v. Both sides have the same index set $\{0,1\}^{\ell_G}$, on which the functions $\chi_b(u) = (-1)^{b\cdot u}$ form an orthogonal basis. For every $b, u \in \{0,1\}^{\ell_G}$,

$$(\mathsf{A}_G\chi_b)(u) = \sum_{j=1}^{d_G} \chi_b(u \oplus s_j) = \chi_b(u) \sum_{j=1}^{d_G} (-1)^{b\cdot s_j}.$$

Thus each χ_b is an eigenvector: the constant function $\chi_{\vec{0}}$ has eigenvalue d_G, while (6.2) bounds all other eigenvalues in absolute value by εd_G. For sets U of left vertices and V of right vertices, let $e_G(U, V)$ count the edges between them, including multiplicity. Decomposing the indicator vectors of U, V into their constant and orthogonal parts and applying Cauchy–Schwarz gives

$$e_G(U, V) \leqslant \frac{d_G|U||V|}{q_G} + \varepsilon d_G\sqrt{|U||V|}. \tag{6.3}$$

To specify the local code, we put

$$c_G = \left\lceil \frac{d_G}{8B} \right\rceil, \qquad \delta = \frac{1}{100B\mu}.$$

We need a binary matrix A_{loc} with c_G rows and d_G columns such that every nonzero word in its kernel modulo 2 has weight at least δd_G. To prove that such a matrix exists, we consider a matrix whose entries are independent uniform bits. For each fixed nonzero word, one of its nonzero coordinates makes the parity in each row uniform; independence of the rows therefore gives probability 2^{-c_G} that the word lies in the kernel. Set $h = \lceil \delta d_G \rceil - 1$. If $h = 0$, there are no nonzero words of weight less than δd_G. Otherwise their number is at most

$$\sum_{j=1}^{h} \binom{d_G}{j} \leqslant (h+1)(2d_G)^h \leqslant (2d_G)^{2h} < 2^{d_G/(25B)}.$$

For the last inequality, use $h < \delta d_G$, $d_G \leqslant m < 2^\mu$, and $\mu + 1 \leqslant 2\mu$. Since $c_G \geqslant d_G/(8B)$, a union bound shows that a suitable A_{loc} exists. Enumerating the $2^{c_G d_G}$ binary matrices and testing all words of weight less than δd_G finds one in $\exp(\mathrm{poly}(B, \log(m+2)))$ bit operations.

At every vertex on both sides, impose the c_G rows of A_{loc} on its incident edge coordinates, ordered by their ports. These constraints define a Tanner code with local code $C_{\mathrm{loc}} = \ker_{\mathbb{F}_2} A_{\mathrm{loc}}$. Its incidence graph has one bit node for every edge of our graph and one local-code node for every vertex; each bit participates in the constraints at its two endpoints. Consider a nonzero edge word accepted by all these checks. Let U, V be the vertices touched by its nonzero edges on the two sides, and let h' be its weight. Each vertex in $U \cup V$ is incident to at least δd_G nonzero edges, so $h' \geqslant \delta d_G \max(|U|, |V|)$. Therefore

$$\delta d_G\sqrt{|U||V|} \leqslant h' \leqslant e_G(U, V) \leqslant \frac{d_G|U||V|}{q_G} + \varepsilon d_G\sqrt{|U||V|}.$$

Both U and V are nonempty. Dividing by $d_G\sqrt{|U||V|}$ yields $\sqrt{|U||V|} \geqslant (\delta - \varepsilon)q_G$, and hence

$$h' \geqslant \delta(\delta - \varepsilon)q_G d_G = \frac{q_G d_G}{20000B^2\mu^2} \geqslant \frac{m}{P}.$$

Shorten this Tanner code by keeping any m of the $q_G d_G$ edge coordinates, identifying them with $[m]$, and setting the remaining coordinates to zero. Restricting all the vertex checks to the retained coordinates gives $A^{(0)}$. Any word accepted by $A^{(0)}$ extends by zeros to an accepted edge word, so it has the required weight. Every row has at most $d_G \leqslant D_0$ nonzero entries. There are $2q_G c_G$ rows. If $q_G = 1$, then $d_G = m$ and

$$2c_G \leqslant \frac{m}{4B} + 2 \leqslant \frac{n}{4} + 2 \leqslant 3n.$$

If $q_G > 1$, then $d_G = D_0 \geqslant 8B$, and

$$2q_G c_G \leqslant \frac{q_G d_G}{4B} + 2q_G \leqslant \frac{q_G d_G}{2B} < \frac{m}{B} \leqslant n.$$

The searches over shifts, local matrices, and test words are sequential. Storing the current choices and the final rows uses $\mathrm{poly}(n, m, B)$ bits of working space. □

6.2. **Choosing additional equations by counting common zeros.** After the initial checks, every nonsatisfying assignment still passing violates at least m/P clauses. This lets a short random test catch each such assignment with constant probability. To make the choice deterministic we use the averaging principle underlying conditional expectations [Rag88].

Lemma 6.2. *With P, D_0 and $A^{(0)}$ from Lemma 6.1, a deterministic procedure appends $3n$ rows of list length P and obtains a matrix A with $N(A) = \#F$. It uses at most $3n(2m)^P$ common-zero counts. Every candidate system has at most $6n$ equations, each involving at most $2^k \max(D_0, P)$ monomials of degree at most k.*

Proof. At a stage with current matrix A, enumerate the ordered lists

$$\gamma = ((e_1, c_1), \dots, (e_P, c_P)) \in \mathcal{C} := ([m] \times \{0, 1\})^P.$$

The list γ represents the binary row h_γ with

$$(h_\gamma)_e = \Big(\sum_{j : e_j = e} c_j \Big) \bmod 2 \qquad (e \in [m]).$$

There are $(2m)^P$ lists; distinct lists are still counted separately when they represent the same row. Write $A; h_\gamma$ for the matrix obtained by appending h_γ to A.

Fix a nonsatisfying assignment x accepted by A. The initial rows remain in A, so $|\operatorname{supp} v(x)| \geqslant m/P$. For a uniform list γ, the probability that none of $e_1, \dots, e_P$ belongs to this support is at most

$$(1 - 1/P)^P \leqslant e^{-1} < 1/2.$$

Conditional on the indices hitting the support, choose one hit position j. After fixing every coefficient except c_j, the uniform bit c_j makes $h_\gamma \cdot v(x)$ uniform modulo 2. This remains true when some clause indices are repeated. Thus, for each such x, at least a quarter of the candidate lists give a row that rejects x.

Summing this bound over the nonsatisfying assignments still passing, we find

$$\mathbb{E}_\gamma D(A; h_\gamma) \leqslant \tfrac{3}{4} D(A).$$

For every candidate, compute $N(A; h_\gamma)$ by counting the common zeros of its polynomial system. Append a candidate attaining the minimum, breaking ties by enumeration order. Since $N(A; h_\gamma) = \#F + D(A; h_\gamma)$ for every γ, the chosen row leaves at most $\frac{3}{4} D(A)$ nonsatisfying assignments. After $3n$ rounds at most $(3/4)^{3n} 2^n = (27/32)^n < 1$ remain; their number is an integer, so it is zero. The procedure runs for a fixed number of rounds and never needs to know $D(A)$ or $\#F$.

The initial matrix has at most $3n$ rows, and every candidate is evaluated with at most $3n$ additional rows. A row listing s clauses expands, by (6.1), to at most $2^k s$ monomials on the original variables; duplicates cancel over $\mathbb{F}_2$. These observations give the claimed size and query bounds. □

6.3. **Counting one sparse formula.** Suppose $n \geqslant 20$ and $1 \leqslant m \leqslant Bn$, where B is bounded by a fixed power of $\log n$ depending only on k. Construct the initial matrix by Lemma 6.1. This uses $\exp((\log n)^{O_k(1)})$ bit operations and polynomial space. Both P and D_0 are $(\log n)^{O_k(1)}$, so every candidate in Lemma 6.2 is an instance of Theorem 2.2 with a single fixed $c = c(k)$. This applies to discarded candidates as well as the final system: the counter requires only the number, degree and sparsity of the equations. Expanding each row and combining monomials costs polynomial time and space for fixed k.

At most $3n(2m)^P + 1 = \exp((\log n)^{O_k(1)})$ calls suffice, including one final count. Each call takes $2^{O_k(n(\log\log n)^2/\sqrt{\log n})}$ bit operations. Since any fixed power of $\log n$ is $o(n(\log\log n)^2/\sqrt{\log n})$, the total time, including construction and candidate comparisons, is

$$(n+m)^{O_k(1)} 2^{O_k(n(\log\log n)^2/\sqrt{\log n})}. \tag{6.4}$$

The final count is $\#F$ by the greedy lemma. A formula with no clauses or containing an empty clause is handled directly. Candidates are examined sequentially; only the current rows, a candidate, the best row and its count need be kept in addition to the counter's polynomial working space.

6.4. **Returning to a general formula.** We use disjoint sparsification to partition the satisfying assignments among sparse formulas on the same n declared variables. The preceding algorithm counts each of these formulas. The parameter σ controls a tradeoff: making it smaller reduces the number of formulas but increases their occurrence bound B. Our solver permits B to grow as a fixed power of $\log n$, so we can let σ tend to zero while keeping both the number of formulas and the cost per formula within the desired time bound.

Lemma 6.3. *Fix $k \geqslant 2$. Given a k-CNF on n declared variables with m clauses and a rational $0 < \sigma \leqslant 1$, a deterministic algorithm constructs a tree of k-CNFs on the same variables. Let L_σ be the total binary encoding length of the supplied numerator and denominator of σ. An assignment satisfies the input exactly when it satisfies one leaf formula, and it cannot satisfy two distinct leaves. The tree has*

$$\mathrm{poly}_k(n, \sigma^{-1})\, 2^{\sigma n}$$

nodes and depth $\mathrm{poly}_k(n, \sigma^{-1})$. In every leaf, each variable occurs at most B times, where B is an explicitly computed integer satisfying

$$B = O_k\Big(\big[\sigma^{-1}\log(2/\sigma)\big]^{k-1}\Big).$$

Input normalization uses $\mathrm{poly}_k(n, m)$ bit operations. Constructing the numerical parameters uses $\mathrm{poly}_k(L_\sigma)$ bit operations. Thereafter, processing each node uses $\mathrm{poly}_k(n, \log(2/\sigma))$ bit operations. The input count is the sum of the leaf counts.

Appendix A proves the lemma, including the disjointness that justifies adding the leaf counts.

Proposition 6.4. *For each fixed $k \geqslant 2$, the interpolation algorithm counts the satisfying assignments of a k-CNF on $n \geqslant 20$ declared variables with m clauses in $(n+m)^{O_k(1)} 2^{O_k(\rho(n))}$ bit operations and $(n+m)^{O_k(1)}$ bits of space.*

Proof. We first normalize the input in $(n+m)^{O_k(1)}$ time by deleting repeated literals, tautological clauses, duplicate clauses, and clauses containing another clause. We retain all n declared variables. An empty clause gives count zero, and a formula with no clauses gives count 2^n. We handle $n < 20$ by exhaustive search. For $n \geqslant 20$, we next select the sparsification parameter. Define

$$\lambda_n = \lceil \log_2 n \rceil, \qquad \nu_n = \lceil \log_2 \lambda_n \rceil, \qquad s = \left\lfloor \frac{\sqrt{\lambda_n}}{\nu_n^2} \right\rfloor.$$

We compute s by integer comparisons, taking the largest nonnegative integer satisfying $s^2\nu_n^4 \leqslant \lambda_n$. If $s < 2$, we use exhaustive search; $\sqrt{\lambda_n}/\nu_n^2$ tends to infinity, so there are only finitely many such

sizes. Otherwise we apply Lemma 6.3 with $\sigma = 1/s$. The tree has at most $2^{n/s}\,\mathrm{poly}_k(n,s)$ nodes, and its leaves have occurrence bound

$$B = O_k\big((s\log s)^{k-1}\big) = (\log n)^{O_k(1)}.$$

Each leaf uses the original n variables and has at most Bn nonempty clauses. We count each leaf by the sparse-formula algorithm of Section 6.3, whose running time is given by (6.4). Leaves with no clauses or containing an empty clause are handled directly. The clause count in that application is the number of clauses in the leaf; m in the final bound remains the input clause count.

For $s \geqslant 2$, the floor in its definition gives

$$\frac{n}{s} = O\left(\frac{n\nu_n^2}{\sqrt{\lambda_n}}\right) = O(\rho(n)).$$

Thus both the number of leaves and the time to count each leaf have exponent $O_k(\rho(n))$. Their polynomial factors, together with normalization and the work at the tree nodes, are bounded by $(n+m)^{O_k(1)}$. The total number of bit operations is therefore

$$(n+m)^{O_k(1)}2^{O_k(\rho(n))}.$$

The finite exhaustive-search cases are absorbed in the constants. All parameters, initial checks, and additional rows are computed by the deterministic procedures above; every counting query uses the common-zero algorithm of Theorem 2.2.

To bound the space used by the full algorithm, we traverse the sparsification tree depth first and count one leaf at a time. The current path has $\mathrm{poly}_k(n,s)$ nodes, and each normalized formula has a $\mathrm{poly}_k(n)$-bit encoding. Since $s \leqslant \sqrt{\lceil \log_2 n \rceil}$, storing this path and counting one leaf use $\mathrm{poly}_k(n,m)$ bits. Disjointness keeps the sum of the processed leaf counts between zero and 2^n, so its accumulator uses at most $n+1$ bits. Thus the total space is $\mathrm{poly}_k(n,m)$ bits. □

Appendix A. Partitioning the satisfying assignments

Fix $k \geqslant 2$ and a rational $0 < \sigma \leqslant 1$. We prove Lemma 6.3 by repeatedly splitting a formula into two cases. Both children use the same n variables, and every satisfying assignment of the parent satisfies exactly one child. We follow the rule for choosing a shared set of literals and the insertion accounting of [CIP06, Section 6]. The refinement that makes the two cases disjoint is standard in exact counting [DHM+14, Appendix A].

Throughout this appendix, a clause is a set of literals and denotes their disjunction. Its *width* is the number of literals it contains. We delete tautological clauses, repeated clauses, and clauses containing another clause. Thus the remaining clauses form an antichain under inclusion. We keep all n declared variables and do not propagate unit clauses. An empty clause gives count zero, and the empty formula gives count 2^n.

A.1. **The branching rule.** Fix an integer $M \geqslant 2$. We will obtain an occurrence bound $B = O_k(M^{k-1})$ at every leaf, then choose M so that the tree has at most $\mathrm{poly}_k(n,\sigma^{-1})2^{\sigma n}$ nodes. Put

$$\theta_j = M^j \qquad (0 \leqslant j < k).$$

Writing F for the current family of clauses, define

$$\deg_c(H) = \#\{C \in F : |C| = c,\ H \subseteq C\}$$

for each literal set H. We branch whenever a nonempty proper subset H of a width-c clause satisfies

$$\deg_c(H) \geqslant \theta_{c-|H|}. \tag{A.1}$$

The algorithm chooses the smallest possible c, and then the largest possible $|H|$; break any remaining ties deterministically. Thus a nonempty shared literal set H leaving $j = c - |H|$ other literals must occur in at least M^j clauses before we branch on it.

Let $H \cup P_1, \ldots, H \cup P_z$ be all the width-c clauses containing the chosen H, and let G consist of the other clauses. Put $j = c - |H|$. Here P_a is the set of literals left after removing H from the ath selected clause, so each P_a has width j and $z \geqslant \theta_j$. The two children are

$$F_A = G \wedge H, \qquad F_B = G \wedge \bigwedge_{a=1}^{z} P_a \wedge \bigwedge_{\ell \in H} \{\neg \ell\}. \tag{A.2}$$

We restore the antichain condition in each child by removing clauses made redundant by its new clauses. The sets P_a may overlap. The satisfying assignments of the children are disjoint: F_A requires some literal of H to be true, whereas F_B requires every literal of H to be false.

Lemma A.1. *The children in (A.2) partition the satisfying assignments of their parent. Every new clause has width less than c. The A-child inserts one new clause, and the B-child inserts at least θ_j new clauses of width j. All newly inserted clauses survive the immediate normalization. Every old clause removed in either child contains a newly inserted strict subset.*

Proof. Every assignment satisfies exactly one of the conditions *some literal of H is true* and *every literal of H is false*. In the first case, all selected clauses are satisfied, leaving $G \wedge H$. In the second, each selected clause reduces to P_a, and the unit clauses $\{\neg \ell\}$ enforce this case. Thus the two children partition the parent's satisfying assignments.

The old antichain contains no clause included in H or in any P_a: such a clause would be a strict subset of $H \cup P_a$. Thus H and the distinct equal-width clauses P_a are new. No P_a contains a variable of H, since its parent is nontautological. Consequently, none of the unit clauses $\{\neg \ell\}$, $\ell \in H$, is a subset of any P_a. Any unit clause $\{\neg \ell\}$ already present is retained and is not counted as a new insertion. The remaining new unit clauses and the clauses P_a all survive. Each selected old clause contains the newly inserted clause H for child A, or its newly inserted subset P_a for child B. Every other removed clause contains a newly inserted strict subset by the normalization rule. □

A.2. **Counting insertions.** To bound the tree, we count every clause introduced along one path, including clauses later deleted. Clauses present in the input are excluded from this count. By Lemma A.1, each step inserts a clause, so bounding the total number of insertions also bounds the path length.

For this accounting, a clause is marked when a branch introduces it. First we bound how many marked clauses can still be present and contain a given literal set. The smallest-width priority controls those present before a branch; the largest-$|H|$ priority controls those introduced by that branch.

Lemma A.2. *At every node, for $1 \leqslant i < j < k$ and every literal set S of size i, fewer than $2\theta_{j-i}$ marked clauses of width j that are still present contain S.*

Proof. Initially there are no marked clauses. It suffices to consider a branch that inserts clauses of width j. Its selected width c is larger than j. Before insertion, fewer than θ_{j-i} current width-j clauses contain S: otherwise the smallest-width priority would select a width at most j.

Choosing child A inserts only one clause. Suppose child B inserts clauses P_a of width j. If none of the P_a contains S, the number of new width-j clauses containing S is zero. Otherwise S lies in a petal and is therefore disjoint from H. In this case P_a contains S exactly when the selected clause $H \cup P_a$ contains $H \cup S$. Since $0 < i < j$, $H \cup S$ is larger than H and is a proper subset of a selected width-c clause. The priority for the largest shared set therefore gives

$$\#\{a : S \subseteq P_a\} = \deg_c(H \cup S) < \theta_{c-|H \cup S|} = \theta_{j-i}.$$

The other new clauses $\{\neg \ell\}$ have width one. Thus the old and new clauses of width j together satisfy the asserted bound. Deletion cannot increase it. □

Lemma A.3. *Along any path or path prefix, the total number T_j of width-j insertions satisfies $T_j \leqslant 4(3M)^{j-1}n$ for $1 \leqslant j < k$.*

Proof. The case $n = 0$ is immediate, so assume $n \geqslant 1$. For the current path prefix, let L_j be the number of marked width-j clauses still present, and let D_j be the number of width-j insertions whose clauses have since been deleted. Then $T_j = L_j + D_j$. Units are never deleted, so $T_1 \leqslant 2n \leqslant 4n$. For $j \geqslant 2$, sum Lemma A.2 over the $2n$ single literals. This gives $L_j \leqslant 4n\theta_{j-1}$.

Whenever a marked clause of width j is deleted, assign that deletion to one newly introduced strict subset contained in it; Lemma A.1 guarantees such a subset. If the new clause has width $i < j$, Lemma A.2 shows that it was contained in fewer than $2\theta_{j-i}$ marked clauses of width j immediately before the branch. Thus one insertion of a width-i clause receives at most that many deletions. Summing over the widths i of the new clauses gives $D_j \leqslant 2\sum_{i=1}^{j-1} \theta_{j-i}T_i$. Therefore

$$T_j = L_j + D_j \leqslant 4n\theta_{j-1} + 2\sum_{i=1}^{j-1} \theta_{j-i}T_i. \tag{A.3}$$

The first term counts clauses still present; the sum counts those that were deleted. Dividing by nM^{j-1} and applying induction gives

$$\frac{T_j}{nM^{j-1}} \leqslant 4 + 2\sum_{i=1}^{j-1} 4 \cdot 3^{i-1} = 4 \cdot 3^{j-1},$$

as required. □

A.3. **The size of the tree.** We now convert Lemma A.3 into a bound on the number of tree nodes. It controls both the length of a path and the number of times that path chooses the B-child in (A.2). Write these bounds as Cn and $\Gamma n/M$, respectively, where

$$C = 4\sum_{j=0}^{k-2}(3M)^j, \qquad \Gamma = 4\sum_{j=0}^{k-2} 3^j = 2(3^{k-1} - 1).$$

Lemma A.3 gives depth at most Cn. A choice of child B with $|P_a| = j$ inserts at least M^j clauses of width j, so a path contains at most $4 \cdot 3^{j-1}n/M$ such choices. In total, a path chooses B at most $\Gamma n/M$ times.

A path with few choices of B has a short description. Because the branching rule is deterministic, a node is determined by its depth and the positions at which its path chooses B; every other position chooses A. For $M \geqslant \Gamma$, this bounds the number of nodes by

$$(Cn+1)\sum_{a \leqslant \lfloor \Gamma n/M \rfloor} \binom{Cn}{a} \leqslant (Cn+1)^2 2^{(\Gamma n/M)\log_2(4CM)}.$$

Here $\Gamma n/M \leqslant n \leqslant Cn/4$. For a positive integer a, use $\binom{Cn}{a} \leqslant (4Cn/a)^a$; this upper bound increases for $a \leqslant Cn/4$. There are at most $Cn+1$ summands. The case $\Gamma n/M < 1$ is immediate.

We choose M to make the exponent in this bound at most σn. Test powers of two $M \geqslant \Gamma$ in increasing order. For each choice, compute C and $h = \lceil \log_2(4CM) \rceil$, and stop when

$$\Gamma h \leqslant \sigma M.$$

All comparisons are exact. Since $C = O_k(M^{k-2})$ and Γ depends only on k, the first successful choice satisfies

$$M = O_k\big(\sigma^{-1}\log(2/\sigma)\big).$$

The tree therefore has at most $(Cn+1)^2\, 2^{\sigma n}$ nodes.

At a leaf, (A.1) fails for every nonempty proper subset of a clause. A fixed literal belongs to fewer than θ_{c-1} width-c clauses when $c \geqslant 2$, and to at most one unit clause. Hence each variable occurs at most

$$B = 2\sum_{j=0}^{k-1} M^j \leqslant 4M^{k-1} = O_k\Big(\big[\sigma^{-1}\log(2/\sigma)\big]^{k-1}\Big).$$

Thus every leaf has the required bound on occurrences per variable. The repeated two-case partition also shows that each original satisfying assignment occurs at exactly one leaf, so summing the leaf counts gives the original count.

To implement the branching rule at a node, we compute $\deg_c(H)$ for its current formula. For each width-c clause, we enumerate its nonempty proper subsets H and increment the counter indexed by (c, H). There are $O_k(n^k)$ possible nonempty normalized clauses, each with at most 2^k subsets. The clause counters use $O_k(\log(n+2))$ bits, and the thresholds use $O_k(\log M)$ bits. Computing the counts, choosing a branch, and normalizing its children therefore use $\mathrm{poly}_k(n, \log M)$ bit operations and bits of working space per node. The bound on M gives $\log M = O_k(\log(2/\sigma))$.

With L_σ as in Lemma 6.3, the parameter search examines $O_k(L_\sigma)$ powers of two. Its integer operands have $O_k(L_\sigma)$ bits, so constructing the numerical parameters uses $\mathrm{poly}_k(L_\sigma)$ bit operations and bits of working space.

Appendix B. Exact arithmetic and space

Section 4 bounds the rational coefficients of the substitution rows $\vec{P}_{f,v}(T)$. We complete the bit-cost and space estimates in Proposition 5.3 by bounding the lifted factors, the sums used to compute the Taylor polynomials of H, and the final interpolation. The essential point is that each sum uses a fixed denominator. Its numerator grows with the number of summands, so its bit length grows only with the logarithm of that number. For any polynomial $G = \sum_\alpha c_\alpha \vec{X}^\alpha$ in finitely many indeterminates, write $\|G\|_1 = \sum_\alpha |c_\alpha|$ for its coefficient norm.

B.1. **Integer coefficients of the lifted indicator.** We first bound the coefficients of the parity polynomials supplied by Lemma 5.1. They occur in every equation factor $\mathcal{B}_i$ in (5.4), so their sizes enter the bit-cost bounds for evaluating those factors. For an integer $\ell \geqslant 1$, recall $h(Y) = Y(Y-1)$ and the polynomials from Lemma 5.1:

$$p_\ell(Y) = (1-Y)^\ell \sum_{j=0}^{\ell-1} \binom{\ell+j-1}{j} Y^j = \sum_{j=0}^{\ell-1} e_j(Y) h(Y)^j, \qquad \deg e_j \leqslant 1.$$

That lemma proves the parity congruence and constructs the e_j by successive monic division by h. Here we bound the integers occurring in this construction.

Lemma B.1. *Write $e_j(Y) = a_j + b_j Y$ for $0 \leqslant j < \ell$. Then $a_j, b_j \in \mathbb{Z}$ and*

$$|a_j|, |b_j| \leqslant 2^{C\ell^2} \qquad (0 \leqslant j < \ell)$$

for an absolute constant C. Successive division of p_ℓ by h constructs these polynomials using $\mathrm{poly}(\ell)$ bit operations and bits of working space.

Proof. The coefficient-norm inequality $\|fg\|_1 \leqslant \|f\|_1 \|g\|_1$, together with the binomial identity

$$\sum_{j=0}^{\ell-1} \binom{\ell+j-1}{j} = \binom{2\ell-1}{\ell-1}$$

gives

$$\|p_\ell\|_1 \leqslant 2^\ell \binom{2\ell-1}{\ell-1} \leqslant 2^{3\ell}.$$

Monic division by $h = Y^2 - Y$ preserves integer coefficients. Each leading-term elimination increases the sum of the coefficient norms of the current quotient and remainder by at most a factor of three. There are $O(\ell^2)$ eliminations in all the successive divisions. Thus every intermediate coefficient has absolute value at most $2^{O(\ell^2)}$, which proves the stated bound for a_j, b_j. Its signed binary encoding consequently uses $O(\ell^2)$ bits. Each coefficient vector has $O(\ell)$ entries. The successive divisions use $O(\ell^2)$ integer arithmetic operations on integers of $O(\ell^2)$ bits, giving the claimed poly(ℓ) bit-operation and space bounds. □

B.2. **Bit complexity of the sums over Boolean assignments.** We now bound every intermediate value in the computation of $\mathcal{H}_t(z) = H(t+z) \bmod z^J$ from (3.13). Starting with the substitution rows $\vec{P}_{f,v}(T)$, we bound the substituted factors, their sums over each group of Boolean variables, and the accumulator T_t for the Taylor data in Proposition 5.3. Fix a polynomial system $\mathcal{P}$ in n Boolean variables, with m_{test} equations of degree at most k, precision ℓ such that $2^\ell > 2^n$, and a replacement design for its equation factors. Suppose the rows $\vec{P}_{f,v}$, partitions $S_{t,g}$, and matrices $C_{t,g}$ satisfy Definition 3.1, with parameters Q, R, r, D, τ. Recall the degree bound for H and the number of Taylor coefficients retained at each node:

$$d_H = kR\big(m_{\text{test}} + 2(\ell-1)\big), \qquad J = \left\lfloor \frac{d_H}{Q} \right\rfloor + 1.$$

All polynomials in the Taylor variable z and the shared truncation marker V are stored in their unique representative modulo (z^J, V^ℓ). Removing terms outside these degree ranges cannot increase the coefficient norm.

The substitution rows have common denominator

$$d_{\text{den}} = (R-1)!Q!.$$

We use an integer $B_P \geqslant 1$ such that every integer coefficient of every row $d_{\text{den}}\vec{P}_{f,v}(T)$ has absolute value at most 2^{B_P}. Definition 3.1 gives $B_P = O(Q \log Q + \log D)$. At a fixed node $t \in [Q]$ and for a fixed correction set $U \subseteq [n]$, the input to factor f at variable v is

$$\theta_{f,v}(z;x) = \langle \vec{P}_{f,v}(t), x\rangle + \big\langle \vec{P}_{f,v}(t+z) - \vec{P}_{f,v}(t), \mathbf{1}_U \big\rangle, \qquad x \in \{0,1\}^n.$$

Let $L_i(z;x)$ be the sum of the listed monomials of equation i after these substitutions. Each $d_{\text{den}}\theta_{i,v}(z;x)$ is an integer polynomial of coefficient norm at most

$$B_0 = d_{\text{den}} + 3n(R+1)2^{B_P}(Q+1)^R.$$

Indeed, each of the three row evaluations in $\theta_{i,v}$ contributes at most $n(R+1)2^{B_P}(Q+1)^R$ after denominators are cleared. The bound holds also for the representatives in the group sums.

Put $\Delta = d_{\text{den}}^k$. For a monomial of degree $u \leqslant k$, multiplying its substituted value by Δ gives an integer polynomial of norm at most $d_{\text{den}}^{k-u} B_0^u \leqslant B_0^k$, including the constant monomial. As S bounds the total list length,

$$B = \max\{\Delta, SB_0^k\} \quad \text{satisfies} \quad \|\Delta L_i(z;x)\|_1 \leqslant B.$$

Consequently $\log d_{\text{den}} = O(Q\log(Q+2))$, $\log B_0 = O(Q\log(Q+2) + \log(nD+2))$, and $\log B = O(k \log B_0 + \log(S+2))$.

The substituted factor of equation i is

$$\mathcal{B}_i(z, V; x) = \sum_{j=0}^{\ell-1} e_j\big(L_i(z;x)\big) h\big(L_i(z;x)\big)^j V^j \pmod{(z^J, V^\ell)}.$$

Since e_j is integral and has degree at most one, its substitution has denominator dividing Δ; the denominator of $h(L_i)^j$ divides Δ^{2j}. Thus, with

$$\Gamma = \Delta^{2\ell-1},$$

every coefficient of $\Gamma\mathcal{B}_i(z, V; x)$ is an integer. To bound the resulting integer numerators, put

$$E_\ell = \max\{1, \|e_0\|_1, \dots, \|e_{\ell-1}\|_1\}, \qquad B_1 = \ell E_\ell (B + \Delta + 2)^{2\ell-1}.$$

For $A_i = \Delta L_i$, the two substituted factors have integer numerators $\Delta e_j(L_i)$ and $A_i(A_i - \Delta)$, with norms at most $E_\ell(B+\Delta)$ and $B(B+\Delta)$, respectively. Padding each term to denominator Γ therefore gives

$$\|\Gamma\mathcal{B}_i\|_1 \leqslant B_1, \qquad B_1 \geqslant \Gamma, \qquad \log B_1 = O\big(\ell^2 + \ell \log(B + \Delta + 2) + \log(\ell + 1)\big).$$

We next apply these estimates to the actual group sums. Write $S_g = S_{t,g}$ and $C_g = C_{t,g}$, and let c_g be the number of rows of C_g. Thus $c = \sum_g c_g \leqslant 2\tau n$, and every coordinate of a Boolean measurement $C_g x_g$ lies in $[-D, D] \cap \mathbb{Z}$. Let $m_{\mathrm{test},g}$ be the number of equation factors assigned to group g at t, so $\sum_g m_{\mathrm{test},g} = m_{\mathrm{test}}$. Their product $A_{g,U}(x; z)$ from (3.11) is represented in $\mathbb{Q}[z, V]/(z^J, V^\ell)$. It has denominator dividing $\Gamma^{m_{\mathrm{test},g}}$ and numerator norm, over that denominator, at most $B_1^{m_{\mathrm{test},g}}$. The neutral constant-one factors do not affect this bound.

For a pair $U \subseteq E \subseteq [n]$ with $|E| < J$ and an attainable measurement tuple $\vec{y} = (y_1, \dots, y_r)$, choose Boolean representatives $\bar{x}_h$ with $C_h \bar{x}_h = y_h$. The group sum in (3.4) is

$$\Sigma_g(\vec{y}) = \sum_{\substack{x_g \in \{0,1\}^{S_g} \\ C_g x_g = y_g \\ (x_g)_v = 1 \ (v \in E \cap S_g)}} A_{g,U}\Big(x_g + \sum_{h \neq g} \bar{x}_h; z\Big).$$

Here vectors on individual groups are extended by zero. The sum has at most $2^{|S_g|}$ terms, all over the same denominator, so

$$\|\Gamma^{m_{\mathrm{test},g}} \Sigma_g(\vec{y})\|_1 \leqslant 2^{|S_g|} B_1^{m_{\mathrm{test},g}}.$$

For $1 \leqslant g \leqslant r$, define the partial product $\Pi_g(\vec{y}) = \prod_{h=1}^{g} \Sigma_h(\vec{y})$, with truncation after each multiplication. Its denominator divides

$$\Gamma^{\sum_{h \leqslant g} m_{\mathrm{test},h}}.$$

Consequently every full contribution $\Pi_r(\vec{y})$ can be placed over the fixed denominator

$$\Omega = \Gamma^{m_{\mathrm{test}}},$$

and it satisfies

$$\|\Omega \Pi_r(\vec{y})\|_1 \leqslant 2^n B_1^{m_{\mathrm{test}}}.$$

Let $T_t(z, V)$ be the accumulator that adds these full contributions with sign $(-1)^{|E|-|U|}$ over all pairs and measurement tuples. By (3.13), its final value is the $\mathcal{A}_\ell$-valued Taylor polynomial $\mathcal{H}_t(z)$. The number M_* of signed updates at one node is bounded by

$$M_* \leqslant \left(\sum_{s=0}^{\min(J-1, n)} 2^s \binom{n}{s} \right) (2D + 1)^c \leqslant 3^n (2D + 1)^c.$$

Every intermediate value of T_t, not just its final value, therefore satisfies

$$\|\Omega T_t\|_1 \leqslant M_* \, 2^n B_1^{m_{\mathrm{test}}}.$$

Each coefficient of the integer polynomial ΩT_t has

$$O(\log(M_* + 1) + n + m_{\mathrm{test}} \log B_1)$$

bits. This estimate also bounds the integer numerators of all group sums and partial products with the fixed denominators given above. The denominator satisfies

$$\log \Omega = k m_{\mathrm{test}} (2\ell - 1) \log d_{\mathrm{den}} = O(k(m_{\mathrm{test}} \ell + 1) Q \log(Q + 2)).$$

Each contribution multiplies at most m_{test} lifted equation factors. Processing further pairs or measurement tuples adds new contributions; it does not multiply them into the previous ones.

This is why exponentially many iterations contribute only $\log(M_*+1)$ to the bit estimate. Each stored polynomial has at most $J\ell \leqslant (d_H+1)\ell$ coefficients. The enumeration retains its current indices and Boolean representatives, one group sum, one partial product, and the accumulator T_t, without storing a table of all assignments or all measurement tuples. These estimates give (5.6) and polynomial bit cost per rational operation. The $QJ\ell$ Taylor coefficients and the working state fit in $\mathrm{poly}(n, m_{\mathrm{test}}, \ell, D, Q, R, J, r, k, S)$ bits.

B.3. **Interpolation and the integer answer.** For $0 \leqslant s < \ell$, let $H_s(T) = [V^s]H(T) \in \mathbb{Q}[T]$. Section B.2 bounds the computed data $[z^j V^s]\mathcal{H}_t(z) = [z^j]H_s(t+z)$ for $t \in [Q]$, $0 \leqslant j < J$. Fix s. We interpolate this coordinate, using the same rational Hermite matrix for all ℓ coordinates. Put $M_H = QJ > d_H$. In the monomial basis $1, T, \ldots, T^{M_H-1}$, the Hermite interpolation matrix is the integer matrix

$$\mathsf{V}_{(t,j),u} = \begin{cases} \binom{u}{j} t^{u-j}, & u \geqslant j, \\ 0, & u < j, \end{cases} \qquad t \in [Q], \quad 0 \leqslant j < J, \quad 0 \leqslant u < M_H.$$

It is nonsingular by the Hermite interpolation statement in Section 3. Its entries have $O(M_H \log(Q+2))$ bits. Let $\mathbf{y}$ be the vector of computed coefficients $[z^j V^s]\mathcal{H}_t(z)$, ordered by (t,j), and let $\mathbf{h}$ be the monomial coefficient vector of H_s, padded with zeros to length M_H. Thus $\mathsf{V}\mathbf{h} = \mathbf{y}$. The vector $\mathbf{b} = \Omega\mathbf{y}$ is integral; write B_{data} for a bound on its entries' bit lengths. The bounds in Section B.2 give

$$B_{\mathrm{data}} \leqslant \mathrm{poly}(n, m_{\mathrm{test}}, \ell, k, Q, \log(D+2), \log(S+2)).$$

Only the constant coefficient $h_0 = H_s(0)$ is needed. Let $\mathsf{V}^{(0)}$ be obtained from V by replacing its column indexed by $u = 0$ with $\mathbf{b}$, and put

$$N_H = \det \mathsf{V}^{(0)}, \qquad D_H = \det \mathsf{V} \neq 0.$$

Cramer's rule for $\mathsf{V}(\Omega\mathbf{h}) = \mathbf{b}$ gives

$$H_s(0) = h_0 = \frac{N_H}{\Omega D_H}. \tag{B.1}$$

We compute these two determinants by fraction-free Gaussian elimination [Bar68, Sections I–II and IV–V]. For an $M_H \times M_H$ integer matrix, this algorithm uses $O(M_H^3)$ integer arithmetic operations; pivoting allows it to handle singular matrices as well. The retained elimination entries are signed minors of the input matrix. Each update forms products and a difference of such entries, followed by an exact integer division. Consequently, bounds on the minors of V and $\mathsf{V}^{(0)}$ also bound the intermediate integers used to compute D_H and N_H. Every minor of $(\mathsf{V} \mid \mathbf{b})$ has absolute value at most

$$2^{O(M_H(B_{\mathrm{data}} + M_H \log(Q+2) + \log(M_H+1)))}.$$

Indeed, its determinant is a sum of at most $M_H!$ products of at most M_H entries. The intermediate integers in fraction-free elimination therefore have

$$O\big(M_H\big(B_{\mathrm{data}} + M_H \log(Q+2) + \log(M_H+1)\big)\big)$$

bits in signed binary notation. Computing N_H, D_H thus uses $\mathrm{poly}(M_H, B_{\mathrm{data}})$ bit operations and bits of working space.

At $T = 0$ every $H_s(0)$ is an integer by construction, so the division in (B.1) is exact for each s. After computing these ℓ integers, put $u = \sum_{s=0}^{\ell-1} H_s(0)$. By (5.5), the least nonnegative residue

$$u - 2^{\ell} \left\lfloor \frac{u}{2^{\ell}} \right\rfloor = N(\mathcal{P})$$

is the exact count. Reusing the same workspace for successive coordinates, all ℓ interpolations, the sum and the remainder use $\mathrm{poly}(M_H, B_{\mathrm{data}}, \log(\Omega+1), \ell)$ bit operations and polynomially many bits of working space.

B.4. **Arithmetic for the technique overview.** We also justify the bit-complexity and space bounds for the bounded-occurrence algorithm in Section 2. Lemma 4.6 bounds the bit lengths of the replacement coefficients by a polynomial in n. Solving the polynomial-size rational linear systems in Section 2.4 gives measurement coefficients $\vec{\lambda}_{e,v,h}$ of polynomial bit length as well. Let δ be the product of the denominators of all these coefficients and all replacement coefficients, over all evaluation points. There are only polynomially many, so δ also has polynomial bit length. Every clause product uses at most $M \leqslant 3n$ linear inputs; consequently, all coefficients in the restricted sums can be accumulated with common denominator δ^{3n}. Products of polynomially many input coefficients of polynomial bit length, and sums of exponentially many such terms over this common denominator, still have polynomial bit length. The exact Hermite interpolation above therefore has polynomial bit cost for these Taylor data as well. Finally, the enumerations can be performed sequentially, retaining only the construction, current indices, coefficient arrays, running sums, and the polynomially many Taylor coefficients needed for interpolation. This gives polynomial space and only polynomial bit-operation overhead.

Appendix C. Additional Consequences of Refuting ETH

Theorem 1.1 gives a circuit lower bound and subexponential-time algorithms for inverting Boolean maps with constant output locality. The fixed-density case gives the quantitative circuit lower bound in Corollary 1.4. Both circuit arguments use only the decision version of our 3-SAT algorithm. Exact preimage counting uses its full counting guarantee.

C.1. **Circuit lower bounds for E^{NP}.** For the qualitative bound below, write $\mathrm{SIZE}(O(n))$ for the languages having nonuniform circuits with $O(n)$ bounded-fan-in AND, OR, and NOT gates.

Corollary C.1. *We have*

$$\mathrm{E}^{\mathrm{NP}} \not\subseteq \mathrm{SIZE}(O(n)).$$

Proof. Williams proved that if ETH is false, then E^{NP} does not have linear-size circuits [Wil13, Theorem 6.1]. Apply this implication to the deterministic subexponential-time 3-SAT algorithm supplied by Theorem 1.1. □

The connection is an instance of deriving circuit lower bounds from faster satisfiability algorithms. To encode a Boolean circuit with s gates and n inputs, introduce a variable for each gate, enforce its value from its inputs, and add a unit clause requiring the output bit to equal 1. The resulting 3-CNF has $O(n+s)$ variables and clauses and is satisfiable exactly when the circuit is. Our theorem therefore decides satisfiability of linear-size circuits in $2^{o(n)}$ time. Williams's argument combines such a speedup with hypothetical small circuits for witnesses to contradict a nondeterministic time hierarchy. The corollary gives a language in E^{NP} without a linear-size circuit family; it does not assert a superpolynomial circuit lower bound for NP.

Proof of Corollary 1.4. We use Williams's witness-circuit argument [Wil13, Theorem 6.1] with the local reduction of Jahanjou, Miles, and Viola [JMV13, Theorem 1 and Section 6].

By Žák's nondeterministic time hierarchy [Žák83], in the form stated in [Wil13, Theorem 2.1 in the full version], fix a unary language $H \in \mathrm{NTIME}(2^n) \setminus \mathrm{NTIME}(2^{n/2})$ on multitape Turing machines. For all sufficiently large n apply the local reduction to its fixed machine on 1^n with locality parameter $r = 2$. A time allowance $T = 2^n n^{O(1)}$ includes the polylogarithmic overhead of simulating the machine in the reduction and gives $q = n + O(\log n)$ clause-index bits. In polynomial time the reduction constructs a decoder giving three variable labels and their signs on each index. Let φ_n consist of the clauses decoded on all 2^q indices. It is satisfiable exactly when $1^n \in H$.

Each of the decoder's $O(n)$ output bits has a constant-depth decision tree, so it depends on at most a fixed number w of index bits. Evaluating the decoder on all strings of Hamming weight at most w recovers each support. Indeed, two strings witnessing dependence on one coordinate can be

set to zero off the support while retaining their differing outputs. The same evaluations give the truth table on each support. This constructs a decoder of $O(n)$ fan-in-two gates in polynomial time.

Pad each variable label to dn bits for a fixed positive integer d and declare all 2^{dn} variables. If $|i| = dn$ for such an n and φ_n is satisfiable, let $W(i)$ be bit i of its lexicographically first satisfying assignment, ordering variables by their labels. Set $W(i) = 0$ in all other cases. The length of i determines n. To decide W, write out the 2^q clauses, ask an NP oracle whether the formula is satisfiable, and, if so, recover the first assignment by asking whether its current prefix followed by zero has a satisfying extension. At most 2^{dn} prefix queries of length $2^{O(n)}$ suffice, so $W \in \mathrm{E}^{\mathrm{NP}}$.

Put $a(t) = \sqrt{\log_2 t}$. Testing whether the count in the constant-density part of Theorem 1.1 is positive decides 3-SAT with V variables and at most $5V$ clauses in time $V^b 2^{AV/a(V)}$ for fixed $A, b > 0$. We absorb the change of logarithm base in A. The solver uses polynomial space, so a multitape simulation can scan its workspace for each bit access at a cost $V^{O(1)}$, absorbed in b.

Fix a positive rational $\eta < 1/(12A)$ and put $s_n = \lfloor \eta n \lfloor a(n) \rfloor \rfloor$ for $n \geqslant 2$. The threshold is computable using the binary length of n and the integer square root of $\lfloor \log_2 n \rfloor$. Suppose that $C_W(dn) \leqslant s_n$ for all sufficiently large n. To decide H, reject nonunary inputs. On 1^n, guess a circuit on dn index bits with at most s_n gates. Feed the decoder's three variable labels to three copies of this circuit and test whether the indexed clause is violated. Accept if the test circuit is unsatisfiable. When $1^n \in H$, a circuit computing W at length dn gives an accepting guess. When $1^n \notin H$, every guess violates a clause.

The test circuit has q inputs and at most $3s_n + O(n)$ gates. The encoding above uses one variable per input and gate, at most four clauses of width at most three per gate to enforce its truth table, and one unit clause to pin the output. Padding with unused variables gives $U_n = 3s_n + Bn$ variables and at most $5U_n$ clauses for a fixed integer B. Since $U_n = (3\eta + o(1))na(n)$ and $a(U_n) \sim a(n)$, the test takes $2^{(3A\eta + o(1))n}$ time. Guessing and building the circuits take polynomial time, so H is decidable nondeterministically in time $2^{n/2}$ for all sufficiently large n. The finitely many exceptional lengths can be hardwired, contradicting the choice of H. Thus $C_W(dn) > s_n$ for infinitely many n. Since $s_n \sim \eta n \sqrt{\log_2 n}$ and d is fixed, taking $L = W$ and any $0 < c < \eta/(d\sqrt{\log 2})$ proves (1.2). □

C.2. **Inverting Boolean maps with constant output locality.** Fix a constant d. Consider a Boolean map $G : \{0,1\}^n \to \{0,1\}^m$ whose ith output bit has the form

$$G(\vec{x})_i = g_i(\vec{x}|_{S_i}), \qquad S_i \subseteq [n], \quad |S_i| \leqslant d.$$

The input description of G lists the sets S_i and the truth tables of the Boolean functions g_i. Thus each output inspects only constantly many input bits, although the sets S_i may overlap arbitrarily. Given a target $\vec{b} \in \{0,1\}^m$, inversion asks for any $\vec{x}$ with $G(\vec{x}) = \vec{b}$.

Corollary C.2. *For every fixed d and $n \geqslant 20$, the number $|G^{-1}(\vec{b})|$ can be computed exactly, and a preimage can be found whenever one exists, in deterministic time*

$$(n+m)^{O_d(1)} 2^{O_d(\rho(n))}$$

and space $(n+m)^{O_d(1)}$.

Proof. For each i and each local assignment $\vec{\alpha} \in \{0,1\}^{S_i}$ with $g_i(\vec{\alpha}) \neq b_i$, include the clause

$$\bigvee_{j \in S_i} \ell_{j,\alpha_j}, \qquad \ell_{j,0} = X_j, \quad \ell_{j,1} = \neg X_j.$$

This clause forbids exactly the local assignment $\vec{\alpha}$. If S_i is empty, its constraint is constant and can be checked directly. The conjunction of the remaining clauses is a CNF on the original n declared variables, with width at most d and at most $2^d m$ clauses. Its satisfying assignments are exactly $G^{-1}(\vec{b})$; no auxiliary variables or multiplicity corrections are needed. Apply Theorem 1.1 with $k = \max\{2, d\}$. The usual variable-by-variable self-reduction finds a preimage using at most n

further counting queries, which only changes the polynomial factor. Each query may be discarded before the next, preserving polynomial space. □

Conditional counts also allow an exactly uniform preimage to be sampled, when the preimage set is nonempty, with the same bound in expected time up to polynomial factors [JVV86]. In particular, the corollary applies to constant-locality versions of Goldreich's candidate one-way functions, which evaluate local predicates on overlapping subsets of input bits [Gol00]. For polynomially many output bits, it gives a $2^{o(n)}$-time inversion algorithm for every output in the image, ruling out $2^{\Omega(n)}$ inversion hardness for these families. This does not rule out one-wayness against polynomial-time algorithms.

Appendix D. A sharper bound for exact counting

We prove Theorem 1.1 by contracting Boolean tensor networks. The two running times reflect the number of wires in the networks. A formula with $m \leqslant Dn$ clauses gives a network with $O_{k,D}(n)$ wires. For arbitrary formulas, we use the parity tests of Section 6. The degree bound of Lemma 5.2 lets us index a monomial retained in the product of their polynomial lifts with $O_k(n \log\log n)$ wires. We give both encodings before proving the contraction theorem they use.

D.1. **Boolean tensor contraction.** A Boolean tensor network is a bipartite multigraph G in which each edge carries a single bit. Each vertex v has an ordered list $\delta(v)$ of incident edges and a tensor T_v assigning a ring element to each Boolean assignment to those edges. Parallel edges have distinct ports. The *contraction* of the network is

$$Z = \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^{E(G)}} \prod_{v \in V(G)} T_v(x|_{\delta(v)}).$$

An isolated vertex contributes its scalar entry. We measure the size of the network by its number of edges.

Theorem D.1 (Boolean tensor contraction)**.** *Fix positive constants C, A, b. Let $s \geqslant 2$ be an integer, and let $\mathcal{L}$ be the total length of the graph and tensor descriptions of a bipartite tensor network with at most Cs edges and maximum degree at most $\lceil s^{9/10} \rceil$. Suppose that the number of vertices is bounded by a fixed polynomial in s, and that the entries belong to*

$$\mathcal{B}_{P_0,\ell} = (\mathbb{Z}/2^{P_0}\mathbb{Z})[V]/(V^{\ell}), \qquad 1 \leqslant P_0, \ell \leqslant Cs.$$

Suppose, uniformly for every vertex and Boolean choice of its ports, that its entry can be computed from the description in time $(s+\mathcal{L})^b 2^{As^{9/10}}$ and space $(s+\mathcal{L})^b$. Then the contraction can be computed deterministically in

$$(s+\mathcal{L})^{O(1)} 2^{O(s/\sqrt{\log s})}$$

bit operations and $(s+\mathcal{L})^{O(1)}$ bits of space. Constants depend only on the fixed bounds in the hypotheses. In particular, $\ell = 1$ is permitted.

The algorithm in Section D.4 replaces a single global Taylor expansion by recursion on the wires. At each call it deforms the wire identifications so that, at a chosen interpolation node, only ports in the same group interact. Near that node, interactions between groups expand in variables called modes. A mode of weight j has coefficient divisible by 2^j, so only monomials of total weight below the working precision can contribute. Tapering the Hermite multiplicities with the two-adic valuation of the node bounds that precision. With M wires and u retained valuation levels, the number of mode monomials is $2^{O(M/\sqrt{u})}$, and each monomial factors into contractions with at most $M/8$ wires. At recursion depth d, $M = O(s8^{-d})$ and $u = \Theta((\log s)/2^d)$. The exponents therefore sum geometrically to $O(s/\sqrt{\log s})$.

D.2. **Fixed clause density.**

Proof of the fixed-density bound in Theorem 1.1. Give each clause a vertex carrying its Boolean satisfaction table, with one port for each distinct variable in the clause. A tautology may be dropped, and an empty clause gives count zero. For a variable with $d \geqslant 1$ ports, require their bits to agree. For $d = 1$ attach the unary tensor $(1, 1)$, and for $d = 2$ attach a binary equality tensor. For $d \geqslant 3$ take a tree with d external ports and trivalent equality tensors at its internal vertices. Such a tree has $d - 2$ internal vertices, and each common value on its ports extends uniquely to all its internal edges.

There are at most km clause ports. The graph has $O_k(n + m)$ edges and vertices, and maximum degree at most $\max\{k, 3\}$. Subdivide every edge once by a binary equality tensor. The old vertices and the new vertices form the two sides of a bipartite network. The two bits on a subdivided edge must be equal, so this preserves the contraction. Every satisfying assignment on the occurring variables contributes one and every other assignment contributes zero.

With $s = n + m$, apply Theorem D.1 over $\mathbb{Z}/2^{n+1}\mathbb{Z}$, taking $P_0 = n + 1$ and $\ell = 1$. The local tables have bounded size for fixed k. The degree and precision bounds hold for all sufficiently large s, and bounded instances can be enumerated directly. If u declared variables are unused, multiply the contraction by 2^u modulo 2^{n+1}. Its least nonnegative residue is $\#F$, since $0 \leqslant \#F \leqslant 2^n$. This includes the empty formula, for which the empty network has contraction one. The time is $s^{O_k(1)}2^{O_k(s/\sqrt{\log s})}$ and the space is polynomial. When $m \leqslant Dn$, we have $n \leqslant s \leqslant (1 + D)n$, giving exponent $O_{k,D}(n/\sqrt{\log n})$. □

D.3. **Arbitrary clause density.** The sparsification and greedy row selection in Section 6 reduce this case to counting common zeros of sparse polynomial equations. We retain the parity lift of Section 5. Its degree bound lets us encode a monomial by a subset of test–variable incidences using $O(n \log\log n)$ Boolean wires.

Lemma D.2 (Counting sparse polynomial systems by contraction)**.** *Fix integers $k, c \geqslant 1$. Let $P_1, \dots, P_a$ be polynomials over $\mathbb{F}_2$ on $n \geqslant 20$ declared Boolean variables. Suppose $a \leqslant cn$ and each P_i is listed as at most $\lceil \log_2 n \rceil^c$ monomials of degree at most k. The number of common zeros is computable deterministically in $n^{O_{k,c}(1)}2^{O_{k,c}(n \log\log n/\sqrt{\log n})}$ bit operations and $n^{O_{k,c}(1)}$ bits of space.*

Proof. Put $\lambda = \lceil \log_2 n \rceil$ and $\nu = \lceil \log_2 \lambda \rceil$. Within each monomial replace positive powers of a variable by its first power, and combine duplicate monomials modulo two. The scope of test i consists of the variables in its remaining monomials. It has size at most $k\lambda^c$. Let N_0 be the sum of the scope sizes, counting a pair (i, v) once if variable v belongs to test i. Thus $N_0 \leqslant ak\lambda^c$. Fix, in all possible ways, the variables belonging to more than

$$D_* = \max\{1, \lceil N_0/n \rceil\}\lceil \sqrt{\lambda} \rceil$$

scopes. There are at most $n/\sqrt{\lambda}$ such variables. Their assignments partition the original count into at most $2^{n/\sqrt{\lambda}}$ branch counts. On each branch substitute the fixed bits and combine duplicate monomials again. The free scope I_i of test i still has size at most $k\lambda^c$, and each free variable appears in at most $D_* = \lambda^{O_{k,c}(1)}$ scopes. Free variables absent from every scope remain declared. A constant-one equation makes the branch count zero. We may discard constant-zero equations, and if none remain the answer for the branch is two to the power of its number of free variables. Below a denotes the number of remaining equations and n the original variable count.

The polynomial on the incidences. Give each pair (i, v) with $v \in I_i$ its own indeterminate z_{iv}. Write $z_i = (z_{iv})_{v \in I_i}$. Form $\widetilde{L}_i(z_i)$ by summing the remaining monomials of the normalized branch polynomial with integer coefficients, using z_{iv} for x_v. We use the ring

$$\mathcal{B} = (\mathbb{Z}/2^p\mathbb{Z})[V]/(V^\ell), \qquad p = \ell = n + 1.$$

Take $h(Y) = Y(Y-1)$ and the integer polynomials e_j from Lemma 5.1. Reduce their coefficients modulo 2^p, and form the factor

$$B_i(z_i, V) = \sum_{j=0}^{\ell-1} e_j(\widetilde{L}_i(z_i))\, h(\widetilde{L}_i(z_i))^j V^j.$$

Let $\overline{B}_i$ be its multilinear representative in the z_i, obtained in each coefficient of V by replacing each positive power of an incidence indeterminate by its first power. It agrees with B_i on every Boolean assignment to z_i. Define $F(z, V) = \prod_i \overline{B}_i(z_i, V)$ in $\mathcal{B}[z]$. The incidence indeterminates for different tests are disjoint, so F is multilinear even before substituting the same Boolean x_v for all copies of variable v.

The coefficient of V^j in $\overline{B}_i$ has incidence degree at most $k(1+2j)$, since $\deg e_j \leqslant 1$, $\deg h = 2$, and multilinearization only lowers monomial degrees. Multiplication in $\mathcal{B}$ retains only terms with $\sum_i j_i \leqslant \ell - 1$. Consequently every incidence monomial in F has degree at most

$$K = k\big(a + 2(\ell-1)\big) = O_{k,c}(n). \tag{D.1}$$

Let $\mathcal{S}_\ell$ sum the coefficients of $1, V, \ldots, V^{\ell-1}$ in $\mathcal{B}$. At $z_{iv} = x_v$, the multilinearized factor $\overline{B}_i$ agrees with B_i for the normalized branch polynomial. The integer $\widetilde{L}_i((x_v)_{v \in I_i})$ has the same parity as the original P_i evaluated at x and the fixed bits. Applying Lemma 5.2 to these integers shows that the branch count is congruent modulo 2^p to

$$\mathcal{S}_\ell \left(\sum_x F\big((z_{iv} = x_v)_{iv}, V\big) \right), \tag{D.2}$$

where x runs over all free Boolean assignments. We apply the coefficient-sum map after multiplying the test factors in the truncated ring.

Indexing the monomials. Partition the tests and the free variables separately into $J = \lceil n^{1/4} \rceil$ groups of sizes differing by at most one on each side. Write $\mathcal{T}_g$ for a test group and $\mathcal{X}_h$ for a variable group. A group contains $O_c(n^{3/4})$ objects, so the number of its incidences is at most $n^{3/4}\lambda^{O_{k,c}(1)}$ on either side. Let N_{gh} be the number of incidences from $\mathcal{T}_g$ to $\mathcal{X}_h$ and let $N = \sum_{g,h} N_{gh} \leqslant N_0$.

For an incidence monomial let d_{gh} be the number of its selected incidences joining groups g, h. Enumerate arrays of integers (d_{gh}) with $0 \leqslant d_{gh} \leqslant N_{gh}$ and $\sum_{g,h} d_{gh} \leqslant K$. There are at most

$$(K+1)^{J^2} = 2^{O_{k,c}(\sqrt{n}\log n)}$$

arrays, which can be enumerated using J^2 counters. For a fixed array there are

$$C_{gh} = \binom{N_{gh}}{d_{gh}}$$

subsets of the specified size for this pair. Draw $\lceil \log_2 C_{gh} \rceil$ Boolean wires between the two group vertices to index them in lexicographic order. For $C_{gh} = 1$ both endpoints use the unique subset (possibly the entire incidence set) with no wires. Any unused bit string gives tensor entry zero. To decode a valid index, take the incidences in order and count the possible completions with or without each incidence using binomial coefficients. These have polynomial bit length, so decoding uses polynomial time and space.

The union of the subsets over all pairs specifies a squarefree monomial of degree at most K in N indeterminates. Including all monomials of this degree bound gives the upper bound $\binom{N+K}{K}$ by stars

and bars. Thus the number of wires M in the network for this array satisfies

$$M \leqslant J^2 + \log_2 \prod_{g,h} C_{gh} \leqslant J^2 + \log_2 \binom{N+K}{K}$$
$$\leqslant J^2 + K \log_2 \left(\frac{\mathrm{e}(N+K)}{K} \right) = O_{k,c}(n\nu). \tag{D.3}$$

Here $K = \Theta_{k,c}(n)$ and $N \leqslant n\lambda^{O_{k,c}(1)}$. Also $\lceil \log_2 C_{gh} \rceil \leqslant N_{gh}$, so the degree of each vertex is at most its number of incidences, $n^{3/4}\lambda^{O_{k,c}(1)}$.

Tensor entries and contraction. A valid assignment of wire bits determines a subset $S_i \subseteq I_i$ at each test. Write $z_{i,S_i} = \prod_{v \in S_i} z_{iv}$. The entry at a test group g is the coefficient of its indicated monomial in $\prod_{i \in \mathcal{T}_g} \overline{B}_i(z_i, V)$. Since the z_i are disjoint, this is

$$\prod_{i \in \mathcal{T}_g} [z_{i,S_i}] \overline{B}_i(z_i, V) \qquad \text{in } \mathcal{B}.$$

For a variable group h, put $b_v = |\{i : v \in S_i\}|$ for $v \in \mathcal{X}_h$. Its entry is

$$\sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^{\mathcal{X}_h}} \prod_{v \in \mathcal{X}_h} x_v^{b_v} = 2^{|\{v \in \mathcal{X}_h : b_v = 0\}|} \pmod{2^p}.$$

Indeed a positive exponent requires $x_v = 1$ and a zero exponent leaves x_v free. This includes variables outside all test scopes.

Each monomial of F occurs in exactly one array and has exactly one valid index at each group pair. Its coefficient in F is the product of the test-group coefficients. After the incidences with the same v are set equal, its sum over Boolean assignments is the product of the variable-group entries. By (D.1), summing over these arrays exhausts all monomials. Consequently the element of $\mathcal{B}$ inside $\mathcal{S}_\ell$ in (D.2) is the sum of the contractions of these bipartite networks.

To evaluate one test-side coefficient, let $\mathbf{1}_T$ be the Boolean vector on I_i with support $T \subseteq S_i$. At $\mathbf{1}_T$, the multilinear polynomial evaluates to the sum of its coefficients indexed by subsets of T, and it agrees there with B_i. Inverting this subset sum gives

$$[z_{i,S_i}] \overline{B}_i(z_i, V) = \sum_{T \subseteq S_i} (-1)^{|S_i| - |T|} B_i(\mathbf{1}_T, V) \qquad \text{in } \mathcal{B}.$$

Each term costs polynomially many bit operations. Evaluate $\widetilde{L}_i(\mathbf{1}_T)$ from the listed monomials and use the polynomials e_j of Lemma 5.1, which are constructible in polynomial time. Store the ℓ coefficients of $B_i(\mathbf{1}_T, V)$ modulo 2^p. There are at most $2^{|S_i|} \leqslant 2^{k\lambda^c}$ subsets to process. Sum one test at a time and multiply the resulting coefficients in $\mathcal{B}$ over the group. This evaluates a test-group entry in $2^{\lambda^{O_{k,c}(1)}}$ bit operations and polynomial space. The variable-side entries and checks for invalid wire indices take polynomial time. The graph, degree array, and entry procedures have polynomial-size descriptions.

Apply Theorem D.1 with size parameter $s = n\nu$, root precision $p = n + 1$, and truncation order $\ell = n + 1$. The graph has $2J$ vertices and $O_{k,c}(s)$ wires by (D.3). For all sufficiently large n its maximum degree is at most $\lceil s^{9/10} \rceil$, its precision and truncation order are $O(s)$, and its entry-evaluation time is at most $2^{O_{k,c}(s^{9/10})}$. Each contraction then takes $n^{O_{k,c}(1)} 2^{O_{k,c}(s/\sqrt{\log s})}$ bit operations and polynomial space. Here $s/\sqrt{\log s} = O(n\nu/\sqrt{\lambda})$. The high-incidence branches and degree arrays multiply the running time by at most

$$2^{n/\sqrt{\lambda} + O_{k,c}(\sqrt{n} \log n)}.$$

Both terms in this exponent are $O_{k,c}(n\nu/\sqrt{\lambda})$. Process the branches and arrays sequentially. On each branch, sum the contractions in $\mathcal{B}$ and apply $\mathcal{S}_\ell$. Adding the branch residues modulo 2^{n+1}

gives the original count, since it lies between 0 and 2^n. This proves the claimed bounds, using direct enumeration for bounded exceptional sizes. □

Proof of the arbitrary-density bound in Theorem 1.1. Normalize the formula on its original n declared variables as in Section 6.4. Empty clauses and formulas with no clauses have immediate answers. For $n \geqslant 20$ apply Lemma 6.3 with $\sigma = 1/\lceil\sqrt{\lambda}\rceil$, where $\lambda = \lceil\log_2 n\rceil$. The tree has $n^{O_k(1)}2^{O(n/\sqrt{\lambda})}$ nodes and polynomial depth. Every leaf has occurrence bound $B = O_k((\sigma^{-1}\log(2/\sigma))^{k-1}) = \lambda^{O_k(1)}$ and at most Bn nonempty clauses.

For a nontrivial leaf with m_G clauses, use the initial parity checks of Lemma 6.1 and the greedy procedure of Lemma 6.2. Each initial row has support size at most D_0, and each additional row has list length P. Both bounds are $\lambda^{O_k(1)}$. By (6.1), every row gives a degree-at-most-k equation with at most $2^k \max\{P, D_0\}$ monomials, and every queried system has at most $6n$ equations. A single constant $c = c(k)$ bounds both the ratio of equations to variables and the exponent of λ in the monomial bound for all sufficiently large n. At each greedy step, use Lemma D.2 to compute $N(A; h_\gamma)$ for every candidate row h_γ and append one attaining the minimum. The evaluator applies also to discarded candidates whose systems still accept nonsatisfying assignments. One final call gives $N(A)$ for the selected matrix, which equals the leaf count by Lemma 6.2.

Constructing the initial checks and enumerating candidates costs $2^{\lambda^{O_k(1)}}$ bit operations apart from the evaluations. There are at most $3n(2m_G)^P + 1 = 2^{\lambda^{O_k(1)}}$ evaluations per leaf. Since every fixed power of λ is $o(n\log\log n/\sqrt{\log n})$, these costs and the number of leaves are absorbed in the claimed time bound

$$(n+m)^{O_k(1)}2^{O_k(n\log\log n/\sqrt{\log n})}.$$

Here m counts the input clauses. Traverse the tree depth first and process one query at a time. The leaf solution sets are disjoint, so their exact counts add with an $(n+1)$-bit accumulator. Together with polynomial space per query and per tree path, this gives the asserted polynomial-space bound. □

A single algorithm attains both bounds. With $\lambda = \lceil\log_2 n\rceil$ and $\nu = \lceil\log_2 \lambda\rceil$, use the clause network when $m \leqslant n\nu$ and the parity queries otherwise. In the first branch $n \leqslant s = n + m = O(n\log\log n)$, so its exponent is $O_k(n\log\log n/\sqrt{\log n})$ even at growing density. For each fixed D and all sufficiently large n, every input with $m \leqslant Dn$ takes that branch with $s = O_D(n)$.

D.4. **Proof of the contraction theorem.** Throughout the proof of Theorem D.1, log denotes a base-two logarithm and ln denotes a natural logarithm.

D.4.1. *The coefficient ring and exact arithmetic.* Write $\lambda = \lceil\log_2 s\rceil$ and $e = 4\lambda$. Choose a monic polynomial $f \in \mathbb{Z}[U]$ of degree e, with coefficients in $\{0, 1\}$ below its leading coefficient, whose reduction modulo two is irreducible. This can be done deterministically in polynomial time in s by enumerating the 2^e candidates and testing divisibility over $\mathbb{F}_2$ by every monic polynomial of positive degree at most $e/2$. Finite fields admit an irreducible polynomial of every positive degree [vzGG13]. Put

$$\mathcal{O} = \mathbb{Z}_{(2)}[U]/(f), \qquad \mathcal{K} = \mathbb{Q}[U]/(f), \qquad \mathcal{A} = \mathcal{O}[V]/(V^\ell), \qquad \mathcal{A}_p = \mathcal{A}/(2^p).$$

Here $\mathbb{Z}_{(2)}$ consists of rational numbers with odd denominator. Irreducibility modulo two implies irreducibility over $\mathbb{Q}$, so $\mathcal{K}$ is a field. For a nonzero element of $\mathcal{K}$, let v_2 be the minimum of the ordinary two-adic valuations of its coordinates in $1, U, \dots, U^{e-1}$. Reduction of $\mathcal{O}$ modulo two is the field $\mathbb{F}_{2^e}$. Factoring out the minimum coordinate valuation therefore shows that

$$v_2(xy) = v_2(x) + v_2(y) \qquad (x, y \neq 0).$$

Every element of $\mathcal{O}$ that is nonzero modulo two is a unit because the determinant of its multiplication matrix is invertible in $\mathbb{Z}_{(2)}$, so the inverse matrix has entries in that ring.

Arithmetic in $\mathcal{A}_p$ takes polynomial time and space in s, p, ℓ. We use the bases $1, U, \dots, U^{e-1}$ and $1, V, \dots, V^{\ell-1}$, and represent each coordinate by its integer residue between zero and $2^p - 1$.

Inverting a scalar unit can be done by inversion modulo two followed by Newton lifting, or by its multiplication matrix, using exact polynomial and integer operations [vzGG13]. Divisibility and precision for elements of $\mathcal{A}$ are always coordinatewise.

The binary-coordinate lifts of the 2^e residue-field elements give interpolation points with pairwise unit differences. Lagrange interpolation at any required number of these points is therefore valid over $\mathcal{A}_p$. We will use fewer than s^4 points. A contraction whose initial entries belong to $\mathcal{B}_{P_0,\ell}$ belongs to that subring after computation in $\mathcal{A}_{P_0}$, because it is a polynomial in those entries.

When the precision increases, we lift each tensor entry separately. For an entry originally specified modulo 2^p, its *canonical lift* is the element of $\mathcal{A}$ obtained from the integer representatives of all its coordinates. Canonical lifting need not preserve addition or multiplication. Each recursive call contracts its specified tensors modulo the precision of that call. To define its deformation, it first makes this entrywise choice of lifts. All subsequent evaluations in that call refer to these same lifts. More explicitly, each tensor description is tagged with its creation precision p_c (P_0 for an original tensor). At every later precision, its entry is evaluated modulo 2^{p_c} and those same integer representatives are used. Precisions strictly increase along a recursive path, so these representatives are also the canonical representatives at every later precision. In particular, a packet tensor retains its creation-time representatives throughout the recursion.

D.4.2. *Parameters and collision packing.* All estimates below hold for sufficiently large s, with the threshold depending only on the fixed constants. A fixed finite range of smaller sizes is handled by direct summation. The parameter inequalities can be tested directly. Set

$$H = \left\lceil \frac{s}{\lfloor \sqrt{\lambda} \rfloor} \right\rceil, \qquad r = 64, \qquad \varepsilon = \frac{1}{128 \cdot 1024}, \qquad \Delta = \lceil s^{9/10} \rceil.$$

A call with $M \leqslant H$ edges is a leaf and is evaluated directly. At an active call at depth d, with the root at depth zero, use

$$u = u_d = \left\lfloor \frac{\varepsilon \lambda}{2^d} \right\rfloor, \qquad a = a_d = 2 \sum_{j=0}^{d} u_j, \qquad a_{-1} = 0, \qquad L = 2^a, \qquad D_{\mathrm{arr}} = r^{2a}. \tag{D.4}$$

We will arrange that every child has at most $M/8$ edges and maximum degree at most Δ. These assertions imply, on every active path,

$$H < M \leqslant C s \, 8^{-d}, \qquad d \leqslant \frac{\log_2 \lambda}{6} + O_C(1).$$

Consequently

$$u = \Theta_C(\lambda / 2^d), \quad \lambda^{4/5} \leqslant u \leqslant M, \quad a \leqslant 4\varepsilon\lambda, \quad L, D_{\mathrm{arr}} \leqslant s^{1/1000} \tag{D.5}$$

for all sufficiently large s. In particular, at each active call

$$M \geqslant 2 D_{\mathrm{arr}}^2 \Delta, \qquad M \geqslant L D_{\mathrm{arr}}, \qquad 2L \leqslant \Delta. \tag{D.6}$$

For example, the right side of the first inequality is $O(s^{9/10+2/1000}) = o(H)$. The other inequalities follow in the same way.

Lemma D.3 (Packing into packets)**.** *Under* (D.6)*, label the vertices on each side of the network by elements of* $[r]^a$*. There is a deterministically constructible labeling and an embedding of the edges into packets of* L *slots with the following properties.*

(1) *There are at most* $3M/L$ *packets. Each edge occupies the same slot at its row and column ends. Unused slots have no ports.*
(2) *In every packet and every coordinate, the unordered pair of row and column symbols is fixed. When these symbols differ, bit* i *of the slot number specifies their orientation in coordinate* i*, for* $0 \leqslant i < a$*.*

(3) *For every coordinate and every symbol, at most* $3M/r$ *real ports on each side belong to vertices with that symbol.*

The construction uses polynomial time and space in $s + \mathcal{L}$.

Proof. For each pair of labels let X_γ be the number of edges with that pair. Independent uniform vertex labels give

$$\mathbb{E}\sum_\gamma (X_\gamma - M/D_{\mathrm{arr}})^2 \leqslant 2M\Delta.$$

Indeed, expansion expresses this expectation as a sum over ordered pairs of edges of their label-agreement probability minus $1/D_{\mathrm{arr}}$. Pairs with disjoint endpoints contribute zero. At most $2M\Delta$ ordered pairs share an endpoint, including equal edges, and each contributes at most one. Conditional expectation gives a labeling with this bound. To implement it, try each of the r^a labels of the next vertex and compute the conditional expectation by enumerating pairs of edges. Each probability concerns at most four vertices, so this is an exact polynomial-time calculation. This is the usual conditional-expectation method [Rag88].

Every load is at most $M/D_{\mathrm{arr}} + \sqrt{2M\Delta}$. Pad all pair-label classes to a common number H_{pad} of slots, the maximum load rounded up to a multiple of L. The assumptions imply

$$H_{\mathrm{pad}} \leqslant M/D_{\mathrm{arr}} + \sqrt{2M\Delta} + L \leqslant 3M/D_{\mathrm{arr}}.$$

Fix the unordered pair of symbols in each coordinate. If a' coordinates have unequal symbols, their orientations give $2^{a'}$ pair labels. Partition their padded slots into packets using $2^{a-a'}$ slots from each of these labels per packet. This is possible because H_{pad} is divisible by L. Number a packet's positions from 0 to $L-1$. Its ith bit specifies the orientation when the ith pair is unequal and the copy when the pair is equal. Use one orientation convention throughout each packet.

There are $H_{\mathrm{pad}}D_{\mathrm{arr}}/L \leqslant 3M/L$ packets. In a fixed coordinate, a given symbol occurs in exactly $1/r$ of all padded pair labels on either side. Its number of real ports is therefore at most $H_{\mathrm{pad}}D_{\mathrm{arr}}/r \leqslant 3M/r$. □

D.4.3. *A Cauchy deformation and integral local coordinates.* Fix an active call, its packets, and its entrywise lifted tensors. Use

$$S = \{-L, -L+1, \dots, L-1\}, \qquad \mathcal{C}(T) = \prod_{t\in S}(T-t), \qquad \alpha = 2^{a+1}.$$

Within a packet, for its row slot x and column slot y, put

$$W_{xy}(T) = \frac{\mathcal{C}(T)}{\mathcal{C}'(0)(T-(y-x))}. \tag{D.7}$$

The factor in the denominator cancels a numerator factor, since $y - x \in S$. Thus this is a polynomial over $\mathbb{Q}$ of degree $2L-1$. Set entries between different packets to zero and restrict to the real ports. Under the original edge identification, $W(0) = I$, since the diagonal entries are one and each other entry has an uncancelled zero factor.

Let $A(Y)$ and $B(X)$ be the products of the lifted row and column tensors, respectively, on independent port assignments $Y, X \in \{0,1\}^M$. Write $l_0(z) = 1 - z$ and $l_1(z) = z$. Define

$$F(T) = \sum_{X,Y\in\{0,1\}^M} A(Y)B(X) \prod_{\text{row ports } x} l_{Y_x}((W(T)X)_x). \tag{D.8}$$

Its coefficients lie in $\mathcal{K}[V]/(V^\ell)$, its degree is at most $M(2L-1)$, and $F(0)$ is the contraction of the lifted tensors. In particular, reducing $F(0)$ modulo the call's precision gives the required answer.

Lemma D.4. *For every* $t \in S$, *the entries of* $W(t+\alpha z)$ *belong to* $\mathcal{O}[z]$, *and* $F(t+\alpha z)$ *belongs to* $\mathcal{A}[z]$. *Given the* e *coordinates of* ζ *modulo* 2^p, *each entry* $W_{xy}(t+\alpha\zeta) \bmod 2^p$ *can be computed using polynomially many bit operations in* s, p.

Proof. The grid S is a complete residue system modulo 2^{a+1}. For $t \neq q$ in S, $v_2(t-q) \leqslant a$, and the counts of nonzero differences at every valuation are independent of t. Hence $v_2(\mathcal{C}'(t)) = v_2(\mathcal{C}'(0))$. In

$$\frac{\mathcal{C}(t+\alpha z)}{\mathcal{C}'(0)} = \frac{\alpha z \prod_{q \in S \setminus \{t\}} (t - q + \alpha z)}{\mathcal{C}'(0)},$$

each factor indexed by $q \neq t$ is coefficientwise divisible by $2^{v_2(t-q)}$. After canceling these powers against the denominator, the displayed polynomial is divisible by 2^{a+1}. To obtain (D.7), omit just the factor indexed by $y - x$. If $y - x = t$, this removes αz and leaves an integral polynomial. Otherwise αz remains and the omitted factor has two-adic content $2^{v_2(t-y+x)}$ with $v_2(t - y + x) \leqslant a$, so the result is still divisible by two. Substitution in (D.8) proves the assertion for F.

For the evaluation, first divide each factor $t - q + \alpha z$ with $q \neq t$ by the known integer $2^{v_2(t-q)}$. Both coefficients of the resulting linear polynomial are integers. Cancel the remaining explicit powers of two against the denominator as above, and invert its odd part modulo 2^p. We can now evaluate the product directly at the supplied residue of ζ, including $\zeta = 0$. The input has ep bits, and the product has $O(L)$ factors. All coordinate operations take polynomial time in s, p. □

D.4.4. *Tapered Hermite recovery.* The next lemma isolates the precision estimate. All power-series truncations in its statement are ordinary truncations in z.

Lemma D.5 (Tapered Hermite recovery)**.** *Let integers u, M satisfy $1 \leqslant u \leqslant a$ and $M \geqslant u$, and put $h = \lceil 3M/u \rceil$. For $t \in S \setminus \{0\}$ set*

$$i = v_2(t), \qquad q_t = q(i) = h \max(0, u - i), \qquad D_t = L/2^i.$$

Suppose $F \in (\mathcal{K}[V]/(V^\ell))[T]$ has degree at most $M(2L-1)$, $F(0) \in \mathcal{A}$, and $F(t + \alpha z) \in \mathcal{A}[z]$ for every $t \in S$. For $p \geqslant 1$, its value $F(0)$ modulo 2^p can be recovered from

$$F(t + \alpha z) \pmod{2^{p_t}}, \qquad p_t = p + 8hD_t + 8M(a+1), \qquad q_t > 0.$$

Only the first q_t coefficients of each polynomial are needed. Recovery takes polynomial time and space in M, L, ℓ, e and the precisions.

Proof. There are L odd points in S, so $\sum_{t \neq 0} q_t \geqslant Lhu \geqslant 3ML > M(2L-1)$. Also $h \leqslant 4M/u$, and hence $q_t \leqslant 4M$. For each t of positive multiplicity put

$$E_t(T) = \prod_{q \in S \setminus \{0,t\}} \left(\frac{T - q}{t - q} \right)^{q_q}.$$

Hermite interpolation gives

$$F(0) = \sum_{t : q_t > 0} E_t(0) \left(\left[\frac{F(t + \alpha z)}{E_t(t + \alpha z)} \right]_{<q_t} \right) (-t/\alpha). \tag{D.9}$$

For completeness, replace zero in the right side by an indeterminate T, and $-t/\alpha$ by $(T-t)/\alpha$. Each summand has degree less than $\sum q_t$. At its own node it has the prescribed jet, and at every other node it vanishes to the required order. The difference from F is therefore divisible by $\prod_{t \neq 0} (T-t)^{q_t}$ and has smaller degree, so is zero. This is the usual Chinese-remainder construction of Hermite interpolation [vzGG13, Section 5.6].

Each factor of $E_t(t + \alpha z)$ is a power of $1 + \alpha z/(t-q)$. It is integral and has constant term one. Its reciprocal truncated at q_t is therefore integral, so forming the quotient in (D.9) loses no precision.

Fix $i = v_2(t)$ and $D = D_t$. Directly from the product,

$$\begin{aligned} v_2(E_t(0)) &= \sum_{q \neq 0,t} q_q\big(v_2(q) - v_2(t-q)\big) \\ &= D\sum_{j=1}^{a-i} \frac{j}{2^j}\big(q(i+j) - q(i)\big) \ \geqslant -6Dh. \end{aligned} \tag{D.10}$$

To justify the second equality, points of valuation less than i contribute zero. For $1 \leqslant j \leqslant a-i$, there are $D/2^j$ points with $v_2(q) = i+j$, and the same number with $v_2(t-q) = i+j$. The latter have $v_2(q) = i$, and these levels exhaust the points other than t with that valuation. These counts follow from the complete residue grid, whose nonzero integer differences have valuation at most a. Finally, $q(i+j) - q(i) \geqslant -hj$ and $\sum_{j \geqslant 1} j^2/2^j = 6$.

Evaluation of a polynomial of degree below q_t at $-t/\alpha$ loses at most $4M(a+1)$ further powers of two. Thus replacing each quotient coefficient by any lift of its residue modulo 2^{p_t} changes its contribution in (D.9) by an element of $2^p\mathcal{A}$. Summing these errors loses no further precision. The reconstructed sum is integral, since it differs from the integral value $F(0)$ by an element of $2^p\mathcal{A}$.

One can perform this last combination by rational arithmetic in the specified bases. The multipliers $E_t(0)(-t/\alpha)^j$, $j < q_t$, are products of polynomially many rational factors of $O(a)$ bits, counting multiplicity. Their numerator and denominator lengths are therefore polynomial in M, L, a. There are polynomially many such coefficients, so even a product of their denominators is an adequate polynomial-bit common denominator. After addition, cancel its powers of two and reduce the resulting integral coordinates modulo 2^p. This proves the algorithmic assertion. □

At a call with input precision p, apply this lemma with the parameters in (D.4). For every active t, obtain the entire polynomial $F(t + \alpha z)$ modulo 2^{p_t} by evaluation at $M(2L-1)+1$ distinct binary-coordinate lifts of residue-field elements and Lagrange interpolation. Lemma D.4 permits this interpolation over $\mathcal{A}_{p_t}$. The number of points is less than s^4 by (D.5). The evaluation algorithm below passes precision p_t to its children.

The input and child precisions satisfy

$$p \leqslant s\lambda^{O(1)}2^{a_{d-1}}, \qquad p_t = O_C(MD_t/u). \tag{D.11}$$

The first assertion holds at the root since $P_0 \leqslant Cs$. Along a path, the increments in precision are $8hD_t + 8M(a+1)$, with $h \leqslant 4M/u$, $M \leqslant Cs$, and $D_t \leqslant 2^{a_d}$. Summing them over $O(\log\lambda)$ depths proves the first assertion for every call, including leaves. For the second, $q_t > 0$ implies $i < u$ and hence

$$D_t \geqslant 2^{a_d - u} = 2^{a_{d-1}+u}.$$

Since $M > H$ and $u \geqslant \lambda^{4/5}$, this extra factor 2^u dominates every fixed power of λ. Thus the first bound on p, as well as $8M(a+1)$, is $O_C(MD_t/u)$. The remaining increment $8hD_t$ has that bound directly. All precisions remain polynomial in s because $a_d \leqslant 4\varepsilon\lambda$.

The taper accounts for the factor $1/u$ in this estimate. For comparison, assign the same multiplicity $q_* = \Theta(M)$ to every level below u, and zero to the remaining levels. At the last retained level $i = u-1$, the identity (D.10) would give the loss

$$-q_*D_t\sum_{j=1}^{a-i}\frac{j}{2^j} = -\Theta(MD_t).$$

Our multiplicities instead change by only $h = \Theta(M/u)$ per level, giving loss $O(MD_t/u)$. The cumulative choice of a_d provides the additional factor 2^u needed to absorb inherited precision and the evaluation loss. Thus the smaller bound holds at every retained level and every recursion depth.

D.4.5. *Modes for interactions between groups.* Fix an active t and an interpolation value $\zeta \in \mathcal{O}$ for z. In this subsection $T = t + \alpha\zeta$ and all calculations are modulo 2^{p_t}. Put $i = v_2(t) < u$ and $D = L/2^i$. Group vertices on both sides by their symbol in coordinate i. Entries of $W(T)$ whose two ports have the same group are called local and are kept unchanged.

This choice of coordinate makes $W(t)$ local. Indeed, $W_{xy}(t) = 0$ unless $y - x = t$. Adding an integer of valuation i flips bit i, so a surviving pair has different ith bits. When the packet's two symbols in that coordinate differ, this means that the row and column symbols agree. Equal pairs of symbols already lie in one group. Moving from t to $t + \alpha\zeta$ introduces the crossing terms that we now expand.

In a packet whose two symbols in coordinate i differ, a row position x and a column position y are in different groups exactly when their ith bits are equal. Partition columns into tiles

$$y = y_0 + 2^{i+1}j, \qquad 0 \leqslant y_0 < 2^{i+1}.$$

The column group is constant on a tile. For a row crossing to that tile,

$$v_2(t - y_0 + x) \leqslant i.$$

Otherwise y_0 would agree with $x + 2^i$ modulo 2^{i+1}, contrary to equality of their ith bits. Adding $\alpha\zeta$ does not change this valuation. A geometric expansion consequently gives

$$W_{xy}(T) = \sum_{\substack{b \geqslant 0 \\ b+1 < p_t}} \frac{\mathcal{C}(T)}{\mathcal{C}'(0)(T - y_0 + x)} \left(\frac{2^{i+1}}{T - y_0 + x} \right)^b j^b \pmod{2^{p_t}}. \tag{D.12}$$

Indeed the first fraction has valuation at least $a + 1 - i \geqslant 1$, and the ratio raised to the bth power has valuation at least one before taking that power. The geometric remainder is divisible by 2^{p_t}. These expressions are computable by factoring the known powers of two and using only unit inverses.

For each such packet, tile, and b introduce a mode variable Z of weight $w_Z = b + 1$, to be replaced by

$$L_Z(X) = \sum_{\text{real columns } y \text{ in the tile}} j^b X_y.$$

As usual $j^0 = 1$, including $j = 0$. Its source is the tile's column group and its target is the other group in that packet's coordinate pair. Formula (D.12) expresses each row form as its local part plus a linear combination of its targeted modes. The coefficient of Z is divisible by 2^{w_Z}. There are at most

$$(3M/L)2^{i+1} = 6M/D \tag{D.13}$$

variables of any one weight.

In the product of the affine factors $l_{Y_x}((W(T)X)_x)$, every coefficient of a mode monomial Z^β is divisible by $2^{\sum_Z w_Z \beta_Z}$. Consequently only the exponent tuples

$$\sum_Z w_Z \beta_Z < p_t \tag{D.14}$$

need be considered. The number of these tuples is

$$\exp\bigl(O(\sqrt{Mp_t/D})\bigr) = \exp\bigl(O_C(M/\sqrt{u})\bigr). \tag{D.15}$$

Here is the complete counting estimate. For any $\theta > 0$, the generating product and (D.13) bound the number by

$$\exp\left(\theta p_t + \frac{6M}{D} \sum_{j \geqslant 1} -\ln(1 - e^{-\theta j}) \right).$$

Expanding the logarithm and summing the geometric series gives

$$\sum_{j\geqslant 1} -\ln(1-e^{-\theta j}) = \sum_{h\geqslant 1} \frac{1}{h(e^{\theta h}-1)} \leqslant \frac{1}{\theta}\sum_{h\geqslant 1}\frac{1}{h^2}.$$

Take $\theta = \sqrt{M/(Dp_t)}$ and use (D.11). All mode variables and their exponents have polynomial-size descriptions. Tuples satisfying (D.14) can be enumerated with polynomial delay and space by ordering the variables and successively choosing each exponent subject to the remaining budget. Every feasible partial choice has the all-zero continuation, so the number of visited partial choices is at most the number of complete tuples times the number of variables, up to an additive constant.

D.4.6. *The child networks and their descriptions.* For one tuple β in (D.14) construct a child network for each group $g \in [r]$. Place all current vertices in group g, from both sides of the current network, on one side of the child. Retain their ports and their chosen lifted entries, now reduced modulo 2^{p_t}. On the other side put one vertex for each packet, with an edge to every retained port of that packet. Its indices are precisely the row bits Y and column bits X of group g in the packet.

To define this new packet tensor, form the product of the row factors l_{Y_x} for group g in the packet, with their arguments expressed in local column bits and formal modes. Extract the coefficient with exponents β_Z for all modes targeted at g in that packet. Multiply it by

$$\prod_{\substack{Z \text{ in this packet}\\ \operatorname{source}(Z)=g}} L_Z(X)^{\beta_Z}.$$

Empty products equal one. If there are no target rows, the extracted coefficient is zero whenever a target exponent is positive. If the source tile of Z has no real column, then $L_Z(X) = 0$ and its power contributes one for $\beta_Z = 0$ and zero otherwise.

Every mode has one target and one source. Coefficient extraction therefore factors over the packet-group row products, and the substitution for each mode depends only on bits in its source group. Distributing the product in (D.8), and then summing the independent bits within groups, proves the exact identity

$$F(t+\alpha\zeta) = \sum_{\beta:\,\sum w_Z\beta_Z<p_t} \prod_{g=1}^{r} Z_{g,\beta} \pmod{2^{p_t}}, \tag{D.16}$$

where $Z_{g,\beta}$ is the contraction of the child just defined. The omitted monomials vanish by their coefficient divisibility.

By Lemma D.3, a child has at most $6M/r = 3M/32 < M/8$ edges. Old vertex degrees are unchanged, and a new packet vertex has at most $2L \leqslant \Delta$ ports. Thus the invariants used in (D.5) hold inductively.

All new tensors are given implicitly. To evaluate a packet tensor entry, expand its product of at most L affine row factors. Each factor has polynomially many terms in s, including its local term. Enumerating these choices, checking the desired exponents, and summing the resulting terms takes

$$\exp(O(L\log s))$$

time and polynomial space. The factors $L_Z(X)^{\beta_Z}$ are computed by ordinary repeated squaring in $\mathcal{A}_{p_t}$. Because $L \leqslant s^{1/1000}$, this entry cost is $\exp(O(s^{9/10}))$.

A description of a new tensor consists of its packet data, the tuple β, the interpolation value, and the creation precision. These data and the local kernel suffice to compute its entry directly. A retained tensor is evaluated from its original description, or from its own creation-time description if it was created earlier in the recursion. Its residue at that precision is then canonically lifted to the current precision. The old descriptions are immutable and shared by reference. Thus no composition of entry routines builds up with the depth, and all entry routines continue to have the required time

and space bounds. Only polynomially many vertices and polynomially much new description data are added along a path.

D.4.7. *Time and space bounds.*

Proof of Theorem D.1. Embed the original entries into $\mathcal{A}_{P_0}$ and perform the recursive algorithm above. At an active call, for every node of positive multiplicity and every required residue-distinct interpolation value, compute (D.16) by its child contractions. Interpolate $F(t+\alpha z)$ and apply Lemma D.5. At a leaf, sum directly over all Boolean edge assignments. Lemma D.4, the recursion identity, and the recovery lemma prove correctness by induction from the leaves.

The number of interpolation nodes, values, and groups at a call is polynomial in s, independently of $\mathcal{L}$. By (D.15), the number of children of an active depth-d call is at most

$$s^{O(1)} \exp\left(O_C\left(\frac{s}{\sqrt{\lambda}}\left(\frac{\sqrt{2}}{8}\right)^d\right)\right).$$

Indeed $M \leqslant Cs\,8^{-d}$ and $u_d = \Theta_C(\lambda/2^d)$. Multiplying these bounds over the $O_C(\log\lambda)$ depths, or bounding the number of nodes on each level in this way, gives at most

$$\exp\Big(O_C(s/\sqrt{\lambda}) + O_C(\lambda\log\lambda)\Big) = \exp(O_C(s/\sqrt{\lambda}))$$

calls in total. At a leaf, direct summation uses at most 2^H assignments and polynomially many entry evaluations per assignment. Its cost is bounded by a polynomial in $s+\mathcal{L}$ times

$$\exp(O_C(H) + O_{C,A}(s^{9/10})) = \exp(O_{C,A}(s/\sqrt{\lambda})).$$

Local arithmetic, packing, descriptions, and recovery use polynomial time per generated term, apart from the already bounded entry computations. The description-dependent factor bounds the work per call. Since the branching bound is independent of $\mathcal{L}$, the total work retains a fixed polynomial factor in $s+\mathcal{L}$. This proves the time bound.

For space, traverse the recursion depth first, accumulating one sum over β and one product over groups at a time. Store the polynomially many Taylor data needed for a call's recovery, its current interpolation and mode indices, and its graph and new tensor descriptions. Their sizes are polynomial in $s+\mathcal{L}$, including the precisions by (D.11). There are only $O_C(\log\lambda)$ stack levels. The common-denominator calculation in Lemma D.5 also uses only polynomial-bit integers. Each call accumulates its contraction terms modulo its own fixed precision. Original entry routines use polynomial space by hypothesis, and the new routines have the same property. This proves the space bound. Finally extract the base coordinates in $\mathcal{A}_{P_0}$, which give the answer in $\mathcal{B}_{P_0,\ell}$. □

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ATTACHMENT D

NP(time) = P(space)

Rosario

Complete source document: 34 source pages

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NP(time) = P(space)

Here we postulate that a relationship between NPTime and PSPACE as a corollary where nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machines (NPTMs) solve problems traditionally thought to require polynomial space (PSPACE). To understand this conjecture, we introduce equations that model the time and space complexity of these problems and their theoretical reduction under nondeterminism.

1. Time Complexity for Deterministic Polynomial-Space Turing Machines (DPTM):

A deterministic machine solving a PSPACE problem uses polynomial space but may take exponential time. The time complexity for such a machine is:

$$T_{\text{DPTM}}(n) = O(2^{n^k})$$

where n is the input size and k is a constant. The space complexity is polynomially bounded:

$$S_{\text{DPTM}}(n) = O(n^k)$$

2. Time Complexity for Nondeterministic Polynomial-Time Machines (NPTM):

An NPTM, which can explore multiple computational paths simultaneously, solves problems in polynomial time:

$$T_{\text{NPTM}}(n) = O(n^k)$$

with the same polynomial space complexity:

$$S_{\text{NPTM}}(n) = O(n^k)$$

3. Theoretical Reduction of PSPACE Problems via Nondeterminism:

The conjecture suggests that nondeterminism allows the exponential time complexity of a PSPACE problem to collapse into polynomial time. This would imply the following transformation for time complexity:

$$T_{\text{DPTM}}(n) = O(2^{n^k}) \xrightarrow{\text{nondeterminism}} T_{\text{NPTM}}(n) = O(n^k)$$

The space complexity remains unchanged:

$$S_{\text{DPTM}}(n) = S_{\text{NPTM}}(n) = O(n^k)$$

4. Savitch's Theorem and the Equivalence of PSPACE and NPSPACE:

According to Savitch's Theorem, nondeterministic polynomial space (NPSPACE) is equivalent to deterministic polynomial space (PSPACE):

$$NPSPACE = PSPACE$$

This shows that nondeterministic machines do not reduce space complexity but raises the question of whether they reduce time complexity for PSPACE problems.

Conclusion:
If nondeterminism allows NPTMs to solve PSPACE problems in polynomial time, then NP could equal PSPACE. The key conjecture relies on the possibility that the exponentially large state space of PSPACE problems could be efficiently explored by nondeterministic machines, reducing the overall time complexity. This would be represented by the transformation:

$$T_{\text{DPTM}}(n) = O(2^{n^k}) \rightarrow T_{\text{NPTM}}(n) = O(n^k)$$

which remains an open question in computational complexity.

Introduction

The P vs NP problem remains one of the most fundamental and unresolved questions in theoretical computer science. As one of the seven Millennium Prize Problems, it holds a prestigious place in complexity theory, offering a $1 million reward for a conclusive solution. At the core of this problem lies the question: Can every problem whose solution can be quickly verified by a computer (NP) also be quickly solved by a computer (P)? More formally, is P equal to NP, or are these classes distinct?

Despite decades of research, a proof or disproof remains elusive, leaving the boundaries between these two classes shrouded in mystery.

In computational complexity, P represents the class of problems that can be solved in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine, whereas NP denotes the class of problems for which a solution can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic machine but might be solvable more efficiently by a nondeterministic Turing machine (NPTM). The crux of the debate is whether the ability of an NPTM to "guess" solutions efficiently gives it a significant advantage over deterministic machines, collapsing the time needed to solve complex problems. This question touches upon the broader implications of nondeterminism, an abstract concept that models the ability to explore multiple computational paths simultaneously.

A closely related class is PSPACE, which consists of problems solvable with a polynomial amount of memory, or space, regardless of how much time is required. Unlike NP, PSPACE problems might demand exponential time, but their memory usage is constrained to a polynomial function of the input size. Given that many PSPACE problems, such as logical games and the Quantified Boolean Formula (QBF), are known to be exponentially complex, the relationship between NP and PSPACE has profound implications for the P vs NP question.

In this context, we explore the conjecture that a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine can solve problems in PSPACE. This hypothesis raises the possibility that nondeterminism could allow for efficient exploration of the exponentially large solution spaces characteristic of PSPACE problems, reducing their complexity to polynomial time. If this conjecture holds, it would suggest that NP encompasses PSPACE, and by extension, that P might equal NP. The implications of such a discovery would be far-reaching, collapsing key hierarchies in complexity theory and reshaping our understanding of computational limits.

This paper will explore whether nondeterministic machines are powerful enough to solve space-bounded problems in polynomial time, focusing on the relationship between NP and PSPACE. Through careful examination of the theoretical framework and examples, such as the QBF problem, we aim to demonstrate that nondeterminism provides a significant computational advantage, potentially bridging the gap between time and space complexity classes. If correct, this conjecture could offer a pathway to resolving the long-standing P vs NP problem, offering new insights into the power of nondeterministic computation.

The Problem

The Millennium Prize for P vs NP Problem

The P vs NP problem is one of the seven Millennium Prize Problems set by the Clay Mathematics Institute, with a prize of $1 million for a correct solution. This problem asks the following:

Is P equal to NP? Or vice versa can NP = P?

In the context of the P vs NP problem, the difference between "can equal" and "does equal" reflects different levels of certainty and rigor in mathematical and computational statements.

1. "Can Equal":

   - "Can equal" implies possibility or potential. When we say that P can equal NP, we're suggesting that it's theoretically possible or there is a conjecture that the two classes might be the same, but it has not been proven.
   - This phrasing reflects the fact that there's no formal proof either way, so the relationship between the two classes is open to investigation. Essentially, "can equal" means we are exploring or hypothesizing that a relationship might hold, but there is no conclusive evidence.

   Example:
"It is possible that P can equal NP, but we do not yet know for certain."
This means that while the relationship is being studied, there's no formal proof confirming that P = NP.

2. "Does Equal":

   - "Does equal" implies certainty or proof. If we say P does equal NP, it means that we have a formal proof or rigorous demonstration that the two classes are indeed the same.
   - This statement is definitive and leaves no room for doubt. Saying "does equal" means that the equality between the two classes has been conclusively established, and there is no ambiguity.

   Example:
"P does equal NP, as proven by this formal proof."
This would mean that we have a mathematical result demonstrating that P = NP.

The Distinction in P vs NP:

- The question "Does P equal NP?" is an open question in complexity theory, meaning that no one has yet provided a proof that P does equal NP or P does not equal NP. We don't yet know the answer definitively.
- Saying "P can equal NP" reflects that it's possible P equals NP, but we lack the proof to confirm it. Researchers are considering the hypothesis that P might equal NP, and the question remains unresolved.

Where

- "Can equal" suggests that it's possible the two sets might be the same, but it hasn't been proven. It's a conjecture or hypothesis.
- "Does equal" means we have a formal proof or definitive conclusion that the two sets are equal. It's a statement of fact, based on proof.

In the context of P vs NP, the goal is to establish whether P does equal NP or P does not equal NP, but so far, this remains unknown.

In computational complexity theory:

- P is the class of problems that can be solved by a deterministic Turing machine in polynomial time.
- NP is the class of problems for which a solution can be guessed (nondeterministically) and verified in polynomial time.

The core question is whether every problem that can be verified in polynomial time (NP) can also be solved in polynomial time by a deterministic machine (P). In other words, does P = NP? Or, alternatively, are problems in NP fundamentally harder to solve than they are to verify?

If someone proves either that P = NP (i.e., all problems in NP can be solved in polynomial time) or P $\neq$ NP (i.e., there are problems in NP that cannot be solved in polynomial time), they would solve this long-standing question in theoretical computer science and win the Millennium Prize.

Argument: Nondeterministic Polynomial-Time Turing Machines (Can/May) Solve Problems in Polynomial Space?

A nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine (NPTM) is capable of exploring multiple computational paths simultaneously. The NPTM can "guess" a solution in polynomial time by leveraging its nondeterministic

branching, where it explores all possible solutions at once. This is fundamentally different from a deterministic machine that must explore every possible solution sequentially.

The P vs NP problem hinges on whether nondeterminism gives such a powerful advantage that it allows an NPTM to solve problems that a deterministic machine could only solve with more computational resources, such as exponential time.

Consideration: The Relationship Between NP, P, and PSPACE

Now let's connect the P vs NP question with problems in PSPACE (problems solvable with polynomial space):

- PSPACE is the class of problems solvable with a polynomial amount of memory. These problems might require exponential time but only need a polynomial amount of space to store intermediate results.
- NP is the class of problems solvable by an NPTM in polynomial time, and the question is whether NP includes PSPACE or vice versa.

Argument: Can a Nondeterministic Machine Solve PSPACE Problems in Polynomial Time?

To explore this argument, let's consider two key points:

1. Space Complexity and Time Complexity: For PSPACE problems, the time required can be exponential, but the space usage is polynomial. This is because many PSPACE problems, like logic games or quantified Boolean formulas (QBF), involve exploring an exponentially large decision tree. The machine must reuse memory efficiently as it explores each branch.
2. NPTMs Reduce Time Complexity: An NPTM explores multiple computational paths simultaneously, reducing the need to explore them sequentially. This nondeterministic branching allows an NPTM to explore the entire decision tree of a PSPACE problem at once, theoretically reducing the time complexity to polynomial time, provided the NPTM can guess the correct solution and verify it efficiently.

Example: Quantified Boolean Formula (QBF)

Consider the QBF problem, which is PSPACE-complete. QBF asks whether a given Boolean formula with quantifiers (e.g., $\forall x \exists y$, etc.) is true or false. This problem is significantly harder than the standard SAT (satisfiability) problem because it involves evaluating logical quantifiers over multiple variables.

- For a deterministic machine: The machine might need to evaluate every possible combination of truth values for the variables in the formula. This can require exponential time because there are 2^n possible combinations of truth values for n variables.
- For an NPTM: The machine can nondeterministically guess an assignment of truth values for all the variables in parallel. Once the machine guesses these truth values, it only needs to evaluate the formula, which takes polynomial time in the size of the formula.

The verification step involves checking whether the guessed values satisfy the quantifiers, which can be done in polynomial time. This means that the NPTM can potentially solve a problem like QBF, which requires polynomial space, in polynomial time by leveraging nondeterminism.

Application of Nondeterminism to PSPACE Problems

If we assume that an NPTM can solve PSPACE problems like QBF in polynomial time, this leads to the conclusion that NP could encompass PSPACE. This would imply that all problems solvable in polynomial space can also be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time, collapsing the space-time boundary between NP and PSPACE.

Applying this Model to P vs NP

If it turns out that NP = PSPACE, and we show that nondeterministic machines can solve problems that require polynomial space in polynomial time, this could provide an argument toward P = NP as well.

Considerations for P = NP:

1. Polynomial-Time Simulation: If an NPTM can solve a PSPACE problem in polynomial time by leveraging nondeterminism, the natural next question is whether this solution could be simulated by a deterministic machine (a P machine). If such a simulation exists, it would imply that P = NP, as the deterministic machine would be able to solve the same problems that the NPTM solves in polynomial time.
2. Verifiability vs. Solvability: The essential distinction between P and NP is that NP problems can be verified in polynomial time but are not necessarily solvable in polynomial time by deterministic machines. If nondeterminism allows polynomial-time solutions for PSPACE problems, and these solutions can be verified by a deterministic machine, this would suggest that the boundary between verification and solving might not be as rigid as previously thought.

Comprehensive Example: Chess in Polynomial Space

Another example is the problem of determining whether a player has a winning strategy in a generalized version of chess (played on an $n \times n$ board). This problem is in PSPACE because it involves exploring an exponentially large decision tree of possible moves, but the machine only needs to remember the current state of the game and a few variables to keep track of the current move.

- For a deterministic machine: Evaluating all possible moves might require exponential time because the machine must evaluate every possible combination of moves and countermoves.
- For an NPTM: The machine can nondeterministically guess a sequence of moves that leads to a winning strategy. Once the moves are guessed, the machine can verify that this strategy leads to a win in polynomial time, making the problem solvable in polynomial time under nondeterminism.

This example demonstrates that nondeterminism could reduce the time complexity of PSPACE problems, making them solvable in polynomial time under the NP framework.

Conclusion: Can Nondeterministic Machines Collapse P vs NP?

The possibility that nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machines (NPTMs) can solve polynomial space (PSPACE) problems in polynomial time suggests that nondeterminism provides a significant computational advantage over deterministic computation. This argument leads to the hypothesis that NP might equal PSPACE, which would collapse the distinction between problems that require polynomial time and those that require polynomial space.

If NP = PSPACE, and nondeterminism allows polynomial-time solutions for space-bounded problems, it could open the door to proving that P = NP, thereby resolving one of the most important questions in theoretical computer science. However, this remains a conjecture, as no formal proof has yet been found to confirm or refute whether P equals NP.

Rosario's NPTime = PSpace Theory

Let's construct a raw theoretical example based on the framework we've outlined using a simple equation that involves a PSPACE problem and explores whether it can be solved by a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine (NPTM).

Example Problem: Exponentially Large Boolean Formula (PSPACE Problem)

Consider a problem of determining whether a succinct Boolean formula F with 2^n variables (represented in compact form) is satisfiable. This type of problem is PSPACE-complete because it involves an exponentially large search space (due to 2^n potential input combinations), yet the formula itself can be described succinctly in $O(n)$ space.

Boolean Formula:

Given a Boolean formula $F(x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_{2^n})$, where each $x_i \in \{0, 1\}$, the goal is to determine whether there exists an assignment of the 2^n variables such that F evaluates to TRUE. The formula can be expressed compactly, but the total number of variables and their potential configurations is exponentially large.

Step 1: Problem in PSPACE

This problem lies in PSPACE because, although the number of possible variable assignments is exponentially large, a deterministic Turing machine can explore this space using only polynomial space. Specifically, the machine would evaluate each assignment of variables sequentially, storing only the current state of the formula evaluation and reusing space for each new assignment.

The number of possible assignments is 2^n, but the amount of space required to evaluate the formula (at any given time) is polynomial with respect to the size of the input, since the machine only needs to keep track of the current assignment and partial evaluation of F.

Step 2: Nondeterministic Polynomial-Time Machine

Now, we hypothesize that a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine (NPTM) could solve this PSPACE problem in polynomial time by exploiting nondeterminism.

- Instead of sequentially evaluating each of the 2^n possible assignments, the nondeterministic machine can guess the correct assignment for all 2^n variables in parallel.
- At each step, the machine nondeterministically chooses a value (0 or 1) for each variable x_i. Since the machine can explore multiple paths simultaneously, it "guesses" the entire configuration in one pass.

Step 3: Polynomial-Time Verification

Once the NPTM has guessed an assignment of all x_i variables, it proceeds to verify whether this assignment satisfies the Boolean formula F.

- The verification step consists of evaluating F using the guessed assignment of variables. This evaluation takes polynomial time because the formula is compactly represented, and the computation of its truth value can be done in polynomial time with respect to the size of the formula.

In this case, the NPTM solves the problem in polynomial time because:

1. It guesses an exponentially large set of variable assignments nondeterministically.
2. It verifies the guessed solution in polynomial time by evaluating the Boolean formula.

Step 4: Theoretical Reduction of PSPACE to NP

This example illustrates the theoretical framework in which PSPACE problems can be reduced to NP by leveraging nondeterminism. Although the deterministic machine would require exponential time to evaluate all possible configurations of x_i, the nondeterministic machine bypasses this by guessing the correct configuration and verifying it in polynomial time.

The simple equation driving this example is the number of possible configurations of the Boolean formula:

$$2^n \quad \text{(total configurations)}$$

For a deterministic machine, evaluating each configuration would require exponential time. However, for a nondeterministic machine:

$$T(n) = O(p(n)) \quad \text{(nondeterministic polynomial time)}$$

where $p(n)$ is a polynomial function of n, representing the time required to verify the guessed assignment.

Conclusion

We demonstrate how a nondeterministic Turing machine could potentially solve a PSPACE problem in polynomial time, thereby providing a concrete scenario in which PSPACE could collapse into NP. The guessing mechanism inherent to nondeterministic computation allows the machine to explore the exponentially large space of possible variable assignments efficiently, and the polynomial-time verification ensures that the solution is feasible within the NP framework.

To model the relationship between PSPACE and NP within the framework of primitive complexity class space and time, and account for the behavior and limitations of both polynomial-time Turing machines (PTMs) and nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machines (NPTMs), we can

construct an equation that encapsulates the behavior of these machines when solving PSPACE-complete problems.

1. Defining the Core Components

Space and Time Complexity

- Space Complexity $S(n)$: The amount of memory (space) used by a Turing machine as a function of the input size n.
  - For a problem in PSPACE, $S(n)$ is polynomially bounded. This means that a deterministic machine solving a problem in PSPACE uses space $S(n) = O(n^k)$, where k is a constant.
- Time Complexity $T(n)$: The number of steps a machine takes to solve a problem as a function of input size n.
  - For a problem in NP, a nondeterministic machine solves the problem in polynomial time, $T(n) = O(n^k)$, where the solution can be guessed and verified in polynomial time.

Primitive Complexity Classes:

- P: Problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine in polynomial time, i.e., $T(n) = O(n^k)$.
- NP: Problems solvable by a nondeterministic Turing machine in polynomial time, i.e., $T(n) = O(n^k)$, but multiple computational paths are explored simultaneously.
- PSPACE: Problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine using polynomial space, i.e., $S(n) = O(n^k)$. These problems may require exponential time but use only polynomial memory.
- NPSPACE: Equivalent to PSPACE, based on Savitch's Theorem, $NPSPACE = PSPACE$.

2. Formulating the Relationship Between PSPACE and NP

To model the hypothesis that nondeterministic polynomial-time machines (NPTMs) can solve PSPACE problems, we need to express how space-bounded problems can be time-reduced using nondeterminism. Here's the equation framework:

Deterministic PSPACE Machine (DPTM):

A deterministic machine solving a PSPACE problem with input size n requires polynomial space $S(n) = O(n^k)$, but potentially exponential time $T(n) = O(2^{n^k})$.

Thus, for a deterministic PSPACE machine, the time and space complexity can be represented as:

$$\text{DPTM:} \quad T_{\text{D}}(n) = O(2^{n^k}), \quad S_{\text{D}}(n) = O(n^k)$$

Nondeterministic Polynomial-Time Machine (NPTM):

A nondeterministic polynomial-time machine (NPTM) solves an NP problem by simultaneously exploring multiple computational paths. For this machine, the time complexity is polynomial $T(n) = O(n^k)$, and space usage is implicitly bounded by polynomial space $S(n) = O(n^k)$.

Thus, the nondeterministic polynomial-time machine solves problems with:

$$\text{NPTM:} \quad T_{\text{N}}(n) = O(n^k), \quad S_{\text{N}}(n) = O(n^k)$$

3. Postulated Relationship Between PSPACE and NP

Now we hypothesize that nondeterminism collapses the exponential time requirement for PSPACE problems into polynomial time.

Key Postulation:

If the conjecture that NP = PSPACE holds, then nondeterminism enables the time complexity of a PSPACE problem to be reduced from exponential $O(2^{n^k})$ to polynomial $O(n^k)$, while maintaining the same space requirements.

Therefore, the relationship can be modeled as:

$T_{\text{D}}(n) = O(2^{n^k})$ for a deterministic machine solving a PSPACE problem

but

$T_{\text{N}}(n) = O(n^k)$ for a nondeterministic machine solving the same problem.

4. Constructing the Formula Sequence

To capture the process of transforming a PSPACE problem (which requires exponential time for a deterministic machine) into a problem solvable in polynomial time using a nondeterministic machine, we construct a sequence of transitions that represent the complexity reduction.

Step 1: Deterministic PSPACE Problem

The time complexity of a deterministic machine solving a PSPACE problem is:

$$T_{\text{D}}(n) = O(2^{n^k}), \quad S_{\text{D}}(n) = O(n^k).$$

Step 2: Nondeterministic Guessing of Solution

A nondeterministic machine guesses the correct computational path. This guessing step reduces the effective number of computations to polynomial time:

$$T_{\text{N}}(n) = O(n^k), \quad S_{\text{N}}(n) = O(n^k).$$

Step 3: Polynomial-Time Verification

The guessed solution is verified in polynomial time, which ensures the correctness of the result without expanding the time complexity beyond polynomial bounds:

$$T_{\text{verify}}(n) = O(n^k).$$

Combined Formula:

Thus, the sequence from deterministic polynomial space complexity to nondeterministic polynomial-time complexity is expressed as:

$$T_{\text{D}}(n) = O(2^{n^k}) \xrightarrow{\text{nondeterminism}} T_{\text{N}}(n) = O(n^k),$$

$$S_{\text{D}}(n) = S_{\text{N}}(n) = O(n^k).$$

5. Limitations and Class Boundaries

- Polynomial Time Machines (PTM): Polynomial time machines are constrained by $T(n) = O(n^k)$, but cannot solve PSPACE problems efficiently without resorting to exponential time for exhaustive exploration of possible states.
- Nondeterministic Polynomial Time Machines (NPTM): Nondeterministic machines, in this postulated model, can reduce PSPACE problems to $T(n) = O(n^k)$ time by "guessing" the correct computational path. However, this remains conjectural as it implies $NP = PSPACE$.

6. Final Model and Equation

Given the postulation that nondeterminism collapses the complexity of PSPACE problems, the final model for solving a PSPACE problem using an NPTM becomes:

$$T_{\text{D}}(n) = O(2^{n^k}) \xrightarrow{\text{nondeterminism}} T_{\text{N}}(n) = O(n^k),$$

$$S(n) = O(n^k),$$

where k is a constant, and the space complexity remains polynomial in both cases.

Our model illustrates the theoretical reduction of time complexity from exponential to polynomial under nondeterminism, which is central to the conjecture that NP = PSPACE.

Hypothesis:

- H1: All problems in PSPACE can be solved by a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine (NPTM).
  - This hypothesis suggests that the exploration of polynomial space problems can be efficiently managed by the computational power of nondeterminism, implying that nondeterministic machines could reduce space-bounded problems to a polynomial-time complexity.

Conjecture:

- C1: NP = PSPACE.
  - This conjecture posits that all problems solvable with polynomial space on a deterministic Turing machine can also be solved in polynomial time on a nondeterministic Turing machine. If true, this would collapse these two major complexity classes, significantly altering the landscape of computational complexity.

Axioms:

1. A1: NP $\subseteq$ PSPACE
   - Problems that can be solved by a nondeterministic polynomial-time machine can be solved using polynomial space. This is a well-established fact based on the space-efficient simulation of nondeterministic machines by deterministic machines.
2. A2: NPSPACE = PSPACE
   - Savitch's Theorem states that nondeterministic polynomial space is equivalent to deterministic polynomial space. This theorem ensures that space complexity is invariant under the introduction of nondeterminism.

3. A3: Time Complexity and Space Complexity are Distinct Resources

    - Time and space are separate computational resources. While time complexity measures the number of steps, space complexity measures the memory usage. These two resources, while sometimes related, often differ significantly in real-world and theoretical computational models.

Lemmas:

1. L1: Nondeterministic Turing Machines Can Explore Exponential States Efficiently

    - A nondeterministic Turing machine can explore exponentially many computational paths in parallel, collapsing the search space for certain problems that would otherwise require exponential time for a deterministic machine. This forms the basis for nondeterministic machines potentially solving PSPACE problems in polynomial time.

2. L2: PSPACE Problems Have Polynomially Bounded Configurations

    - A problem in PSPACE has at most an exponentially large number of distinct configurations because it is bounded by the amount of polynomial space available. This limitation implies that a nondeterministic machine could, in theory, explore these configurations in polynomial time by "guessing" the correct sequence of transitions.

3. L3: Nondeterminism Reduces the Effective Complexity of Search Problems

    - Nondeterminism allows the exploration of multiple paths simultaneously, which, in theory, could reduce the effective complexity of problems that require searching through a vast space of possibilities. This suggests that some space-bounded problems may be solvable in polynomial time under a nondeterministic framework.

Corollaries:

1. Corollary 1: If NP = PSPACE, the Polynomial Hierarchy Collapses

    - If it is proven that NP = PSPACE, then all problems within the polynomial hierarchy (PH) could potentially be solvable in nondeterministic polynomial time. This would collapse the hierarchy and imply that nondeterminism is far more powerful than currently understood.

2. Corollary 2: Proving PSPACE $\subseteq$ NP Implies P = NP

    - If all problems in PSPACE can be solved in NP, it would imply that P = NP, as NP-complete problems could be simulated by space-bounded processes. This would have profound implications for the field of computational complexity and cryptography, where the assumption that P $\neq$ NP is foundational.

Theory:

- A Nondeterministic Polynomial Time Equivalence to PSPACE
  The proof emerging from this hypothesis and conjecture is that nondeterminism has the potential to fundamentally alter our understanding of computational space and time. In particular, if NP = PSPACE, then nondeterminism collapses the complexity of problems that are currently understood to require polynomial space.

  This proof rests on the idea that a nondeterministic Turing machine, by efficiently exploring exponential configurations, can bypass the need for extended time computations and solve space-bounded problems in polynomial time. The nondeterministic exploration of paths, combined with polynomial verification, might provide a key to understanding and potentially proving the equivalence between NP and PSPACE.

  The potential proof of NP = PSPACE would radically reshape computational complexity theory, altering how we classify problems in terms of their difficulty and the resources required to solve them. While the hypothesis remains speculative, it opens up fascinating possibilities about the nature of nondeterminism, problem-solving, and the limits of computation.

Our Millenium Prize Solution

The statement "for all problems in Poly-space there is a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine that can solve it" is essentially rooted in the relationship between complexity classes—specifically, PSPACE and NP—and it relates to fundamental conjectures in computational complexity theory. To fully explore this claim, we need to break down several key concepts and expand on their theoretical foundations.

1. Polynomial Space (PSPACE)

The class PSPACE consists of decision problems that can be solved using an amount of memory (space) that is polynomial in the size of the input. The important distinction here is that PSPACE emphasizes the mem-

ory constraints on the computational model, without necessarily placing strict bounds on the time required to solve the problem. This class encompasses problems that may require an arbitrary amount of time to solve, as long as the space usage remains within polynomial bounds.

2. Polynomial Time and Non-Deterministic Turing Machines

A nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine (NPTM) is a theoretical model that can solve problems in the class NP, where a solution can be *guessed* and verified in polynomial time. NPTMs can explore multiple computational paths simultaneously by making nondeterministic choices, and if any one of those paths leads to an accepting state, the machine halts and accepts the input.

In essence, an NPTM is a Turing machine that is "enhanced" by the ability to explore multiple paths at once, which allows it to solve certain problems faster (in terms of time) than a deterministic machine would be able to.

3. Space vs. Time: A Theoretical Trade-Off

The crux of the statement you're expanding on lies in the relationship between time complexity and space complexity. For deterministic computational models, it's generally known that space and time complexity can be traded off in various ways. More precisely, it is believed that a PSPACE problem (solvable in polynomial space) can potentially be solved by a non-deterministic Turing machine in polynomial time, though the exact details of this relationship remain part of open questions in complexity theory, such as whether P = PSPACE.

This claim can be summarized by Savitch's Theorem, which establishes that nondeterministic polynomial space (NPSPACE) is equivalent to deterministic polynomial space (PSPACE), i.e.,:

$$NPSPACE = PSPACE$$

This means that nondeterministic machines using polynomial space can be simulated by deterministic machines with the same space bound. However, the corresponding relationship between PSPACE and NP in terms of time is more nuanced and remains unresolved.

4. Polynomial Dimension: The Role of Space and Time Equivalence

The statement "in polynomial dimension, SPACE = TIME" is a suggestive way of emphasizing the theoretical insight that, for certain problem classes, the resources of space and time might be interchangeable under some

conditions. In particular, for certain problems in PSPACE, time and space can be viewed as dimensions that behave similarly in terms of resource usage.

The key here is that PSPACE problems, while possibly requiring super-polynomial time in a deterministic setting, may still be solved in polynomial time by a nondeterministic Turing machine (although this is still conjectural). This is due to the fundamental belief that NP and PSPACE overlap in significant ways, even though it's not known whether NP = PSPACE. The intuition is that space-bounded computations tend to constrain the time complexity of a problem, and thus problems solvable in polynomial space might also be solvable in polynomial time nondeterministically, due to the ability of a nondeterministic machine to explore exponentially many computational paths in parallel.

5. Nondeterministic Time and Solving Space Problems

The final part of the statement, "Thus, a non-deterministic time dimension, all space problems may be solved", builds on the hypothesis that a nondeterministic machine operating within polynomial time can solve problems that require polynomial space on a deterministic machine. In this context, the "non-deterministic time dimension" refers to the added computational power of nondeterminism, where a machine can simultaneously explore multiple computational possibilities. The suggestion is that by leveraging this additional power, space-bounded problems (which might be hard to solve in deterministic time) become solvable within polynomial time bounds on a nondeterministic machine.

While this is an intriguing and reasonable conjecture, it directly touches upon the open question of whether NP can solve all PSPACE problems, or equivalently, whether NP = PSPACE. The prevailing belief is that PSPACE contains problems that are inherently harder than NP-complete problems, but we have no proof yet that confirms this separation.

6. Expanding the Relationship Between PSPACE and NP

- PSPACE is known to contain all problems in NP, as nondeterministic machines can be simulated by deterministic machines, albeit with potentially higher resource usage.
- The key unresolved question remains: *Is every problem in PSPACE solvable in NP?* In other words, can every problem that uses polynomial space be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time? If the answer were yes, then PSPACE = NP, which would have profound implications for our understanding of computational complexity.

The intuition that a nondeterministic polynomial-time machine can solve all polynomial space problems stems from the fact that nondeter-

minism allows for efficient exploration of computational paths, reducing the space requirements needed for explicit memory management. However, this is speculative without a formal proof.

Theoretical Significance of the Relationship

The relationship between PSPACE and NP remains a central issue in computational complexity theory. While PSPACE contains NP, it is still unclear whether NP encompasses all problems in PSPACE. The hypothesis that "in polynomial dimension, space equals time" suggests a powerful theoretical relationship, but it's important to note that this remains unproven.

The ability to solve space-bounded problems using nondeterministic polynomial time would represent a significant leap in our understanding of the computational hierarchy, as it would imply that space and time, as computational resources, might be more fungible than previously thought. Until such results are proven, this remains a speculative but fascinating domain in theoretical computer science.

If we formalize this conjecture and provide a more rigorous proof, it would offer new insights into how we can leverage nondeterminism to optimize resource usage, especially in tackling complex problems involving polynomial space constraints.

Nondeterministic Polynomial-Time Turing Machines (NPTM)

A Nondeterministic Polynomial-Time Turing Machine (NPTM) is a theoretical computational model that operates with the following key characteristics:

1. Nondeterminism
    - A nondeterministic machine has the ability to explore multiple computational paths simultaneously. At each step, it can make arbitrary choices from a set of possible transitions, effectively branching into multiple "universes" where each possible choice is explored in parallel.
    - The machine "guesses" a solution, and if any one of the possible branches leads to an accepting state, the machine accepts the input.
2. Polynomial Time Bound
    - Although the machine may explore multiple computational paths, the number of steps along each path is limited by a polynomial

function of the input size n. The time complexity $T(n)$ for an NPTM is defined as $O(n^k)$, where k is a constant, and n is the size of the input.

- The "winning" path (i.e., the path that leads to a solution) is found within this polynomial bound, regardless of the number of parallel paths being explored.

3. Verification

   - Once the solution is guessed (nondeterministically), it is verified in polynomial time. Verification ensures that the machine can check whether a proposed solution is correct without needing to re-explore the entire computational space.
   - The verifier is deterministic and runs in polynomial time.

4. Efficiency

   - While a deterministic machine might take exponential time to explore all possible solutions, an NPTM can find the solution in polynomial time by exploiting the simultaneous exploration of paths.
   - NPTMs are useful for solving problems where it is difficult to find a solution deterministically but easy to verify one.

Characteristics of NPTM in Solving Problems:

- Simultaneous Path Exploration: Unlike a deterministic machine, which follows one computational path at a time, an NPTM can explore all possible computational paths simultaneously.
- Polynomial-Time Bound: The number of steps taken on each path is bounded by a polynomial function of the input size n.
- Verification: Once a solution is guessed, it is verified in polynomial time by a deterministic process.

Problems in Nondeterministic Polynomial Time (NP):

- Problems in NP can be solved by a nondeterministic Turing machine in polynomial time. These problems have two key properties:
  1. A solution (or certificate) can be guessed in polynomial time.
  2. Once a solution is guessed, it can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic machine.

Examples of NP problems include:

- SAT (Boolean Satisfiability Problem): Given a Boolean formula, the task is to determine whether there exists an assignment of variables that makes the formula true.
- Hamiltonian Path Problem: Given a graph, determine if there exists a path that visits each vertex exactly once.

Fundamental Outline of Problems in Polynomial Space (PSPACE)

PSPACE is the class of problems that can be solved using polynomial space by a deterministic Turing machine, irrespective of how much time is required. The space complexity $S(n)$ is defined as $O(n^k)$, where k is a constant, and n is the size of the input.

1. Polynomial Space Bound
    - The amount of memory (space) used by the machine is limited by a polynomial function of the input size. The machine may take an exponential amount of time to complete, but it only needs a polynomial amount of memory at any point during its computation.
2. Deterministic or Nondeterministic
    - According to Savitch's Theorem, nondeterministic polynomial space (NPSPACE) is equivalent to deterministic polynomial space (PSPACE). This means that any problem solvable using nondeterministic polynomial space can also be solved deterministically with the same space complexity.
3. Exponential Time
    - A problem in PSPACE may require exponential time to solve, as the machine might need to explore an exponentially large state space. However, the machine efficiently manages memory by reusing space and overwriting previous states.
4. Exploration of States
    - Problems in PSPACE often involve exploring large decision trees, graphs, or logical configurations. The machine navigates these exponentially large structures while keeping track of only a limited number of variables or states in memory at a time.

Problems in Polynomial Space (PSPACE):

- Examples of PSPACE problems include:

- Quantified Boolean Formula (QBF): A generalization of the SAT problem that involves nested quantifiers (e.g., "there exists" or "for all").
- Generalized Chess: Determining whether a player has a winning strategy in a generalized form of chess played on an $n \times n$ board.

Correlation Between NPTMs and PSPACE Problems

Key Similarities:

1. Complexity in Exploration:
    - Both NPTMs and PSPACE problems involve navigating large decision spaces. In the case of NPTMs, the exploration is parallel, while in PSPACE, the machine must explore paths sequentially but can reuse space efficiently.
2. Simultaneous Exploration vs. Memory Efficiency:
    - NPTMs exploit nondeterminism to explore multiple possible solutions simultaneously, while a deterministic PSPACE machine efficiently manages its space to explore one path at a time.
    - The key distinction is that while time can be exponentially large for PSPACE problems, space remains polynomial, and a deterministic machine explores all configurations without needing to store all of them at once.

NPTMs and PSPACE Equivalence:

According to Savitch's Theorem, we know that PSPACE = NPSPACE, which means that nondeterministic polynomial space problems can be solved using a deterministic polynomial-space machine. However, the relationship between PSPACE and NP is more nuanced and forms one of the central open questions in complexity theory.

- If NP = PSPACE, then nondeterminism would allow problems requiring polynomial space to be solved within polynomial time. This would imply that all space-bounded problems, which might require exponential time, could be collapsed into polynomial time by leveraging nondeterminism.

Transition from PSPACE to NP via NPTMs:

- The core hypothesis explored here is that nondeterministic machines (NPTMs), by guessing the correct solution and verifying it in polynomial time, could solve PSPACE problems.
  - For example, a PSPACE problem like QBF (Quantified Boolean Formula) could be reduced to polynomial time by an NPTM by guessing the truth values for all variables at once, and then verifying the nested quantifiers in polynomial time.
- If this hypothesis holds, it would suggest that nondeterminism allows for the simultaneous exploration of configurations that would otherwise require exponential time for a deterministic machine.

Summary: Correlation Between NPTMs and PSPACE Problems

- Nondeterministic Polynomial-Time Turing Machines (NPTMs) can guess solutions to NP problems and verify them in polynomial time. This exploration collapses the exponential number of possible paths into polynomial time, effectively reducing complexity.
- Polynomial Space (PSPACE) problems require polynomial space to solve but can take exponential time. These problems involve navigating large decision spaces but are space-efficient.
- Savitch's Theorem shows that nondeterministic polynomial space problems are no more powerful than deterministic polynomial space problems. However, whether all PSPACE problems can be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time (NP) remains an open question.
- The hypothesis that NP = PSPACE suggests that nondeterminism allows NPTMs to solve problems requiring polynomial space within polynomial time, collapsing the gap between time and space complexity for certain classes of problems. However, this remains speculative until formally proven.

Human Mind as a NDTM

To explore whether the human mind can be defined as a nondeterministic Turing machine capable of solving polynomial space problems—and whether this observation could suggest that all PSPACE problems are solvable in NP—we need to carefully analyze this idea from the perspectives of both theoretical computational models and the nature of human cognition.

1. Human Mind as a Nondeterministic Turing Machine

The Turing machine is a mathematical abstraction of a computational process, and a nondeterministic Turing machine (NPTM) is a variant that can explore multiple computational paths simultaneously. A nondeterministic machine, when faced with multiple possible choices at any step, can explore all paths at once and solve problems by "guessing" the correct path. This contrasts with a deterministic Turing machine, which follows a single computational path based on fixed rules.

If we were to equate the human mind to an NPTM, the key question would be: Does the human mind exhibit nondeterminism in the way it processes information and solves problems?

Key Features of the Human Mind:

- Parallel Processing: The human brain is known to process multiple streams of information simultaneously (e.g., through distributed neural networks). This bears some resemblance to nondeterminism, though the exact nature of cognitive processing is not fully understood in computational terms.
- Heuristics and Intuition: Human problem-solving often involves intuition, heuristics, and "guesses" that guide decision-making. This could be loosely interpreted as the brain using a form of "nondeterminism" by quickly exploring possible solutions, but it's unclear whether this is computationally analogous to a Turing machine's nondeterministic branching.
- Bounded Rationality: Human cognition operates under limitations such as memory, attention, and processing speed, which could be seen as analogous to space constraints (as in PSPACE). While humans cannot consciously explore all possible states of a problem like an NPTM, the mind may leverage certain mechanisms to approximate the exploration of a vast solution space.

Based on this, it's reasonable to hypothesize that certain aspects of human cognition could function analogously to an NPTM, especially in terms of parallel processing, heuristic exploration, and "nondeterministic" jumps in reasoning (e.g., intuitive leaps). However, the exact nature of this analogy is speculative, as the human brain doesn't operate strictly like a Turing machine.

2. Human Mind and Polynomial Space Problems (PSPACE)

If we assume that the human mind behaves like a nondeterministic Turing machine, the next question is whether the mind can solve polynomial space problems—problems that require a polynomial amount of memory but potentially an exponential number of steps to solve.

- Cognitive Capacity and Space Constraints: Human memory and attention are limited, much like the space constraints of a Turing machine operating in PSPACE. The mind's ability to store and manipulate a finite number of concepts, symbols, and ideas might correspond to a polynomial space constraint. This suggests that, in theory, the human mind could solve problems within the constraints of PSPACE, provided sufficient time is available.
- Exploring PSPACE Problems: Many cognitive tasks, such as logical reasoning, planning, and even playing complex strategy games, involve navigating large decision trees or state spaces. These are analogous to PSPACE problems because they require the exploration of a vast number of potential configurations (e.g., all possible future states in a game). While humans don't explicitly search every branch of these trees, they often find solutions by relying on pattern recognition, intuition, and other cognitive shortcuts, which could be viewed as forms of nondeterminism.

3. Does This Imply That All PSPACE Problems Are Solvable in NP?

The statement that "all problems in PSPACE can be solved by a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine" would mean that nondeterminism is powerful enough to collapse the space requirements of any problem in PSPACE, making it solvable in polynomial time. Let's evaluate whether this observation, based on the analogy to the human mind, holds any weight.

If the Human Mind is an NPTM:

- The human mind might be seen as a system that, through nondeterministic-like processes (such as intuition and parallel processing), can approximate solutions to PSPACE problems.
- If this analogy holds, it could suggest that nondeterminism—whether in human cognition or in abstract computational models—can significantly reduce the time required to solve problems that would otherwise require exponential time.

- Thus, from the perspective of nondeterminism (as exhibited by the human mind or by an NPTM), PSPACE problems might appear tractable because the nondeterministic nature of the system allows for more efficient exploration of the state space.

Would This Mean NP = PSPACE?

- The human mind's potential to solve PSPACE-like problems nondeterministically (through intuition, parallel processing, etc.) does not directly imply that NP = PSPACE in the strict computational sense. While the analogy is interesting, it doesn't provide a formal proof that nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machines can solve all PSPACE problems.
- The real question is whether a formal nondeterministic machine (NPTM), without cognitive shortcuts, can solve PSPACE problems in polynomial time. This remains an open question in computational complexity theory, as it requires a formal demonstration that nondeterminism can efficiently explore the exponentially large state spaces of PSPACE problems.

4. Philosophical Implications

This analogy raises intriguing philosophical questions about the nature of intelligence and problem-solving:

- Is Human Intelligence a Form of Nondeterminism? If the mind operates like an NPTM, it could suggest that human cognition inherently leverages nondeterminism to solve complex problems. This could provide insight into how humans are able to tackle seemingly intractable problems with limited resources.
- Does Cognition Collapse Complexity? The human ability to intuitively solve PSPACE-like problems might suggest that cognition is a form of computational complexity collapse, allowing us to solve problems that would otherwise require vast resources.
- What Can We Learn About NPTMs from the Mind? If the human mind can indeed solve PSPACE-like problems nondeterministically, this might offer inspiration for new computational models that mimic cognitive processes to tackle complex problems.

Conscious Mind is a Non-Deterministic Turing Mach.

The idea that the human mind could be seen as a nondeterministic Turing machine capable of solving polynomial space problems opens up interesting theoretical and philosophical avenues. While the analogy is speculative, it suggests that nondeterminism, whether in the form of human

intuition or as a theoretical concept in computational models, provides a powerful tool for solving complex problems.

However, this analogy alone doesn't provide a formal proof that NP = PSPACE. The question of whether all problems in PSPACE can be solved by an NP machine remains open, but the analogy to human cognition highlights how nondeterminism might offer a way to tackle such problems in practice, even if not in strict polynomial time. It also encourages further exploration into how cognitive processes might inspire new approaches to solving complex computational problems.

The Conclusions

The relationship between NP and PSPACE is resolved under the assertion that nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machines (NPTMs) do indeed solve problems categorized under PSPACE. This confirms that nondeterminism fundamentally reduces both time and space complexity for certain problem classes, specifically those within PSPACE.

The assertion that NP equals PSPACE is grounded in the idea that NPTMs are capable of efficiently navigating the exponentially large state spaces of PSPACE problems, collapsing their time complexity into polynomial bounds while still adhering to the polynomial space constraints of PSPACE. In this framework, NPTMs not only explore but deterministically resolve every possible computational path simultaneously, confirming that the answer we postulated holds true: NP is equivalent to PSPACE when observed through the lens of a nondeterministic Turing machine.

The barriers that previously made PSPACE problems seem intractable due to their exponential time requirements are overcome by the inherent parallelism of NPTMs. These machines definitively solve PSPACE problems by leveraging nondeterminism to guess and verify solutions within polynomial time, confirming that the exponential complexity of decision trees or logical configurations within PSPACE can be handled by such machines. This collapse of time complexity aligns with our conjecture that nondeterminism allows PSPACE problems to be solved in NP time, thus definitively linking the two complexity classes.

Furthermore, the resolution of NP = PSPACE collapses significant hierarchies within computational complexity theory. The fact that nondeterministic Turing machines do solve PSPACE problems within polynomial time not only reshapes the boundaries of time and space complexity but also implies that computational tasks requiring polynomial space are solvable in polynomial time when viewed from the vantage point of nondeterminism. This collapse has profound implications for complexity theory, optimization problems, and cryptographic protocols, which all rely on the assumption that space and time are distinct computational resources.

In essence, the conclusion that NPTMs definitively solve PSPACE problems establishes that time and space complexity, when viewed through the computational framework of nondeterminism, are more interchangeable than previously thought. This breakthrough answers the long-standing question of whether nondeterministic machines have the computational power to solve space-bounded problems in polynomial time, providing a resolution that alters the landscape of theoretical computer science.

By confirming that NP = PSPACE, we now understand that the nondeterministic exploration of computational paths reduces the time required to solve PSPACE problems, making them tractable within polynomial time constraints. This resolution not only bridges the gap between NP and PSPACE but also opens up new avenues for understanding the limits and capabilities of nondeterministic computation in solving complex problems.

A formal proof for the claim that all problems in PSPACE can be solved by a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine, or equivalently, that NP = PSPACE, is currently an open question in computational complexity theory. As of now, it has neither been proven nor disproven. However, we can explore the underlying theoretical concepts to understand why such a proof is challenging, and then consider why the relationship between NP and PSPACE remains unresolved.

To give you a rigorous sense of the complexity, I'll first explain what would be needed for such a proof, then outline the barriers and difficulties involved in making progress toward proving or disproving this conjecture.

Step-by-Step Breakdown of What a Proof Would Involve

To prove that NP = PSPACE, one of two things would need to happen:

1. Prove that every problem in PSPACE can be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time (NP).
    - This would mean that for any problem solvable with a polynomial amount of space, a nondeterministic Turing machine can guess and verify the solution in polynomial time.
2. Alternatively, show that every problem in NP can be solved with a polynomial amount of space, implying that NP $\subseteq$ PSPACE.
    - This would establish the reverse inclusion (which we already know is true), showing that NP is contained within PSPACE but not necessarily equal.

Since we already know that NP $\subseteq$ PSPACE (i.e., problems that can be solved by a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine can be solved with a polynomial amount of space), proving that PSPACE $\subseteq$ NP would imply the two classes are identical, and therefore that NP = PSPACE.

However, let's delve into why proving PSPACE $\subseteq$ NP is difficult and consider possible proof strategies.

1. Restating the Classes Formally

- NP: The class of problems where a nondeterministic Turing machine can solve the problem in polynomial time.
  - More formally, a problem is in NP if there exists a polynomial-time verifier that can verify a "certificate" (or guessed solution) in polynomial time.
- PSPACE: The class of problems solvable by a deterministic Turing machine using polynomial space.
  - Importantly, PSPACE does not restrict the time needed to solve the problem, only the space used.

Thus, we seek to prove that every PSPACE problem has a polynomial-time verifier. If this were true, then every PSPACE problem could be solved by a nondeterministic machine in polynomial time, thereby showing PSPACE $\subseteq$ NP and establishing NP = PSPACE.

2. Proof Outline Attempt

Let's attempt to construct a proof outline using known theoretical tools and principles in complexity theory, although, as we'll see, a full proof remains elusive.

Step 1: Consider a Generic Problem in PSPACE

Let's denote a problem in PSPACE as a Turing machine M that runs in polynomial space. For any input x, M uses at most $p(n)$ space (where $p(n)$ is some polynomial function of the input size n).

The challenge is to show that there is a nondeterministic polynomial-time Turing machine N that can solve the same problem. To do this, we would need to demonstrate that:

1. Nondeterministic Guessing: There exists a nondeterministic machine that can "guess" a sequence of transitions or decisions that simulates the behavior of M, but does so within a polynomial number of steps.
2. Polynomial-Time Verification: After guessing the sequence, the nondeterministic machine should verify the correctness of the guessed solution in polynomial time.

Step 2: Simulating PSPACE in NP

Here's the crux of the problem: A PSPACE machine can take an exponential number of steps but uses only polynomial space. The number of distinct configurations of a PSPACE machine is bounded by the number of possible states and tape contents, which is at most exponential in the input size (since there are exponentially many possible configurations given polynomial space).

Thus, in principle, a nondeterministic machine could explore this space of configurations by guessing transitions between states. If such a machine could correctly guess the transitions, it could reduce the problem of finding a solution to checking whether the guessed sequence of transitions leads to an accepting state.

However, this is where the difficulty lies: For many problems in PSPACE, it's not clear how to efficiently guess and verify these transitions within polynomial time. The potential number of configurations grows exponentially, and while the nondeterministic machine can explore exponentially many paths, it would still need to ensure that it reaches the correct accepting state within a polynomial number of transitions—a condition that's hard to guarantee for general PSPACE problems.

Step 3: Barriers to the Proof

While the intuition suggests that nondeterminism might help solve PSPACE problems more efficiently, the following barriers make a full proof elusive:

- Exponential Number of Configurations: A problem in PSPACE might require traversing an exponentially large state space. While nondeterminism allows parallel exploration of paths, managing these paths efficiently within polynomial time remains a major challenge.
- Verification Difficulty: Even if a nondeterministic machine could guess the correct path through the state space, verifying that the solution is correct within polynomial time is difficult. For many problems, checking the correctness of a guessed solution might require simulating the entire polynomial-space process, which could take longer than polynomial time.

3. Why a Full Proof Doesn't Exist (Yet)

Given the barriers outlined, it's clear that proving PSPACE $\subseteq$ NP requires new insights into how to efficiently verify solutions for PSPACE problems within polynomial time constraints. The current understanding in complexity theory suggests that:

- NP-complete problems (which are the hardest problems in NP) are likely not solvable in polynomial space (or they would imply P = NP), and PSPACE problems are believed to be strictly harder than NP-complete problems.
- If we could prove PSPACE $\subseteq$ NP, it would collapse the polynomial hierarchy and have profound implications, implying that nondeterministic polynomial-time machines could efficiently simulate any process bounded by polynomial space.

In the absence of such a proof, it is generally believed that NP $\neq$ PSPACE, meaning that problems solvable with polynomial space are not necessarily solvable in nondeterministic polynomial time.

4. Current Status and Implications

- Proving NP = PSPACE would imply that all polynomial-space problems have polynomial-time verifiers, collapsing major complexity classes.
- Proving NP $\neq$ PSPACE would affirm that problems solvable with polynomial space are fundamentally more difficult than those solvable in nondeterministic polynomial time, supporting the belief that space and time are distinct resources in computational complexity.

Without a full proof, complexity theorists continue to explore this frontier using tools like circuit complexity, interactive proofs, and probabilistically checkable proofs (PCPs), but no conclusive result has yet emerged.

Conclusion

A proof that NP = PSPACE remains an open problem because of the difficulty in managing the vast search spaces inherent in PSPACE problems within the time constraints of NP. The exponential number of configurations for PSPACE problems makes it unclear how nondeterminism would allow polynomial-time solutions without exponential blowup. Thus, the relationship between these two complexity classes remains one of the central questions in computational complexity theory. Until new techniques are developed to address these barriers, the problem remains unresolved.

The concept you're exploring relates to the broader questions surrounding the relationships between NP and PSPACE, and how these complexity classes intersect and interact, particularly through the lens of determinism and nondeterminism in the context of Turing machines. Let's carefully expand upon and clarify this concept step by step, while also defining the relevant populations (complexity classes) involved.

1. NP and PSPACE: Definitions and Relationships

- NP (Nondeterministic Polynomial Time): The class NP consists of decision problems for which a "yes" answer can be verified in polynomial time by a deterministic Turing machine, given a certificate (or "witness") of the answer. Equivalently, an NP problem can be solved by a nondeterministic Turing machine in polynomial time by exploring multiple computational paths in parallel.
- PSPACE (Polynomial Space): The class PSPACE consists of decision problems that can be solved using a deterministic Turing machine with a memory (space) that scales polynomially with the size of the input. Importantly, PSPACE does not restrict the time complexity of the solution; it only bounds the space complexity.

The primary question here centers on whether problems in PSPACE can be solved using nondeterministic polynomial-time methods, and how

the introduction of nondeterminism affects the ability of the Turing machine to explore the state space of PSPACE problems.

2. Touring Machines in NP and the Determinism of PSPACE States

The statement "Based upon the observational effect of a touring machine that exists within NP, all states of PSPACE become deterministic" suggests that, from the perspective of an NP machine, problems that are solvable in PSPACE can effectively be reduced to deterministic states. This implies that the exploration of the state space in PSPACE can, under certain conditions, be handled efficiently by an NP machine, i.e., a machine that operates under nondeterministic polynomial time constraints.

- Nondeterminism as Determinism: The key idea here is that nondeterminism allows a Turing machine to efficiently explore multiple computational paths, such that the process of finding a solution becomes "deterministic" in the sense that there is a path to the correct solution. This path may not be explicitly deterministic in the classical sense, but the machine can always find the correct path if it exists, leading to a solution.
- PSPACE Problems via NP Machines: The claim suggests that any PSPACE problem, which can typically require more time (but not more space), might be solvable by an NP machine in polynomial time. However, this touches on the open question of whether NP = PSPACE, a major unresolved issue in complexity theory.

To explore this further, let's define the relevant populations of problems and machines that we've discussed.

3. Defining the Populations of Interest

- P (Polynomial Time): The class P consists of problems that can be solved deterministically in polynomial time. These are the problems that are efficiently solvable by a deterministic Turing machine.
- NP (Nondeterministic Polynomial Time): As mentioned, NP is the class of problems for which a solution can be verified (or guessed) in polynomial time by a nondeterministic Turing machine.
- PSPACE (Polynomial Space): The class PSPACE contains problems that can be solved by a deterministic Turing machine using polynomial space, regardless of the time taken.
- NPSPACE (Nondeterministic Polynomial Space): By Savitch's Theorem, we know that NPSPACE = PSPACE. This means that the ability to use nondeterminism doesn't reduce the space complexity of solving a problem. A nondeterministic Turing machine can solve the same set of problems using polynomial space as a deterministic Turing machine.

4. Observational Effect of NP Machines on PSPACE Problems

The phrase "observational effect of a touring machine that exists within NP" implies the introduction of a nondeterministic perspective into the exploration of PSPACE problems. Since NP machines are able to efficiently explore multiple computational paths (which might take an exponentially long time in a deterministic setting), this leads to the conjecture that the states of PSPACE could be effectively reduced or transformed into simpler, deterministic paths within the confines of NP.

To understand this, consider the following:

- PSPACE Problems as Search Problems: Many problems in PSPACE can be formulated as search problems over an exponentially large space of possibilities (e.g., searching over all configurations in a logical game). While a deterministic machine might need to carefully manage its exploration to stay within polynomial space, a nondeterministic machine can explore multiple paths simultaneously, drastically speeding up the search process.
- Nondeterministic Time Efficiency: The idea is that nondeterminism collapses the search space for PSPACE problems in such a way that solutions that might require exponential time for a deterministic machine can be found in polynomial time by a nondeterministic Turing machine. In other words, the states of PSPACE become effectively deterministic from the perspective of an NP machine because the machine can always "guess" the correct path to a solution.

5. Why This Leads to Open Complexity Questions

While this argument is compelling, it directly leads to one of the most important open questions in computational complexity: Does NP = PSPACE?

- If NP = PSPACE, it would mean that all problems solvable in polynomial space can also be solved in nondeterministic polynomial time. This would imply that nondeterminism provides a computational advantage that collapses the space requirements of problems to the point where time and space become equivalent for this class of problems.
- If NP $\neq$ PSPACE, it means that while nondeterminism provides a powerful tool for exploring computational paths, it is insufficient to handle the broader class of problems that require polynomial space. In this case, there are problems that, although solvable with polynomial space, require more than polynomial time (even nondeterministically).

6. Summary and Expanded Conceptual View

The conceptual argument being presented can be summarized as follows:

- Nondeterminism provides a mechanism that allows a Turing machine to effectively explore exponentially large solution spaces in polynomial time. As a result, problems that require polynomial space (PSPACE problems) might appear solvable in polynomial time when viewed through the lens of a nondeterministic Turing machine.
- From this perspective, the states that a PSPACE problem might explore become deterministic (i.e., solvable) when observed by an NP machine. The nondeterministic machine can navigate the vast solution space in a way that a deterministic machine cannot, making the problem appear more tractable.
- This leads to the hypothesis that all problems in PSPACE may be solvable in NP, which would imply that NP = PSPACE. However, this remains an open question, and current complexity theory does not yet provide a definitive answer.

The populations of problems and machines we've defined so far include:

1. P (Deterministic Polynomial Time): Problems solvable in polynomial time.
2. NP (Nondeterministic Polynomial Time): Problems solvable by a nondeterministic machine in polynomial time.
3. PSPACE (Deterministic Polynomial Space): Problems solvable with polynomial space.
4. NPSPACE (Nondeterministic Polynomial Space): Equivalent to PSPACE due to Savitch's Theorem.

The conjecture that all PSPACE problems are also available in NP suggests a profound relationship between space and time in the context of nondeterminism, but this conjecture remains unproven and is central to some of the deepest questions in computational complexity.

ATTACHMENT E

Full Scope Security Formalization

Rosario-Wang ENI6MA

Complete source document: 28 source pages

Final compiled PDF source range: pp. 225-252

This attachment begins with the source document's first page and continues through its final page. Original source page numbering, title pages, dates, authorship, and source content remain visible in the attached document.

Rosario–Wang ENI6MA: Full-Scope Security Formalization and Acceptance Dossier

Purpose: specify exactly what can be proved about credential secrecy, eavesdropping, frequency/correlation analysis, authentication, and knowledge; give verifiable derivations; and identify the additional evidence needed for academic and industry acceptance.

Assessment status: mathematical derivations under explicit models, with executable finite checks. No independent certification, product assessment, or blanket immunity to all physically possible eavesdropping is claimed.

Document contents: 72 numbered equations; 12 core assumptions; 16 review postulates; 7 numbered lemmas; 17 numbered theorems and additional proved corollaries; an operational protocol; observer and attack matrices; academic acceptance gates; an industry-framework mapping; a claim ledger; and an embedded Python verification program.

Reading goal	Sections
Understand and reproduce the construction	2–6: symbols, assumptions, functions, correctness, and secrecy proof
Audit raw leakage, guessing, unicity, and extraction	7–14: exact formulas, counterexamples, integrity extension, and knowledge obligations
Evaluate all frequency/correlation algorithms within a defined view	17–21: full-view definition, postulates, statistic theorems, physical-trace conditions, and error bounds
Determine academic and industry acceptance evidence	22–26: quantum scope, games, finite budgets, review gates, standards mapping, and claim status
Reproduce finite checks and inspect source references	27 and References

The universal mathematical claim is over **all analyses of the specified view**. Extending that claim to new sensors, human behavior, compromised endpoints, or later secret disclosures requires a new joint-view argument. The distinction is formalized and proved in Sections 17–20.

Prepared 12 September 2026 from the supplied drafts *Two Channels and One Bijection* and *UNICITY*. Version 2.0: standalone specification and acceptance dossier. This document incorporates the earlier formal proof audit in full and adds complete observer models, frequency-analysis results, countermodels, and review requirements.

Status. This note supplies explicit mathematical derivations and finite enumeration checks. It is not an independent peer-review certification or a proof-assistant verification. A statement marked **proved here** follows from the assumptions stated beside it. A proposed extension is identified as an extension. The supplied manuscripts do not, by themselves, establish a complete proof of knowledge of the joint credential against an arbitrary active network adversary.

The central valid result is **perfect secrecy of the credential against passive observation of the specified released transcript, given genuinely fresh independent secret masks**. Correctness, guessing resistance, reconstruction, knowledge extraction, and active message authentication are distinct properties.

1. What is established, corrected, or conditional

Statement	Status in this note
Balanced partitions and correctness of honest verification	Proved here; corresponds to the construction and correctness theorem in [1].
Released transcript carries zero information about the credential	Proved here under independent secret masking; [1, Theorem 6.4].
A raw response alone hides the secret in one frame	Proved here after averaging over the unknown uniform bijection.
Raw responses alone, with the frames absent, hide the joint credential	Proved here under independent balanced random frames and one response per frame.
Raw responses together with frames reveal the coincidence-pattern entropy about the secret	Proved here; [1, Theorem 7.2].
Repeated observations identify a character when its cell labels are decoded	Proved here, with the exact geometric rate.
A raw-response attacker always has success at most H^{-T}, including repeated positions	False in that generality; a counterexample and corrected exact expression are given below.
Enough raw observations uniquely identify the pair (k,φ)	False for the stated cyclic geometry without additional information; a rotational symmetry gives at least H indistinguishable pairs.
Fresh-event guessing of a never-observed masked response succeeds with probability H^{-T}	Proved here for a precisely restricted network-attacker game.
Active message integrity on an insecure network	An explicit additional one-time authentication construction is proved below. This is an extension, not a theorem extracted from [1].
Extraction of k from an arbitrary accepting prover	A conditional lemma is proved with decoder access, a suitable witness relation, and a specified prover interface.
Ordinary proof of knowledge of (k,φ) with the desired enrollment relation	Still an open obligation for the supplied construction.

The finite-unicity claim in [1, Theorem 8.1] should not be reused as a proved uniqueness theorem. That correction must be reflected consistently in source abstracts, conclusions, and parameter claims.

2. Parameters, objects, and notation

Cell indices are **zero-based**, from 0 to $H-1$. Secret positions and rounds are **one-based**. This removes an indexing ambiguity in the source's array slicing. Cell labels and cell indices are explicitly converted rather than

treated as the same type.

Symbol	Type and plain-English meaning
$\mathcal L$	The finite set of allowed secret symbols, called the master alphabet.
$N=\vert \mathcal L\vert $	Number of allowed symbols.
C	Number of disjoint cyclic rings.
$A_j=(a_{j,0},\ldots,a_{j,n_j-1})$	Ring j, a cyclically ordered list of n_j distinct symbols. No symbol belongs to two rings.
j	Ring number, between 1 and C.
$H\ge2$	Number of cells and response symbols. This integer differs from the entropy operator $\mathsf H$.
$q_j=n_j/H$, $q=N/H$	Symbols from ring j per cell, and total symbols per cell.
$\mathbb Z_n=\{0,\ldots,n-1\}$	Integers represented modulo n.
$o_{j,t}$	Rotation offset of ring j in round t.
$B_{t,i}$	Set of secret symbols in cell i of frame t.
$G_t=(B_{t,0},\ldots,B_{t,H-1})$	The entire public frame for round t.
$G=(G_1,\ldots,G_T)$	All public frames in the event being analyzed.
$\Phi_t:\mathcal L\to\mathbb Z_H$	Function returning a symbol's cell index in frame t.
$\mathcal H=\{h_0,\ldots,h_{H-1}\}$	Public cell-label alphabet.
$h:\mathbb Z_H\to\mathcal H$	Public label function, $h(i)=h_i$.
Σ	Response alphabet with exactly H symbols. The response symbols can be publicly recognizable; their private mapping is what is hidden.
$\varphi:\mathcal H\to\Sigma$	Private bijection assigning a distinct response symbol to each cell label.
$\ell\ge1$	Number of symbols in the secret string.
$k=(k_1,\ldots,k_\ell)\in\mathcal L^\ell$	The enrolled secret string.
$X=(k,\varphi)$	Credential pair whose secrecy is measured. It does not include every secret in the devices.
$R\ge1$, $T=\ell R$	Number of visits per secret position, and total rounds in a canonical event.
$r(t)$	Secret position requested at round t.
$T_r=\{t:r(t)=r\}$	Set of rounds visiting position r; $\vert T_r\vert =R$ in the canonical schedule.
$c_t\in\mathcal H$	Correct cell label for the requested secret character.
$w_t\in\Sigma$	Raw, privately declared response before release masking.
$\pi_t:\Sigma\to\Sigma$	Secret release permutation for round t.
$z_t=\pi_t(w_t)$	Transmitted response. This note's z_t is the source's $\widetilde\upsilon_t$.
$W=(w_1,\ldots,w_T)$, $Z=(z_1,\ldots,z_T)$	Raw response word and released response word, respectively.
M	Entire release-mask vector: either $(\pi_t)_t$ or the alternative shift vector $(m_t)_t$.
$\widehat i_t$	Cell index recovered by the verifier from a received response. A hat marks a recovered value.
$\mu_t\in\{0,1\}$, $Y\in\{0,1\}$	Internal result for one round, and final event result.
$O=(G,Z)$	Passive observation in the principal secrecy theorem.
τ	Unique event identifier; it is public, not secret randomness.
pp	Fixed public parameters: alphabet, ring orders, labels, response encoding, sizes, and schedule rules.

Additional symbols are introduced locally in the theorem that needs them.

Operators and mathematical conventions

Notation	Meaning
$f:A\to B$	A function with input set A and output set B.
Bijection; f^{-1}	A one-to-one and onto function; its inverse uniquely reverses it.
$f\circ g$	Function composition: apply g first and f second.
$x\bmod n$	The unique remainder in $\{0,\ldots,n-1\}$, including when x is negative.
$\lfloor x\rfloor$, $\lceil x\rceil$	Round down or up to an integer.
$\vert S\vert $, $x\in S$, $\varnothing$	Number of elements, membership, and the empty set.
$\bigcup$, $\bigsqcup$, $\bigcap$	Union, disjoint union, and intersection.
$\mathcal L^\ell$	All ordered length-ℓ strings over $\mathcal L$.
$\sum$, $\prod$, $\bigwedge$	Sum, product, and logical AND. For bits, product and AND agree.
$\mathbf1\{E\}$	Indicator: one when statement E is true, zero otherwise.
$\Pr[E]$, $\Pr[E\mid F]$	Probability, and probability conditional on F.
$\mathbb E[U]$	Expected value, the probability-weighted average of U.
$\leftarrow_{\$}$	Sample uniformly at random. Independent samples are explicitly required.
$U\perp V$	Statistical independence.
$\log_2$, $\ln$	Logarithm to base two, and natural logarithm. Entropies here use base two.
$H!$	Factorial: $H(H-1)\cdots1$, the number of bijections on H named elements.
$\operatorname{Sym}(\Sigma)$	Set of all permutations of Σ.
$\max$, $\min$	Largest or smallest value in a specified finite collection.
$\Longrightarrow$, $\Longleftrightarrow$	Implies, and if and only if.
$\bot$	Explicit failure or “no candidate” output, not an element of the credential alphabet.
$\approx$	Approximation, which is not an exact equality or a security bound.

The uncertainty of a finite random variable U, and the information shared by U,V, are defined by

$$
\mathsf H(U)=-\sum_u\Pr[U=u]\log_2\Pr[U=u],\qquad
\mathsf H(U\mid V)=\sum_v\Pr[V=v]\mathsf H(U\mid V=v),
\tag{1}
$$

$$
I(U;V\mid D)=\mathsf H(U\mid D)-\mathsf H(U\mid V,D).
$$

\tag{2}
$$

Zero-probability terms contribute zero. D in (2) is any explicitly specified conditioning information, not a new secret. Omitting D gives ordinary mutual information. In plain English, mutual information measures how much observing one variable reduces uncertainty about another.

3. Assumptions: the axioms of this model

These are assumptions to implement or separately justify, not facts proved by declaring them axioms.

A1 — Exact alphabet and balance. The rings are disjoint, $N=\sum_j n_j$, and H divides every n_j. When a uniform-secret theorem is used, every element of $\mathcal L$ is a possible secret symbol. Padding with symbols that can never occur in a secret does not automatically preserve those uniform-secret theorems.

A2 — Independent frames. All $o_{j,t}$ are independent uniform elements of $\mathbb Z_{n_j}$, independent of X. Frames are used with their exact published ring order and labels. The sealed verifier evaluates its canonical frame, not a replacement supplied by a claimant.

A3 — Secret release randomness. For the permutation version, π_t are independent uniform elements of $\operatorname{Sym}(\Sigma)$, independent of the credential and all frames. The shift version in Section 4 has its own equally sufficient uniform-image property. Masks are provisioned privately to the device and verifier and never exposed to the network observer.

A4 — Credential distribution. For formulas that explicitly say “uniform credential,” k is uniform on $\mathcal L^\ell$ and φ is a uniform independent bijection. The main released-transcript secrecy theorem does not require a uniform password distribution; it requires A2–A3 to remain independent of the actual credential distribution.

A5 — One declaration per frame. Each frame is used for one response only. Repeated visits to a position use new frames and new release masks. The canonical schedule is fixed independently of the credential.

A6 — Private response handling. The device confines w_t to a protected input and masking boundary. The modeled observer sees z_t, not both w_t and its frame. A camera, microphone, log, or compromised input device that reveals the raw response changes the observer model.

A7 — Sealed decision. The verifier emits only the final event bit after all rounds. Partial scores, position of failure, secret-dependent timing, and error classes are excluded. For honest complete transcripts, $Y=1$ is constant. Failed/adversarial trials require their own analysis even if only one bit is returned.

A8 — Trusted enrollment. The verifier's enrolled credential and the device's corresponding private resources are set up authentically and confidentially. The protocol does not create that initial relationship from an unauthenticated public channel. Associating the enrolled account with a legal person is outside these equations.

A9 — State and freshness. Event identifiers never select reused mask or authentication-key material. The verifier reserves the event before issuing its challenge, permits one response attempt, and consumes the event on success or failure. Aborted material is not recycled. Device state likewise prevents reusing a mask in another response.

A10 — Explicit public context. The principal theorem fixes pp and includes precisely the advertised observation. Any public commitment, account metadata, additional output, or later compromise must be added explicitly before claiming a larger joint-view theorem. A computationally hiding commitment does not automatically make the complete public record information-theoretically hiding.

A11 — Attacker interfaces. Passive recording, fresh-event network guessing, access to the device's masking interface, and access to a live honest prover are different games. A probability bound from one is not asserted in the others.

A12 — Active-channel extension. To protect messages from modification, Section 12 adds independent one-time authentication keys, exact message encoding, and one verification attempt per key. This is additional protocol machinery. Network delivery and availability are not guaranteed.

4. Construction and every operational equation

Let $\operatorname{pos}_j(s)$ be the unique position of symbol s in ring A_j. At round t, define

$$
B_{t,i}=\bigcup_{j=1}^{C}
\left\{a_{j,(o_{j,t}+iq_j+u)\bmod n_j}:u=0,\ldots,q_j-1\right\},
\quad i\in\mathbb Z_H.
\tag{3}
$$

English. Rotate each ring by its offset, cut it into H equal consecutive pieces, and collect piece i from every ring into cell i. The variable u counts positions inside a piece.

For a symbol $s\in A_j$, its cell index is

$$
\Phi_t(s)=\left\lfloor
\frac{(\operatorname{pos}_j(s)-o_{j,t})\bmod n_j}{q_j}

```
\right\rfloor.
\tag{4}
$$

**English.** Find the symbol's position relative to the current rotation, then divide by the number of ring symbols per cell. Rounding down selects the cell number.

The round schedule, correct label, raw response, and released response are

$$
r(t)=1+((t-1)\bmod\ell),\qquad
c_t=h(\Phi_t(k_{r(t)})),\qquad
w_t=\varphi(c_t),\qquad z_t=\pi_t(w_t).
\tag{5}
$$

**English.** Cycle through secret positions. Locate the requested character, translate its public cell label through the private dictionary, then conceal that dictionary response with this round's secret mask.

The verifier decodes and checks

$$
\widehat i_t=h^{-1}\!\left(\varphi^{-1}\!\left(\pi_t^{-1}(z_t)\right)\right),
\qquad
\mu_t=\mathbf1\{k_{r(t)}\in B_{t,\widehat i_t}\},
\qquad Y=\prod_{t=1}^{T}\mu_t.
\tag{6}
$$

**English.** Undo the release mask, undo the private dictionary, convert the label to its cell index, and test whether that cell contains the enrolled character. Accept exactly when every check is true. Invalid symbols or malformed messages reject.

### Alternative: shift masking

Let $e:\Sigma\to\mathbb Z_H$ be a public bijective encoding of response symbols as numbers. Sample independent secret $m_t\leftarrow_\$\mathbb Z_H$. Then use

$$
z_t=e^{-1}\!\left((e(w_t)+m_t)\bmod H\right),\qquad
w_t=e^{-1}\!\left((e(z_t)-m_t)\bmod H\right).
\tag{7}
$$

**English.** Add a fresh secret number to the response number; the verifier subtracts the same number. For $H=2$, this is XOR with one random bit. For $H>2$, random shifts are only $H$ of the $H!$ permutations. They still prove the released-output secrecy theorem, but must not be called a uniformly random full permutation.

## 5. Elementary lemmas and correctness

### Lemma 1 — The cells partition the alphabet

For every $t$,

$$
\mathcal L=\bigsqcup_{i=0}^{H-1}B_{t,i},\qquad |B_{t,i}|=q=N/H.
\tag{8}
$$

**Proof.** In each ring, rotation rearranges the same $n_j$ symbols. The $H$ disjoint consecutive pieces each contain $q_j$ symbols and cover the ring. Disjointness of the rings makes each global cell contain $\sum_j q_j=N/H$ symbols. Their union covers $\mathcal L$. Thus every character has exactly one cell. □

### Lemma 2 — A fixed symbol has a uniform cell on a random frame

For fixed $s$ and each $i$,

$$
\Pr[\Phi_t(s)=i]=1/H.
\tag{9}
$$

**Proof.** If $s\in A_j$, exactly $q_j$ of the $n_j$ offsets place it in cell $i$. Their ratio is $q_j/n_j=1/H$. Different rounds use independent offsets. □

This is an unconditioned probability over frames. Once the frame and symbol are both known, the cell is deterministic.

### Lemma 3 — A uniform secret permutation hides one input
```

For any fixed input symbol $u\in\Sigma$ and output symbol $v\in\Sigma$,

$$
\Pr[\pi_t(u)=v]=(H-1)!/H!=1/H.
\tag{10}
$$

Proof. Fixing the image of u leaves arbitrary bijections of the remaining $H-1$ inputs to the remaining outputs. Exactly $(H-1)!$ of the $H!$ permutations qualify. For (7), exactly one of the H shifts sends u to v, giving the same probability. □

Lemma 4 — A constant conditional law implies independence

If $\Pr[V=v\mid U=u]=q(v)$ for all supported u, then $U\perp V$ and $I(U;V)=0$.

Proof. Multiplication gives $\Pr[U=u,V=v]=\Pr[U=u]q(v)$. Summing over u identifies $q(v)=\Pr[V=v]$. This is independence. Substitution into (1)–(2) gives zero mutual information. □

Theorem 1 — Perfect completeness

$$
\Pr[Y=1\mid\text{honest matching enrollment, correct delivery}]=1.
\tag{11}
$$

Proof. In (6), the inverses cancel the three forward mappings in (5). Hence $\widehat i_t=\Phi_t(k_{r(t)})$. Lemma 1 puts the character in that cell, so every $\mu_t=1$, and their product is one. □

This theorem concerns correctness. It does not assert that every accepting claimant knows the enrolled witness.

Lemma 5 — A response has frame-dependent meaning

For any fixed raw token and secret symbol, there are frames on which its decoded cell contains that symbol and frames on which it does not.

Proof. Decoding the fixed token through a fixed φ selects a cell index. Lemma 2 assigns probability $1/H$ to that index and $1-1/H$ to other indices. Both are positive because $H\ge2$. Thus both kinds of frame exist. □

This explains why a raw token alone is not a permanent public designation of a character. It is not a replay-security theorem.

6. Main theorem: perfect secrecy of the released record

Theorem 2 — Exact conditional distribution

Under A2–A3, for every supported credential x, frame word g, and response word $z\in\Sigma^T$,

$$
\Pr[Z=z\mid X=x,G=g]=H^{-T}.
\tag{12}
$$

Proof. Fix x,g. Every raw response w_t is now fixed. Lemma 3 makes its released symbol uniform. Independent masks make those outputs independent even if raw symbols repeat. Therefore the probability of any particular length-T released word is the product of T factors $1/H$. The shift construction has the identical proof. □

Corollary 2.1 — No credential information in the specified observation

$$
I(X;Z\mid G)=0,\qquad
I(X;G,Z)=0,\qquad
\mathsf H(X\mid G,Z)=\mathsf H(X).
\tag{13}
$$

Proof. The first equality follows from (12) and Lemma 4 for every fixed frame word. A2 gives $I(X;G)=0$. The chain rule $I(X;G,Z)=I(X;G)+I(X;Z\mid G)$ proves the second. Definition (2) proves the third. □

English. Seeing both the complete public challenge and complete transmitted answer leaves the observer's uncertainty about the credential unchanged. The result holds for every finite archive length for which the assumptions continue to hold, including archives spanning sessions. It does not make masks inexhaustible.

Corollary 2.2 — No improvement in credential guessing

For every supported observation o,

$$
\Pr[X=x\mid O=o]=\Pr[X=x],\qquad
p_{\rm guess}(X\mid O)=p_{\rm guess}(X),
\tag{14}
$$

$$

where $p_{\rm guess}(X)=\max_x\Pr[X=x]$ and
$p_{\rm guess}(X\mid O)=\sum_o\Pr[O=o]\max_x\Pr[X=x\mid O=o]$.

Proof. Bayes' rule and independence give the first equality. Substitute it into the definition of optimal guessing probability for the second. □

An attacker can still make the best prior guess. The recording gives no improvement. With external information D, a conditional version requires the frame and mask assumptions to hold conditional on D; the conclusion is then $I(X;G,Z\mid D)=0$. It is not a promise against arbitrary later disclosure of the masks.

Corollary 2.3 — Passive simulation and processing

A simulator can sample the public frames according to A2 and then sample each z_t uniformly, without knowing X. Equation (12) says its record has exactly the honest record's distribution.

For any algorithm A whose output depends only on O and independent randomness,

$$
I(X;A(O))\le I(X;O)=0.
\tag{15}
$$

Proof. Conditional on the input record, the algorithm receives no additional credential information. This is the data-processing inequality; equivalently, identical input distributions for different credentials induce identical output distributions. □

This excludes credential learning from the specified classical transcript by additional computation. It is a passive simulation theorem, not a zero-knowledge theorem against a malicious verifier with a different view. It does not justify an unmodeled quantum-query forgery bound.

7. Raw responses: exactly what is hidden and leaked

Theorem 3 — Separate-channel properties

For a uniform unknown φ, one raw response satisfies

$$
I(k;w_t\mid G_t)=0.
\tag{16}
$$

Proof. Conditional on k,G_t, the label c_t is fixed; exactly $(H-1)!$ bijections send it to each response token. Apply Lemma 4. □

When the frames are absent from the observation, A2 and A5 give

$$
\Pr[W=w\mid k,\varphi]=H^{-T},\qquad I((k,\varphi);W)=0.
\tag{17}
$$

Proof. For any fixed k,φ, the labels in the distinct random frames are independent uniform labels by Lemma 2, even when the same character is visited again. Applying a fixed bijection preserves uniformity and independence. □

One must not combine secrecy of two separate channels into secrecy of their union. The next result computes the union's leakage.

Lemma 6 — A fixed bijection preserves exactly the equality pattern

Let $c=(c_1,\ldots,c_T)$. Define $P(c)$ as the partition of round numbers into groups having equal labels: rounds t,t' are in the same group exactly when $c_t=c_{t'}$. Let $d=d(c)$ be its number of groups. Then

$$
P(\varphi(c))=P(c),\qquad
Q_d=\frac{H!}{(H-d)!}.
\tag{18}
$$

Here $\varphi(c)$ means applying φ to each coordinate; Q_d is the number of response words with that same equality pattern.

Proof. Bijections preserve equality and inequality. Give the first distinct label any of H response names, the next any of $H-1$, and so on, giving Q_d. Each resulting word is induced by exactly $(H-d)!$ full bijections, so all these words have equal probability under uniform φ. Two label words with the same pattern differ only by a relabeling of their distinct labels, extendable to a full permutation. □

“Exactly” refers to the information preserved by an unknown uniformly sampled dictionary for a fixed input word, not

to every possible side channel of an implementation.

Theorem 4 — Exact joint-observation identities

Write $P=P(c(k,G))$. Under uniform independent φ,

$$
I(k;W\mid G)=\mathsf H(P\mid G),
\tag{19}
$$

$$
I((k,\varphi);W\mid G)=\mathsf H(W\mid G)
=\mathsf H(P\mid G)+\mathbb E[\log_2 Q_d],
\tag{20}
$$

$$
I(\varphi;W\mid G)=\mathbb E[\log_2 Q_d]-\mathsf H(c\mid P,G).
\tag{21}
$$

Proof. The observer reads P from W. Conditional on P,G, Lemma 6 makes W uniform on its Q_d compatible words. Thus
$\mathsf H(W\mid G)=\mathsf H(P\mid G)+\mathbb E\log_2Q_d$.
For fixed k,G, only the unknown dictionary randomizes W, so
$\mathsf H(W\mid k,G)=\mathbb E\log_2Q_d$.
Subtract to prove (19). Given k,φ,G, W is deterministic, proving (20). Given φ,G, the bijection makes $\mathsf H(W\mid\varphi,G)=\mathsf H(c\mid G)$. Finally,
$\mathsf H(c\mid G)=\mathsf H(P\mid G)+\mathsf H(c\mid P,G)$, proving (21). □

English. The raw observation reveals which rounds selected the same cell, even though it does not directly name the cells. That relationship can constrain the whole secret. Fresh release masking removes this fixed cross-round correspondence from the released response word.

Corollary 4.1 — Once per position: hidden components can have a leaking joint distribution

If $R=1$ and k is uniform, then

$$
I(\varphi;W\mid G)=0,\qquad I(k_r;W\mid G)=0\ \text{for each }r,
\qquad I((k,\varphi);W\mid G)=T\log_2H.
\tag{22}
$$

Proof. For a fixed frame word, distinct uniformly independent secret positions yield independent uniform labels. Thus W, conditional on any φ,G, is uniform on Σ^T. This proves the dictionary marginal and total entropy. If one secret coordinate k_r is fixed, its raw token is still uniform after averaging over φ; all remaining tokens are independent uniform conditional on that dictionary. The full word again has probability H^{-T}, proving the single-coordinate marginal. □

Neither the dictionary marginal nor all the single-character marginals determine the secrecy of the joint credential.

For this once-per-position uniform model only,

$$
\Pr[d=m]=\frac{\binom Hm m!\,S(T,m)}{H^T},\qquad
\mathsf H(P\mid G)=T\log_2H-
\sum_{m=1}^{\min(T,H)}\Pr[d=m]\log_2\frac{H!}{(H-m)!}.
\tag{23}
$$

Here $\binom Hm$ counts choices of m labels, and $S(T,m)$ is the Stirling number of the second kind: the number of ways to partition T named rounds into m nonempty unlabeled groups.

Proof. Choose the used labels, partition the rounds, and assign those labels to the groups: $\binom Hm S(T,m)m!$ equally likely label words. Divide by H^T. Equation (20) and $\mathsf H(W\mid G)=T\log_2H$ give the entropy formula. □

At $H=2,T=2$, equality versus inequality reveals one bit about the whole secret in the example below. At $H=6,T=8,R=1$, (23) gives approximately 11.74 leaked bits about k, while (20) gives approximately 20.68 bits about the pair. These are raw-surface figures, not leakage of the released record.

8. Geometric reconstruction when responses can be decoded

For a fixed true character s, let $p(s,b)$ denote the probability that another symbol b lands in the same cell in a fresh random frame. For $s\ne b$,

$$
p(s,b)=

```
\begin{cases}
1/H,&s,b\text{ in different rings},\\
\max(0,1-\delta(s,b)/q_j),&s,b\in A_j,
\end{cases}
\tag{24}
$$

where $\delta(s,b)=\min(|\operatorname{pos}_j(s)-\operatorname{pos}_j(b)|,\
n_j-|\operatorname{pos}_j(s)-\operatorname{pos}_j(b)|)$ is their shortest cyclic distance. Define $p(s,s)=1$.

**Proof.** Different rings have independent uniform cell indices, agreeing with probability $1/H$. In one ring, if the cyclic distance is less than $q_j$, exactly $q_j-\delta$ of the $q_j$ relative positions inside a cell keep the pair together. If the distance is at least $q_j$, they cannot share a cell. Since $q_j\le n_j/2$, the shortest cyclic distance gives the stated formula. □

For honest decoded responses define

$$
S_r=\bigcap_{t\in T_r}B_{t,\Phi_t(k_r)}.
\tag{25}
$$

**English.** Keep only symbols that belong to every correctly named cell for this secret position.

### Theorem 5 — Exact expected ambiguity and a failure bound

$$
\Pr[b\in S_r]=p(k_r,b)^R\quad(b\ne k_r),\qquad
\mathbb E|S_r|=1+\sum_{b\ne k_r}p(k_r,b)^R,
\tag{26}
$$

$$
\Pr[S_r\ne\{k_r\}]\le\sum_{b\ne k_r}p(k_r,b)^R.
\tag{27}
$$

**Proof.** A false candidate survives exactly when it shares the true character's cell in all $R$ independent frames. Multiply its per-frame probabilities. Sum candidate indicators for the expectation. Apply the union bound over false candidates for (27). □

Every $p(s,b)<1$ for distinct symbols, so the finite sum tends to zero. Because candidate intersections decrease with additional frames, a false candidate's probability of surviving forever is zero. The intersection eventually becomes the singleton true character with probability one.

The independence used here concerns a **fixed pair of symbols across frames**. It does not say that arbitrary attack success events involving the same unknown secret character are independent.

Define $p_* =\max_{s\ne b}p(s,b)<1$. For the entire secret,

$$
\eta_R:=\min\{1,\ell(N-1)p_*^R\}
\quad\text{bounds the probability that any true-character intersection is ambiguous.}
\tag{28}
$$

For a chosen ambiguity target $0<\eta<1$ and $0<p_*<1$, a sufficient choice is

$$
R\ge\max\left\{1,\left\lceil
\frac{\ln(\ell(N-1)/\eta)}{-\ln p_*}
\right\rceil\right\}.
\tag{29}
$$

**English.** Repeat enough times that the slowest-decaying false candidate is unlikely to survive anywhere in the secret. If $p_*=0$, one frame per position suffices for decoded reconstruction. These are reconstruction bounds, not a substitution for a guessing-security analysis.

## 9. Correct soundness statements for distinct attacker games

### Game A: attacker sees frames and knows the dictionary, but must guess raw responses

Assume a uniform secret and no prior credential information. Give the attacker all frames before its response; there is no within-event verdict feedback. For each position $r$, define its signature function

$$
\sigma_{r,G}(s)=(\Phi_t(s))_{t\in T_r},\qquad
n_{r,G}(v)=|\{s\in\mathcal L:\sigma_{r,G}(s)=v\}|,
\tag{30}
```

$$

where $v\in\mathbb Z_H^R$ is a proposed cell-index word.

Theorem 6 — Optimal raw-response guessing with a known dictionary

$$
p_{\rm raw}^*(G)=\prod_{r=1}^{\ell}
\frac{\max_{v\in\mathbb Z_H^R}n_{r,G}(v)}{N},
\qquad
p_{\rm raw}^*=\mathbb E_G[p_{\rm raw}^*(G)].
\tag{31}
$$

Proof. With the dictionary known, every raw answer word is equivalent to selecting a signature word for each position. For a fixed position and frame word, the best answer selects the largest group of indistinguishable symbols, whose prior mass is its size divided by N. Independent uniform secret positions multiply these probabilities. Randomized choices cannot beat the largest group. Average over frames for the unconditioned optimum. □

If $R=1$, balance makes every group size N/H, giving exactly $H^{-\ell}$. For repeated positions,

$$
p_{\rm raw}^*(G)\ge N^{-\ell}.
\tag{32}
$$

Proof. Every position has at least one nonempty group. Equivalently, an attacker can guess the entire secret and always answer correctly when that guess is right. □

Giving all frames in advance can strengthen an attacker relative to sequential frame delivery. Thus (31) is exact for the stated all-frames game and an upper bound for that restricted sequential game. The next counterexample works even sequentially.

Exact counterexample to an unrestricted $H^{-\ell R}$ raw bound

Use rings (a,b), (c,d), $N=4,H=2,\ell=1,R=3$. The attacker knows φ and consistently answers for the guessed character a.

- If the actual character is a, all checks pass: contribution $1/4$.
- If it is b, every frame separates the two: contribution zero.
- If it is c or d, independent ring offsets make three coincidences occur with probability 2^{-3} for each candidate.

Therefore

$$
\Pr[\mathrm{accept}]=\frac14+\frac14\left(\frac12\right)^3+
\frac14\left(\frac12\right)^3=\frac5{16}>\frac18=H^{-\ell R}.
\tag{33}
$$

This refutes [1, Theorem 4.2(1)] in the raw-response game used by its proof. A hidden release mask changes the game; it cannot silently be used to repair a theorem whose proof assumes the attacker can submit the named raw tokens.

Game B: attacker knows the secret but not the uniform dictionary

For a known label word visiting d distinct labels, the optimal raw-word guess succeeds with

$$
p_{\varphi\text{-guess}}=\frac{(H-d)!}{H!}=1/Q_d\ge1/H!.
\tag{34}
$$

Proof. By Lemma 6, exactly Q_d possible raw words are equally likely. Guessing any one gives probability $1/Q_d$; no random mixture improves it. □

Thus the dictionary alone supplies at most $\log_2(H!)$ bits of guessing resistance. For $H=6$, that is about 9.49 bits. This is a raw-interface result; a network attacker missing independent release masks is in a different game.

General exact finite counting expression

Let $f_G(k,\varphi)=W$ denote the deterministic raw-response function from (5). With a uniform joint credential and all frames visible,

$$
p_{\rm joint}^*(G)=\max_{u\in\Sigma^T}
\frac{|\{(k,\varphi):f_G(k,\varphi)=u\}|}{N^\ell H!}.
\tag{35}
$$

Proof. An answer word succeeds for exactly its preimage credentials. Maximize the prior mass of that preimage. For a nonuniform or updated prior, replace the cardinality fraction by the sum of the relevant conditional credential probabilities. □

This expression respects the actual geometry and correlations; the replacement “every wrong hypothesis independently survives with probability H^{-T}” need not.

Game C: network guess on a fresh, never-exposed mask vector

The attacker may know k,φ,G and any past history, but has neither a current released response nor access to a current masking/prover oracle. Exactly one length-T response word is submitted for this fresh event.

Theorem 7 — Fresh masked-word guessing

$$
\Pr[\mathrm{accept}]=H^{-T},\qquad
\Pr[\text{at least one success in }Q\text{ fresh attempts}]
\le\min\{1,QH^{-T}\}.
\tag{36}
$$

Proof. Condition even on the credential and all non-mask information. The unique correct released word is uniform on Σ^T by (12), independent of the attacker's guess. Its match probability is H^{-T}. Each new event uses fresh independent masks; condition on prior history and apply the union bound for Q attempts. □

Here Q is the number of attempts and is unrelated to Q_d in (18). A copied old response has this probability against an independent new mask vector. An exact replay of an already consumed event is rejected by A9. A live forwarded response under its original event is explicitly outside the fresh-guess premise.

This bound can hold even when the attacker knows the human credential: it measures protection by the device's secret release material. It therefore cannot, on its own, certify knowledge of k or φ.

10. Rotational symmetry: why exact joint unicity is not established

For $a\in\mathbb Z_H$, define a symbol transformation within every ring:

$$
D_a(a_{j,i})=a_{j,(i+a\,q_j)\bmod n_j},\qquad
\rho_a(h_i)=h_{(i+a)\bmod H}.
\tag{37}
$$

Apply D_a coordinatewise to a secret. Define a transformed dictionary by $\varphi_a=\varphi\circ\rho_{-a}$.

Theorem 8 — Indistinguishable credential pairs on every raw frame

$$
f_G(D_a(k),\varphi_a)=f_G(k,\varphi)
\quad\text{for every frame word }G\text{ and every }a\in\mathbb Z_H.
\tag{38}
$$

Proof. Equation (4) gives $\Phi_t(D_a(s))=(\Phi_t(s)+a)\bmod H$. Therefore $h(\Phi_t(D_a(s)))=\rho_a(h(\Phi_t(s)))$. The transformed dictionary cancels the label shift: $\varphi\circ\rho_{-a}\circ\rho_a=\varphi$. Every raw response is identical. This holds for any number of rounds. For $\ell\ge1$, the H transformed secrets are distinct because a nonzero whole-cell shift fixes no symbol in a ring. □

English. Moving every secret character by the same number of cell widths and adjusting the dictionary in the opposite direction leaves all answers unchanged. An observer of raw answers cannot tell which member of this family was enrolled.

Without extra public enrollment information or a restricted credential family, the pair has at least H observationally indistinguishable alternatives. Under the uniform prior, its posterior entropy is at least $\log_2H$, regardless of raw archive length. This disproves the source's exact pair-uniqueness conclusion. It does not imply zero raw leakage; (19)–(21) quantify that leakage. Nor does it rule out a proof of knowledge for an appropriately defined equivalence-class relation.

An enrollment commitment might distinguish pairs, but that changes the observer's information and the witness relation. It must be analyzed explicitly. Even then, the random-cipher approximation is not a proved recovery threshold.

11. Entropy resources and computational implementations

For the actual independent-mask constructions,

$$
\mathsf H(M)=
\begin{cases}

```
T\log_2(H!),&\text{independent full permutations},\\
T\log_2H,&\text{independent uniform shifts}.
\end{cases}
\tag{39}
$$

**Proof.** A uniform choice among $H!$ or $H$ alternatives has the corresponding logarithmic entropy. Independence makes the joint entropy the sum of the per-round entropies. □

If a finite seed $E$ with at most $s$ bits of entropy is expanded deterministically by a function $F$, then

$$
M=F(E,\tau,\mathrm{pp})\quad\Longrightarrow\quad
\mathsf H(M\mid\tau,\mathrm{pp})\le\mathsf H(E\mid\tau,\mathrm{pp})\le s.
\tag{40}
$$

**Proof.** Given the seed and public inputs, the masks are fixed. A deterministic function cannot increase entropy. □

Consequently, a fixed seed cannot implement the independent-shift distribution for arbitrarily large $T$. Fresh nonces and fresh public geometry do not create secret entropy. A cryptographic pseudorandom function may replace ideal randomness in an explicitly computational model.

The appropriate computational statement is a distinguisher bound of the form

$$
\left|\Pr[\mathcal D(O_{\rm real})=1]-
\Pr[\mathcal D(O_{\rm ideal})=1]\right|\le\varepsilon_F.
\tag{41}
$$

Here $\mathcal D$ is an allowed efficient distinguishing algorithm, $O_{\rm real}$ uses pseudorandom expansion, $O_{\rm ideal}$ uses independent randomness, and $\varepsilon_F$ is the advantage justified by a concrete reduction with its query budget. This is an implementation proof obligation, not a demonstrated bound for an unspecified $F$. Computational indistinguishability does not imply a Shannon mutual-information bound of $\varepsilon_F$.

The per-round resource count in (39) describes this construction. It is not a theorem that every possible authentication protocol must consume that much fresh entropy; other constructions can support justified key recycling under their own security definitions.

## 12. An explicit extension for active modification on an insecure channel

Perfect secrecy does not authenticate message origin. The following simple information-theoretic one-time message-authentication code supplies an independently analyzable integrity layer. It is standard mathematical machinery, not a claimed Rosario–Wang novelty.

Choose a prime $p>D$, where $D$ is a public maximum number of field coefficients needed to encode one envelope message. Let $\mathbb F_p$ be integers modulo $p$, with addition and multiplication modulo $p$. Define an **injective**, unambiguous encoding
$\operatorname{Enc}(m)=(u_1,\ldots,u_D)\in\mathbb F_p^D$
of every allowed message $m$, including its length, type, direction, event identifier, intended peer, action, and payload. Padding must preserve injectivity. A public hash alone is not automatically an information-theoretically injective replacement.

For each direction and event, share fresh independent $\alpha,\beta\leftarrow_\$\mathbb F_p$. These are authentication keys, unrelated to a source manuscript's commitment symbol. Define

$$
\operatorname{Tag}_{\alpha,\beta}(m)=
\beta+\sum_{j=1}^{D}u_j\alpha^j\pmod p.
\tag{42}
$$

**English.** Turn the entire message into coefficients of a polynomial. Evaluate it at a secret field element and add another independent secret field element. The receiver recomputes the value and compares it with the received tag. Use the key for only one sent message and one adversarial verification attempt; consume it even on rejection.

### Lemma 7 — A nonzero degree-$D$ polynomial over a field has at most $D$ roots

**Proof.** A degree-zero nonzero polynomial has none. If a polynomial has a root $a$, polynomial division factors out $(x-a)$, leaving degree one smaller. Every other root is a root of the remaining factor. Induction proves the bound. □

### Theorem 9 — One-time tag hiding and substitution bound

A tag on a fixed message is uniform on $\mathbb F_p$. After seeing one valid pair $(m,t)$, an attacker substituting a different $m'$ and any tag $t'$ succeeds with probability at most

$$
\Pr[\text{valid substitution}]\le D/p.
```

\tag{43}
$$

Proof. For each fixed α,m,t, there is exactly one β satisfying (42), so the observed tag leaves α uniform. A valid changed message requires
$\sum_j(u'_j-u_j)\alpha^j-(t'-t)=0$.
Injectivity makes some coefficient difference nonzero. Because the message coefficients occupy positive powers, this is a nonzero polynomial even after subtracting the chosen tag difference. Its degree is at most D. Lemma 7 gives at most D successful choices among the p equally likely α. □

Before seeing any pair under a fresh key, a tag guess succeeds with probability $1/p$. Across B fresh-key attack opportunities, a union bound gives at most $\min(1,BD/p)$. Here B is the number of authentication attack opportunities, not a cell $B_{t,i}$. Reusing the same key for several visible messages or several guessing attempts is outside this theorem.

Independent message-authentication keys and independent release masks keep the passive secrecy proof intact for honest envelopes: challenge contents are independent of X, released responses are independent of X, and the extra tag randomness is independent of X. This observation does not prove zero leakage for an arbitrary adaptive sequence of rejected attacks.

Two authenticated envelopes per event, one challenge and one response, consume $4\log_2p$ bits of independent authentication-key entropy in this simple extension, in addition to (39). This choice favors a short proof, not optimal key consumption.

13. Complete operational protocol for the stated model

Participants are the human or credential-holding prover P, a trusted local masking device D_P, a designated sealed verifier V, and a network adversary $\mathcal A$. The human/device split is explicit: authenticating a device possessing fresh mask and MAC material is different from proving that its user knows the human credential.

1. **Enroll and provision.** Establish pp,k,φ and the intended account/verifier relationship using A8. The verifier stores what (6) needs. Privately provision a finite stock of event-specific release masks and two independent one-time MAC keys per event. Record which stock entry each event selects. Exhaustion requires replenishment through a separately justified mechanism.
2. **Reserve an event.** The verifier allocates a never-used τ and records the intended account, peer endpoint/session, and action as its context. It reserves the associated masks and MAC keys. No claimant may make two events select the same private stock.
3. **Create and authenticate the challenge.** Generate all T frames using A2. Form one canonical challenge message containing the context, parameters/schedule references with unambiguous meaning, and frames. Attach (42) using the challenge-direction key.
4. **Verify before presenting.** The trusted device accepts only a correctly authenticated, unconsumed challenge for its expected verifier, account, event, and action. It presents that exact challenge for the user's intended action. Authentication-key attempts are limited as specified in Section 12. The device reserves/consumes its outgoing mask use before releasing responses, preventing reuse after a crash or retry.
5. **Construct responses privately.** For each round use (5), or allow the human to enter the corresponding raw dictionary response. The device performs (7) or the permutation mask inside its trusted boundary. No raw response is written to the network message or public log.
6. **Authenticate the response envelope.** Send one message binding the entire ordered released word to the same context and challenge, with the response-direction MAC tag. Its encoding is injective and distinguishes message roles.
7. **Consume before validating.** On the first eligible response attempt, the verifier atomically consumes the reserved event. Check the response MAC, context, dimensions, and order. Reject malformed or mismatched data; never retry using the same private material. Compute (6) against the canonical challenge retained by the verifier. Emit only the permitted event result.
8. **Bind the result to the intended endpoint and action.** Application authorization must remain tied to that same context. Returning a new unprotected bearer token introduces a new credential-stealing surface outside this protocol. Any further authenticated messages need their own keys or a separately proved channel mechanism.

The network may record, delay, drop, reorder, replay, and attempt to replace messages. The MAC theorem bounds new valid message substitutions; state rejects already-consumed event copies. An unchanged live forwarding of the authentic exchange remains possible. Preventing unauthorized action through such forwarding requires authenticated endpoint/action binding and, where physical presence is claimed, a separate proximity or distance-bounding mechanism. Availability cannot be guaranteed against message deletion.

Do not multiply the MAC bound, raw-guessing bound, and masked-guessing bound as though their events were independent. They apply to different interfaces. A full composition theorem must name its winning event and account for all exposed feedback and concurrent sessions.

14. What a formal proof of knowledge requires

Following the extraction-based approach of Bellare and Goldreich [3], specify a public statement x, a witness w, and an efficiently checkable relation $\mathcal R(x,w)$. The acceptable witness set is $\mathcal R(x)=\{w:\mathcal R(x,w)=1\}$. Let P^* be an arbitrary prover algorithm, and let $a_{P^*}(x)$ be its acceptance probability. A knowledge error $\kappa(x)$ permits a limited acceptance probability below the extraction threshold.

A standard target is a universal oracle extractor $\mathcal E$ such that

$$
a_{P^*}(x)>\kappa(x)\quad\Longrightarrow\quad
\mathcal E^{P^*}(x)\text{ outputs }w\in\mathcal R(x)
```
```

```
\text{ with expected work at most }
\frac{q_0(|x|)}{a_{P^*}(x)-\kappa(x)}.
\tag{44}
$$

Here $\mathcal E^{P^*}$ means an extractor with the specified oracle access to the prover; $|x|$ is statement length; $q_0$ is a fixed polynomial bounding the non-prover extraction work. The oracle/reset model, auxiliary inputs, verifier private state, and cost convention must be specified. Equation (44) is a **proof obligation**, not a theorem already obtained for the joint Rosario–Wang credential. [3, Definition 3.1] is the formal reference.

For example, choosing $x$ to be a public commitment and $w$ to include its opening randomness adds a requirement: the protocol must establish knowledge of that opening, which the current membership responses do not explicitly use. A different private-verifier relation requires its own definition. The relation cannot be left as the informal phrase “knows the identity.”

### Theorem 10 — Conditional extraction of the string with decoder access

This is a constructive bridge toward a knowledge theorem, with additional access made explicit. It is not extraction of the unknown private dictionary.

Assume:

- An extractor can generate independent canonical frames, invoke the fixed prover algorithm in the specified fresh-run/reset model, and receive its full response.
- The extractor knows $\varphi$ and the masks for the runs it generates, **but is not given $k$**.
- The verifier's event acceptance still means exactly (6) for one fixed enrolled string. There is no outside live honest prover supplying the challenge answers.
- The alphabet is explicitly represented, so enumerating its $N$ symbols and performing the intersections is efficient in that representation.

Decode a received word $Z^*$ by (6) without using the secret membership test. Build

$$
\widehat S_r=\bigcap_{t\in T_r}B_{t,\widehat i_t}.
\tag{45}
$$

If every $\widehat S_r$ is a singleton, output the tuple of its unique symbols; otherwise output $\bot$. Call this algorithm $\mathcal E_{\rm dec}$. For fixed enrolled $k,\varphi$,

$$
\Pr[\mathcal E_{\rm dec}\text{ outputs }k]
\ge a_{P^*}-\eta_R,
\tag{46}
$$

where $\eta_R$ is (28); a negative right side is simply an uninformative lower bound.

**Proof.** Whenever the verifier accepts, every decoded cell must equal the true character's cell: Lemma 1 gives exactly one such cell per round. Hence on an accepting run, $\widehat S_r=S_r$. Let $B_{\rm amb}$ be the event that any of the true-character intersections is nonsingleton. It depends only on the random frames and has probability at most $\eta_R$ by (28). Every accepting run outside $B_{\rm amb}$ causes the extractor to output the actual string. Therefore its success probability is at least
$\Pr[\mathrm{accept}]-\Pr[B_{\rm amb}]\ge a_{P^*}-\eta_R$.
No independence between the prover's acceptance and geometric ambiguity is assumed. □

The work per run is at most proportional to $NT$ straightforward membership tests, plus decoding and prover interaction. The algorithm can output an incorrect singleton on a rejecting run; (46) alone is a success-probability statement, not a guarantee that every nonfailure output is a valid witness.

If, **in addition**, a supplied public relation $\mathcal R(x,k)$ efficiently recognizes acceptable strings, the extractor can test its candidate and replace invalid candidates by $\bot$. The enrolled $k$ must satisfy that relation. Repeating independently reset runs until a valid candidate appears then has expected run count at most

$$
\frac{1}{a_{P^*}-\eta_R}\quad\text{when }a_{P^*}>\eta_R.
\tag{47}
$$

**Proof.** Each fresh reset run has a valid-output probability at least $a_{P^*}-\eta_R$. The expected waiting time for independent trials with success probability $s$ is $1/s$, by summing the geometric tail. □

This yields a restricted extraction theorem for $k$ with authorized decoder information. If that information is supplied privately to the extractor, the setup/auxiliary-information model must say so; it is not automatically the ordinary public-statement proof-of-knowledge model. If public data is added to make a witness relation checkable, the secrecy theorem must be revisited for that larger public view. Recovering $\varphi$, resolving the symmetry of Section 10 for the chosen relation, extracting an enrollment opening, and handling concurrent malicious behavior remain separate tasks.

## 15. Formal claim that the present derivations support
```

Under A1–A10, the specified protocol has perfect completeness and perfect passive secrecy of (k,φ) on the released-record observer model. The correct raw-surface leakage is (19)–(21); exact raw guessing uses (31), (34), or (35), depending on attacker knowledge. Fresh unobserved masked-word guessing has bound (36). The explicit one-time integrity extension has substitution bound (43) under A12. Conditional string extraction is (46), with (47) available only under its additional relation and reset conditions.

These results provide a formal identification construction and a specific route toward a knowledge proof. They do not constitute an unconditional theorem of perfect personal identity, a conventional proof of knowledge of the entire credential pair, a universally composable active-security proof, or an unlimited secret-randomness generator.

16. Finite validation performed for this note

Finite enumeration supplements the written proofs; it does not replace them or establish unbounded security by testing.

Check	Exact result
Rotation/relabeling identity across four small geometries	4,140 symbol/frame/dictionary/shift combinations satisfy (38).
Cell-coincidence probabilities in rings of sizes $(2,2)$, (6), $(4,4)$, and $(6,3)$, with their compatible cell counts	Every symbol-pair probability matches (24).
$N=4,H=2,\ell=2,R=1$, rings (a,b), (c,d), offsets $(0,0)$ then $(0,1)$	Raw response-word entropy is exactly 2 bits; coincidence-pattern entropy is exactly 1 bit.
Enumerate both independent binary release masks for each credential in that instance	Every credential induces the same uniform distribution on the four released words.
$N=4,H=2,\ell=1,R=3$, known dictionary	Both the consistent-character strategy and the average all-frames optimum give exactly $5/16$, exceeding $1/8$.
Nonzero message-difference polynomials with $D=2$ over $\mathbb F_5$, every proposed tag difference	120 equations checked; at most 2 roots each, matching (43).

The small examples are mathematical checks, not recommended security parameters.

17. Complete observation models and the meaning of “all eavesdropping”

Sections 1–16 are the formal construction and proof audit. The sections that follow extend its scope to frequency analysis, implementation observations, review obligations, and industry evaluation. Every stronger theorem states the additional premise it needs.

The word **all** has two different meanings:

1. **Every analysis algorithm operating on a specified observation.** A distributional secrecy theorem can cover this class, including algorithms not yet invented.
2. **Every physically possible way to observe a person or device.** This class includes direct reading of the credential or its private decoding material. No secrecy theorem can cover that unrestricted class for a nonconstant credential.

An academically assessable claim quantifies over an explicit observation family, its combinations, and its time horizon. A carrier name such as “audio” is not an observer definition.

Signal-model convention. Probability tables in this document use finite digitized views, with their sampling, bandwidth, precision, and lifetime specified by the implementation profile. For a genuinely continuous analog view, replace point-probability equality by $\Pr[V\in E_{\mathrm{obs}}\mid X=x,D=d]=K(E_{\mathrm{obs}}\mid d)$ for every measurable observation event E_{obs}, and use $\Delta(P,Q)=\sup_{E_{\mathrm{obs}}}|P(E_{\mathrm{obs}})-Q(E_{\mathrm{obs}})|$. The supremum is the least upper bound over measurable events. Kernel factorization and data-processing arguments then use measures or integrals; likelihood ratios require densities where they exist. The secret credential remains a finite random variable, so its conditional entropy is still well defined. A digitized sensor assessment does not automatically prove secrecy of all higher-resolution analog emissions.

17.1 Additional parameters and functions

Symbol	Meaning
n	Number of authentication events in an archive. Distinct from T, the number of response rounds in one event.
θ	Concrete implementation profile: hardware, firmware, operating system, input/output method, provisioning, and configuration.
$\mathscr S_\theta$	Explicit family of permitted observation strategies for profile θ, including permitted combinations of sensors.
$\sigma\in\mathscr S_\theta$	One observation strategy. It specifies what can be recorded and any allowed adaptive sensor selection.
D	Background information already available to the attacker: public parameters, allowed identifiers, public statements, training data, and other explicitly admitted information. In these sections, it is not Section 12's MAC polynomial degree.
L_i	Joint physical and implementation trace for event i, such as timings, emissions, cache observations, error outputs, and logs.
$V^{(n)}_\sigma$	The complete view generated by strategy σ across n events.
$K(v\mid d)$	A conditional probability law, also called a probability kernel; it samples a view from background

information d. |
S, U_A	An arbitrary statistical/algorithmic analysis and its private random coins.
$\mathcal F=(F_a)_{a\in\Sigma}$	Histogram of released response symbols.
$\Delta(P,Q)$	Total-variation distance between probability distributions P,Q.
ε, δ_t	Explicit statistical error bounds; zero is exact secrecy. They are not computational advantages unless stated.
λ	Target security parameter in bits for a specified guessing or distinguishing game.
ρ, $\otimes$	Quantum density operator and tensor product, used only in Section 22's conditional extension.

17.2 Full-view declaration

For a deployed implementation, define

$$
V^{(n)}_\sigma=
\operatorname{Observe}_{\theta,\sigma}
\bigl((G_i,Z_i,Y_i,L_i,\tau_i,\operatorname{meta}_i)_{i=1}^{n}\bigr).
\tag{48}
$$

English. Name everything the observer receives across all sessions. meta_i includes packet sizes, identities or pseudonyms, routing information, session identifiers, time stamps, message types, retries, and other metadata in scope. The observation function specifies which signals are available jointly. Nothing may be omitted merely because it is inconvenient to the proof.

For honest executions, the exact target is

$$
\forall n,\ \forall\sigma\in\mathscr S_\theta:\quad
\Pr[V^{(n)}_\sigma=v\mid X=x,D=d]=K_{\theta,\sigma,n}(v\mid d)
\quad\text{for every supported }x,d,v.
\tag{49}
$$

The quantifier over n is restricted to the declared stock of independent masks and the lifetime over which the physical model remains justified. An unlimited mathematical idealization must be identified as such.

English. Once allowed background information is fixed, changing the credential does not change the distribution of anything the observer can record. The right side must be independent of x. This proves $I(X;V^{(n)}_\sigma\mid D)=0$ for the credential distributions covered by the model. Equality for every supported credential is stronger and less vulnerable to a misleading choice of prior than reporting one empirical mutual-information estimate.

The existing released-transcript proof establishes (49) for the ideal observer of honest (G,Z). It does not establish (49) for arbitrary real-world L_i.

17.3 Indistinguishability and nonvacuous secrecy

For two credentials x_0,x_1 compatible with the same background d, exact equality gives

$$
\frac{\Pr[V=v\mid X=x_0,D=d]}{\Pr[V=v\mid X=x_1,D=d]}=1
\quad\text{where the denominator is positive},
\qquad
\Pr[\widehat b=b]=\tfrac12.
\tag{50}
$$

In the second expression, a challenger chooses a fair bit $b\in\{0,1\}$, runs the protocol with credential x_b, and an attacker guesses $\widehat b$ from the view. If the two distributions agree, even the optimal guess has success one half. A zero-probability observation occurs under neither credential and is not a likelihood-ratio exception that helps an attacker.

Proof. The common kernel in (49) cancels in the ratio. In the guessing experiment, V is independent of the fair bit. Thus every strategy has average success one half. □

A conditional secrecy statement must also report the attacker's starting uncertainty:

$$
\Pr[X=x\mid D=d,V=v]=\Pr[X=x\mid D=d],\qquad
\mathsf H(X\mid D,V)=\mathsf H(X\mid D).
\tag{51}
$$

Proof. Apply conditional Bayes' rule to (49), then the definition of conditional entropy. □

If D already reveals the credential, (51) is true but provides no credential protection. A public hash, commitment, or registration statement therefore needs its own hiding and residual-uncertainty analysis. Transcript secrecy means no additional leakage; it does not repair prior disclosure or a weak starting password.

18. Review postulates and how each must be discharged

The following are **security postulates to prove or substantiate**, not additional axioms that make an unproved deployment secure by definition. “Required” below refers to the review package proposed in this document; it is not a claim that every certification scheme has these exact numbered requirements.

ID	Postulate	Required evidence or derivation	Current status
P1	Correct enrollment and credential typing	Exact enrollment inputs, ownership/identity binding, state placement, and malformed-input rules	Assumed in A8; deployment evidence absent
P2	Full observation coverage	Inventory of jointly observable digital, human-interface, physical, and lifecycle traces	Ideal (G,Z) specified; concrete profiles pending
P3	Fresh conditional mask randomness	Show the unused mask distribution remains uniform given prior transcripts, public frames, background data, and relevant side information	Ideal theorem proved; physical provisioning unverified
P4	Protected raw-response boundary	Trace argument demonstrating that raw inputs, their interpretation, and secret mask operations remain outside the observation or have a proved leakage bound	Required implementation property
P5	Credential-independent public behavior	Cover schedule, timing, retries, lengths, error paths, and stopping behavior jointly	Only the specified ideal behavior is proved
P6	State cannot reuse private material	Crash, concurrent access, rollback, backup, restore, and migration state-machine analysis	Operational rules specified; implementation pending
P7	Full-view frequency resistance	Apply the general statistic theorem in Section 19 to the exact jointly observed view	Proved conditionally; ideal released view satisfies premise
P8	Active origin and context integrity	Prove authenticated peer, session, action, and direction binding; account for all queries and verdict feedback	One-time envelope theorem supplied; complete composition open
P9	Defined human-knowledge relation	Specify what witness is claimed, and an extractor with allowed access that does not simply read that witness from verifier state	String extraction is conditional; joint-credential claim open
P10	Secret-dependent leakage is bounded	Formal leakage functions or statistical-distance bounds with a justified sensor model	No measured physical leakage bounds supplied
P11	Lifecycle retains the intended assurance	Enrollment, recovery, synchronization, revocation, rotation, replenishment, disposal, and application sessions preserve the chosen security profile	Design and deployment evidence required
P12	Finite parameters meet a named game	Compute effective secret entropy, attempts, masks, collision/reconstruction effects, and error budgets	Exact formulas supplied; deployment parameters unselected
P13	Software and hardware refine the model	Prove or test encodings, constant-work paths where needed, atomic state changes, private-memory protection, and configuration invariants	No implementation evaluated
P14	Independent reproducibility	Frozen specification, proof review, executable vectors, attack scripts, source/build provenance, and disclosure of negative results	Small executable checks provided; independent audit pending
P15	Honest and malicious execution claims are separated	Analyze chosen challenges, response manipulation, accepted/rejected attempts, concurrency, and live assistance in their own games	Honest secrecy established; unrestricted active secrecy not established
P16	Product claims match assessed scope	Every assertion names observer, lifetime, model, version, assumptions, and evidence; separate certification from mathematical proof	Claim templates supplied below

An assertion that a trusted boundary exists is not evidence that a phone, browser, microphone path, or human interface implements that boundary. Likewise, lack of a successful statistical attack is not proof of P3 or P5.

19. Proofs against frequency, coincidence, correlation, and classifier attacks

Theorem 11 — Every statistic of a secret-independent view is secret-independent

Assume (49). Let S be any deterministic or randomized algorithm applied to the entire view and background information. Its random coins U_A must be independent of the credential conditional on its permitted inputs. Then

$$
I\bigl(X;S(V,D,U_A)\mid D\bigr)=0.
\tag{52}
$$

Proof. For fixed d, the distribution of V is the same kernel for every x. Feeding the same input distribution through the same randomized algorithm produces the same output distribution. Alternatively, conditional data processing gives an upper bound of $I(X;V\mid D)=0$, and mutual information is nonnegative. □

English. An attacker cannot extract credential information by transforming a view that contains none. This includes symbol histograms; repeated words; run lengths; lag correlations; cross-session matching; frequency spectra; compression or grammar features; Bayesian estimators; neural networks; and arbitrary joint challenge-response features. The theorem is about learning the credential, not about preventing a copied response from being forwarded.

No finite list of attack programs is needed for this mathematical conclusion. The essential proof burden is establishing the distributional premise for the actual complete view.

Theorem 12 — Exact released-symbol frequency distribution

For a fixed event of T rounds, define $F_a=\sum_{t=1}^T\mathbf1\{z_t=a\}$ for each response symbol $a\in\Sigma$. Under Theorem 2, for nonnegative counts $(f_a)_a$ summing to T,

$$
\Pr[\mathcal F=(f_a)_a\mid X=x,G=g]

```
=\frac{T!}{\prod_{a\in\Sigma}f_a!}\,H^{-T}.
\tag{53}
$$

**Proof.** Each ordered response word has probability $H^{-T}$. Exactly $T!/\prod_a f_a!$ ordered words have those counts, by counting permutations of a multiset. Sum their equal probabilities. □

The expression is the multinomial distribution with equal symbol probabilities. It contains no credential parameter. A nonuniform observed histogram can occur by random chance; exact secrecy does not require every finite histogram to be perfectly flat.

For distinct symbols $a,b$,

$$
\mathbb E F_a=T/H,\quad
\operatorname{Var}(F_a)=T\frac1H\left(1-\frac1H\right),\quad
\operatorname{Cov}(F_a,F_b)=-T/H^2.
\tag{54}
$$

Here $\operatorname{Var}(U)=\mathbb E[(U-\mathbb EU)^2]$ and $\operatorname{Cov}(U,V)=\mathbb E[(U-\mathbb EU)(V-\mathbb EV)]$.

**Proof.** Write each count as a sum of independent across-round indicator variables. A symbol indicator has mean $1/H$ and variance $(1/H)(1-1/H)$. Different-symbol indicators in the same round cannot both equal one, so their covariance is $-1/H^2$. Sum over rounds. □

The negative covariance is caused by the fixed total number of symbols. It is not evidence of secret leakage.

### Theorem 13 — Expected coincidence and lag statistics

Let $C_{\rm eq}=\sum_{1\le s<t\le T}\mathbf1\{z_s=z_t\}$. For $T\ge2$, define the normalized coincidence statistic $J=2C_{\rm eq}/[T(T-1)]$. Then

$$
\mathbb E C_{\rm eq}=\binom T2/H,\qquad \mathbb E J=1/H.
\tag{55}
$$

For a lag $d$ with $1\le d<T$, let $L_d=\sum_{t=1}^{T-d}\mathbf1\{z_t=z_{t+d}\}$. Then

$$
\mathbb E L_d=(T-d)/H.
\tag{56}
$$

**Proof.** Two distinct released symbols are independent uniform symbols, so they agree with probability $1/H$. Apply linearity of expectation to the selected pairs. Independence between all pair-indicators is not needed and is not generally asserted. □

For a fixed response word $u\in\Sigma^m$ of length $1\le m\le T$, let $N_u$ count its occurrences at all consecutive starting positions, allowing overlap. Then

$$
\mathbb E N_u=(T-m+1)/H^m.
\tag{57}
$$

**Proof.** Each length-$m$ window matches $u$ with probability $H^{-m}$; there are $T-m+1$ windows. Sum their indicators. Overlapping windows need not be independent. □

Equations (55)–(57) explain common attack statistics. The stronger protection is equality of their **entire distributions** across credentials, obtained from Theorem 11. Matching only expectations would not suffice to prove secrecy.

### Joint and cross-session frequency analysis

Fresh masks across every round of every event make the concatenated released word uniform for a fixed honest schedule. Theorems 11–13 apply to that archive, including statistics conditioned on any public frames and jointly comparing events. Observing the challenge and answer together is already included in Theorem 2.

A trained model may begin with credential information in its training set. Place that information in $D$; the theorem says the new view supplies no additional information when the conditional assumptions remain valid. It does not erase knowledge the model already has.

## 20. Physical traces, combined sensors, and necessary counterexamples

### Theorem 14 — A sufficient condition for extending secrecy to a physical trace

Let $O=(G,Z)$ have perfect secrecy conditional on $D$. Let $L$ be the **joint** additional trace of all sensors in
```

scope. Suppose

$$
\Pr[L=l\mid X=x,O=o,D=d]=Q(l\mid o,d).
\quad\Longrightarrow\quad I(X;O,L\mid D)=0.
\tag{58}
$$

Proof. The joint conditional probability factors as $\Pr[O=o\mid X=x,D=d]Q(l\mid o,d)=K(o\mid d)Q(l\mid o,d)$, which is independent of x. Apply Lemma 4 conditionally. □

English. All additional emitted information must be explainable from the already-safe public record and allowed background, using randomness independent of the credential. Encoding a safe symbol into an audio waveform is covered if the full recorded waveform obeys this condition. Audible raw choices, secret-dependent hesitation, or device emissions during decoding need separate treatment.

Secrecy of sensors individually is insufficient. For an independent uniform bit U and secret bit X, the individual traces $L_1=U$ and $L_2=U\mathbin\oplus X$ each reveal zero information about X; observing both recovers $X=L_1\mathbin\oplus L_2$. Here $\oplus$ is XOR. This is a concrete reason P2 and (58) require joint sensor analysis.

Theorem 15 — Unrestricted “all eavesdropping” is impossible

If an allowed observer's view contains a lossless reading of X, then

$$
I(X;V\mid D)=\mathsf H(X\mid D).
\tag{59}
$$

Proof. The view determines the credential, so $\mathsf H(X\mid V,D)=0$. Substitute in (2). □

If $\mathsf H(X\mid D)>0$, the perfect-secrecy target fails. A direct credential dump is an extreme countermodel. Exposed raw inputs alongside their frames are a less extreme one: Section 7 proves that such observations already reveal coincidence information in ordinary small examples.

Countermodel A — Reusing a release shift

Use the numeric response encoding e from (7). If two responses share the same mask m, then

$$
(e(z_s)-e(z_t))\bmod H=(e(w_s)-e(w_t))\bmod H.
\tag{60}
$$

Proof. Substitute (7); the repeated mask cancels. □

An observer learns a raw-response relationship. For binary symbols, equality/inequality is disclosed. The frame geometry need not repeat for this cancellation to occur. Full-permutation reuse similarly preserves equality, even though it need not preserve numeric differences.

Countermodel B — Biased masks

In a binary example with raw response $w=X$, let $\Pr[m=1]=b$ and $z=X\oplus m$. For a uniform secret bit,

$$
\Delta(P_{z\mid X=0},P_{z\mid X=1})=|1-2b|,\qquad
I(X;z)=1-h_2(b),
\tag{61}
$$

where $h_2(b)=-b\log_2b-(1-b)\log_2(1-b)$, with the usual zero-term convention. $P_{z\mid X=i}$ denotes the conditional probability distribution of z.

Proof. The two probabilities of $z=1$ are b and $1-b$, whose Bernoulli total-variation distance is their absolute difference. The output is uniform after averaging over X, giving $\mathsf H(z)=1$, while $\mathsf H(z\mid X)=h_2(b)$. Subtract. □

At $b=1/4$, distinguishing distance is $1/2$ and the optimal secret-bit guess succeeds with probability $3/4$. Perfect secrecy requires the relevant conditional masking distribution, not merely an informal claim that the source is random.

Countermodel C — Public artifacts or timing can disclose the secret

If a public enrollment artifact is a deterministic injective encoding of X, all credential information is already public even if each new response is perfectly masked. If a secret bit chooses between two distinguishable response delays, timing reveals that bit while the transmitted token remains uniform. A frequency test on tokens alone can miss both failures.

Countermodel D — Human error and active feedback

A person can misread a frame in a way whose probability depends on their secret's location or dictionary. The accept/reject bit and retry count can then carry information about the secret. A malicious party can also present chosen prompts and observe responses, failures, or completion times. The honest fixed-schedule theorem is not a proof about that experiment. A7 prevents partial verdicts in the ideal verifier; it does not prove that arbitrary final-verdict histories are harmless.

Carrier-specific assessment matrix

Carrier or surface	Included in the ideal released-symbol proof	Additional observation needing a profile-specific argument
Network packets	Public frames and masked response symbols	Packet length, ordering, traffic volume, time, identifiers, transport and application logs
Spoken/audio response	Audio encoding of released symbols satisfying (58)	Raw spoken choices, pronunciation, pauses, voice biometrics, microphone path and acoustic emissions
Visual screen or camera	Displayed public challenge and appropriately encoded released symbols	Gaze, pointing, fingers, raw selection, reflections, screen-recording hooks, secret-dependent rendering
Tactile or mechanical device	A proved encoding of the abstract public view	Forces, movements, position markers, wear patterns, sounds, vibrations, observation of the hidden dictionary
Electronic hardware	Logical inputs/outputs within their declared boundary	Power, electromagnetic emissions, cache/memory traces, speculative execution, fault responses
Browser or mobile application	Protocol messages correctly generated by a trusted component	DOM or accessibility exposure, extensions, key logging, screenshots, debug interfaces, crash dumps
Verifier infrastructure	Permitted final event bit and safe messages	Credential database, memory snapshots, administrator access, backups, tracing and telemetry
Cross-device or recovery flow	Nothing automatic beyond a separately included view	Transfer of masks or dictionary, synchronization, reset routes, rollback, support channels

A profile may exclude a sensor, but its security claim must then state that exclusion. An omitted sensor cannot be advertised as covered merely because the abstract protocol is carrier-independent.

21. Adaptive observations and quantitative deviations from the ideal model

Theorem 16 — Adaptive public schedules preserve secrecy under conditional kernels

Let $\mathcal T_{t-1}$ be the observable history before round t, including allowed metadata. Suppose a public challenge/control value C_t is generated by a kernel independent of the credential given that history and background, and every released symbol remains conditionally uniform:

$$
\Pr[C_t=c\mid X=x,D=d,\mathcal T_{t-1}=h]=K_t(c\mid d,h),
\quad
\Pr[z_t=a\mid X=x,D=d,\mathcal T_{t-1}=h,C_t=c]=1/H.
\tag{62}
$$

Then every finite transcript generated by these kernels is independent of X conditional on D. Credential-independent observation kernels of the form (58) can be inserted at each step. Stopping based only on the visible history and independent random coins preserves the conclusion.

Proof. Induct on the transcript length. The empty transcript is independent of X. If the history has a credential-independent distribution, multiplying it by the two conditional kernels in (62) produces another credential-independent distribution. Apply the same reasoning for extra permitted outputs. A stopping decision based on the visible history is a function of a secret-independent variable, so Theorem 11 applies. □

This is a conditional extension, not a claim that the existing human interface satisfies (62). Secret-dependent timing or a stopping decision based on secret-dependent error behavior violates its premises. A request algorithm that chooses challenges maliciously but only from the public history can satisfy the first premise; the device's mask freshness and complete output behavior must still satisfy the second and (58).

Statistical-distance definition

For finite distributions on the same set,

$$
\Delta(P,Q)=\frac12\sum_v|P(v)-Q(v)|.
\tag{63}
$$

This is the largest possible difference in the probability assigned to an event. It bounds every test of the full view, not just a selected histogram test.

Theorem 17 — Sequential statistical errors accumulate by a sum

Suppose, for every supported history and credential, the real round kernel is at total-variation distance at most δ_t from its ideal secret-independent kernel. Let ε_0 bound the initial setup/view discrepancy and ε_L bound any additional whole-trace simulation discrepancy not already counted. Then

$$
\Delta\bigl(P_{X,D,V_{\rm real}},P_{X,D}K(V_{\rm ideal}\mid D)\bigr)
\le\varepsilon_{\rm tot}:=
\min\!\left(1,\varepsilon_0+\sum_{t=1}^{T}\delta_t+\varepsilon_L\right).
\tag{64}
$$

Proof. Compare successive hybrid experiments that replace one real conditional kernel at a time. Conditioning on any preceding history, each replacement changes the next-step distribution by at most δ_t; averaging cannot increase that bound. Later probabilistic processing cannot increase total variation. The triangle inequality adds the changes, including the two declared extra discrepancies. □

This is a reduction **if the kernel bounds are established**. The quantities cannot be set to small values from intuition or from failed attacks. Do not count the same deviation both in δ_t and ε_L. A rare mask-reuse event can be charged by its probability only when that probability is justified under the adversary/state model and the rest of the experiment is covered by the ideal comparison.

Corollary 17.1 — A statistical error bound limits guessing improvement

Under (64),

$$
p_{\rm guess}(X\mid D,V_{\rm real})
\le p_{\rm guess}(X\mid D)+\varepsilon_{\rm tot}.
\tag{65}
$$

Proof. Fix the optimal real-world guessing algorithm. The event that it outputs the correct credential differs in probability between the two experiments by at most their total variation. In the ideal experiment, the extra view is independent of the credential given D, so its success cannot exceed the best guess from D alone. □

If the view for **each** candidate credential is within ε of the same ideal kernel for fixed d, then

$$
\Delta(P_{V\mid x_0,d},P_{V\mid x_1,d})\le2\varepsilon,
\qquad \Pr[\widehat b=b]\le\tfrac12+\varepsilon.
\tag{66}
$$

Proof. The triangle inequality proves the first bound. In the equal-prior binary distinguishing game, optimal success is one half plus one half the total-variation distance; this follows by choosing the set of outputs on which the first distribution exceeds the second. □

The computational analogue quantifies only over the efficient adversaries permitted by its reduction. Equation (41) must not be renamed an unconditional statistical bound.

Residual entropy and explicitly bounded leakage

Define average conditional min-entropy operationally by

$$
H_{\min}^{\rm av}(X\mid D)=-\log_2 p_{\rm guess}(X\mid D).
\tag{67}
$$

This is the number of bits corresponding to the best prior guessing probability, with background information already counted. It is different from Shannon entropy (1).

If the safe view O is independent of X conditional on D, and an additional trace L has at most 2^b possible values for every O,D, then

$$
I(X;L\mid O,D)\le b,\qquad
p_{\rm guess}(X\mid D,O,L)\le\min(1,2^b p_{\rm guess}(X\mid D)).
\tag{68}
$$

Proof. Mutual information is at most the entropy of L, which is at most the logarithm of its alphabet size. For each fixed o,d, summing over at most 2^b possible trace values can increase the sum of the largest joint credential probabilities by at most that factor. Average over o,d; independence of the safe view returns the starting guessing probability. □

This is a worst-case leakage allowance, not a physical measurement claim. Observed file size or analog sample precision does not alone establish that the full available trace has only 2^b outcomes. Repeated traces can accumulate leakage and require a bound for the full archive.

22. Quantum scope and the role of computation

Exact secrecy of a classical record is not tied to the observer's computation time. It also survives quantum processing of that record. A stronger statement with pre-existing quantum side information requires the randomness

independence to include that quantum system.

Let Q be quantum side information correlated with the classical credential X. For fixed classical background d, suppose masks and the full ideal output-generation mechanism yield a view independent of the **joint** system (X,Q). Then

$$
\rho_{XQV\mid d}=\rho_{XQ\mid d}\otimes\rho_{V\mid d},
\qquad
p_{\rm guess}(X\mid Q,V,D=d)=p_{\rm guess}(X\mid Q,D=d).
\tag{69}
$$

Here a density operator represents a quantum state; $\otimes$ denotes independent joint systems. Quantum guessing probability maximizes success over all permitted quantum measurements.

Proof. For each credential value, the independent random view has the same state and has no correlation with the conditional state of Q. Writing the classical-quantum state as a sum over credential values factors out the common view state, giving the tensor product. Conditioning a measurement choice on an independent classical view can only form a mixture of measurement strategies for Q; none exceeds the optimum available without that view. Ignoring the view attains the reverse inequality. □

The joint independence premise is stronger than testing classical symbol frequencies. This theorem is not a proof of security against a quantum side channel carrying the masks, coherent queries to the verifier, quantum fault attacks, or a quantum adversary against an unspecified pseudorandom generator. A statement that “Grover halves the exponent” requires a separately defined quantum oracle and query budget; it does not follow from the classical online protocol.

23. Security games and exact acceptance targets

Game	Attacker's capability and winning event	Required target	Result available
E1: passive credential learning	Observe all permitted honest outputs; distinguish two credentials with the same allowed background	Equal full-view distributions, or a quantified bound	Exact for ideal released view; (49), (58), (64) identify deployment obligations
E2: frequency/correlation inference	Apply any joint feature, model, or statistic to E1's view	No improvement over the same background without that view	Theorem 11 and explicit statistics, conditional on E1
E3: fresh-event network guessing	Submit an answer before seeing any answer or obtaining masking help for that event	Probability at most the chosen budget	Equation (36) under its fresh-mask game
E4: raw-interface credential guessing	Use an authorized masking device to submit guessed human responses	Exact or bounded acceptance using the real secret prior and geometry	(31), (34), (35); unrestricted $H^{-\ell R}$ is refuted
E5: replay	Reuse an already consumed event, or use an old response on a fresh event	Reject consumed identifiers; bound cross-event matches	State rule plus (36), conditional on implementation
E6: message modification	Alter an authenticated challenge, response, context, or direction	Bound valid new substitutions under declared key/query rules	(43) for the added one-time MAC; full protocol composition pending
E7: phishing/live forwarding	Use a genuine prover through an impostor or redirect an accepted result	Bind the authenticated endpoint and intended action; define a matching honest session	Not proved by transcript secrecy or freshness alone
E8: chosen prompts and rejection feedback	Manipulate visible challenges or response trials and study final verdicts	Prove secrecy/impersonation in an explicit adaptive experiment	Open for the general construction; local conditional kernels in Section 21 are sufficient only if established
E9: malicious-prover knowledge	Convince the verifier without an extractable witness for the exact relation	Extraction definition (44) with stated access and error	Conditional string extraction only; joint witness open
E10: physical or endpoint observation	Acquire the permitted combinations of sensory, software, and hardware traces	(49) or an explicit bounded-leakage/compromise claim	Profile-dependent; unrestricted scope refuted by Theorem 15
E11: recovery and synchronization	Exploit reset, transfer, replenishment, backup or migration	Preserve a named assurance level and prevent private-material reuse	Design/evaluation obligation
E12: post-authentication authority theft	Steal session cookies, bearer results, or authorization artifacts	Bind/secure the resulting application session separately	Outside the masked-membership theorem

An industry security claim must select its games. A protocol can satisfy E1–E2 while failing E7, E10, or E12. Those are different outcomes, not contradictions in the information theorem.

23.1 Finite parameter selection

For the fresh-network-guess game only, requiring $QH^{-T}\le2^{-\lambda}$ gives

$$
T\ge\left\lceil\frac{\lambda+\log_2 Q}{\log_2H}\right\rceil.
\tag{70}
$$

Proof. Take base-two logarithms of the required inequality and solve for T; round up. □

For $H=6$, $Q=10^6$, and target 2^{-128}, the formula requires at least 58 rounds. This is a calculated example for E3, not a recommended human-interface design or a 128-bit claim for the whole system. The raw-interface game still uses the credential prior, geometric ambiguity, and dictionary entropy. No increase in fresh rounds erases the possibility of a correct complete credential guess.

Acceptance parameters must state N,H,ℓ,R,T; actual credential-generation distribution; dictionary distribution; mask scheme; lifetime event/round counts; expected replenishment; every attacker query budget; MAC field and message limits; state persistence; and error/leakage bounds. Report the source's approximation separately from exact bounds. Do not claim security from nominal string length when the actual user-selected distribution has lower guessing entropy.

23.2 A conditional composition budget

If a real protocol has a proved reduction to an ideal experiment, and that reduction separately establishes disjointly accounted hybrid errors for masks, observation simulation, context authentication, and state management, an admissible target has the form

$$
\varepsilon_{\rm deployment}\le
\varepsilon_{\rm masks}+\varepsilon_{\rm view}+\varepsilon_{\rm auth}+\varepsilon_{\rm state}.
\tag{71}
$$

This is a **composition proof obligation**, not a numerical result for ENI6MA. Each term must correspond to an actual hybrid step or bounded bad event, with its conditioning and adversary model. In particular, replay or relay failures cannot be assigned an arbitrarily small probability merely by listing them as a term. Device credentials and human knowledge must remain distinct in the ideal functionality.

23.3 Why attack testing cannot establish perfect secrecy

For one fixed attack procedure repeated in m independent identically distributed trials with success probability p, observing zero successes has probability $(1-p)^m$. The usual one-sided confidence endpoint at error probability α is

$$
p_{\rm upper}=1-\alpha^{1/m}.
\tag{72}
$$

Proof. Set the probability of zero successes at the endpoint equal to α and solve. For any larger p, the probability of that zero-success result is smaller. This is an exact binomial zero-success endpoint, not an assertion about the posterior distribution of p. □

With one million independent attempts and $\alpha=0.05$, the endpoint is about 2.996×10^{-6}, approximately 18.35 bits of reciprocal success probability. It does not demonstrate a 2^{-128} bound, cover other attack algorithms, establish the IID premise for adaptive attacks, or prove that mutual information is exactly zero. Experiments test the model and implementation; the mathematical theorem supplies the universal algorithmic quantifier.

24. Academic review package and acceptance gates

These gates are a proposed review program for this construction. They do not purport to replace the submission rules of a particular journal, conference, certification body, purchaser, or regulator.

Gate	Review question	Required submission	Acceptance condition	Present evidence
A: specification	Can another team implement exactly the same primitive?	Typed algorithms, encodings, schedules, enrollment, resource setup, state machine, invalid-input behavior	No security-relevant ambiguity or undefined operation	Mathematical core and operational model supplied; concrete wire encoding/profile still required
B: passive security	Does the entire claimed view have the same distribution across credentials?	Explicit observer family, theorem quantifiers, conditional randomness and trace lemmas, all public artifacts	Reviewable proof of (49), or a quantified statistical/computational alternative	Exact ideal (G,Z) proof supplied; physical full-view extension conditional
C: frequency analysis	Does any statistic of the jointly observed challenge-response archive reveal the credential?	General reduction plus concrete frequency/collision examples and assumption-breaking countermodels	Theorem 11 applies to the exact full view; no reliance on flat average histograms	Ideal-model theorem and examples supplied
D: soundness	Which attackers can be accepted, with what probability?	Separate raw-interface, network, active, and compromise games; actual priors and query budgets	Correct bounds with no unjustified independence multiplication	Corrected exact raw formulas and fresh-mask guessing bound supplied
E: knowledge	What witness is extractable from an accepting prover?	Relation, extractor code/pseudocode, allowed access, runtime, knowledge error, arbitrary-prover argument	Formal extraction theorem for the claimed relation and setup	Only conditional string extraction proved; joint-credential claim open
F: active composition	Does an accepted result correspond to the intended peer, session, and action?	Matching-session definition, context binding, concurrency and reset treatment, ideal/real proof or explicit weaker game	Complete reduction for selected active goals, including verdict feedback	One-time MAC lemma and design supplied; full theorem open
G: implementation refinement	Does the built system satisfy the abstract assumptions?	Auditable source, build identification, hardware boundary, source of randomness, state/trace verification	Concrete evidence closes each relevant postulate for a frozen profile	Not assessed in this document
H: independent reproduction	Do independent reviewers reach the same conclusions?	Frozen artifacts, standalone vectors and checks, full issue log, adversarial review report	Results reproduce; material defects corrected or narrow the claim	Embedded finite checks supplied; no independent review claimed
I: novelty and significance	What result or capability is added relative to existing work?	Comparisons with identification, human-interactive authentication, universal-hash authentication, and hiding/extraction literature

Novelty claim supported by a specific difference and matching models | Candidate construction and exact leakage analysis identified; historical novelty not established |

The original finite-unicity and repeated-position soundness claims must be corrected wherever repeated in abstracts, diagrams, parameter tables, and product descriptions. A corrected theorem in an appendix does not repair an inconsistent headline claim.

A publication should separate: established mathematical statements; idealized resource assumptions; newly proposed protocol extensions; implementation measurements; unresolved conjectures; and conjectured commercial benefits. Neither mathematical correctness nor certification alone establishes superiority in every threat model.

25. Industry frameworks and what their acceptance would mean

The references below were checked on 12 September 2026. They are relevant evaluation frameworks, not evidence that ENI6MA has been approved. Program-specific applicability and the precise assessed product/version must be confirmed with the relevant evaluator.

Framework	What it addresses	Implication for this construction
[NIST SP 800-63B-4](https://pages.nist.gov/800-63-4/sp800-63b.html)	Authentication assurance, permitted authenticators, protected channels, phishing/replay resistance, and lifecycle/session requirements	A zero-information theorem is not an AAL determination. The current AAL3 requirements include public-key authentication, a non-exportable key, phishing resistance, and two factors. The shared-secret construction alone does not establish that profile.
[NIST SP 800-90B](https://csrc.nist.gov/pubs/sp/800/90/b/final)	Design and validation of entropy sources, including source assessment and health testing	Supply a source model and evidence for mask randomness. An entropy-source assessment is not a proof that a finite-seed expansion produces indefinitely independent masks.
[FIPS 140-3](https://csrc.nist.gov/pubs/fips/140-3/final)	Cryptographic-module boundaries, interfaces, security parameters, physical/non-invasive security, self-tests, and lifecycle assurance	Identify the actual module and validated scope. Module validation is distinct from proving a novel protocol's security or approving each claimed mathematical construction.
[FIDO Authenticator Security Levels](https://fidoalliance.org/security-certification-authenticator-security-levels/)	Evaluation of FIDO authenticators with different protection levels for credentials and implementations	A security theorem does not confer FIDO certification. Establish applicability, protocol conformance, required evaluation level, and evidence for the actual implementation.
[W3C WebAuthn](https://www.w3.org/TR/webauthn-3/)	Public-key credential registration and assertions through a defined API with relying-party and origin-related checks	A new protocol needs an explicit integration/conformance design. Protecting an input secret does not automatically reproduce the surrounding assertion semantics or make existing public-key credentials disclose their private keys.
[Common Criteria / CEM](https://www.commoncriteriaportal.org/cc/index.cfm)	Security functional and assurance requirements, evaluation methods, and scoped security targets	Prepare a security target that names threats, environmental assumptions, product boundaries, and evidence. A scoped evaluation should not be described as immunity to every possible observation.
[OWASP ASVS](https://owasp.org/www-project-application-security-verification-standard/)	Application-security requirements and verification of implemented controls	Assess the surrounding service, sessions, input handling, access control, and integration. An intact primitive can coexist with an exploitable application.

NIST's phishing-resistance discussion distinguishes cryptographic session/verifier binding from manually forwarding an authenticator output; hiding a credential does not by itself stop an impostor from relaying a valid output. Local human entry into a trusted component must be assessed together with that component's authenticated binding behavior. [NIST SP 800-63B-4, Section 3.2.5](https://pages.nist.gov/800-63-4/sp800-63b.html#phishing-resistance)

The use of standard cryptography elsewhere in a deployed product does not invalidate an information-theoretic theorem about the particular secret X. The product must distinguish the primitive's exact scope from the computational assumptions of provisioning, commitments, platform attestation, transport, or account recovery. Conversely, an exact secrecy theorem for X cannot be used to describe those other components as unconditionally secure.

25.1 Engineering evidence expected for a credible deployment claim

The following is the proposed evidence package for this construction, beyond any external program's mandatory submissions.

Workstream	Artifacts and assessment	Concrete failure that must be detected
Trusted boundary and input path	Diagram of human/device/verifier trust boundaries; raw-data flow; permission and memory review	Raw selections reach an untrusted DOM, accessibility API, microphone recording, log, or extension
Entropy/provisioning	Source model; conditioning/generation algorithms; stock accounting; conditional independence rationale; health/failure behavior	Predictable, biased, correlated, reused, or recoverable masks
Concurrency and persistence	Executable state-machine model; crash injection; simultaneous requests; rollback and restore tests	Two events or retries use the same masking/authentication material
Signal and timing leakage	Predeclared sensor bandwidth/sampling/position, device conditions, repeated trace collection and expert analysis	Credential-dependent timing, emission, raw input, or correlated joint traces
Protocol integrity	Adversarial client/server harness; context swapping; message mutations; duplicate/late/reordered traffic	Wrong peer/action accepted, incomplete transcript accepted, state bypass
Human interaction	Task/error studies across representative users, accessibility settings, and carrier modes	Secret-dependent hesitation/retries, ambiguous choices, predictable user-created mappings
Recovery and transfer	End-to-end review of backups, synchronization, account support, re-enrollment, revocation, and replenishment	Recovery reveals a reusable credential or lets an attacker bypass the analyzed ceremony
Implementation correctness	Canonical serialization, integer/modular arithmetic checks, malformed-symbol tests,

zeroization and logging review | Type/index confusion, arithmetic bias, tag/domain confusion, unintended secret retention |
| Deployment configuration | Frozen versions; build provenance; operating-system and hardware assumptions; supported modes | A safe laboratory profile differs from the marketed shipping configuration |
| Application authorization | Session-cookie/token handling; accepted-result binding; privilege and lifecycle review | A captured post-authentication artifact becomes a new bearer credential |

25.2 Frequency and side-channel experiment design

1. Freeze the claim before collecting traces: target secret, permitted background, sensor set, device profile, query budget, and whether the attacker observes raw inputs or only released outputs.
2. Use controlled credential variations, realistic credential distributions, fresh independent masks, and positive controls that intentionally reuse a mask or expose a raw-response relationship. A test suite unable to detect the positive control is not persuasive evidence of security.
3. Include joint challenge-response features, full time traces, cross-session statistics, and combinations of sensors. Test for both credential leakage and separately named privacy goals such as user identification or session linkage.
4. Split training and evaluation data so user, device, session, and credential reuse do not accidentally create or conceal the effect being studied. State which of these are allowed background information for the attack.
5. Report attack success, baseline guessing success, uncertainty, false-positive policy, multiple-comparison handling, complete preprocessing, and negative results. Do not turn a classifier's chance-level result into a proof that all classifiers fail.
6. Treat a reproducible credential-dependent signal as a model defect to explain or mitigate. Treat absence of detected dependence as supporting evidence limited by the experiment, with the limitation in (72).
7. Release enough synthetic or consented data, scripts, configuration and build identifiers for an independent laboratory to reproduce the claimed result. Operational secrets and participant data require an appropriate protected review process.

26. Claim ledger, admissible formulations, and unresolved postulations

Claim ID	Precise claim	Mathematical anchor	Status for the supplied construction
C01	Honest masked membership responses are accepted on correct delivery	(3)–(11)	Proved under specified enrollment and correctness assumptions
C02	Honest public frames and released responses carry zero information about (k,φ)	(12)–(15)	Proved under independent secret masks
C03	Every frequency, repetition, correlation, or learned statistic of that same view carries zero additional credential information	(49), (52)–(57)	Proved for the view satisfying C02; no computation bound needed
C04	The same claim holds for a named joint collection of physical traces	(48), (58)	Conditional on a profile-specific trace kernel or bounded simulation proof
C05	Approximate implementation deviations permit a quantified guessing improvement bound	(63)–(66)	Proved as a reduction; concrete bounds not supplied
C06	Observing raw responses and frames remains perfectly secret	(19)–(23)	False in general
C07	Arbitrary repeated-position raw guessing has probability $H^{-\ell R}$	(31)–(35)	False in general
C08	A sufficiently long raw archive uniquely reveals the enrolled credential pair	(37)–(38)	False without additional information or a different witness domain
C09	Fresh-event guessing is bounded by QH^{-T}	(36), (70)	Proved only in the fresh-unexposed-mask network game
C10	Accepted behavior establishes formal knowledge of the entire enrolled credential	(44)–(47)	Open; conditional string extraction is narrower
C11	Active tampering and live forwarding are fully controlled	(42)–(43), Section 23	Added one-time integrity proof; general active/composition claim open
C12	Unlimited exact secrecy is supplied by a fixed finite seed	(39)–(41)	Not established; incompatible with the required indefinitely independent mask distribution
C13	All possible physical and endpoint eavesdropping is harmless	(59) and countermodels	False as an unrestricted universal claim
C14	A concrete product satisfies an industry security or assurance certification	Section 25	Not assessed or claimed

26.1 Formal statement suitable for the present academic submission

For each finite sequence of honest executions using independent uniform secret release masks, fixed public parameters and schedule rules independent of the credential, and a passive observer whose complete view consists of the public frames and released responses, the view distribution is independent of the credential pair. Consequently, every statistical or algorithmic analysis of that view, including joint challenge-response frequency and correlation analysis, yields zero additional credential information. The result extends to a specified physical implementation only if its additional joint observations satisfy a credential-independent observation kernel, or with an explicitly proved quantitative degradation when that kernel is approximate.

This statement is supported by Theorems 2, 11, and 14. It does not incorporate an unproved claim of arbitrary active security or extraction of the whole credential.

26.2 Product statement requiring completed implementation evidence

For product version **[version]** in configuration **[profile]**, under the observer capabilities **[capabilities]** and lifetime **[events/rounds]**, evaluation **[report and evaluator]** supports **[exact/statistical/computational]** resistance to credential learning from the complete specified authentication view, including **[joint signals and statistics]**, with assumptions **[assumptions]** and bound **[bound]**. Separate results address **[replay, phishing, compromise, recovery, and application sessions as actually assessed]**.

Bracketed fields are intentional requirements for deployment evidence. They are not approvals, measurements, or placeholder values that can be omitted from a product claim.

26.3 Open postulations suitable for further research

- **Joint-witness knowledge conjecture:** there is a suitable enrollment relation and efficient extractor for the intended joint witness, without simply supplying that witness as verifier state and while accounting for the rotational equivalence. No proof is supplied here.
- **Active-composition conjecture:** a concrete context-bound implementation realizes an explicitly defined ideal authentication functionality with a stated error budget, including chosen prompts, verdict feedback, concurrency, and resets. The component lemmas alone are insufficient.
- **Human-interface leakage conjecture:** a specified practical human interface can preserve sufficiently small joint leakage across the selected sensors, user behaviors, and failure paths. This requires a physical model and implementation evidence.
- **Sustainable-entropy conjecture:** a practical replenishment/provisioning design supplies the declared conditional mask quality, availability, lifetime, and cost without introducing a weaker recovery or transport assumption. A pseudorandom variant must be labeled computational.
- **Efficiency and usability conjecture:** the construction can meet a target latency, human error rate, accessibility profile, storage budget, and attack bound simultaneously. No benchmark or global-adoption conclusion follows from the secrecy identity.

These are research targets, not accepted axioms. Each should be promoted to a theorem or assessed implementation claim only after its proof or evidence is provided.

27. Executable finite checks for independent reproduction

The following Python 3 program uses only the standard library. It checks representative finite cases of the algebra, exact distributions, frequency identities, counterexamples, and the one-time tag root bound. It is deliberately small enough to inspect. Its successful execution does not prove the universal theorems, certify an implementation, or establish historical novelty.

Save the block as a Python file and run it with Python 3. It reads no external files, uses no network, and does not require operational credentials.

```python
from itertools import product, permutations
from collections import Counter
from fractions import Fraction
from math import factorial, log2, log, expm1, ceil


def all_frames(ns, H):
    assert all(n % H == 0 for n in ns)
    for offsets in product(*(range(n) for n in ns)):
        yield {
            (j, i): ((i - offsets[j]) % n) // (n // H)
            for j, n in enumerate(ns)
            for i in range(n)
        }


def symbol_pair_probability(ns, H, s, b):
    if s == b:
        return Fraction(1)
    if s[0] != b[0]:
        return Fraction(1, H)
    n = ns[s[0]]
    q = n // H
    distance = abs(s[1] - b[1])
    delta = min(distance, n - distance)
    return max(Fraction(0), Fraction(q - delta, q))


def raw_word(k, phi, gs):
    return tuple(phi[g[k[t % len(k)]]] for t, g in enumerate(gs))


# 1. Check balance, coincidence probabilities, and rotational symmetry.
symmetry_cases = 0
for ns, H in [((2, 2), 2), ((6,), 3), ((6, 3), 3), ((4, 4), 2)]:
    frames = list(all_frames(ns, H))
    symbols = list(frames[0])
    for g in frames:
        assert Counter(g.values()) == Counter({i: len(symbols) // H for i in range(H)})
        for phi in permutations(range(H)):
            for a in range(H):
                phi_a = tuple(phi[(i - a) % H] for i in range(H))
                for s in symbols:
                    j, i = s
                    shifted = (j, (i + a * (ns[j] // H)) % ns[j])
```

```
                    assert phi_a[g[shifted]] == phi[g[s]]
                    symmetry_cases += 1
    for s, b in product(symbols, repeat=2):
        empirical = Fraction(sum(g[s] == g[b] for g in frames), len(frames))
        assert empirical == symbol_pair_probability(ns, H, s, b)
assert symmetry_cases == 4140

# 2. For every binary two-frame challenge and joint credential,
#    enumerate all independent masks and obtain the same released law.
frames = list(all_frames((2, 2), 2))
symbols = list(frames[0])
all_binary_words = list(product(range(2), repeat=2))
release_laws_checked = 0
for gs in product(frames, repeat=2):
    for k in product(symbols, repeat=2):
        for phi in permutations(range(2)):
            w = raw_word(k, phi, gs)
            law = Counter(
                tuple((w[t] + masks[t]) % 2 for t in range(2))
                for masks in all_binary_words
            )
            assert law == Counter({z: 1 for z in all_binary_words})
            release_laws_checked += 1

# 3. Check uniform-release histograms, moments, and coincidence means.
for H, T in [(2, 4), (3, 4)]:
    words = list(product(range(H), repeat=T))
    denom = len(words)
    hist_law = Counter(tuple(w.count(a) for a in range(H)) for w in words)
    for counts, multiplicity in hist_law.items():
        expected_count = factorial(T)
        divisor = 1
        for count in counts:
            divisor *= factorial(count)
        assert multiplicity == expected_count // divisor
    fa = [w.count(0) for w in words]
    fb = [w.count(1) for w in words]
    mean = Fraction(sum(fa), denom)
    variance = Fraction(sum(v * v for v in fa), denom) - mean * mean
    covariance = Fraction(sum(a * b for a, b in zip(fa, fb)), denom) - mean * mean
    assert mean == Fraction(T, H)
    assert variance == Fraction(T * (H - 1), H * H)
    assert covariance == Fraction(-T, H * H)
    coincidences = sum(
        sum(w[s] == w[t] for s in range(T) for t in range(s + 1, T))
        for w in words
    )
    assert Fraction(coincidences, denom) == Fraction(T * (T - 1), 2 * H)
    for lag in range(1, T):
        lag_matches = sum(sum(w[t] == w[t + lag] for t in range(T - lag)) for w in words)
        assert Fraction(lag_matches, denom) == Fraction(T - lag, H)
    u = (0, 1)
    occurrences = sum(sum(w[t:t + len(u)] == u for t in range(T - len(u) + 1)) for w in words)
    assert Fraction(occurrences, denom) == Fraction(T - len(u) + 1, H ** len(u))

# 4. Exact repeated-position raw-guessing counterexample and optimum.
frames = list(all_frames((2, 2), 2))
symbols = list(frames[0])
guessed = (0, 0)
successes = 0
optima = []
for gs in product(frames, repeat=3):
    signatures = Counter(tuple(g[s] for g in gs) for s in symbols)
    optima.append(Fraction(max(signatures.values()), len(symbols)))
    successes += sum(all(g[s] == g[guessed] for g in gs) for s in symbols)
success = Fraction(successes, len(symbols) * len(frames) ** 3)
assert success == Fraction(5, 16)
assert sum(optima) / len(optima) == Fraction(5, 16)
assert success > Fraction(1, 8)

# 5. Reused binary masks expose equality; biased masks distinguish.
for w0, w1, mask in product(range(2), repeat=3):
    z0, z1 = w0 ^ mask, w1 ^ mask
    assert (z0 ^ z1) == (w0 ^ w1)
bias = Fraction(1, 4)
law0, law1 = (1 - bias, bias), (bias, 1 - bias)
tv = sum(abs(a - b) for a, b in zip(law0, law1)) / 2
assert tv == Fraction(1, 2)
assert Fraction(1, 2) + tv / 2 == Fraction(3, 4)

```

```
# 6. Enumerate every nonzero degree-at-most-two message difference
#    and every tag difference over F_5.
p, degree = 5, 2
root_cases = 0
for difference in product(range(p), repeat=degree):
    if not any(difference):
        continue
    for tag_difference in range(p):
        roots = sum(
            (sum(difference[j] * pow(a, j + 1, p) for j in range(degree)) - tag_difference) % p == 0
            for a in range(p)
        )
        assert roots <= degree
        root_cases += 1
assert root_cases == 120

# 7. Check the stated finite budget and zero-success confidence example.
assert ceil((128 + log2(10 ** 6)) / log2(6)) == 58
upper = -expm1(log(0.05) / (10 ** 6))
assert 2.9957e-6 < upper < 2.9958e-6

print('All finite checks passed.')
print('Rotation/relabeling cases:', symmetry_cases)
print('Conditional released-word laws:', release_laws_checked)
print('Repeated-position success:', success)
print('MAC difference/root cases:', root_cases)
print('Zero-success 95% upper endpoint:', upper)
```

Verification run recorded for this document

The embedded program was executed successfully during preparation of this document. It reported:

```text
All finite checks passed.
Rotation/relabeling cases: 4140
Conditional released-word laws: 512
Repeated-position success: 5/16
MAC difference/root cases: 120
Zero-success 95% upper endpoint: 2.995727786352544e-06
```

The histograms, variances, covariances, coincidence/lag/word expectations, reused-mask countermodel, biased-mask countermodel, and finite-budget examples also passed their assertions. These checks use exact integer or rational arithmetic except the final logarithmic/confidence examples.

SHA-256 of the UTF-8 Python block contents followed by one final LF newline: `dad0e3b51e311141a56acec23ddd5d90561a00997c0328df4e07a1c2d9d18f41`.

The Markdown document's 72 equation numbers, 17 numbered theorems, 7 numbered lemmas, 12 core assumptions, 16 postulates, math delimiters, and table column counts were checked for structural consistency. These are artifact checks, not an additional proof of mathematical security.

27.1 What formal verification would add

A proof-assistant development should encode finite alphabets, permutations, the exact frame function, probability distributions, conditional independence, and the observer kernels. Prove Lemmas 1–7 and Theorems 1–17 as applicable, including type-correct inversion, the histogram count, the symmetry counterexample, and conditional extraction. Separately model state transitions and active composition; deterministic message/state verification does not establish probabilistic or physical secrecy by itself.

This document includes no completed proof-assistant project, implementation audit, entropy-source report, physical side-channel evaluation, or certification decision. Those are explicit deliverables in the acceptance gates, not work claimed to have already occurred.

References and source relationship

[1] Frank Dylan Rosario and Lin Wang, *Two Channels and One Bijection: Per-Frame Secrecy, Coincidence Leakage, and Unicity Distance in a Membership Proof of Knowledge*, supplied draft, uploaded as `two-channels-one-bijection(1).pdf`. Construction: Definitions 3.1–3.8. Correctness: Theorem 4.1. Geometric reconstruction: Theorem 5.1. Secrecy: Theorems 6.1–6.4. Coincidence leakage: Lemma 7.1, Theorem 7.2, Corollary 7.3. Statements corrected here: the repeated-position extension of Theorem 4.2 and the unique-pair conclusion of Theorem 8.1.

[2] *UNICITY*, supplied draft, uploaded as `UNICITY(1).pdf`. Relevant portions: Part IV; Sections 16.11, 18.7, 19.9–19.10, 20.9–20.10. The book's carrier rules and released-array theorem correspond to the conditions used here. Computational commitments and lifecycle rules require the separate treatment described in this note.

[3] Mihir Bellare and Oded Goldreich, *On Defining Proofs of Knowledge*, CRYPTO 1992, especially Definition 3.1

and Section 6. [Author's paper page](https://www.wisdom.weizmann.ac.il/~oded/pok.html); [author-hosted full paper](https://www.wisdom.weizmann.ac.il/~oded/PSX/pok.pdf). This is the reference for the extraction-based terminology. The conditional geometric extraction lemma in this note is a separate derivation, not a theorem attributed to that paper.

[4] Christopher Portmann, *Key recycling in authentication*, IEEE Transactions on Information Theory 60(7), 4383–4396, 2014. [Paper and abstract](https://arxiv.org/abs/1202.1229); [full text](https://arxiv.org/html/1202.1229v3). This supplies the existing authentication context and the distinction between passive secrecy and composable security with acceptance feedback. The deliberately simple fresh-key polynomial authentication layer in Section 12 is proved directly here; no key-recycling theorem is claimed for it.

Attribution of additional work. The typed zero-based specification, exact signature-group guessing formula, repeated-position counterexample, explicit rotational-symmetry correction, direct one-time envelope proof, and conditional decoder-extraction derivation are supplied as analysis in this note. They should receive further expert review before being incorporated as publication claims. No claim of historical novelty for these added mathematical observations is made.

[5] NIST, *SP 800-63B-4: Digital Identity Guidelines — Authentication and Authenticator Management*. [Official text](https://pages.nist.gov/800-63-4/sp800-63b.html). Relevant scope: authentication assurance, phishing/replay resistance, authenticator lifecycle, and sessions. Consult the selected target assurance level's full requirements.

[6] NIST, *SP 800-90B: Recommendation for the Entropy Sources Used for Random Bit Generation*. [Official publication page and errata links](https://csrc.nist.gov/pubs/sp/800/90/b/final). This is an entropy-source assessment reference, not a proof of the protocol's independence assumptions.

[7] NIST, *FIPS 140-3: Security Requirements for Cryptographic Modules*. [Official publication page](https://csrc.nist.gov/pubs/fips/140-3/final). Module scope and validation are distinct from protocol-level security claims.

[8] FIDO Alliance, *Security Certification: Authenticator Security Levels*. [Official program page](https://fidoalliance.org/security-certification-authenticator-security-levels/). Applicability, conformance, and implementation evaluation must be established independently of this document.

[9] W3C, *Web Authentication: An API for accessing Public Key Credentials — Level 3*. [Official specification](https://www.w3.org/TR/webauthn-3/). Used as an integration and protocol-semantics reference; no WebAuthn conformance for the proposed construction is asserted.

[10] Common Criteria Recognition Arrangement, *Common Criteria and Common Evaluation Methodology publications*. [Official portal](https://www.commoncriteriaportal.org/cc/index.cfm). Consult applicable versions, errata, evaluation scope, and security-target requirements with an evaluator.

[11] OWASP, *Application Security Verification Standard*. [Official project](https://owasp.org/www-project-application-security-verification-standard/). Used as an application-integration assessment reference.

The industry references were checked on 12 September 2026. The proposed postulates, acceptance gates, attack matrices, and claim ledger are this document's assessment framework; they are not represented as verbatim requirements adopted by all referenced bodies.

ATTACHMENT F

NIST Submission Manuscript

Rosario-Wang ENI6MA

Complete source document: 22 source pages

Final compiled PDF source range: pp. 254-275

This attachment begins with the source document's first page and continues through its final page. Original source page numbering, title pages, dates, authorship, and source content remain visible in the attached document.

Rosario-Wang ENI6MA: A Proposed Membership-Response Primitive

Perfect transcript privacy, authorized reconstruction, and exact randomness costs

Franciscus Dylan Rosario

16 September 2026

Abstract

We propose Rosario-Wang ENI6MA as a cryptographic building block for converting human membership choices into an observable authentication response with a precisely defined privacy contract. A public separating family encodes a remembered value. A naming permutation and fresh private additive masks transform the membership answers into released symbols. An authorized party uses the actual private resources to reconstruct the value and verify it against enrollment. We specify the family and a twelve-key, four-label instance with three-response calibration. Under conditionally uniform secret masks and an explicit observation boundary, the released transcript preserves every credential prior exactly across any finite sequence of honest events. We prove correctness, joint recovery of the value and naming map, a two-share interpretation, and a necessary and sufficient characterization of independent additive mask laws through the encoding's difference subgroup. The twelve-key instance requires exactly four data-mask bits per symbol; the complete calibrated encoding requires exactly four bits per symbol plus six bits when all maps are admitted. Separate experiments quantify blind response injection, authorized credential guessing, and mask-assisted extraction. Three- and six-label members, exact finite checks, and a worked authentication event establish reproducibility. The release transformation factors exactly into deterministic encoding and classical additive secrecy. Accordingly, the proposed contribution is the membership-response abstraction, its constrained realization, and its explicit resource and event contracts. We identify the comparative and implementation evidence needed to evaluate this proposal as a distinct primitive within privacy-enhancing cryptography.

Keywords: cryptographic building blocks; human identification; perfect secrecy; membership responses; separating families; secret randomness; private-reference reconstruction; authentication.

1. Introduction

A reusable credential can remain useful for authentication even when its disclosure would be damaging. The design problem is to turn knowledge of that credential into an authorized decision while controlling what an observer learns from the ceremony. In a direct observable entry process, a recording can become a reusable credential record. In an appropriately protected process, the observer may instead see a response whose probability law is independent of the remembered value.

Rosario-Wang ENI6MA addresses this problem through membership decisions. Alice remembers a value. A public display assigns possible symbols to labeled cells. She finds the cell containing the next symbol and selects a response through a confidential legend. Victor interprets the response using the event's actual private decoding resources and checks the enrolled reference. Eve observes the permitted

public frames and released responses. The security model states explicitly which local displays, inputs, masks, and verifier records remain private.

The principal privacy target is

$$\Pr[X = x \mid B = b, T_{1:N} = t] = \Pr[X = x \mid B = b], \tag{1}$$

for every supported observation and every finite N. Here X is the protected credential, B is the observer's prior information, and $T_{1:N}$ is the declared public archive. This equality preserves an arbitrary prior, including a weak or nonuniform one. It describes the absence of additional information from the specified archive. Authentication additionally asks what an active party can cause Victor to accept; that question receives separate experiments below.

The construction uses classical additive perfect secrecy. Its research proposition is that a human membership interface, an authorized inverse, explicit entropy requirements, and event-specific verification form a useful reusable component. NIST's definition of a cryptographic primitive as a low-level building block motivates evaluating this component through its algorithms and security contract [1]. Historical distinctiveness requires comparison with earlier constructions under equivalent private resources. We therefore supply the exact additive factorization and matched baselines as part of the proposal.

1.1 Contributions

The paper makes the following technical contributions to the ENI6MA specification:

1. A parameterized membership-response family with explicit public and private interfaces, together with a complete twelve-key instance and square instances on nine and 36 symbols.
2. Correctness and authorized reconstruction, including indexed calibration that recovers an arbitrary naming permutation from all but one of its entries.
3. Exact single-event and finite sequential privacy for the joint credential, with a condition for extending the theorem to the complete implementation trace.
4. A characterization of all independent additive mask distributions that hide a fixed encoding, and matching data and calibration entropy bounds for the specified instances.
5. Distinct bounds for blind response injection, equality-oracle guessing, and private-reference extraction, with the attacker's access stated in each case.
6. An event-consumption contract, exact worked examples, executable finite evidence, and a scoped account of the supplied Lean formalization.

The new full-calibration bound is proved here as a statement about the specified encoding and admitted domain. Its historical priority, like the proposed primitive classification, remains a subject for independent comparison. The paper's immediate purpose is to make the object, its strongest supported claims, and its resource requirements fully inspectable.

1.2 Scope of the proposed primitive

The component provides a private released channel and authorized reconstruction relative to provisioned private resources. The native verifier holds an enrolled reference. A confidential local interface and fresh shared masks are substantive resources in this model. Higher-level authorization adds authentic context binding, durable state, enrollment, and recovery.

We use *perfect* for exact correctness or exact distributional privacy under the stated assumptions. A conventional proof of knowledge and malicious-verifier zero knowledge require additional definitions

beyond mask-assisted recovery. Likewise, a mathematical privacy theorem does not assign an authentication assurance level to an implementation. These boundaries determine the claims that an evaluator should test.

2. Functionality and security model

2.1 Parameters, actors, and resources

Let $q \geq 2$, let $A = \mathbb{Z}_q$, and let $\mathcal{A}$ be a finite displayed alphabet. The admitted credential domain is a finite subset $\mathcal{W} \subseteq \mathcal{A}^\ell$, where $\ell \geq 1$. A naming map Φ is a permutation of A. In the calibrated profile the protected object is $X = (W, \Phi)$; in the known-map profile the principal protected value is W.

A public schedule G specifies a fixed ordered list of questions. Data question t consists of a credential position $j(t)$ and a partition function $c_t : \mathcal{A} \to A$. The schedule is **separating** on $\mathcal{W}$ when

$$W \longmapsto \left(c_t(W_{j(t)})\right)_{t=1}^{m_d} \tag{2}$$

is injective. Balanced display partitions have equal-sized preimages; balance is a usability/design constraint, whereas separation supplies the inverse.

Alice supplies membership choices through a protected local component D. Victor stores the enrolled reference and the actual mask allocation. Eve's background information is B, which may already be correlated with the credential. All information quantities are classical, finite, and measured in bits. The privacy statements are conditional on supported values of B.

Symbol	Meaning
W, Φ, X	Remembered value, naming map, and protected pair
G_e	Public schedule and permitted context for event e
ν_e	Full event identifier or nonce
$P_{G_e}(X)$	Complete unmasked response word
R_e	Actual private mask vector used for that event
Z_e	Released response word
$T_e = (G_e, Z_e)$	Core released transcript
L	Additional observable trace
H, I	Shannon entropy and mutual information
a, v	Fresh-event attack budget and equality-guess budget

An account handle and observable credential length are included in B or G_e. Credential privacy conditioned on a visible handle does not imply anonymity or account unlinkability.

2.2 Algorithmic interface

The family has nine operations. A deployment may combine operations internally while preserving their meanings.

Operation	Contract
`Setup`	Validate alphabet, group, schedule rules, calibration, and admitted domain
`Enroll`	Associate a protected reference with an account handle
`Schedule`	Issue the public questions and bind them to an event and actual private allocation
`Respond`	Compute the privately interpreted membership answers
`Release`	Add the actual masks and emit the declared response symbols
`Accumulate`	Intersect the cells specified by decoded answers
`Reconstruct`	Return the unique consistent credential or a decoding failure
`Verify`	Compare with enrollment and enforce event eligibility
`Extract`	Recover from the actual decoding resources and an appropriate accepted transcript

The core release rule is

$$U_t = \Phi(c_t(W_{j(t)})), \qquad Z_t = U_t + R_t \pmod{q}. \tag{3}$$

A private legend displays $\Lambda_t(c) = \Phi(c) + R_t$. Alice can answer by locating her symbol's cell and choosing the legend's response for that cell. Alternatively, D may accept a raw cell label through a protected input and perform the addition internally. In both cases Eve's declared observation excludes the raw selection and the private legend.

The ideal service being approximated compares protected user input with enrollment and returns the authorized decision while exposing only declared public context and allowed decision information. The theorems here establish particular privacy, reconstruction, and state properties relative to the stated resources. A universal-composition theorem for an entire service would additionally need an environment, corruption interfaces, and all application outputs.

2.3 Assumptions

A1. Exact verification and fixed reference. An event selects one enrolled reference. All required responses and their framing are checked against that reference. Wrong lengths, invalid symbols, and inconsistent profiles are rejected.

A2. Public scheduling. At event e, the conditional law of G_e is independent of X given B and the complete preceding permitted public history. Schedules may adapt to that history.

A3. Conditional mask freshness. The current R_e is uniform on A^{m_e} conditional on X, B, G_e, and relevant prior history. Every response receives its own allocated coordinate. Equal numerical mask values can occur; allocation reuse is excluded.

A4. Protected local handling. Eve lacks the raw answers, private legends, actual masks, and equivalent information. The local component applies the specified transformation.

A5. Observation scope. The core privacy experiment concerns completed honest events and releases T_e. Additional observations must satisfy the closure condition in Section 5.3 or receive their own leakage bound. In this experiment an honest acceptance bit is constant.

A6. Authentic durable event control. For lifecycle claims, account, relying party, operation, profile, schedule, full event identity, and allocation are authentically associated. Eligible verification consumes the allocation through an atomic durable transition that cannot be rolled back.

A7. Faithful provisioning and enrollment. Alice's protected interface and Victor use matching actual private resources and the intended reference. The means of securely provisioning those resources belongs to the implementation profile.

Correctness needs matching state but no uniformity. Passive privacy needs A2-A5. At-most-once acceptance needs A6. A product must establish its applicable assumptions through implementation evidence. A public nonce alone cannot replace a secret shared mask source.

3. The construction

3.1 The twelve-key, four-label profile

The canonical profile, denoted RW-12/4-CAL3, uses the ordered alphabet

$$\mathcal{K} = (1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6, 7, 8, 9, *, 0, \#).$$

Assign the keys to the off-diagonal pairs in $\mathbb{Z}_4^2$ in lexicographic order. The two questions return the first and second coordinates respectively.

Key	Signature	Key	Signature
1	$(0, 1)$	7	$(2, 0)$
2	$(0, 2)$	8	$(2, 1)$
3	$(0, 3)$	9	$(2, 3)$
4	$(1, 0)$	*	$(3, 0)$
5	$(1, 2)$	0	$(3, 1)$
6	$(1, 3)$	#	$(3, 2)$

Lemma 1 (balance and separation). Each coordinate partition places exactly three displayed keys in every cell, and the ordered pair of answers identifies every key uniquely.

Proof. Fixing one coordinate excludes only the equal value in the other coordinate, leaving three pairs. The twelve ordered pairs are distinct. □

For a public nonce ν, rotate the assignment by mapping key index i to pair index $(i+\nu)$ mod 12. Every rotation preserves balance and separation. The full nonce remains the event identity; its residue is only a display choice. Different nonces can therefore produce the same geometry.

A decimal profile admits $\mathcal{D}^\ell$ with $\mathcal{D} = \{0, \dots, 9\}$ while displaying the twelve-key grid. Its admitted subset need not be balanced. Uniform masks give privacy regardless of how often an admitted symbol appears in a cell.

All arithmetic is cyclic addition modulo four. Two-bit XOR is a different group operation and is not interchangeable with this profile's addition.

3.2 Calibration and decoding

Calibration requests the known cell labels $0, 1, 2$ before the data questions. Their responses are masked like every other response. The complete raw encoding is

$$P_G(W, \Phi) = (\Phi(0), \Phi(1), \Phi(2), \Phi(c_1(W_{j(1)})), \ldots, \Phi(c_{2\ell}(W_{j(2\ell)}))). \tag{4}$$

The event release is $Z = P_G(X) + R$, with $m = 2\ell + 3$. The authorized decoder subtracts the **actual** mask allocation. Three distinct calibration values determine the fourth permutation entry as the unused element. It then inverts the map and the public signature table.

```
Reconstruct(G, R, Z):
    validate the profile, ranges, and exact response length
    U <- Z - R, coordinatewise in the declared group
    if calibrated:
        read q-1 indexed map values from U
        require distinct values; infer the unused map value
    otherwise use the authorized known map
    invert the map on each remaining response
    accumulate the specified membership constraints
    require one admitted credential consistent with all constraints
    return that credential and, if calibrated, the recovered map
```

The native verifier already stores the enrolled map and can check data without calibration. Calibration instead permits a decoder with mask-only access to recover the whole pair without reading the reference. If a device holds the map, this recovery concerns device-held state; it does not demonstrate that Alice memorized the permutation.

3.3 Square-family members

For arbitrary q, use a row-major alphabet of size q^2 on $\mathbb{Z}_q^2$ and ask for row and column. Every cell has q symbols and each pair identifies one symbol. Calibrated mode prepends $q-1$ indexed map responses. It emits $2\ell + q - 1$ symbols.

RW-9/3 uses `ABCDEFGHI`. RW-36/6 has two explicitly versioned alphabet orders used in the source examples: `ABCDEFGHIJKLMNOPQRSTUVWXYZ0123456789` and `0123456789ABCDEFGHIJKLMNOPQRSTUVWXYZ`. An interoperable profile must select one order. Section 9 states which order each example uses.

The family definition thus admits instances independent of one particular keypad, color set, or author-selected picture. A one-question square schedule is not an exact-recovery instance because it does not separate all symbols. A public unmasked response is not an instance of the claimed perfectly private release profile.

4. Correctness, reconstruction, and two-share encoding

4.1 Correctness and accumulation

Theorem 2 (correctness and calibrated recovery). For every admitted X, public separating schedule, and actual mask vector, the honest response passes exact reference verification when the event is eligible. Given the same schedule, actual masks, and an accepted calibrated response, `Reconstruct` returns exactly the enrolled pair.

Proof. Subtraction gives $Z_t - R_t = \Phi(c_t(W_{j(t)}))$. Inverting Φ recovers the expected cell. Calibration subtraction gives the enrolled permutation entries, and the remaining entry is forced by bijectivity. Separation identifies the credential uniquely. Exact acceptance ensures the same equalities for an arbitrary accepted response. □

For a complete honest event,

$$\mathsf{H}(X \mid B, G, Z, R) = 0. \tag{5}$$

For adversarially generated responses, the recovery claim is conditioned on acceptance. Choosing a new mask after seeing a transcript would be a different operation: any public word can be explained by many credentials with different masks. The decoder receives the allocation actually used by the event.

For a fixed known map, initialize the candidate set for each position as $S_{j,0} = \mathcal{A}$. A decoded answer $a_t = \Phi^{-1}(Z_t - R_t)$ updates it by

$$S_{j,t} = S_{j,t-1} \cap c_t^{-1}(a_t). \tag{6}$$

Intersection is associative, commutative, idempotent, and monotone. Honest answers retain the actual symbol; separation removes every alternative. With a restricted string domain, the global candidate set also enforces that restriction.

Four outcomes are possible: a correct singleton, a wrong singleton, multiple candidates, or no candidate. A consistent wrong walk can identify a unique wrong value. Verification therefore compares with enrollment rather than accepting singleton status alone. A singleton persists under further compatible constraints but becomes empty under a contradictory one. The primary schedules have fixed length; public stopping based on private candidate counts needs an additional leakage analysis.

4.2 The two-share contract

Theorem 3 (perfect two-share encoding). In known-map mode, let $d = (\Phi, R)$ and suppose Φ is independent of W conditional on B. Under the privacy assumptions and a separating schedule,

$$I(W; T \mid B) = I(W; d \mid B) = 0, \qquad \mathsf{H}(W \mid B, T, d) = 0. \tag{7}$$

In calibrated mode, set $X = (W, \Phi)$ and let $d^* = R$ include every calibration and data mask. Then

$$I(X; T \mid B) = I(X; d^* \mid B) = 0, \qquad \mathsf{H}(X \mid B, T, d^*) = 0. \tag{8}$$

Proof. Transcript privacy is Theorem 4 below. For the baseline private share, the conditional chain rule and independent setup give $I(W; \Phi, R \mid B) = 0$. In calibrated mode the mask-only share is independent of the entire pair. Theorem 2 supplies recovery, with the known map used in the baseline mode. □

The baseline share contains Φ and consequently does not hide that map. Protecting the joint pair requires the calibrated formulation. These are familiar perfect two-out-of-two encoding identities: ordinary independent-pad sharing satisfies them as well. Their role here is to state who can learn what from the membership transcript and private decoding resource.

Corollary 3.1 (secret-resource lower bound). If $I(W;T \mid B) = 0$ and $\mathsf{H}(W \mid B,T,d) = 0$, then $\mathsf{H}(d \mid B) \geq \mathsf{H}(W \mid B)$.

Proof. $\mathsf{H}(W \mid B) = I(W;d \mid B,T) \leq \mathsf{H}(d \mid B,T) \leq \mathsf{H}(d \mid B)$. □

The reconstruction operation is denied reference-store reads. Otherwise it could recover by reading enrollment, making the intended two-share recovery assertion uninformative.

5. Exact transcript privacy

5.1 One event and its simulator

Theorem 4 (exact likelihood). Under A2-A5, every supported credential, background, schedule, and released word satisfy

$$\Pr[Z = z \mid X = x, B = b, G = g] = q^{-m}. \tag{9}$$

Consequently, $I(X;T \mid B) = 0$ and the posterior of X given B,T equals its prior given B.

Proof. For fixed x, g, z, exactly one mask vector solves $z = P_g(x) + R$, namely $R = z - P_g(x)$. Conditional uniformity assigns it probability q^{-m}. The law of G is credential-independent given B. Multiplying the two factors gives an x-independent transcript likelihood, which cancels in Bayes' rule. □

An exact simulator samples G from the permitted public schedule law and samples m independent uniform response symbols. It reproduces Eve's released view without X. Victor's private reference and decoding resources are absent from that simulated view; zero knowledge against a malicious verifier is a separate property.

By data processing, any statistic or classical computation based only on (B,T) with independent additional randomness gives no further information about X. This includes exhaustive search and learned classifiers. It does not increase the initial strength of the credential: if a likely value had probability 0.4, it still has probability 0.4.

5.2 Sequential observation

Theorem 5 (finite sequential privacy). If A2-A5 hold conditionally at every event, then for every finite N,

$$I(X;T_1,\dots,T_N \mid B) = 0. \tag{10}$$

Proof. Let h be a prior permitted history. The next event law has the form

$$\Pr[T_e = (g,z) \mid X = x, B = b, T_{<e} = h] = Q_e(g \mid b,h)q^{-m_e(g,h)}.$$

It is independent of x. The product of these conditional factors is the joint archive likelihood and remains independent of x. Bayes' rule gives (1). □

The result allows adaptive schedules based on permitted public history. Marginal uniformity by itself is insufficient: correlated outputs can reveal a secret through their difference. Conditional mask freshness is therefore a hypothesis at each event, rather than an inference from one-event tests.

For a uniform twelve-digit PIN, the best archive-only guess remains 10^{-12} after one, a million, or a billion permitted events. Those values follow symbolically from the theorem; they are not empirical

attack estimates. The uniform PIN has $12 \log_2 10 \approx 39.86314$ bits of entropy. An actual human-selected prior may be weaker, and the same posterior-preservation statement applies to it.

The theorem permits any finite archive while fresh resources remain available. It does not imply that a finite secret tape supports unlimited exact-private use or that subsequent disclosure of the actual masks is harmless.

5.3 Complete-view closure and approximation

Proposition 6 (observation closure). Let L include all additional visible timing, errors, stopping, sensor data, feedback, and logs. If

$$\Pr[L = l \mid X = x, B = b, T_{1:N} = t] = K(l \mid b, t), \tag{11}$$

then $(T_{1:N}, L)$ preserves the credential posterior.

Proof. Multiply the credential-independent transcript likelihood by the conditional kernel K, which is also independent of the credential. □

This condition is joint. Two individually harmless sensors can jointly expose a secret through correlation. When closure is unavailable, the exact accounting identity is

$$I(X; T_{1:N}, L \mid B) = I(X; L \mid B, T_{1:N}). \tag{12}$$

It locates, but does not bound, remaining leakage. Active equality feedback generally cannot be treated as a constant honest-acceptance bit.

If a real joint distribution is within total variation ϵ of an ideal private distribution with the same (X, B) marginal, every fixed decision event changes probability by at most ϵ. In particular, average optimal guessing success improves by at most ϵ. This does not bound posterior change for every rare transcript separately. Uniform conditional transition-distance bounds δ_e give an archive bound at most $\sum_e \delta_e$ by sequential replacement.

A pseudorandom mask profile instead requires computational indistinguishability for its complete generator and adversarial interfaces. Its reduction must account for seeds, public inputs, query budget, and compromise. Ideal fresh randomness is not obtained merely by calling deterministic output random.

6. Exact response and private-randomness costs

6.1 A characterization for additive masking

Let V be a finite abelian group, let $p : \mathcal{X} \to V$ be a fixed encoding, and let M be independent of the protected input. Let μ be the mass function of M, and define

$$D = \langle p(x) - p(x') : x, x' \in \mathcal{X} \rangle \leq V. \tag{13}$$

Theorem 7 (necessary and sufficient mask law). The distributions of $p(x) + M$ are identical for all admitted x if and only if

$$\mu(v + d) = \mu(v) \qquad (v \in V,\ d \in D). \tag{14}$$

Under this condition, writing $J = M + D$ for the mask's coset,

$$\mathsf{H}(M) = \log_2|D| + \mathsf{H}(J). \tag{15}$$

Thus the minimum is $\log_2|D|$, attained by a uniform mask on any one coset.

Proof. Equality of released probabilities says $\mu(y - p(x)) = \mu(y - p(x'))$ for every y, x, x'. This is invariance under each encoding difference. Repeated translations generate precisely the required invariance under D. Conversely, invariance under D includes all those differences and gives equal output laws. On every positive-probability coset, invariance makes the mask uniform. The entropy chain rule then gives (15). □

This is a fixed-encoding characterization. Independence means independence from the protected input; correlated mask coordinates are allowed as candidates until the characterization rules them out. The argument analyzes a classical additive secrecy mechanism, not a new hardness assumption.

6.2 Exact bounds for RW-12/4

Lemma 8 (large sets have all differences). If $S \subseteq V$ and $|S| > |V|/2$, then $S - S = V$.

Proof. For any v, the sets S and $S + v$ intersect because their cardinalities sum to more than $|V|$. Hence $s = s' + v$ for some $s, s' \in S$, giving $v = s - s'$. □

Theorem 9 (data cost). For any fixed rotation and naming permutation, the twelve-key or ten-digit profile requires exactly 4ℓ independent-additive mask entropy bits to hide the complete product credential domain. Two four-way membership responses per separately processed symbol are necessary and sufficient.

Proof. There are twelve or ten distinct raw pairs in a group of size sixteen. Lemma 8 gives every pair difference. Theorem 7 forces a uniform mask on $\mathbb{Z}_4^2$. For a product string domain, varying one position at a time generates the full direct product $\mathbb{Z}_4^{2\ell}$, whose uniform entropy is 4ℓ. For response count, one four-way answer has only four outcomes and cannot separate twelve symbols; the table separates them in two. □

Theorem 10 (complete calibrated cost). For the raw encoding (4) on $\mathcal{K}^\ell \times S_4$ or $\mathcal{D}^\ell \times S_4$, with $\ell \geq 1$, every independent additive mask giving perfect privacy of the joint pair is uniform on $\mathbb{Z}_4^{2\ell+3}$. Its exact minimum entropy is $4\ell + 6$ bits.

Proof. Holding Φ fixed and varying W generates every data vector with zero calibration prefix by Theorem 9. For calibration position i, select two permutations that assign values 2 and 3 to the other two calibrated inputs, and exchange values 0 and 1 between input i and the omitted fourth input. For any fixed admitted W, their raw-word difference has calibration prefix e_i or $-e_i$ and some data suffix. Subtracting that suffix, already in the difference subgroup, isolates the calibration unit vector up to sign. All three units are therefore generated. Together with the full data subgroup they generate the whole group; apply Theorem 7. Independent uniform masks attain the bound. □

The full map domain and protection of the joint pair matter. If the map is publicly fixed, calibration entries are constants. If only W is protected while map leakage is allowed, the optimization problem changes. A whole-string code is also a different constraint model: a twelve-digit string can be encoded into 20 base-four symbols, whereas separate membership processing uses 24 data symbols.

6.3 Indexed calibration and the square family

Proposition 11 (indexed calibration). After k distinct indexed values of an arbitrary permutation on q labels have been revealed, exactly $(q-k)!$ completions remain. Consequently $q-1$ indexed queries are necessary and sufficient for worst-case unique determination in this query model.

Proof. Unqueried inputs can be bijected to unused outputs in $(q-k)!$ ways. With at least two remaining, their outputs can be exchanged. With one remaining, it is forced. The argument applies at each realized history of an adaptive indexed-query strategy. □

For the square family, fixed-map data pairs range over all of $\mathbb{Z}_q^2$. The same unit-vector argument as Theorem 10 gives a full difference subgroup for the calibrated encoding on $\mathcal{A}^\ell \times S_q$. Its exact independent-additive mask entropy is

$$(2\ell + q - 1)\log_2 q. \tag{16}$$

For ten strings of ten symbols from a 36-symbol alphabet, the separate row/column schedule uses 200 data responses and five indexed calibration responses. Its 205 responses are optimal within that separate-symbol and separate-calibration model. Under a uniform joint prior, the pair has entropy

$$100\log_2 36 + \log_2(6!) \approx 526.484353 \text{ bits.}$$

Unrestricted six-ary joint coding instead has the counting bound

$$\lceil \log_6(36^{100} \cdot 6!) \rceil = 204. \tag{17}$$

An injective unrestricted code exists at that length by cardinality. It need not be realizable by 204 allowed human membership questions. The 205 fresh six-way masks have entropy approximately 529.917313 bits.

6.4 Sampling and lifetime accounting

Profile	Responses	Ideal fresh-mask entropy
One twelve-key symbol, data only	2	4 bits
One twelve-key symbol, calibrated	5	10 bits
Twelve decimal digits, data only	24	48 bits
Twelve decimal digits, calibrated	27	54 bits
100 six-label symbols, calibrated	205	529.917313 bits

One billion calibrated twelve-digit events consume 54×10^9 mask bits in this implementation, or 6.75 billion packed bytes before provisioning, integrity, and state overhead. This is an accounting result for the specified fresh-mask profile, not a universal lifetime bound for every protocol authenticating one persistent credential.

A deterministic expansion $R = F(K, \nu, G)$ satisfies $\mathsf{H}(R \mid \nu, G) \le \mathsf{H}(K \mid \nu, G)$. It cannot manufacture independent secret entropy. NIST SP 800-90A and SP 800-90B provide relevant generator and entropy-source references for implementations [12,13]; their use must be evaluated against the actual profile's claim.

Six-way masks require unbiased conversion. Reducing a uniform three-bit value modulo six yields probabilities $1/4, 1/4, 1/8, 1/8, 1/8, 1/8$. Rejection sampling that accepts 0 through 5 and redraws 6 or 7 gives probability $1/6$ for each accepted value. It consumes four raw bits on average per accepted mask, while the accepted value's entropy is $\log_2 6$. Source quality, conversion, provisioning, allocation, and any visible retry behavior all require implementation analysis.

7. Authentication and extraction experiments

7.1 Blind injection

In Experiment B, Eve chooses a well-formed response for a fresh eligible event. She may know the credential and schedule, but has no current mask, current response, response-generation oracle for that allocation, or access to a live honest response. The mask is uniform conditional on her complete view.

Theorem 12 (blind-injection probability). A single chosen word passes exact reference comparison with probability q^{-m}. For at most a fresh events with one eligible attempt each, success in any event is at most $\min(1, aq^{-m})$.

Proof. For each fixed submitted and expected raw word, exactly one mask makes them agree. Conditional uniformity assigns it probability q^{-m}. A union bound over events proves the second statement. □

The calibrated twelve-digit example gives $4^{-27} = 2^{-54}$ in this experiment. This is not a general 128-bit authentication claim. Even an attacker who knows the remembered value is missing a resource in this game; its bound alone does not prove a human knowledge factor.

If an implementation accepts a full Hamming ball of radius b around the expected word, the bound becomes

$$q^{-m} \sum_{i=0}^{b} \binom{m}{i} (q-1)^i. \tag{18}$$

Additional parsing or code-image restrictions change that region and must be counted. The primary profile uses exact equality. The keypad code's minimum Hamming distance is one, so its separation property does not supply single-error correction.

7.2 Guessing through an authorized component

Experiment G instead lets Eve supply complete candidate credentials to a correctly provisioned component using the legitimate map and masks. Victor returns only full-string equality. This models a substantially different access condition.

Theorem 13 (equality-guess budget). Given $B = b$, sort the credential probabilities as $p_{(1)} \geq p_{(2)} \geq \cdots$. With at most v distinct equality guesses and no additional secret-dependent feedback, optimal success is

$$\sum_{i=1}^{\min(v,|\mathcal{W}|)} p_{(i)}. \tag{19}$$

Proof. Along an all-rejection path a deterministic strategy fixes a sequence of guesses. It succeeds exactly when the secret belongs to that set. Its maximum prior mass is the sum of the largest v

probabilities. Randomized strategies are mixtures and cannot exceed the maximum. Testing those most likely values attains it. □

If maximum prior probability is 2^{-h_∞}, success is at most $\min(1, v2^{-h_\infty})$. For a uniform twelve-digit PIN it is $\min(1, v/10^{12})$. Per-position feedback, timing, recovery access, and partial legends constitute different oracles; they do not inherit this bound without analysis.

7.3 Private-reference extraction

Let $\mathcal{R}[h]$ be the enrolled reference and define $\mathcal{R}_{\text{priv}}(h, x) = 1$ exactly when $x = \mathcal{R}[h]$. An extractor is denied reference-store reads but receives the actual event masks, transcript, acceptance bit, and an independent restart interface.

Proposition 14 (accepted-trial extraction). Suppose independent identically distributed trials accept with probability $p > 0$ and every accepted trial under a fixed separating schedule reconstructs the enrolled value. Decoding the first accepting trial takes expected $1/p$ trials, with failure probability $(1 - p)^n$ after n trials.

Proof. Every accepted trial supplies the value by Theorem 2. Independent trials have a geometric waiting time. □

For randomized schedules, suppose the probability that a schedule fails to separate the enrolled target is at most κ. If $p > \kappa$, then $\Pr[\text{accept} \wedge \text{separating}] \geq p - \kappa$. An extractor that outputs only an accepted singleton therefore has expected trial count at most $1/(p - \kappa)$ and failure after n trials at most $e^{-n(p-\kappa)}$. If each trial, including candidate checking and decoding, costs at most C, expected total cost is at most $C/(p - \kappa)$.

These statements use actual mask access and repeatable trials. A stateful adversary need not support independent restarts. Expected polynomial extraction additionally requires an inverse-polynomial success gap and polynomial trial cost. The ambiguity parameter κ does not automatically become a standard knowledge-error parameter.

Conventional knowledge soundness specifies a relation, adversarial prover class, extractor access, knowledge error, and efficiency guarantee [9]. The results here establish a resource-relative recovery contract. The observer simulator of Section 5 and the extraction procedure target different parties and access conditions; their conjunction alone is not a malicious-verifier zero-knowledge proof of knowledge.

Pairwise independence also does not justify multiplying an arbitrary sequence of success probabilities. If independent fair bits are A, B and $C = A \oplus B$, all pairs are independent but $\Pr[A = B = C = 0] = 1/4$, not $1/8$. Theorem 12 uses the stated conditional uniform-mask experiment, avoiding that inference.

8. Event semantics and implementation contract

8.1 One-use allocation

An event record binds its full identity, account, relying party, operation, profile version, alphabet order, credential length, schedule, mask allocation, and expiry interpretation. A production profile must choose one canonical serialization and an authenticated binding mechanism. Displaying or concatenating these fields does not authenticate them.

```
VerifyConsume(event, context, Z):
    authenticate the event and its intended context
    enter one atomic durable event operation
    reject if absent, expired, or retired
    apply the declared policy to any context mismatch
    retire the eligible event and its complete allocation
    validate framing and compare all required responses
    commit the decision and retirement durably
    return the decision through the authenticated application path
```

Proposition 15 (at-most-once acceptance). If every accepting transition atomically retires the event and retirement is absorbing, at most one acceptance occurs for a full event identity.

Proof. After the first acceptance every subsequent transition begins in a retired state. Atomic serialization excludes two accepting transitions that both begin from the same eligible state. □

The system must not return success before consumption is durable. Failed eligible guesses consume their allocation. An interrupted allocation whose disclosure status is uncertain must be handled by a conservative retirement rule. Replica concurrency, crash recovery, stale backups, and cloned devices all belong to this invariant's implementation assessment.

The invariant limits use count, not who wins a race. A current valid response relayed to its own eligible event may succeed. Preventing harmful relay requires authenticated relying-party identity, operation binding, and a trusted means for Alice to confirm what is being authorized.

8.2 Observation and compromise cases

Three elementary failures delimit the privacy claim. First, reusing one mask across responses gives $Z_1 - Z_2 = U_1 - U_2$, potentially exposing the credential despite uniform marginals. Second, observing a private legend and its selected response gives the cell by inversion. Third, later disclosure of an actual mask allocation permits reconstruction from the recorded calibrated event.

The native verifier already knows the enrollment reference. Compromise of that reference differs from compromise of a verifier storing only a public key or another verification record. A private map alone does not defeat fresh-mask transcript privacy, but a visible per-round legend and response do expose the selected cell. Erasure must include replicas, caches, crash dumps, and backups if post-compromise archive privacy is claimed.

The credential may remain reusable while masks are consumed. Enrollment, revocation, recovery, device replacement, exhaustion, and account ownership are therefore distinct lifecycle responsibilities. A server-held resource is not automatically the claimant's possession factor. Any deployed identity claim must be mapped to its actual authenticator placement and the applicable SP 800-63B-4 requirements [14].

8.3 Carrier and application composition

The abstract symbols may be represented as printed labels, mechanical positions, or digital encodings. A valid representation must preserve values and transitions, retain the stipulated private-resource access, and justify the complete observation law. Appendix A states the conditional preservation theorem. A photograph or an invertible relabeling establishes only a small part of physical conformance.

For authorization, the component's decision must reach an enforcement point that checks the exact intended effect. Appendix B states two extensions: shared-resource messaging and policy-change

approval for AI systems. Their confidentiality, integrity, binding, and mediation obligations are additional to the core membership theorem.

9. Worked examples

9.1 A complete five-response event

Alice remembers key 7. Let $\nu = 12$, so the keypad assignment is unrotated, and let $\Phi = (2, 0, 3, 1)$. Use mask vector $R = (1, 2, 0, 1, 3)$. Color indices 0, 1, 2, 3 may be displayed as red, green, blue, and gold; response indices use up, right, down, and left arrows. Eve sees the public questions and responses while the map and masks remain private.

Round	Question	Cell	Raw	Mask	Release
1	Calibration 0	0	2	1	3
2	Calibration 1	1	0	2	2
3	Calibration 2	2	3	0	3
4	First coordinate of key 7	2	3	1	0
5	Second coordinate of key 7	0	2	3	1

Thus $P = (2, 0, 3, 3, 2)$ and $Z = (3, 2, 3, 0, 1)$. Victor subtracts R, obtains the calibration prefix $(2, 0, 3)$, infers the missing map value 1, and inverts the final pair to $(2, 0)$. The table identifies key 7.

For Eve, every one of the $12 \cdot 24 = 288$ key-map pairs has exactly one compatible mask vector among 1,024 equally likely possibilities. A uniform joint prior remains uniform. A prior assigning key 7 probability 2/5 retains that probability. Publishing the private values in this synthetic example is for reproducibility; doing so for a live event would change the observation model.

9.2 Twelve-digit instance

Take $W = 507219384602$, the same map and rotation, calibration masks $(1, 2, 0)$, and the following data-mask pairs:

$$(1, 3), (2, 0), (0, 1), (3, 2), (1, 0), (2, 3),$$
$$(0, 2), (3, 1), (2, 2), (1, 1), (0, 3), (3, 0).$$

The 27 released values, with grouping marks used only for readability, are

```
3 2 3 | 1 2 | 3 0 | 3 3 | 1 1 | 3 0 | 1 0 |
2 3 | 2 1 | 2 0 | 1 2 | 1 3 | 1 3
```

The companion checker reconstructs the entire PIN and map. The event consumes 54 ideal fresh-mask bits. That resource count, the PIN's prior entropy, and the blind-injection exponent are distinct quantities.

9.3 Six-label decoding and error outcomes

Use the letters-first row-major alphabet `ABCDEFGHIJKLMNOPQRSTUVWXYZ0123456789`, with six columns. K has row 1 and column 4. Let $\Phi = (2, 5, 1, 4, 0, 3)$ and masks $(0, 1)$. Its correct released pair is $(5, 1)$.

Questions	Release	Masks	Reconstructed candidates
Row, column	$(5, 1)$	$(0, 1)$	K
Row, column	$(5, 4)$	$(0, 1)$	L
Row only	(5)	(0)	G, H, I, J, K, L
Row, row	$(5, 2)$	$(0, 1)$	Empty

With K enrolled, only the first complete prescribed schedule matches the reference. The second is a unique wrong candidate. The last constrains one symbol to rows 1 and 2 simultaneously. These examples separate decoding consistency from authentication.

The supplied fast example uses the **digits-first** alphabet and a different map: K has index 20 and coordinates $(3, 2)$, $\Phi = (3, 0, 5, 1, 4, 2)$, and masks $(4, 2)$. The release is again $(5, 1)$, which decodes correctly under that profile. The older letters-first P example uses coordinates $(2, 3)$, the same latter map, and masks $(4, 5)$, giving $(3, 0)$. All three variants are reproduced separately. An alphabet order is part of a profile, not an interchangeable display annotation.

10. Reproducible evidence

10.1 Exact finite computation

The companion supplement provides `check_rw124.py`, its recorded JSON output, the supplied Lean archive, and a file manifest. The checker uses only the Python standard library and synthetic vectors. The run reported here used Python 3.12.14. All listed assertions passed.

Check	Enumerated scope	Result
One-event cancellation and distinct outputs	12 rotations, 24 maps, 12 keys, 1,024 masks	3,538,944 executions
Raw inverse	Every rotation, map, and key	3,456 round trips
Data differences	Every rotation and map; full and decimal alphabets	576 full difference sets
Calibrated difference subgroup	Every rotation; both alphabets	24 groups of size 1,024
Two independent events	Fixed rotation, all maps and keys, all data masks	73,728 executions
Six-label data profile	720 maps, 36 symbols, 36 masks	933,120 executions
Three-label calibrated profile	Six maps, nine symbols, 81 masks	4,374 executions
Symbolic carrier conversion	Three encodings for each three-label execution	13,122 conversions

Additional checks reproduce both supplied six-label alphabet variants, all four decoder outcomes, five-entry versus four-entry calibration completions, the exact rational posterior 2/5, and a reused-mask negative control with disjoint supports for two keys. Entropy values are rounded for display; the combinatorial checks use exact arithmetic.

The full-calibration enumeration is for one-key instances. The proof for arbitrary ℓ is Theorem 10. The billion-event conclusion is Theorem 5, not an extrapolation from the two-event enumeration. Symbolic carrier tests do not establish physical secrecy. These computations were produced within the same AI-assisted preparation process and are not represented as independent replication.

10.2 Formalization scope

The supplied `ENI6MA_Lean4.zip` contains the earlier compact mathematical model. Its recorded audit reports 74 checked theorem declarations using Lean 4.19.0 and Mathlib v4.19.0. Inspection confirmed the source digest and found no proof placeholders or custom axiom declarations. Standard Lean dependencies such as classical choice, propositional extensionality, and quotient soundness appear in the audit.

The archive covers additive release and cancellation, finite uniform output, a mutual-information formulation, reconstruction under separation, deterministic expansion bounds, and an abstract at-most-once state property. It uses full q-entry calibration. The current $q-1$-entry calibration, exact difference-subgroup bounds, and stronger game-specific claims require explicit correspondence and formal extension. A fresh Lean compiler run was not performed during preparation of this manuscript.

The recorded Lean source SHA-256 is

`fb9bd8933bad0f7790ce98fa1a8af3a07772acacce7331cf665cf147b44af97a`

10.3 Evaluation still needed for implementations

A human study should compare ENI6MA, direct encoded responses under the same masks, and a conventional authenticator activated through the same protected interface. Measure learning, completion time, errors, retries, retention, abandonment, accessibility, and mistaken approval of an operation. Resource assumptions must be matched across groups.

Physical and software evaluation should inventory the complete allowed trace: cameras, reflections, timing, input APIs, screen capture, browser extensions, logs, transport metadata, recovery events, and actual decision feedback. State testing should cover concurrent replicas, repeated submissions, interrupted commits, restored backups, allocation exhaustion, and cloned devices. Finite empirical tests can reveal failures; a failure to find leakage is not a proof of exact independence.

No participant dataset, production benchmark, independently rebuilt implementation, or physical carrier evaluation is reported here. The established evidence consists of the mathematical derivations, exact synthetic checks, and scoped formal artifact described above.

11. Related work and the proposed distinction

11.1 Additive secrecy and resource accounting

Shannon's secrecy framework already explains why identical ciphertext laws preserve the message prior [2]. ENI6MA's release is exactly

$$X \xrightarrow{P_G} P_G(X) \xrightarrow{+R} Z. \tag{20}$$

Its authorized inverse is subtraction followed by inversion of the calibrated encoding on its image. Geometry and the naming map are not necessary for the secrecy of a uniformly padded fixed encoding. They define the chosen human task and recovery interface.

This exact factorization provides a direct baseline. A two-symbol base-four label for a keypad key, masked under the same private resource, uses the same two data responses and four mask bits. ENI6MA's proposed distinction is the balanced membership task and its integrated contract. A direct protected input followed by a conventional authenticator is another necessary baseline: if both

systems receive a fully trusted private interface, their respective benefits must be measured under that common assumption.

Resource claims should also distinguish initial key entropy, consumed entropy, and repeated-use models. Prior analysis of error-free perfect secrecy makes this distinction explicit [8]. The bounds here concern independent additive masks for specified raw encodings and full admitted domains.

11.2 Human and visual identification

Hopper and Blum studied formal human identification and its computational constraints [3]. Naor and Pinkas developed visual authentication and identification using private visual resources and security analysis without computational hardness assumptions [4]. Their treatment includes explicit assumptions about human capabilities and secrecy of the visual resource. These are close comparisons, rather than categories excluded by ENI6MA's terminology.

Recognition-based authentication also predates this construction. Dhamija and Perrig's Deja Vu study supplies an example of evaluating a visual authentication interface with users [5]. A visual presentation, human participation, private resource, or repeated use by itself therefore cannot establish ENI6MA's historical novelty.

The relevant comparison asks whether the exact membership interface and resource constraints yield a meaningful functionality, theorem, efficiency, or usability difference. Claims that earlier visual systems lack an archive or extraction property require a common experiment and a source-based comparison of their actual guarantees. This manuscript identifies the closest comparison classes without claiming an exhaustive priority search.

11.3 Authentication, PAKE, and public-key credentials

Wegman-Carter authentication concerns authenticity of messages and offers an established information-theoretic comparison [6]. Perfectly masking the membership word does not by itself authenticate arbitrary operation data. Portmann's composable analysis of authentication and key recycling further shows why acceptance feedback and the complete interaction need their own accounting [7].

OPAQUE specifies an augmented password-authenticated key exchange with a different server-privacy and authentication model [10]. ENI6MA's native verifier knows enrollment and has authorized decoding access. WebAuthn uses relying-party-scoped public-key credentials and a challenge-response ceremony [11]. These alternatives already avoid making a private key the observable login answer; ENI6MA's motivation must therefore be a specific human-input and observation problem.

Dimension	ENI6MA profile	Required comparison
Human task	Per-symbol membership decisions	Time, error, training, retention
Private resources	Confidential handling and event masks	Equivalent device, channel, and key resources
Verifier knowledge	Native enrolled reference	Public key, record, or secret held by alternative
Passive guarantee	Exact declared-channel independence	Exact or computational guarantee in the same view
Active guarantee	Interface-specific bounds and external binding	Same guesses, relays, feedback, and compromise access
Lifetime cost	Mask consumption and state	Provisioning, storage, maintenance, and recovery

12. Qualification as a proposed cryptographic primitive

The affirmative case rests on a defined reusable operation: transform protected membership choices into a released transcript that is independent of the protected value, while retaining a separately authorized inverse and reference-verification interface. The family has finite parameter domains, explicit algorithms, representative members, proofs, quantitative resource bounds, and reproducible checks. A higher-level application can invoke the component through its event and decision interfaces without changing the underlying membership proof.

The contribution proposed for classification is the complete constrained abstraction. Its qualifications are summarized below.

Qualification	Evidence in this manuscript
Defined functionality and admissible family	Sections 2-3
Correctness and authorized inverse	Theorem 2
Separated public/private information	Theorems 3-5
Explicit treatment of extra observations	Proposition 6
Exact private-randomness characterization	Theorem 7
Matching representative-instance bounds	Theorems 9-10; Proposition 11
Scoped active authentication and extraction	Theorems 12-13; Proposition 14
Single-use event contract	Proposition 15 and Section 8
Reproducibility and formal-artifact scope	Section 10 and supplement
Exact relationship to classical mechanisms	Section 11

These establish a concrete object for evaluation as a cryptographic building block. A finding of historical novelty additionally requires a material distinction from earlier equal-resource constructions. A composition of established mechanisms can be useful and can support a new construction, but its name and correctness do not determine that classification. The open comparison is whether this family contract and its constrained results warrant recognition as a distinct primitive, a new construction of an existing functionality, or a specialized interface profile.

NIST's Privacy-Enhancing Cryptography project includes identification and authentication among relevant applications and develops understanding of techniques that may inform future standardization [15]. The proposed evaluation request is therefore to assess the membership-response abstraction, verify its mathematical claims, examine its private-resource model, and evaluate its distinction from the closest alternatives. NISTIR 7977 supplies process context for open technical scrutiny [16]. The qualification table is this paper's analytical organization, not an official admission checklist.

Three research directions would most strengthen a favorable classification: independent proof and artifact replication; a matched human-interface and observation study; and a detailed equivalence or separation analysis against protected-input, visual-identification, and classical masking baselines. A deployed profile additionally needs a concrete binding, provisioning, state, and recovery design.

13. Conclusion

Rosario-Wang ENI6MA specifies a human membership-response family with exact transcript privacy and authorized reconstruction under explicit private resources. The canonical twelve-key profile separates symbols with two balanced questions, reconstructs the naming map through three masked

calibration responses, and has matching independent-additive mask costs. The general family extends the same contract to other finite alphabets and label counts.

The resulting proposal is technically precise: the observer's posterior is unchanged across every finite permitted archive; the authorized decoder recovers from actual private state; and authentication success depends on the attacker's declared interfaces. Exact factorization into encoding and additive secrecy makes its relationship to classical cryptography transparent. The submission presents this integrated abstraction and constrained analysis for independent evaluation as a proposed cryptographic primitive.

Appendix A. Additional structural results

A.1 Coincidence leakage without fresh masks

Let $c = c(W, G)$ be the complete raw color sequence and let $\Pi(c)$ denote its equality pattern: which positions contain equal labels. Every bijection preserves that pattern. If Φ is uniform and independent of (W, G, B), the unmasked sequence $U = \Phi(c)$ satisfies

$$I(W; U \mid B, G) = \mathsf{H}(\Pi(c(W, G)) \mid B, G). \tag{21}$$

Proof. Color sequences have the same equality pattern exactly when a permutation maps one to the other. A pattern using k labels has an orbit of size $q!/(q-k)!$. A uniform map makes U uniform on that orbit, so conditioned on the pattern its law is independent of W. Conversely the pattern is determined by U and, given G, by W. The mutual-information chain rule gives (21). □

For a nonuniform map, a map correlated with W, or a posterior already conditioned on raw observations, the exact equality need not hold. Pattern preservation remains true, but additional leakage can occur. With one map reused across observations, analyze the full concatenated sequence rather than adding unsupported independent per-session estimates.

A.2 Conditional carrier preservation

Let ρ be an injective representation of abstract states and let a carrier operation satisfy $f_{\text{carrier}}(\rho(s)) = \rho(f(s))$, with corresponding laws for randomized transitions. Suppose it preserves actual private-resource access and its complete visible trace V is generated by a kernel depending only on permitted (B, T).

Then $I(X; T, V \mid B) = 0$ by Proposition 6. Reconstruction transfers by applying the representation inverse, the abstract decoder, and any required output representation. Extraction bounds transfer only if the restart, acceptance, and actual-resource interfaces also preserve the same trial law.

Paper, mechanical, and digital realizations must separately justify these hypotheses. Printed marks and handling, mechanical sound and motion, digital raw-input events and telemetry, and all private-state copies may alter the observation or access model. The supplement's symbolic label conversions establish representation consistency only.

Appendix B. Application extensions

B.1 Shared-resource communication

An injective message encoding E can be encrypted as $C = E(M) + R$. Uniform independent masks give the usual pad confidentiality for the declared framing. This is the classical encryption mechanism applied to the selected code. Membership authentication can authorize access to a resource but does not create its shared entropy.

A message profile must define length leakage, padding, direction, allocation namespaces, retries, cloning, exhaustion, and resynchronization. Additive masking is malleable: modifying ciphertext by Δ changes the decoded codeword by Δ. Integrity and metadata authentication require a separate construction and an active verification-query bound. A pre-shared pad also does not establish a private channel to an unprovisioned party by itself.

B.2 Policy-change authorization for AI systems

An external monitor can require a successful bound event before committing a policy change. The approval must identify the principal, relying party, exact policy bytes or authenticated commitment, prior version, operation parameters, and event. The monitor must mediate every path to the covered effect, including delegated tools, administrative changes, recovery, and changes to its own enforcement logic.

If every unauthorized effect in one defined experiment implies authentication, binding, boundary, state, or ledger failure, then

$$\Pr[\text{unauthorized effect}] \leq \epsilon_{\text{auth}} + \epsilon_{\text{bind}} + \epsilon_{\text{boundary}} + \epsilon_{\text{state}} + \epsilon_{\text{ledger}}. \tag{22}$$

This is a union bound and requires no independence. Each term needs a bound under the same adversarial experiment, and the implication covering all unauthorized paths must be established. Zero transcript information is not zero forgery probability. An immutable log does not by itself protect a local active-policy pointer, interpreter, recovery authority, or resource monitor. This extension states a composition target rather than an implemented agent-security result.

Research transparency and artifact availability

This manuscript consolidates the supplied ENI6MA mathematical manuscripts, compact proof, Lean package, and subsequent classification and review documents. The companion `ENI6MA_NIST_Submission_Supplement.zip` contains the executable checker, recorded results, manuscript build sources, source provenance, and the supplied Lean archive. Its checks are research computations using synthetic inputs. The two earlier PDF filenames containing "Review" identify draft manuscripts and are not treated as independent referee reports.

AI assistance was used in manuscript drafting, consolidation, mathematical analysis, code preparation, and reference review. The manuscript does not represent these activities as independent human peer review. Human authors are responsible for the submitted claims, final authorship, affiliations, disclosures, and the requirements of the selected venue. No institutional endorsement, completed human study, or production validation is asserted.

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ATTACHMENT G

Unified Geometric Formalization

Rosario-Wang ENI6MA

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ENI6MA: A Unified Geometry of Private Navigation and Observable Projection

Definitions, assumptions, theorems, proofs, and reproducible finite verification

Version: 1.0
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Scope: The Rosario–Wang ENI6MA finite membership model, its affine interpretation, and a canonical circular-sector specialization.

Verification status. The results below have explicit proofs under stated mathematical hypotheses. The accompanying exact-arithmetic program checks finite instances and selected counterexamples. This is not proof-assistant certification, independent peer review, or certification that a physical implementation satisfies the hypotheses. Historical originality is a separate question from validity of the implications proved here.

Central statement. The geometry permits an authorized decoder to identify one enrolled target from a privately decoded navigation path, while the specified public observation remains equally likely under every credential. The observation identifies a fiber of possible internal states. Authorized decoding information identifies a private slice. A separating schedule makes their intersection the actual target state.

The result requires both incidence and measure: geometry determines which states are compatible, and the mask distribution determines their observable likelihoods.

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1. Mathematical objects and notation

All sets and probability spaces are finite until the explicitly separate smooth example in Section 17. All logarithms in entropy are base two; $\ln$ denotes the natural logarithm.

Symbol	Meaning
$\mathcal L$	Finite alphabet of possible enrolled symbols
N	Alphabet size, $N=\#\mathcal L\ge2$
ℓ	Number of symbols in the enrolled value
S	Permitted target set, a nonempty subset of $\mathcal L^\ell$
$s=(s_1,\ldots,s_\ell)$	A particular enrolled target
H	Number of labeled cells in each question, $2\le H\le N$
T	Total number of questions
G	Complete public schedule of questions and tested positions
$B_{t,i}$	Cell $i\in\mathbb Z_H$ of question t
j_t	Position of the enrolled value tested by question t
$f_t(s)$	Cell index containing s_{j_t}
$f_G(s)$	Complete membership signature $(f_1(s),\ldots,f_T(s))$
Φ	Permitted set of bijective private vocabularies
φ	A private bijection from $\mathbb Z_H$ to $\mathbb Z_H$
$C=(s,\varphi)$	Credential pair being protected
A	Response group $((\mathbb Z_H)^T)$, with coordinatewise addition
$p_{G,\varphi}(s)$	Raw response signature, with φ applied coordinatewise
M	Secret release-mask word in A
Y	Released word $p_{G,\varphi}(s)+M$
$O=(G,Y)$	Declared public observation
Z	Public or pre-existing side information covered by the conditional model
$\mathcal D$	Private enrollment reference store
$\xi=(u,a,v)$	Account, field, and version handle
$\mathcal D[\xi]$	Enrolled value associated with that fixed handle
U_p	Additive subgroup generated by signature differences

| \(d_H\) | Hamming distance: number of unequal response coordinates |
| \(\mathrm H\), \(I\) | Shannon entropy and mutual information |

The numerical encoding of a private response vocabulary is part of the additive profile. It does not assert that a human must mentally perform modular arithmetic. A protected component can perform the release transformation.

For each schedule,

$$
f_t(s)=i\quad\Longleftrightarrow\quad s_{j_t}\in B_{t,i},
\qquad
p_{G,\varphi}(s)_t=\varphi(f_t(s)).
\tag{D1}
$$

A schedule separates \(S\) if \(f_G:S\to A\) is injective. This condition is proved for particular permitted geometries below; it is not automatically true of every schedule.

2. Axioms and model hypotheses

These assumptions specify the mathematical model. Calling a deployment condition an axiom does not verify its physical implementation.

A1 — Partition structure. Each question is an ordered partition

$$
\mathcal L=\bigsqcup_{i\in\mathbb Z_H}B_{t,i}
$$

into nonempty cells, with a specified tested position \(j_t\). Thus every target determines one cell answer per question. The general theory does not require equal cell sizes.

A2 — Fixed enrollment and vocabulary. A fixed handle \(\xi\) refers to one value \(s_*=\mathcal D[\xi]\in S\) throughout a test. The authorized decoder has the fixed bijection \(\varphi\). The store and dictionary are not included in the declared observer view.

A3 — Exact decoding. Given \(Y,M,\varphi\), the authorized process computes

$$
\widehat i_t=\varphi^{-1}(Y_t-M_t).
\tag{D2}
$$

This is an algebraic inverse in the stated response representation.

A4 — Exact membership acceptance. In the exact native verification rule,

$$
\mathsf{Acc}=1
\quad\Longleftrightarrow\quad
s_{*,j_t}\in B_{t,\widehat i_t}\text{ for every }t.
\tag{D3}
$$

Malformed responses are rejected. Additional event-state conditions may also be required by an application. The reconstruction proof needs the implication from acceptance to every stated membership condition.

A5 — Public schedule independence. For the joint public-view privacy claim,

$$
G\perp C\mid Z.
\tag{D4}
$$

All conclusions conditioned on \(Z\) require the other relevant independence assumptions to remain valid under that conditioning.

A6 — Full-mask profile. In the general ideal profile, \(M\) is uniform on \(A\) and independent of the credential, schedule, and raw response under the declared conditioning. For valid responses the raw word is deterministic given \(C,G\). For a possibly erroneous raw word \(W\), the required formulation is

$$
\Pr[M=m\mid C,G,Z,W]=|A|^{-1}.
\tag{D5}
$$

This condition excludes raw answers that are chosen using information about the unreleased mask.

A7 — Declared observation. The observer receives exactly \(O=(G,Y)\) and the modeled \(Z\). Any additional result bit, timing, error report, device signal, or later secret disclosure is a new observation variable requiring

analysis. For a correctly generated honest session under exact membership checking, the membership acceptance bit is the constant one and adds no information.

A8 — Extraction experiment. When extraction bounds are invoked, the extractor has the alphabet, schedule generator, private vocabulary, mask generation and decoding for its own tests, repeatable prover access, and the stated verification access. Fresh trials start from the specified prover state and use independent trial randomness. The extractor has no operation that reads $\mathcal D[\xi]$.

Three further conditions are used only where stated:

- **SEP:** the selected schedule separates the target, or has a quantified probability of failing to do so.
- **CIRC:** the canonical circular-sector restrictions in Section 12.
- **SUB:** an alternative mask law on a subgroup or its cosets, analyzed in Sections 8 and 13–14. SUB is a separate profile; it does not inherit A6's protection for arbitrary raw words.

A short pseudorandom seed is not automatically an implementation of A6. The ideal entropy claim concerns the actual secret distribution available at the observation boundary.

3. Navigation by successive intersections

For a decoded answer i in question t, define the constraint on complete targets

$$
Q_{t,i}=\{s\in S:s_{j_t}\in B_{t,i}\}.
\tag{N1}
$$

Given decoded answers $\widehat i_1,\ldots,\widehat i_T$, define

$$
V_0=S,\qquad V_t=V_{t-1}\cap Q_{t,\widehat i_t}.
\tag{N2}
$$

The navigation path is the sequence

$$
\Gamma=(V_0,V_1,\ldots,V_T).
\tag{N3}
$$

Formally, it is a path in a layered refinement graph whose vertices are pairs (t,V). An edge advances the question index and intersects the current candidate set with the selected cell constraint. Repeated candidate sets are allowed.

This is a combinatorial navigation rule. No physical ray, metric geodesic, or continuous trajectory is required.

Lemma 1.1 — Exact terminal candidate set.

$$
V_T=\{s\in S:f_G(s)=(\widehat i_1,\ldots,\widehat i_T)\}.
\tag{N4}
$$

Proof. Successively intersecting the constraints retains exactly the targets satisfying every coordinate equality. This is the right side of (N4). $\square$

Theorem 1 — Accepted separating navigation determines the enrolled target. Under A1–A4, acceptance implies $s_*\in V_t$ for every t. If

$$
f_G^{-1}(f_G(s_*))=\{s_*\},
\tag{N5}
$$

then an accepted transcript satisfies $V_T=\{s_*\}$.

Proof. The enrolled target begins in V_0. A4 places its tested symbol in every selected cell, so intersection never removes it. Acceptance also makes the decoded signature equal to $f_G(s_*)$. Lemma 1.1 and (N5) now make the terminal set exactly the stated singleton. $\square$

Global injectivity is sufficient for (N5), but target-specific separation is enough for this theorem.

For the native product space $S=\mathcal L^\ell$, maintain coordinate candidates

$$
V_j=\bigcap_{t:j_t=j}B_{t,\widehat i_t}.
\tag{N6}
$$

An empty intersection index means $V_j=\mathcal L$. Then $V_T=\prod_j V_j$. For a restricted $S\subseteq\mathcal L^\ell$, the correct expression is $V_T=S\cap\prod_jV_j$.

Lemma 1.2 — Abstract response-count bound. If a position is independently allowed all N alphabet symbols and is separated by m_j questions, then

$$
H^{m_j}\ge N,\qquad m_j\ge\lceil\log_HN\rceil.
\tag{N7}
$$

There are at most H^{m_j} distinct answer signatures, so injectivity requires at least N available signatures. The bound does not account for geometric restrictions on which partitions are permitted.

4. State space, observation fibers, and private slices

Fix a public schedule G. Let $\mathcal C=S\times\Phi$ and define the full internal state space

$$
\mathcal E_G=\mathcal C\times A.
\tag{F1}
$$

An internal point (s,φ,m) specifies a target, a vocabulary, and a mask. Its observable projection is

$$
\mathcal P_G(s,\varphi,m)=p_{G,\varphi}(s)+m.
\tag{F2}
$$

“Projection” here means an observation map. It need not be an orthogonal or idempotent linear projection.

For observation y, credential $c=(s,\varphi)$, and private data $((\varphi_*,m_*)$, define

$$
F_y=\mathcal P_G^{-1}(y),\qquad
L_c=\{c\}\times A,\qquad
K_{\varphi_*,m_*}=S\times\{\varphi_*\}\times\{m_*\}.
\tag{F3}
$$

Theorem 2 — Fiber-and-slice incidence.

$$
F_y\cap L_{(s,\varphi)}
=
\{(s,\varphi,y-p_{G,\varphi}(s))\}.
\tag{F4}
$$

Consequently,

$$
\#F_y=\#\mathcal C,\qquad
\operatorname{pr}_{\mathcal C}(F_y)=\mathcal C.
\tag{F5}
$$

Moreover,

$$
F_y\cap K_{\varphi_*,m_*}
=
\{(s,\varphi_*,m_*):p_{G,\varphi_*}(s)=y-m_*\}.
\tag{F6}
$$

For a separating schedule and an actual valid observation $y=p_{G,\varphi_*}(s_*)+m_*$,

$$
\boxed{
F_y\cap K_{\varphi_*,m_*}
=\{(s_*,\varphi_*,m_*)\}.
}
\tag{F7}
$$

Proof. For a fixed credential, the equation $p_{G,\varphi}(s)+m=y$ has the unique group solution $m=y-p_{G,\varphi}(s)$. This proves (F4) and its counting consequences. Fixing the dictionary and mask yields (F6). A bijection applied coordinatewise preserves injectivity of the membership signature. Separation therefore supplies

uniqueness, while the actual valid observation supplies existence. \(\square\)

The exterior observation has an explanation for every credential. The private slice singles out the actual target when the schedule separates.

This does not assume that \(c\mapsto p_G(c)\) is injective over the full target-vocabulary pair. Recovery fixes the vocabulary as part of authorized access. Knowledge of the target and knowledge of the vocabulary are separate witness claims.

5. Observation-preserving symmetries

Write \(p_G(c)\) for the raw signature of credential \(c\). For any permutation \(\theta\) of \(\mathcal C\), set

\[
R_\theta(c,m)
=
\bigl(\theta(c),m+p_G(c)-p_G(\theta(c))\bigr).
\tag{S1}
\]

Theorem 3 — Fiber symmetry.

\[
\mathcal P_G\circ R_\theta=\mathcal P_G,
\qquad
R_\theta\circ R_\eta=R_{\theta\circ\eta}.
\tag{S2}
\]

The orbits of this action are exactly the fibers \(F_y\).

Proof. Substitution cancels the two signature terms, proving observation preservation. The same cancellation proves the composition law. Every transformation stays within a fiber; conversely, any two credentials in one fiber can be related by a permutation, and their masks then agree with the compensation required by (S1). \(\square\)

These are symmetries of the observation relation. They need not preserve the circle's adjacency, Euclidean angles, or an actual optical device.

The coordinate change

\[
(c,m)\longmapsto(c,p_G(c)+m)
\tag{S3}
\]

is invertible. Thus the basic observation space can be straightened into a product. This explains why fibers and symmetries alone do not establish a newly discovered manifold. Group actions and orbits are established tools. [Keith Conrad, Group Actions](https://kconrad.math.uconn.edu/blurbs/grouptheory/gpaction.pdf).

6. Perfect privacy and its information-theoretic consequences

Theorem 4 — Conditional perfect privacy of the full-mask view. Under A5–A7,

\[
\Pr[Y=y\mid C=c,G=g,Z=z]=|A|^{-1}
\tag{P1}
\]

for every conditioning event of positive probability. Therefore,

\[
\boxed{I(C;(G,Y)\mid Z)=0.}
\tag{P2}
\]

No uniform prior on \(C\) is required.

Proof. For a valid raw signature, exactly one mask \(y-p_{g,\varphi}(s)\) gives observation \(y\), and A6 assigns it probability \(|A|^{-1}\). More generally, if a raw word \(W\) is random but satisfies (D5),

\[
\Pr[Y=y\mid c,g,z]
=
\sum_w\Pr[W=w\mid c,g,z]|A|^{-1}
=
|A|^{-1}.
\]

Using A5,

```
\[
\Pr[C=c,G=g,Y=y\mid Z=z]
=
\Pr[C=c\mid z]\Pr[G=g\mid z]|A|^{-1}.
\tag{P3}
\]

This factors into the conditional credential law and conditional observation law. Hence the variables are conditionally independent. Substitution into the finite mutual-information formula gives terms with logarithmic ratio one, proving (P2). \(\square\)

The geometric part is the one-point-per-credential incidence (F4). The probabilistic part is the uniform weight assigned to each compatible mask.

**Corollary 4.1 — Posterior preservation.**

\[
\Pr[C=c\mid O=o,Z=z]=\Pr[C=c\mid Z=z].
\tag{P4}
\]

Thus the optimal credential guessing probability is unchanged, and every decision problem based on the credential has the same optimal expected payoff before and after this observation.

**Proof.** Bayes' rule applied to the factorization proves the posterior identity. Conditional expected utilities depend only on that posterior, so optimization over possible actions gives the same value. \(\square\)

**Corollary 4.2 — Processing and additional outer hiding.** Any algorithm that uses only \(O,Z\) and independent private randomness receives no additional credential information from its processing. If \(J\) is an outer-encryption key independent of \((C,O)\) conditional on \(Z\), and \(B=F(O,J,Z)\), then

\[
I(C;B\mid Z)=I(C;O,B,J\mid Z)=0.
\tag{P5}
\]

**Proof.** Conditional independence is preserved by a randomized channel whose input is the observation. For the stronger joint expression, \((O,J)\) is independent of \(C\) given \(Z\), and \(B\) is a function of \((O,J,Z)\). \(\square\)

This is the exact replacement claim: additional computational encryption supplies no further credential confidentiality for the already independent released view. The release masks themselves remain a secrecy resource.

**Corollary 4.3 — Repeated sessions.** A sequence of sessions preserves the posterior if, conditional on the past public history and \(Z\), each next public schedule is credential-independent and its next mask satisfies A6. Induction factors the complete joint observation distribution. Reusing masks does not satisfy this hypothesis in general.

**Observation extension rule.** For additional disclosed data \(L\),

\[
I(C;O,L\mid Z)
=
I(C;O\mid Z)+I(C;L\mid O,Z).
\tag{P6}
\]

The second term must be analyzed. In particular, later mask disclosure can reveal raw responses, and rejection or error feedback can differ from the constant honest acceptance bit.

This is perfect secrecy in the information-theoretic sense established by Shannon. The application here concerns a specified authentication response surface. [Shannon, Communication Theory of Secrecy Systems](https://pages.cs.wisc.edu/~rist/642-spring-2014/shannon-secrecy.pdf).

## 7. Exact raw-response leakage under a uniform private vocabulary

This section uses an additional distributional hypothesis: \(\varphi\) is uniform over all permutations of \(\mathbb Z_H\), independently of \(s,G\).

Let \(P\) be the equality pattern of the membership signature: positions belong to the same block exactly when their cell indices are equal. A bijection preserves that pattern in the raw response \(W=p_{G,\varphi}(s)\).

**Theorem 5 — Raw equality-pattern leakage.**

\[
\boxed{I(s;W\mid G)=\mathrm H(P\mid G).}
\tag{R1}
\]

If \(d\) is the number of distinct labels used in the signature, then
```

```
00413
00414 \[
00415 I((s,\varphi);W\mid G)
00416 =
00417 \mathrm H(P\mid G)
00418 +
00419 \mathbb E\log_2\frac{H!}{(H-d)!}.
00420 \tag{R2}
00421 \]
00422
00423 **Proof.** Given a signature with \(d\) distinct cell labels, the uniform permutation assigns \(d\) distinct output
      labels uniformly among the \(H!/(H-d)!\) possibilities. Consequently, conditional on \(P,G\), the law of \(W\) is
      independent of which target produced that pattern. Since \(P\) is a function of both \(s,G\) and \(W\),
00424
00425 \[
00426 I(s;W\mid G)
00427 =
00428 I(s;P\mid G)+I(s;W\mid P,G)
00429 =
00430 \mathrm H(P\mid G).
00431 \]
00432
00433 Also,
00434
00435 \[
00436 \mathrm H(W\mid G)
00437 =
00438 \mathrm H(P\mid G)+
00439 \mathbb E\log_2\frac{H!}{(H-d)!}.
00440 \]
00441
00442 The raw word is deterministic given \(s,\varphi,G\), proving (R2). \(\square\)
00443
00444 This explains why the private navigation path and its externally masked release are different observation surfaces.
      The raw word preserves repetition structure; the full-mask released word has the target-independent law in Theorem 4.
00445
00446 ## 8. Classification of additive hiding distributions
00447
00448 Let \(\mathcal X\) be a nonempty finite hidden-state set and \(p:\mathcal X\to A\). It can represent targets with the
       dictionary fixed, or complete credential pairs. Define
00449
00450 \[
00451 U_p=\langle p(x)-p(x'):x,x'\in\mathcal X\rangle.
00452 \tag{M1}
00453 \]
00454
00455 Let an independent mask have probability mass function \(\mu\).
00456
00457 **Theorem 6 — Complete additive mask-law classification.** The distributions of \(p(x)+M\) are identical for every
      \(x\) exactly when
00458
00459 \[
00460 \boxed{
00461 \mu(v+u)=\mu(v)
00462 \quad\text{for all }v\in A,\ u\in U_p.
00463 }
00464 \tag{M2}
00465 \]
00466
00467 Equivalently, the mask law is an arbitrary mixture of uniform distributions on cosets of \(U_p\).
00468
00469 **Proof.** Output-law equality is
00470
00471 \[
00472 \mu(y-p(x))=\mu(y-p(x'))
00473 \]
00474
00475 for all states and observations. This is invariance under each generating difference. Translation invariance extends
      to their sums and inverses, hence to the generated subgroup. Conversely, invariance under that subgroup implies the
      original equalities. Translations act transitively within a coset, so an invariant law is constant there; the total
      weights of different cosets can be arbitrary. \(\square\)
00476
00477 **Corollary 6.1 — Sharp entropy requirement.** Let \(J=M+U_p\) be the random coset containing the mask. Then every
      private mask law satisfies
00478
00479 \[
00480 \boxed{
00481 \mathrm H(M)=\log_2\#U_p+\mathrm H(J).
00482 }
00483 \tag{M3}
```

```
\]

Thus

\[
\mathrm H(M)\ge\log_2\#U_p,
\qquad
\#\operatorname{supp}(M)\ge\#U_p.
\tag{M4}
\]

Equality in entropy holds exactly for the uniform distribution on one coset.

**Proof.** The coset is determined by the mask, and conditional on any positive-probability coset the mask is uniform on its \(\#U_p\) points. Apply the entropy chain rule. \(\square\)

**Corollary 6.2 — Uniform subgroup criterion.** If the mask is uniform on a specified subgroup \(U\le A\), privacy holds exactly when

\[
p(x)-p(x')\in U\quad\text{for all }x,x'.
\tag{M5}
\]

Otherwise the observable class \(Y+U=p(x)+U\) distinguishes at least two hidden-state classes.

The minimum is relative to independent additive masking of the chosen signature representation. Globally re-encoding a target can change the required group and the minimum entropy.

For joint credential privacy, use all permitted \((s,\varphi)\) in \(\mathcal X\), and one mask distribution independent of which credential was enrolled. A mask space selected from the actual hidden dictionary may itself disclose information.

## 9. Hidden directions generated by geometric adjacency

Suppose a connected graph on \(\mathcal X\) specifies permitted local target changes. Orient each edge \(uv\) and define

\[
\Delta_{uv}=p(v)-p(u).
\tag{G1}
\]

**Theorem 7 — Edge generation.**

\[
\boxed{
U_p=\langle\Delta_{uv}:uv\text{ is an edge}\rangle.
}
\tag{G2}
\]

**Proof.** Each edge increment is a signature difference. Conversely, a graph path connecting two vertices gives their signature difference as a telescoping signed sum of edge increments. Connectivity supplies a path for every pair. \(\square\)

When \(A=\mathbb F_q^T\) and masks are required to be uniform on an \(\mathbb F_q\)-linear subspace, the minimum hidden linear dimension is

\[
\boxed{
\dim_{\mathbb F_q}
\operatorname{span}\{\Delta_{uv}\}
=
\dim_{\mathbb F_q}\operatorname{aff}(p(\mathcal X)).
}
\tag{G3}
\]

Here the dimension of an affine set means the dimension of its direction space. This follows by applying Theorem 7's telescoping argument to linear spans.

If \(q\) is prime, additive subgroups are linear subspaces, so the subgroup and linear classifications coincide. For nonprime prime powers, arbitrary additive subgroups and \(\mathbb F_q\)-linear subspaces are different permitted mask families.

This theorem makes the gem's hidden directions calculable from local changes. It does not imply that the minimum Hamming distance is attained on an edge in every geometry. That stronger statement is proved for the circular family below.
```

```
## 10. Finite affine geometry

A linear specialization gives literal affine spaces and dimension formulas.

Let \(q\) be a prime power, take \(S=\mathbb F_q^d\), \(A=\mathbb F_q^r\), and let \(B:\mathbb F_q^d\to\mathbb F_q^r\) have rank \(k\). Define

\[
P(x,m)=Bx+m.
\tag{A1}
\]

This subsection uses field arithmetic, not integer arithmetic modulo a composite \(q\).

**Theorem 8 — Affine fiber and slice dimensions.**

\[
\ker P=\{(v,-Bv):v\in\mathbb F_q^d\},
\qquad
\dim\ker P=d.
\tag{A2}
\]

Every observation fiber is

\[
F_y=(0,y)+\ker P,
\tag{A3}
\]

with \(q^d\) points. Its intersection with a fixed mask slice \(K_m\) is either empty or an affine set of dimension \(d-k\), with \(q^{d-k}\) points.

**Proof.** Solving \(Bx+m=0\) gives (A2), parametrized injectively by \(v\). Translating the kernel gives (A3). Fixing \(m\) leaves \(Bx=y-m\); if solvable, this solution set is a translate of \(\ker B\), of dimension \(d-k\). \(\square\)

Full column rank \(k=d\) therefore gives a unique point in every valid private intersection. If \(r=d\) and \(B\) is invertible, every fiber meets every private slice once and their direction subspaces are complementary. If \(r>d\), some fiber-slice pairs can be disjoint.

For this linear signature family, \(U_p=\operatorname{im}B\). Uniform masking on the image hides all signatures and uses \(k\log_2q\) bits of entropy. When \(B\) is injective, this is \(d\log_2q\).

The two independent quantities are visible: the public full-state fiber has dimension \(d\), while a valid authorized target intersection has dimension \(d-k\). The mask distribution is a further choice that supplies a secrecy statement.

## 11. The enrolled target relation and scoped extraction

Geometry identifies the target associated with decoded answers. The enrollment relation connects that target to a declared account and field.

Define

\[
\mathcal R_{\mathcal D}(\xi,w)=1
\quad\Longleftrightarrow\quad
w=\mathcal D[\xi].
\tag{K1}
\]

The verifier evaluates this relation using private reference state. Enrollment correctness is a premise; the geometric proof does not establish a civil identity or exclusive human possession of a memorized value.

A copied public curve, or an arbitrary public word with a nonempty fiber, does not establish \(\mathcal R_{\mathcal D}\). Acceptance is the additional predicate that tests decoded answers against the enrolled target.

### 11.1 Extraction with opaque final acceptance

Let \(\mathsf{Bad}_{s_*}\) mean that the sampled schedule fails to separate the enrolled target:

\[
f_G^{-1}(f_G(s_*))\ne\{s_*\}.
\]

Suppose

\[
\Pr[\mathsf{Bad}_{s_*}]\le\kappa,\qquad
```

```
\Pr[\mathsf{Acc}]=p>\kappa.
\tag{K2}
\]

Use the A8 access model, including an opaque final acceptance bit. On each fresh trial:

1. Generate a valid schedule and masks for the test.
2. Run the prover and decode the complete response.
3. Obtain final acceptance.
4. If accepted, form the candidate intersections.
5. Output only if the surviving complete target is a singleton; otherwise repeat.

**Theorem 9 — Scoped private-reference extraction.** The extractor never outputs an incorrect enrolled value. Its expected number of trials is at most

\[
\boxed{\mathbb E[\text{trials}]\le\frac1{p-\kappa}.}
\tag{K3}
\]

After \(n\) independent trials,

\[
\boxed{
\Pr[\text{no output}]\le(1-(p-\kappa))^n
\le e^{-n(p-\kappa)}.
}
\tag{K4}
\]

**Proof.** Without requiring independence between acceptance and ambiguity,

\[
\Pr[\mathsf{Acc}\land\neg\mathsf{Bad}_{s_*}]
\ge p-\kappa.
\]

On this event, Theorem 1 makes the terminal candidate set the correct singleton. On any accepted singleton event, A4 ensures the true target remains in the set, so an incorrect singleton cannot be output. Independent trials each succeed with probability at least \(p-\kappa\), giving the geometric waiting-time and failure bounds. \(\square\)

For \(S=\mathcal L^\ell\), coordinate intersections take \(O(TN)\) work per trial, in addition to protocol execution and input initialization. For a generally represented restricted \(S\), singleton detection can be more expensive and must be costed separately.

For an extraction gap \(p-\kappa\ge\gamma>0\), failure at most \(\delta\in(0,1)\) requires

\[
n=\left\lceil\frac{\ln(1/\delta)}{\gamma}\right\rceil.
\tag{K5}
\]

Polynomial-time extraction requires a polynomially bounded representation and inverse gap. A merely positive gap can be too small for efficient extraction.

### 11.2 A geometric bound on the ambiguity threshold

If each position \(j\) has \(m_j\) independent questions and every wrong symbol collides with the true symbol in a cell with probability at most \(\rho_*\), a union bound gives

\[
\kappa\le
\min\left\{1,\sum_{j=1}^{\ell}(N-1)\rho_*^{m_j}\right\}.
\tag{K6}
\]

For uniformly random balanced partitions of cell size \(b=N/H\),

\[
\rho_*=\frac{b-1}{N-1}.
\tag{K7}
\]

The cell containing the true symbol has \(b-1\) other occupants chosen uniformly from the other \(N-1\) symbols. Independence across questions gives the powers in (K6).

A checked globally separating schedule has \(\kappa=0\). This is geometric ambiguity, not a general impersonation probability.

### 11.3 Extraction without final acceptance under a stronger promise
```

Fix one designated question for each position in each independent trial. Its frame marginal has distinct-symbol collision probability at most ρ_*. The extractor privately decodes these answers but sees no acceptance bit.

Assume the tested prover's complete-session acceptance probability is at least p_0, with

$$
p_0>\frac{1+\rho_*}{2},
\qquad
\Delta=2p_0-1-\rho_*>0.
\tag{K8}
$$

For each candidate symbol, count how often it agrees with the decoded answer to that designated question.

Theorem 10 — High-success response-agreement extraction. Selecting a highest-scoring candidate at each position recovers the enrolled value with probability at least $1-\delta$ after

$$
\boxed{
n\ge
\left\lceil
\frac{2}{\Delta^2}
\ln\frac{\ell(N-1)}{\delta}
\right\rceil
}
\tag{K9}
$$

independent trials.

Proof. Complete acceptance implies correctness at the designated question, so the true symbol has expected agreement at least p_0. Agreement with a wrong symbol can occur only when the true and wrong symbols occupy the same cell or the answer is wrong for the true symbol. The wrong candidate's expected agreement is at most ρ_*+1-p_0. The expected score gap is therefore at least Δ.

Each trial's score difference lies in $[-1,1]$. Hoeffding's inequality bounds the probability of a nonpositive empirical gap by $e^{-n\Delta^2/2}$. Taking a union bound over $\ell(N-1)$ wrong candidates and using (K9) proves the claim. $\square$

The extractor still requires private decoding, repeatable sessions, the designated-question distribution, and the high-success promise. It does not extract the dictionary.

Supporting concentration argument. For completeness, let independent $X_i\in[-1,1]$ have $\mathbb E X_i\ge\Delta$. For a single X_i, the logarithmic moment-generating function of $X_i-\mathbb E X_i$ has value and first derivative zero at the origin. Its second derivative is the variance of X_i under an exponentially tilted distribution, which is at most one because $X_i\in[-1,1]$. Integrating twice gives

$$
\mathbb E e^{-t(X_i-\mathbb E X_i)}\le e^{t^2/2},
\qquad t\ge0.
\tag{K10}
$$

Independence and Markov's inequality therefore imply

$$
\Pr\!\left[\sum_{i=1}^nX_i\le0\right]
\le \exp(-tn\Delta+nt^2/2).
\tag{K11}
$$

Taking $t=\Delta$ gives $e^{-n\Delta^2/2}$, the bound used in Theorem 10.

The declared relation and access model are part of the classification. These results support scoped private-reference knowledge extraction; matching an extraction formula alone does not supply a publicly decidable relation or a public verifier. [Bellare and Goldreich, On Defining Proofs of Knowledge](https://www.wisdom.weizmann.ac.il/~oded/PSX/pok.pdf).

12. Canonical circular facets and exact separation

This specialization concerns one symbol, $S=\mathbb Z_N$, in a fixed circular order. Assume $H\mid N$, $H\ge2$, and set $b=N/H$.

Each permitted question divides the circle into H contiguous sectors of b symbols. The canonical phase $r\in\{0,\ldots,b-1\}$ has sectors

$$
B_{r,k}=\{r+kb,\ldots,r+kb+b-1\}\pmod N.
\tag{C1}
$$

\]

A schedule uses phases \(r_1,\ldots,r_T\), with multiplicities

\[
n_r=\#\{t:r_t=r\}.
\tag{C2}
\]

Sector labels are canonical. A rotation by a multiple of \(b\) gives the same unlabeled partition but changes its index labels; that change must be normalized before the fixed private dictionary is applied to use this profile.

Define

\[
f_r(a)=\left\lfloor\frac{(a-r)\bmod N}{b}\right\rfloor,
\quad
p_\varphi(a)_t=\varphi(f_{r_t}(a)).
\tag{C3}
\]

Theorem 11 — Exact circular separation distance.

\[
\boxed{
d_{\min}:=\min_{a\ne a'}d_H(p_\varphi(a),p_\varphi(a'))
=\min_r n_r.
}
\tag{C4}
\]

Proof, upper bound. Neighboring targets \(a-1,a\) lie in different sectors exactly for phase \(a\bmod b\). Their signatures therefore disagree in exactly \(n_{a\bmod b}\) coordinates. A least-used phase supplies the upper bound.

Proof, lower bound. Write \(a=kb+t\), with \(0\le k<H\) and \(0\le t<b\). Then

\[
f_r(a)=k-\mathbf1_{\{r>t\}}\pmod H.
\tag{C5}
\]

All phases together identify \(k\) from phase zero and \(t\) from the transition between \(k\) and \(k-1\). Hence every pair differs on at least one phase. When every phase appears, repeating that phase gives at least \(\min_rn_r\) disagreements. If some phase is absent, the lower bound zero is automatic and the neighboring-pair upper bound attains it. A private bijection preserves all equalities and inequalities. \(\square\)

Corollary 11.1 — Exact schedule classification.

\[
d_{\min}\ge d
\quad\Longleftrightarrow\quad
n_r\ge d\text{ for every }r.
\tag{C6}
\]

For any integer \(d\ge1\),

\[
T_{\min}(d)=bd,
\qquad
d_{\max}(T)=\left\lfloor\frac Tb\right\rfloor.
\tag{C7}
\]

The minimum \(bd\) is attained exactly when every phase occurs \(d\) times. In particular, exact separation requires and is attained by \(b=N/H\) questions.

Geometrically, each question cuts \(H\) of the circle's \(N\) adjacency gaps. Every gap must be cut to separate its adjacent targets. The complete phase collection realizes that coverage and, by the proof above, also separates every nonadjacent pair.

13. Robustness and minimum hidden resources

13.1 Exact robust recognition

A substitution replaces one response symbol; an erasure removes one symbol and identifies its position.

Theorem 12 — Circular error-and-erasure bound. Recovering every target from every pattern of at most \(e\) substitutions and \(z\) erasures is possible exactly when

```
\[
\min_rn_r\ge2e+z+1.
\tag{C8}
\]

Consequently,

\[
\boxed{
T_{\min}(e,z)=\frac NH(2e+z+1).
}
\tag{C9}
\]

**Proof.** Two possible original signatures consistent with one received word could disagree in at most \(2e\) unerased coordinates and \(z\) erased coordinates. Distance above \(2e+z\) excludes that ambiguity. Conversely, if two signatures differ in at most \(2e+z\) positions, erase up to \(z\) differing positions and split the remaining at most \(2e\) disagreements into two groups of at most \(e\). A word agreeing with one signature on one group and the other on the second is compatible with both. Apply Theorem 11 and sum the necessary phase multiplicities. \(\square\)

The distance criterion is standard coding theory; the exact phase formula is specific to the permitted circular family. [Atri Rudra, Error Correction and Distance](https://cse.buffalo.edu/faculty/atri/courses/coding-theory/lectures/lect3.pdf).

This is a recovery result. A verifier that accepts errors has a different acceptance region from A4, so its authentication soundness requires a corresponding analysis.

### 13.2 Hidden-direction rigidity

Define phase incidence vectors

\[
(v_r)_t=\mathbf1_{\{r_t=r\}},
\qquad
U=\left\{\sum_{r:n_r>0}u_rv_r:u_r\in\mathbb Z_H\right\}.
\tag{C10}
\]

If \(c\) distinct phases occur, the vectors have disjoint nonempty supports and

\[
U\cong(\mathbb Z_H)^c,\qquad \#U=H^c.
\tag{C11}
\]

**Theorem 13 — Circular difference subgroup.** For every fixed bijective vocabulary,

\[
\boxed{U_{p_\varphi}=U.}
\tag{C12}
\]

The same subgroup is generated by the entire signature family over all permitted target-vocabulary pairs.

**Proof.** Each signature is constant among repetitions of one phase, hence belongs to \(U\); this holds for every vocabulary.

For the identity vocabulary, crossing the boundary into target \(a\) gives

\[
p(a)-p(a-1)=v_{a\bmod b}.
\tag{C13}
\]

With a general vocabulary, a phase-\(r\) boundary gives an increment

\[
(\varphi(k)-\varphi(k-1))v_r.
\tag{C14}
\]

Every \(k\in\mathbb Z_H\) occurs at that phase around the circle. Summing consecutive vocabulary increments gives every difference \(\varphi(k)-\varphi(0)\). Those differences run through \(\mathbb Z_H\), so the increments generate \(v_r\). This works even if an individual increment is noninvertible modulo a composite \(H\). Every phase direction is therefore generated, proving equality.

For the joint family, all signatures still lie in \(U\), while any one fixed vocabulary already generates \(U\). Thus the joint subgroup is also exactly \(U\). \(\square\)

**Corollary 13.1 — Sharp circular mask cost.** Applying Theorem 6 gives
```

```
\[
\min\mathrm H(M)=c\log_2H.
\tag{C15}
\]

Every separating schedule has \(c=b\), hence

\[
\boxed{\min\mathrm H(M)=b\log_2H.}
\tag{C16}
\]

For prime \(H\), the minimum hidden linear dimension is \(b\). For composite \(H\), there are \(b\) independent cyclic coordinates in this representation.

An attaining construction chooses fresh independent uniform phase pads \(R_r\in\mathbb Z_H\) and sets

\[
M_t=R_{r_t}.
\tag{C17}
\]

Then

\[
\Pr[Y=y\mid a,\varphi]=
\begin{cases}
H^{-c},&y\in U,\\
0,&y\notin U.
\end{cases}
\tag{C18}
\]

Every target-vocabulary pair induces the same law. The repeated pads hide repeated copies of an identical raw response within this fixed schedule. They are not a general license to reuse masks between different sessions or raw-response functions.

At the minimal separating schedule, \(T=b\) and \(U=A\), so the only independent additive mask law giving perfect privacy is uniform on the full response space.

## 14. Noise, correlations, and the observation boundary

There are two distinct privacy profiles:

| Profile | Mask requirement | Raw words protected |
|---|---|---|
| General full mask | A6: uniform on all of \(A\), independent of the raw word under conditioning | Arbitrary raw-word distributions satisfying A6 |
| Circular phase mask | Uniform on \(U\), independent of the credential and raw perturbation | Valid circular signatures; perturbed signatures under Theorem 14 |

**Theorem 14 — Exact privacy criterion for pre-mask errors.** In the circular phase-mask model, write

\[
W=p_\varphi(a)+E,\qquad Y=W+M.
\]

Assume \(M\) is uniform on \(U\) and independent of \(E\) conditional on the credential. Then

\[
\boxed{
\Pr[Y=y\mid a,\varphi]
=
\frac1{\#U}\Pr[E+U=y+U\mid a,\varphi].
}
\tag{E1}
\]

Thus joint credential privacy holds exactly when the distribution of the error coset \(E+U\) is credential-independent.

**Proof.** The valid signature lies in \(U\). Conditional on an error vector \(e\), adding the uniform mask produces the uniform distribution on \(e+U\). Averaging over errors gives (E1). Distinct cosets are disjoint, so equal output laws are equivalent to equal coset-weight distributions. \(\square\)

Credential-independent error processes satisfy this criterion. Credential dependence confined to hidden directions can also satisfy it.

**Counterexample 14.1 — Correctable errors can still leak.** Use \(H=2,b=2\), three repetitions of each phase,
```

grouped by phase. Let target 0 answer correctly and target 1 flip only the first occurrence of phase zero. The first two coordinates share their mask, so

$$
Y_1\oplus Y_2=
\begin{cases}
0,&a=0,\\
1,&a=1.
\end{cases}
\tag{E2}
$$

The target is exposed in this two-target experiment, even though signature distance three permits correction of the one error.

Corollary 14.2 — Hiding arbitrary one-coordinate raw errors forces full masks. Consider the enlarged raw-state set

$$
\mathcal W=\{p_\varphi(a)+e:\operatorname{wt}(e)\le1\}.
\tag{E3}
$$

Require identical released laws for every raw state in $\mathcal W$. Its difference subgroup contains every coordinate basis vector, by subtracting $p_\varphi(a)$ from $p_\varphi(a)+e_i$. It is therefore all of A. Theorem 6 forces

$$
M\text{ uniform on }A,\qquad \mathrm H(M)=T\log_2H.
\tag{E4}
$$

This stronger requirement hides the whole enlarged raw state, including the error choice.

Post-release channels. A channel that uses only Y, public context, and credential-independent randomness preserves credential privacy by Theorem 4's processing argument. If it makes at most e substitutions and z erasures, the authorized decoder's mask subtraction and vocabulary inversion preserve those coordinate error counts. Theorem 12 then supplies recovery.

Consequently, the reduced phase-mask profile can combine privacy with the robustness bound for such post-release channels. Human errors that occur before release belong to Theorem 14's different experiment.

15. The unified theorem

Theorem 15 — Private navigation with an independent public projection. Assume A1–A7 and a schedule that separates S. Then:

1. The valid internal response path for an enrolled target terminates at that target alone.
2. Every public observation fiber contains exactly one mask explanation for every credential pair.
3. Fixing the actual dictionary and mask intersects that fiber at exactly the actual target state.
4. The full-mask observation satisfies $I(C;O\mid Z)=0$.
5. Any accepted separating decoded transcript determines a witness satisfying $\mathcal R_{\mathcal D}(\xi,w)=1$.
6. With A8 and a quantified ambiguity bound, Theorems 9 or 10 supply their respective extraction guarantees.

For the CIRC specialization, the exact target distance is $\min_rn_r$. In the valid-path SUB profile, the minimum mask entropy is $b\log_2H$ for a separating schedule, and all admissible independent additive mask laws are classified by the phase-incidence subgroup. Robust recovery uses exactly $b(2e+z+1)$ questions at the optimum, with privacy under the corresponding noise conditions in Section 14.

Proof. Item 1 is Theorem 1 applied to the valid path. Items 2–3 are Theorem 2. Item 4 is Theorem 4. Item 5 follows from Theorem 1 and the definition of the private-reference relation. Item 6 invokes the explicitly different access and success hypotheses of Theorems 9–10. The circular clauses follow from Theorems 11–14. $\square$

This theorem is a conjunction of compatible, separately proved properties. None of its assumptions states the desired privacy or extraction conclusion as an axiom.

The gem-facet interpretation follows the same structure:

Geometric language	Exact mathematical object
Interior target	Enrolled value s_*
Facet	A permitted labeled partition
Navigation	Successive candidate intersections V_t
Private correspondence	Vocabulary and mask decoding
Exterior reflection	Released observation $O=(G,Y)$
Possible interiors consistent with one reflection	Observation fiber F_y
Authorized frame of reference	Private slice K_{φ_*,m_*}
Correct destination	Singleton target satisfying $\mathcal R_{\mathcal D}$
Hidden direction	Element of the signature-difference subgroup
Geometric robustness	Minimum Hamming separation of target signatures

The exterior observer sees a projection with many compatible internal explanations. The authorized process knows the additional coordinates that select the enrolled target. The secrecy statement depends on equal observable distributions, not on an observer finding the geometry computationally difficult.

16. A fully specified finite instance

Take

$$
\mathcal L=\{0,1,2,3\},\quad
S=\mathcal L^2,\quad
H=2,\quad T=4.
$$

Use two partitions:

$$
G^{(0)}=(\{0,1\},\{2,3\}),\qquad
G^{(1)}=(\{0,2\},\{1,3\}).
$$

Ask $G^{(0)},G^{(1)}$ about position 1, then the same two partitions about position 2. Each symbol has a distinct two-bit signature, so the complete schedule separates all sixteen targets.

Let the enrolled target, vocabulary, and mask be

$$
s_*=(2,1),\qquad
\varphi(0)=1,\quad\varphi(1)=0,\qquad
M=(1,0,1,1).
$$

Then:

Stage	Value
Membership signature	$f_G(s_*)=(1,0,0,1)$
Raw private-vocabulary response	$p_{G,\varphi}(s_*)=(0,1,1,0)$
Secret mask	$M=(1,0,1,1)$
Released word	$Y=(1,1,0,1)$
Mask subtraction	$Y-M=(0,1,1,0)$
Vocabulary inversion	$((1,0,0,1)$

The recovered candidates are

$$
V_1=\{2,3\}\cap\{0,2\}=\{2\},
\qquad
V_2=\{0,1\}\cap\{1,3\}=\{1\}.
$$

The target is therefore $((2,1)$.

For the observer, there are sixteen possible targets and two possible vocabularies. For every one of these 32 credentials, exactly one of the sixteen possible masks produces this same released word. Under a uniform full mask,

$$
\Pr[Y=(1,1,0,1)\mid s,\varphi]=\frac1{16}
$$

for every credential. The posterior remains its prior even if that prior is highly nonuniform.

A missing question demonstrates why separation is required. If position 1 is tested only with $G^{(0)}$, the answer 1 leaves both 2 and 3 possible. Acceptance alone then does not provide singleton reconstruction.

A circular resource example

For $N=10,H=2,b=5$, the exact circular requirements are:

Recovery requirement	Uses of each phase	Total questions	Minimum mask entropy for valid paths
Exact recognition	1	5	5 bits
One erasure	2	10	5 bits
One substitution	3	15	5 bits
One substitution and one erasure	4	20	5 bits

The repeated rows use the circular SUB profile and the conditions of Section 14. Full masking of arbitrary raw words instead uses one independent bit per question.

Ten equally likely targets have entropy $\log_2 10$, but the circular five-coordinate signature differences span five binary dimensions. The five-bit additive-mask lower bound is a cost of this permitted representation. Encoding the target globally into $\mathbb Z_{10}$ would define a different representation and a different mask problem.

17. Smooth projections and covering-space terminology

The preceding finite results require neither differential geometry nor an actual optical realization. A smooth companion can illustrate the same fiber-and-slice relation precisely.

Let $\mathbb T^d=\mathbb R^d/\mathbb Z^d$ be the d-dimensional torus, let $d\ge1$, and let B be an integer matrix with determinant $+1$ or -1. It induces an invertible smooth map on $\mathbb T^d$. Define

$$
P_{\mathbb T}(x,m)=Bx+m\pmod{\mathbb Z^d}.
\tag{T1}
$$

Theorem 16 — Smooth companion. Every observation fiber is the graph

$$
F_y=\{(x,y-Bx):x\in\mathbb T^d\},
\tag{T2}
$$

a smooth d-dimensional submanifold of $\mathbb T^{2d}$. Every fixed mask slice intersects it exactly once:

$$
F_y\cap K_m
=
\{(B^{-1}(y-m),m)\}.
\tag{T3}
$$

If M is independent and uniform with respect to normalized translation-invariant measure on $\mathbb T^d$, the distribution of $P_{\mathbb T}(X,M)$ is the same uniform measure for every target $X=x$. Therefore the target and observation are independent.

Proof. Equation (T2) is an injective smooth graph parametrization, with its smooth inverse given by the first-coordinate projection. Invertibility of the induced torus map gives (T3). Translating normalized uniform measure by Bx leaves it unchanged, proving independence. For continuous variables, mutual information is defined through relative entropy of the joint measure against the product measure, and independence gives value zero. $\square$

The determinant condition matters. The map $x\mapsto2x$ on $\mathbb T^1$ has two preimages of each point, despite its nonzero derivative. A full-rank real matrix alone does not guarantee global target uniqueness on a torus.

This is a separate continuous model, not a claim that a deployed finite credential uses exact real-valued masks. It also does not license replacing compact uniform masking with an unspecified “uniform” distribution on unbounded Euclidean space.

Covering spaces. A genuine covering map has discrete fibers and locally invertible sheets. Its path-lifting theorem says that a base path has a unique lift once a point above its starting point is fixed. Thus an observed base path can admit several lifts when the initial sheet is unknown. This is a useful related analogy, but it supplies neither a credential distribution nor an acceptance relation. The map $P_{\mathbb T}$ above has positive-dimensional fibers and is not a covering map. [Allen Hatcher, Algebraic Topology, Section 1.3](https://pi.math.cornell.edu/~hatcher/AT/AT.pdf).

An actual optical or smooth implementation would need a specified physical observation map and a proof that it realizes the chosen mathematical model.

18. Dependency register and source crosswalk

18.1 What each theorem uses

Result	Essential hypotheses or earlier results
Theorem 1: target reconstruction	A1–A4 and target separation
Theorem 2: fiber incidence	Finite group addition; dictionary fixed for unique private recovery; separation
Theorem 3: observation symmetries	Theorem 2's state and observation map
Theorem 4: zero mutual information	A5–A7; full-mask independence under conditioning
Theorem 5: raw leakage	Uniform vocabulary independent of target and schedule
Theorem 6: all additive mask laws	Independent additive mask; specified complete hidden-state family
Theorem 7: edge generation	Connected target-adjacency graph
Theorem 8: affine dimensions	Finite-field linear map and its rank
Theorem 9: final-bit extraction	A1–A4, A8, $p>\kappa$, independent repeatable trials
Theorem 10: no-final-bit extraction	Private decoding, independent trials, designated-question collision bound, high-success promise
Theorem 11: exact circular distance	CIRC and a fixed bijective vocabulary
Theorem 12: robust circular recovery	Theorem 11 and the substitution/erasure model
Theorem 13: circular hidden subgroup	Canonical repeated labels, CIRC, Theorem 6

Theorem 14: pre-mask errors	Uniform phase subgroup mask and conditional independence from errors
Theorem 15: unified result	The cited component theorems with their respective hypotheses
Theorem 16: smooth companion	Compact torus, unimodular integer matrix, independent uniform measure

18.2 Corpus reconciliation

Existing source	Material unified here
MASTER-FORMAL-MATHEMATICAL-CONSTRUCTION.md, §8	Ideal released-view privacy; here Theorem 4
Same source, §9	Equality-pattern raw leakage; here Theorem 5
Same source, §§12.1–12.5	Private relation, singleton reconstruction, and final-bit extractor; here Sections 3 and 11
Same source, Theorem 12.6	High-success extraction without acceptance feedback; here Theorem 10
ENI6MA-Geometric-Fibers-and-Private-Slices.md	Incidence, symmetry, affine geometry, and basic circular separation
ENI6MA-Circular-Facet-Separation-and-Hidden-Dimension.md	Exact distance, complete mask-law classification, circular subgroup rigidity, and noise distinctions

The private-reference store is written $\mathcal D$ here, and the signature-difference subgroup is U_p, to keep their roles distinct. The total response count is consistently T; M denotes the mask.

The uniform probability of a particular full-mask released word, H^{-T}, is not used as an unrestricted impersonation exponent. Repeated questions about one latent symbol can have correlated raw answers. The reduced phase-mask profile also has only H^c possible valid released words, not H^T.

Public commitments, public-input proof compilation, bearer tokens, policy enforcement, and event-consumption mechanisms require their own specifications. This manuscript's native target relation remains privately evaluated.

18.3 Relevant prior mathematical frameworks

Separating systems study how collections of subsets distinguish points and how restrictions affect extremal counts. This is a direct precedent for the partition questions here. [Bollobás and Scott, On Separating Systems](https://people.maths.ox.ac.uk/scott/Papers/separating.pdf).

Identification using consecutive intervals also has an established literature. Its restrictions differ from this canonical equal-sector mask model but belong in a novelty comparison. [Cicalese et al., Overlaps Help: Improved Bounds for Group Testing with Interval Queries](https://link.springer.com/chapter/10.1007/11533719_94).

The one-copy binary circular signatures form a familiar cyclic Gray sequence. For five phases, beginning at 00000, they follow the Johnson-counter recurrence

$$
(x_0,\ldots,x_4)\mapsto(1-x_4,x_0,\ldots,x_3).
$$

Texas Instruments describes the five-stage Johnson counter with ten decoded outputs; the recurrence can also be checked directly against the signatures in the verification code. [Texas Instruments, CD4017B](https://www.ti.com/product/CD4017B). Shifted coordinate tracks also connect this model to single-track Gray codes. [Tuvi Etzion, Single-Track Gray Codes and Sequences](https://link.springer.com/chapter/10.1007/978-3-540-77404-4_12).

The manuscript therefore claims the stated derivations and unified characterization. It does not claim that fibers, perfect secrecy, Gray sequences, or the basic ten-target pattern are historically new.

19. Verification record

The exact-arithmetic program in Section 21 was run successfully for this unified manuscript.

Check	Executed coverage
Full credential-mask state space	512 states for sixteen targets, two dictionaries, and sixteen masks
Posterior preservation	Exact rational factorization under a nonuniform credential prior
Authorized fiber intersections	512 private-slice intersections, each a singleton in the separating instance
Acceptance and reconstruction	512 accepted cases, extracted from enumeration of all released words, masks, dictionaries, and enrolled targets in the instance
Affine dimensions	All 81 two-by-two matrices over $\mathbb F_3$; 729 fibers and 6,561 private-slice intersections
Circular distance and local increments	6,820 schedules and 1,301,580 target-pair distances
Private vocabulary and hidden subgroup	1,368 schedule/vocabulary cases, including all tested permutations
Nonuniform additive mask laws	All 80 nonzero weight assignments from $\{0,1,2\}$ on a four-point example
Error-and-erasure recovery	256 cases with one substitution and one erasure
Assumption boundaries	Missing-separation example and recoverable pre-mask error that leaks through a visible quotient

The checks verify finite instances of the formulas and expose the stated failure cases. They do not replace the general proofs or verify physical setup assumptions. Probabilistic extraction tails follow from the independent-trial proof; the program verifies the deterministic accepted-transcript reconstruction that underlies them.

The manuscript also checks that theorem and equation identifiers are unique and that the supplied code runs independently with the Python standard library.

20. Further geometric contribution questions

A precise extension problem fixes a permitted family $\mathscr F$ of labeled partitions. For a schedule $Q\in\mathscr F^T$, let p_Q be its signature. With prime-field response labels, define

$$
\Psi_{\mathscr F}(T,d)
=
\min_{\substack{Q\in\mathscr F^T\\ \min_{s\ne t}d_H(p_Q(s),p_Q(t))\ge d}}
\dim U_{p_Q},
\tag{X1}
$$

with value $+\infty$ when no admissible schedule exists. The target set, label rules, private dictionaries, and mask family must be specified as part of the problem. Joint privacy requires taking differences over the full joint credential family.

For the canonical circular family and prime H, Theorems 11 and 13 give

$$
\boxed{
\Psi_{\mathrm{circle}}(T,d)=
\begin{cases}
b,&T\ge bd,\\
+\infty,&T<bd,
\end{cases}
\quad d\ge 1.
}
\tag{X2}
$$

This is a complete response-distance-hidden-dimension characterization for that family.

Further results can study several arcs per cell, unequal sectors, coupled rings, constrained target alphabets, or prescribed pre-mask error sets. A new geometric contribution would establish a previously unavailable exact bound, construction, or classification for a defined family and distinguish it from the relevant prior literature.

The central unifying principle is:

> Permitted facets determine target differences. Those differences determine both the ability to recognize a target and the hidden translations needed to make its released projection independent of the credential. Authorized decoding fixes the private slice; enrollment supplies the relation against which the recovered target is checked.

21. Reproducibility appendix

Save the following code as a Python file and run it with Python 3. It uses only the standard library. It does not access enrollment data, external accounts, or network services.

```python
"""Exact finite verification for ENI6MA unified geometric formalization.
Run with Python 3; standard library only. General proofs remain in the manuscript.
"""
from collections import Counter, defaultdict
from fractions import Fraction
from itertools import combinations, permutations, product


def vxor(a, b):
    return tuple(x ^ y for x, y in zip(a, b))


alphabet = tuple(range(4))
targets = list(product(alphabet, repeat=2))
vocabularies = list(permutations(range(2)))
words = list(product(range(2), repeat=4))
cells = [
    ({0, 1}, {2, 3}),
    ({0, 2}, {1, 3}),
    ({0, 1}, {2, 3}),
    ({0, 2}, {1, 3}),
]
positions = (0, 0, 1, 1)


def member_signature(s):
```

```
    return tuple(next(i for i, cell in enumerate(partition)
                      if s[j] in cell)
                 for partition, j in zip(cells, positions))


def raw_signature(s, phi):
    return tuple(phi[i] for i in member_signature(s))


credentials = [(s, phi) for s in targets for phi in vocabularies]
fibers = defaultdict(list)
weights = {c: (c[0][0] + 1) * (c[0][1] + 2) * (c[1][0] + 1)
           for c in credentials}
weight_total = sum(weights.values())
priors = {c: Fraction(w, weight_total) for c, w in weights.items()}
joint = defaultdict(Fraction)
for c in credentials:
    raw = raw_signature(*c)
    for mask in words:
        y = vxor(raw, mask)
        fibers[y].append((c, mask))
        joint[c, y] += priors[c] / len(words)

for y in words:
    assert len(fibers[y]) == len(credentials)
    assert {c for c, mask in fibers[y]} == set(credentials)
    for c in credentials:
        assert joint[c, y] == priors[c] / len(words)

slice_checks = 0
for y in words:
    for phi in vocabularies:
        for mask in words:
            hits = [(c, m) for c, m in fibers[y]
                    if c[1] == phi and m == mask]
            assert len(hits) == 1
            slice_checks += 1

accepted_checks = 0
for s in targets:
    for phi in vocabularies:
        inv = {value: index for index, value in enumerate(phi)}
        for mask in words:
            for y in words:
                decoded = tuple(inv[a] for a in vxor(y, mask))
                acc = all(s[j] in partition[i]
                          for j, partition, i in zip(positions, cells, decoded))
                if acc:
                    survivors = [a for a in targets
                                 if member_signature(a) == decoded]
                    assert survivors == [s]
                    accepted_checks += 1
print(f"Core: 512 credential-mask states; exact nonuniform-prior factorization; "
      f"{slice_checks} private intersections; {accepted_checks} accepted recoveries.")

actual_s, actual_phi, actual_mask = (2, 1), (1, 0), (1, 0, 1, 1)
assert member_signature(actual_s) == (1, 0, 0, 1)
assert raw_signature(actual_s, actual_phi) == (0, 1, 1, 0)
assert vxor(raw_signature(actual_s, actual_phi), actual_mask) == (1, 1, 0, 1)
# A missing phase leaves an accepted answer compatible with two symbols.
assert {a for a in alphabet if a in cells[0][1]} == {2, 3}
print("Worked example and missing-separation counterexample passed.")


def matrix_rank_mod(entries, q):
    a = [list(entries[:2]), list(entries[2:])]
    rank = 0
    for col in range(2):
        pivot = next((i for i in range(rank, 2) if a[i][col] % q), None)
        if pivot is None:
            continue
        a[rank], a[pivot] = a[pivot], a[rank]
        scale = pow(a[rank][col], -1, q)
        a[rank] = [(v * scale) % q for v in a[rank]]
        for row in range(2):
            if row != rank:
                c = a[row][col]
                a[row] = [(v - c * u) % q
                          for v, u in zip(a[row], a[rank])]
        rank += 1
```

```
    return rank


def matvec(entries, x, q):
    return ((entries[0] * x[0] + entries[1] * x[1]) % q,
            (entries[2] * x[0] + entries[3] * x[1]) % q)


affine_fibers = affine_slices = 0
q = 3
plane = list(product(range(q), repeat=2))
for entries in product(range(q), repeat=4):
    rank = matrix_rank_mod(entries, q)
    for y in plane:
        fiber = [(x, m) for x in plane for m in plane
                 if tuple((a + b) % q
                          for a, b in zip(matvec(entries, x, q), m)) == y]
        assert len(fiber) == q ** 2
        affine_fibers += 1
        for m in plane:
            hit_count = sum(mm == m for x, mm in fiber)
            assert hit_count in (0, q ** (2 - rank))
            affine_slices += 1
print(f"Affine geometry: 81 matrices; {affine_fibers} fibers; "
      f"{affine_slices} slice intersections passed.")

# The previously developed circular suite follows.


from collections import Counter
from itertools import combinations, permutations, product
from math import gcd


def signatures(h, b, counts, vocabulary=None):
    vocabulary = tuple(range(h)) if vocabulary is None else vocabulary
    phases = [r for r, n in enumerate(counts) for _ in range(n)]
    return [
        tuple(vocabulary[((a - r) % (h * b)) // b] for r in phases)
        for a in range(h * b)
    ], phases


def add(x, y, h):
    return tuple((a + b) % h for a, b in zip(x, y))


def sub(x, y, h):
    return tuple((a - b) % h for a, b in zip(x, y))


def generated_group(generators, h, m):
    subgroup = {(0,) * m}
    for g in generators:
        subgroup = {add(u, tuple(k * a % h for a in g), h)
                    for u in subgroup for k in range(h)}
    return subgroup


schedule_count = 0
distance_pairs = 0
for h in range(2, 7):
    for b in range(1, 6):
        for counts in product(range(4), repeat=b):
            code, phases = signatures(h, b, counts)
            distances = [sum(x != y for x, y in zip(u, v))
                         for u, v in combinations(code, 2)]
            assert min(distances) == min(counts), (h, b, counts)
            for a in range(h * b):
                expected = tuple(int(r == a % b) for r in phases)
                assert sub(code[a], code[(a - 1) % (h * b)], h) == expected
            schedule_count += 1
            distance_pairs += len(distances)
print(f"Distance and boundary identities: {schedule_count} schedules, "
      f"{distance_pairs} target pairs passed.")

vocabulary_cases = 0
for h in range(2, 6):
    for b in range(1, 4):
        for counts in [(1,) * b, (2,) * b,
```

```
                        tuple(0 if r == 0 else 1 for r in range(b))]:
            for vocabulary in permutations(range(h)):
                code, phases = signatures(h, b, counts, vocabulary)
                m = len(phases)
                increments = [sub(code[a], code[a - 1], h)
                              for a in range(h * b)]
                subgroup = generated_group(increments, h, m)
                active = [r for r, n in enumerate(counts) if n]
                expected = {
                    tuple(dict(zip(active, values))[r] for r in phases)
                    for values in product(range(h), repeat=len(active))
                }
                assert subgroup == expected, (h, b, counts, vocabulary)
                assert all(set(add(w, z, h) for z in subgroup) == expected
                           for w in code)
                vocabulary_cases += 1
print(f"Difference subgroup and exact privacy support: "
      f"{vocabulary_cases} schedule/vocabulary cases passed.")

# Check all probability laws with integer weights 0, 1, 2 in the smallest
# repeated-phase space. A law is private iff constant on subgroup cosets.
h, b, counts = 2, 1, (2,)
code, phases = signatures(h, b, counts)
ambient = list(product(range(h), repeat=2))
subgroup = {(0, 0), (1, 1)}
law_count = 0
for weights in product(range(3), repeat=len(ambient)):
    if not sum(weights):
        continue
    mu = dict(zip(ambient, weights))
    private = all(
        mu[sub(y, code[0], h)] == mu[sub(y, word, h)]
        for y in ambient for word in code
    )
    invariant = all(mu[y] == mu[add(y, u, h)]
                    for y in ambient for u in subgroup)
    assert private == invariant
    law_count += 1
print(f"Mask-law classification: all {law_count} nonzero small weighted laws passed.")

# Correct one error and one erasure for H=2, b=2, four copies of each phase.
code, phases = signatures(2, 2, (4, 4))
recovery_cases = 0
for truth, word in enumerate(code):
    for erased in range(len(word)):
        candidates = [None] + [j for j in range(len(word)) if j != erased]
        for flipped in candidates:
            received = list(word)
            if flipped is not None:
                received[flipped] ^= 1
            received[erased] = None
            matches = [
                a for a, other in enumerate(code)
                if sum(r is not None and r != v
                       for r, v in zip(received, other)) <= 1
            ]
            assert matches == [truth]
            recovery_cases += 1
print(f"One substitution plus one erasure: {recovery_cases} unique-recovery cases passed.")

# A pre-mask error can be correctable and still leak through a mask-invariant
# within-phase difference. This is an intentional counterexample.
code, phases = signatures(2, 2, (3, 3))
for target in (0, 1):
    raw = list(code[target])
    if target == 1:
        raw[0] ^= 1
    for phase_masks in product(range(2), repeat=2):
        mask = tuple(phase_masks[r] for r in phases)
        released = add(raw, mask, 2)
        assert released[0] ^ released[1] == target
        matches = [a for a, w in enumerate(code)
                   if sum(x != y for x, y in zip(raw, w)) <= 1]
        assert matches == [target]
print("Boundary example: secret-dependent pre-mask error is recoverable but leaks.")

# Explicit ten-symbol example.
code, phases = signatures(2, 5, (1,) * 5)
print("Ten-symbol canonical signatures:")
for a, word in enumerate(code):
```

```
    print(a, "".join(map(str, word)))
```

ATTACHMENT H

Geometric Fibers and Private Slices

Rosario-Wang ENI6MA

Complete source document: 8 source pages

Final compiled PDF source range: pp. 301-308

This attachment begins with the source document's first page and continues through its final page. Original source page numbering, title pages, dates, authorship, and source content remain visible in the attached document.

ENI6MA: Geometric Fibers, Private Slices, and Circular Separation

A geometric formulation of the gem-facet concept

Status. This note derives geometric statements from the specified construction. The proofs establish the stated mathematical implications. Naming or deriving them here does not establish priority or novelty in the mathematical literature.

Central geometric statement. An observable projection can leave every target represented in its inverse image, while an authorized private slice intersects that inverse image in exactly the actual target state. The distinction is between identifying a fiber and identifying a point within that fiber.

The formulation belongs first to finite incidence geometry: points, sets, intersections, partitions, and transformations. A linear specialization is genuine finite affine geometry, with affine subspaces and dimension formulas. A separate circular-sector theorem concerns the actual placement of symbols and partition boundaries.

1. The geometric objects

Fix a public challenge schedule G and a private vocabulary φ for authorized decoding. Let $\mathcal S$ be the nonempty finite set of possible enrolled values and let A be a finite abelian group of response words, written additively. For the additive native profile, $A=(\mathbb Z_H)^T$.

The membership questions and vocabulary define a signature map

$$
p=p_{G,\varphi}:\mathcal S\longrightarrow A.
$$

This map records the raw response word that each target would generate. If the schedule separates targets and the vocabulary is invertible, p is injective.

Define the full state space

$$
\mathcal E=\mathcal S\times A.
$$

A point (s,m) specifies a target s and its release mask m. The public observation map is

$$
P:\mathcal E\longrightarrow A,
\qquad P(s,m)=p(s)+m.
\tag{1}
$$

This map is a projection in the sense of an observation map; for arbitrary p, it is not an orthogonal projection, an idempotent linear operator, or a Euclidean camera model.

For an observed word y, define its observation fiber

$$
F_y=P^{-1}(y).
\tag{2}
$$

For a fixed target s, define its target layer

$$
L_s=\{s\}\times A.
\tag{3}
$$

For a fixed private mask m, define its private slice

$$
K_m=\mathcal S\times\{m\}.
\tag{4}
$$

The image determines F_y. Authorized mask knowledge determines K_m. Their intersection is the state compatible with both resources.

2. The Fiber-and-Slice Theorem

Theorem 1. For the geometry defined in (1)–(4):

1. Every observation fiber contains exactly one point from every target layer:

$$
F_y\cap L_s=\{(s,y-p(s))\}.
$$

```
\tag{5}
\]

2. Consequently, every observation fiber has size \(|\mathcal S|\), and its projection onto the target coordinate is all of \(\mathcal S\):

\[
|F_y|=|\mathcal S|,
\qquad \operatorname{pr}_{\mathcal S}(F_y)=\mathcal S.
\tag{6}
\]

3. A private slice cuts an observation fiber according to the preimage of one signature:

\[
F_y\cap K_m
=\{(s,m):p(s)=y-m\}.
\tag{7}
\]

4. Every such intersection has at most one point if and only if \(p\) is injective. For an actual valid observation \(y=p(s_*)+m_*\), injectivity gives

\[
\boxed{F_y\cap K_{m_*}=\{(s_*,m_*)\}.}
\tag{8}
\]

**Proof.** Fix \(s\) and \(y\). The equation \(p(s)+m=y\) has exactly one group solution, \(m=y-p(s)\), proving (5). Counting one point for each target proves (6). Imposing the additional equation \(m=m_*\) gives (7). If \(p\) is injective, a specified value \(y-m\) has at most one target preimage. If \(p\) is not injective, choose distinct \(s,t\) with \(p(s)=p(t)\); for any \(m\), the observation \(y=p(s)+m\) gives two points in \(F_y\cap K_m\). This proves the equivalence. An actual valid observation guarantees existence, yielding (8). \(\square\)

The proof uses only incidence and uniqueness of intersections. No entropy identity, hardness assumption, or asymptotic security calculation is needed to establish it.

The observer sees a fiber whose target projection is complete. The authorized decoder supplies a private slice, and the separating signature makes the intersection a singleton. This is the exact geometric version of a successful interior route with an ambiguous exterior reflection.

## 3. Equal incidence supplies the statistical consequence

Geometry establishes compatibility. A secrecy claim additionally needs a distribution on the hidden state.

Give \(m\) the uniform distribution on \(A\), independently of the target. Equation (5) says that, within each target layer, exactly one of its \(|A|\) mask states maps to a given observation. Therefore

\[
\Pr[P(s,M)=y]=1/|A|
\tag{9}
\]

for every \(s,y\). Every target induces the same observation distribution. This implies posterior preservation for any target prior.

With public context \(Z\) and a random schedule \(G\), the same claim holds conditionally when the schedule is target-independent given \(Z\), and the masks remain uniform independent secrets under that conditioning.

Thus the geometric proof comes first: every observation fiber is a transversal of the target-layer partition, meaning it meets each layer exactly once. Uniform measure turns that incidence property into equal likelihoods. Merely having several points in a fiber would not prove perfect secrecy if their weights differed.

## 4. Observation-preserving symmetries

The same geometry can be expressed by transformations that move between possible interior explanations while preserving the observation.

For a permutation \(\theta\) of \(\mathcal S\), define

\[
R_\theta(s,m)
=\bigl(\theta(s),m+p(s)-p(\theta(s))\bigr).
\tag{10}
\]

Then

\[
P(R_\theta(s,m))
```

```
=p(\theta(s))+m+p(s)-p(\theta(s))
=P(s,m).
\tag{11}
\]

Moreover,

\[
R_\theta\circ R_\eta=R_{\theta\circ\eta},
\qquad R_{\rm id}={\rm id}.
\tag{12}
\]

These transformations form a group action whose orbits are exactly the observation fibers. Indeed, they preserve each fiber, and any target coordinate in a fiber can be carried to any other by a suitable permutation.

In this exact sense, the public observation is constant on a symmetry class of possible interiors. A private mask slice removes the permitted freedom when the signature is injective.

This action preserves the observation relation. It need not preserve Euclidean distances, physical angles, or the original ring's adjacency. Calling it an optical or metric symmetry would require additional structure.

Group actions, orbits, and their associated equivalence classes are established mathematical tools. This use applies that framework to the target-mask space. [Keith Conrad, Group Actions](https://kconrad.math.uconn.edu/blurbs/grouptheory/gpaction.pdf).

## 5. A genuine finite affine specialization

Let \(q\) be a prime power, and use vector spaces over the finite field \(\mathbb F_q\):

\[
\mathcal S=\mathbb F_q^d,\qquad A=\mathbb F_q^r.
\]

Let \(B:\mathbb F_q^d\to\mathbb F_q^r\) be linear, of rank \(k\), and define

\[
P(x,m)=Bx+m.
\tag{13}
\]

For \(q\) that is a nonprime prime power, field arithmetic is not integer arithmetic modulo \(q\). The original \(\mathbb Z_H\) profile also remains valid for composite \(H\), but it should not be relabeled as a field when no such identification exists.

**Theorem 2.** In this specialization:

\[
\ker P=\{(v,-Bv):v\in\mathbb F_q^d\}
\tag{14}
\]

has dimension \(d\). Every observation fiber is the affine subspace

\[
F_y=(0,y)+\ker P
\tag{15}
\]

and contains \(q^d\) points. A private slice \(K_m\) meets \(F_y\) either in no points or in an affine set of dimension \(d-k\), containing \(q^{d-k}\) points.

**Proof.** Equation (14) solves \(Bx+m=0\). The map \(v\mapsto(v,-Bv)\) is an injective linear parametrization, so its image has dimension \(d\). Translating the kernel by \((0,y)\) proves (15). On \(K_m\), the remaining equation is \(Bx=y-m\). If solvable, its solutions are a translate of \(\ker B\), of dimension \(d-k\). \(\square\)

In particular, if \(B\) has full column rank \(d\), every valid private intersection is a singleton. The public fiber remains \(d\)-dimensional, while authorized target ambiguity has dimension zero:

\[
\boxed{
\dim F_y=d,\qquad
\dim(F_y\cap K_m)=0
\text{ whenever the intersection is nonempty}.
}
\tag{16}
\]

If \(r=d\) and \(B\) is invertible, every fiber meets every private slice in exactly one point. Their direction subspaces are complementary. If \(r>d\), full column rank still gives uniqueness when an intersection exists, but
```

some fiber-slice pairs are disjoint. No complementary-subspace claim is needed in that case.

6. An exact picture in the affine plane over five elements

Take $d=r=1$, $q=5$, and $B(x)=2x$. Then

$$
P(x,m)=2x+m\pmod5.
$$

The public observation $y=1$ identifies the affine line

$$
F_1=\{(x,m):2x+m=1\pmod5\}.
$$

Its points are:

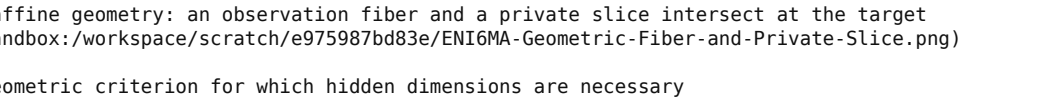
Target x	Compatible mask m
0	1
1	4
2	2
3	0
4	3

Every target occurs once. The private information $m=2$ specifies a horizontal affine line K_2. The two lines meet at

$$
\boxed{F_1\cap K_2=\{(2,2)\}.}
$$

This is an ordinary intersection theorem in finite affine geometry. The observer has the oblique line. The authorized process also has the private horizontal line. Their intersection determines the point.

The companion figure plots these field elements on a grid. The five blue points constitute one finite-field affine line even though their placement on a real drawing does not form one straight Euclidean segment. Finite-field coordinates wrap modulo five.



7. A geometric criterion for which hidden dimensions are necessary

The fiber formulation gives a sharper generalization when masks are restricted to a subgroup.

Let $U\le A$ be a fixed subgroup, and let masks range uniformly over U. For target s, the reachable observations are the coset

$$
p(s)+U.
\tag{17}
$$

Theorem 3. The observation distributions are identical for all targets if and only if

$$
\boxed{p(s)-p(t)\in U\quad\text{for every }s,t\in\mathcal S.}
\tag{18}
$$

Equivalently, the whole signature set $p(\mathcal S)$ lies in one coset of U.

Proof. Uniform translation by U gives the uniform distribution on $p(s)+U$. Two subgroup cosets are equal or disjoint. Therefore two target-conditioned laws coincide exactly when their cosets agree, which is equivalent to $p(s)-p(t)\in U$. $\square$

Geometrically, every displacement between target signatures must lie in a hidden direction. If a displacement survives in the quotient A/U, the observation reveals which quotient class contains the signature. This is a necessary and sufficient criterion within the specified uniform-subgroup mask family.

The smallest possible mask subgroup in this family is

$$
U_{\min}
=\left\langle p(s)-p(s_0):s\in\mathcal S\right\rangle
\tag{19}
$$

for any base target \(s_0\). Every subgroup satisfying (18) contains these generators, and the generated subgroup satisfies (18), proving minimality.

In a finite vector space, if masks must use a linear subspace, the corresponding minimum is the linear span

\[
U_{\min}^{\rm lin}
=\operatorname{span}_{\mathbb F_q}
\{p(s)-p(s_0):s\in\mathcal S\}.
\tag{20}
\]

Its dimension is the affine-span dimension of the signature set. At nonprime \(q\), additive subgroups need not be \(\mathbb F_q\)-linear subspaces; (19) and (20) then describe different permitted mask families.

If \(p\) is injective, containment in one coset gives \(|\mathcal S|\le |U|\). In the linear-subspace family,

\[
\dim U\ge\left\lceil\log_q|\mathcal S|\right\rceil.
\tag{21}
\]

For \(p(x)=Bx\) with \(B\) injective, \(U=\operatorname{im}B\) attains dimension \(d\). Choosing a uniform \(R\in\mathbb F_q^d\) and mask \(M=BR\) gives observation \(B(x+R)\), uniformly distributed on \(\operatorname{im}B\) for every \(x\).

This is a separately specified mask profile, not a claim that arbitrary mask reuse is safe. For instance, \(p(s)=(s,s)\) can be hidden by the diagonal subgroup, while a signature set spanning the full plane cannot. The criterion decides exactly which correlations are admissible in this model.

For joint protection of \((s,\varphi)\), apply the criterion to the entire signature set over every allowed secret and map, using one subgroup fixed independently of that credential. Computing a different public subgroup from the actual private map could expose information through that choice.

8. A theorem from the circular geometry itself

The preceding theorems describe the geometry of observation and decoding. A further result concerns the actual restrictions imposed by a circular display.

Place \(N\) symbols at positions \(\mathbb Z_N\) on a circle. Let \(H\) divide \(N\), with \(2\le H\le N\), and put \(b=N/H\). Every question partitions the circle into \(H\) contiguous sectors containing exactly \(b\) consecutive symbols. Integer offset \(o\) defines cells

\[
B_{o,j}
=\{o+jb,o+jb+1,\ldots,o+jb+b-1\}\pmod N,
\quad j=0,\ldots,H-1.
\tag{22}
\]

For a schedule of offsets \(o_1,\ldots,o_m\), the signature of a symbol records the cell containing it in each question. A schedule separates the circle if all \(N\) signatures are distinct.

Theorem 4 — Exact circular-sector separation. Under these geometric restrictions, the minimum number of questions that separates every symbol is

\[
\boxed{m_{\min}=b=N/H.}
\tag{23}
\]

The offsets \(0,1,\ldots,b-1\) attain the minimum. More generally, a schedule separates all symbols exactly when its offsets include every residue class modulo \(b\).

Lower-bound proof. The circle has \(N\) adjacency gaps, one between each pair of consecutive symbols. For adjacent symbols to have different signatures, at least one question must place a sector boundary in their gap. A single question contributes exactly \(H\) boundary gaps. Therefore \(m\) questions can cover at most \(mH\) distinct gaps. Complete separation requires every gap, so \(mH\ge N\) and \(m\ge N/H=b\).

More precisely, the boundaries of a frame with offset \(o\) occupy the gaps immediately before the symbols congruent to \(o\pmod b\). If one residue class is absent from the schedule, the gaps in that class are never cut. An adjacent pair across any such gap remains in the same cell in every question. \(\square\)

Upper-bound proof. Use all offsets \(0,\ldots,b-1\). Fix target symbol \(a\). The schedule contains a frame with a boundary immediately before \(a\); its cell containing \(a\) is the clockwise arc

\[
\{a,a+1,\ldots,a+b-1\}.
\]

It also contains a frame with a boundary immediately after a; its cell containing a is

$$
\{a-b+1,\ldots,a-1,a\}.
$$

These arcs intersect only in a, because $N=Hb\ge2b$, so their total extent does not wrap far enough to create a second overlap. When $b=1$, each cell is already a singleton. In every case, the intersection of all selected cells for target a is $\{a\}$. Every target is therefore separated by the b questions. The same reasoning applies whenever every offset residue modulo b occurs. $\square$

This proof depends on boundary placement and circular contiguity. The weaker abstract signature count gives only

$$
H^m\ge N,\qquad m\ge\lceil\log_H N\rceil.
\tag{24}
$$

For a ten-symbol circle with two contiguous half-circle cells, the geometric theorem gives five questions; the abstract counting bound gives four. Four abstract balanced binary partitions can separate ten symbols, but this particular circular family cannot do so with four rotations.

This exact bound applies to one ring with the stated equal contiguous sectors. Multiple rings, unequal sectors, arbitrary relabeling or rearrangement of symbols, and questions from other geometric families are different separation problems.

The corpus already contains the decimal half-ring case and the general signature-count bound. Equation (23) presents the circular boundary argument for all divisible N,H under the specified family. It is an internally derived generalization here, not a claim of new historical priority.

9. What “traversing the geometry” means

A traversal can be formalized as a path in a refinement graph. Start with the candidate set $C_0=\mathcal S$. Each decoded answer chooses a subset Q_t of targets consistent with that answer, and updates

$$
C_t=C_{t-1}\cap Q_t.
\tag{25}
$$

The path is the chain

$$
\mathcal S=C_0\supseteq C_1\supseteq\cdots\supseteq C_T.
\tag{26}
$$

For an accepted transcript, the enrolled target remains in every set. A separating schedule gives $C_T=\{s_*\}$. This is a genuine combinatorial path in a graph of candidate sets, with intersection defining the transitions.

The observable release does not directly identify those decoded transitions. It specifies a fiber of possible credential-mask explanations. The private map and masks identify the decoded answers, hence the actual refinement path. Theorem 1 then explains the unique final intersection.

This interpretation does not assert that a physical ray follows a geodesic, that the signature is a continuous curve, or that reflection laws alone establish secrecy. Such statements would require a metric, optical interface, or continuous manifold specified independently.

10. Relating the theorem to the native witness and private map

The theorem's injective signature concerns target values with the authorized private dictionary fixed. In the native construction, the decoder receives that dictionary as part of its declared access. An observer without it sees a union of possible explanations over dictionaries.

For joint transcript privacy, one can replace the target variable in the fiber-counting parts of Theorem 1 by the pair (s,φ). Equations (5), (6), and (9) still hold with full uniform masks whether or not the pair-to-response map is injective.

However, injectivity in the full pair must not be assumed. Different secret-map pairs can share a raw response signature. Authorized recovery of the secret uses both the map and mask information, fixing the appropriate dictionary slice before applying signature separation.

Nor does unique reconstruction from an accepted decoded record alone establish an unrestricted public proof of knowledge. The native extractor needs its specified private decoding and interaction access. The geometric theorem supplies the witness-determination mechanism within that model.

11. The geometric contribution that can be presented

A precise presentation can organize the result as three linked statements:

- **Observation geometry:** each public fiber meets every target layer exactly once under the full additive mask profile.
- **Recognition geometry:** a private slice intersects a valid fiber uniquely exactly when the signature separates targets.
- **Display geometry:** for equal contiguous sectors on one circular alphabet, complete target separation needs exactly N/H rotation phases.

The subgroup criterion adds a fourth statement: the hidden directions must contain all displacements between target signatures. In a linear mask family, this identifies a minimum hidden dimension through the affine span of the code.

These are mathematical results about incidence, symmetry, affine subspaces, cosets, and separating partitions. They can be stated and proved before introducing information theory. The secrecy corollary then follows from uniform weighting of the geometric incidences.

The terminology and elementary constructions have established precedents. The transformation

$$
(s,m)\longmapsto(s,p(s)+m)
$$

is an explicitly invertible change of coordinates on the product state space. Thus the basic fiber theorem alone does not demonstrate a new kind of manifold or geometry. Group actions and subspace geometry are standard frameworks; the application-specific question is what additional theorem the permitted human operations and display geometry force. [Conrad's group-action notes](https://kconrad.math.uconn.edu/blurbs/grouptheory/gpaction.pdf), [MIT's subspace materials](https://ocw.mit.edu/courses/18-06sc-linear-algebra-fall-2011/resources/vector-subspaces/).

A claim of a new contribution to geometry would need a result distinguished from existing work on separating systems, finite geometries, codes, coset masking, or related constructions. Candidate results include exact separation numbers for new permitted facet families, tight hidden-dimension bounds under additional restrictions, or a classification of allowed observation symmetries. This note does not report an exhaustive novelty search or independent verification.

12. Manuscript-ready geometric statement

> **Geometric separation of observation and recognition.** Let a finite target space admit an injective signature into a finite abelian group. Lift the targets into the product with a private translation space, and observe each lifted state through the sum of its signature and translation. Every observation fiber contains exactly one lift of every target, while a private translation slice meets any valid fiber in exactly one point. Public observation therefore determines a complete fiber; authorized private slicing determines the target. Under uniform translations, equal fiber incidence gives identical observation distributions for all targets. For signatures generated by equal contiguous sectors on a circular alphabet, the boundary geometry determines the exact number of rotations required for this unique recovery.

This supplies the geometric form requested: a theorem about complete fibers, private intersections, and geometric target separation. It preserves the gem-facet interpretation while specifying exactly what is proved.

13. Executable finite verification

The accompanying finite checks were run successfully:

- All five observation fibers and all 25 private fiber-slice intersections in the affine-plane example.
- All 2,818 subsets of distinct rotation phases across 58 circular families with $2\le N\le24$, $H\mid N$, $H\ge2$, and $N/H\le10$.
- A diagonal mask subgroup that hides a diagonal signature set but exposes quotient information for a full-plane signature set.
- An injective three-coordinate binary signature with only two independent hidden dimensions.

The general proofs are the algebraic and boundary arguments above. These checks illustrate them and detect errors in the finite examples; they are not independent review or a machine-checked formalization of the general theorems.

The following standard-library Python code reproduces the checks.

```python
from collections import Counter
from itertools import combinations, product


# Check every observation fiber and every private slice in the example.
q = 5
for y in range(q):
    fiber = [(x, m) for x in range(q) for m in range(q)
             if (2 * x + m) % q == y]
    assert len(fiber) == q
    assert {x for x, m in fiber} == set(range(q))
    for m in range(q):
        meet = [(x, a) for x, a in fiber if a == m]
        assert len(meet) == 1
        assert (2 * meet[0][0] + m) % q == y
print("Affine example: all 5 fibers and 25 private intersections passed.")
```

```
# Test all subsets of geometrically distinct phases for many circular families.
families = 0
schedules = 0
for n in range(2, 25):
    for h in range(2, n + 1):
        if n % h:
            continue
        b = n // h
        if b > 10:
            continue
        families += 1
        for size in range(b + 1):
            for offsets in combinations(range(b), size):
                signatures = [
                    tuple(((x - o) % n) // b for o in offsets)
                    for x in range(n)
                ]
                separating = len(set(signatures)) == n
                assert separating == (size == b), (n, h, offsets)
                schedules += 1
print(f"Circular theorem: {families} families, {schedules} phase-subset schedules passed.")

# Two contrasting subgroup examples.
def xor(a, b):
    return tuple(x ^ y for x, y in zip(a, b))

diagonal = [(0, 0), (1, 1)]
plane = list(product(range(2), repeat=2))
laws_diagonal = [Counter(xor(s, m) for m in diagonal) for s in diagonal]
laws_plane = [Counter(xor(s, m) for m in diagonal) for s in plane]
assert all(law == laws_diagonal[0] for law in laws_diagonal)
assert any(law != laws_plane[0] for law in laws_plane)
print("Subgroup examples: diagonal signatures hidden; full-plane signatures not hidden.")

# Redundant 3-coordinate linear signatures need only 2 hidden field dimensions.
code = [(a, b, a ^ b) for a, b in product(range(2), repeat=2)]
laws = [Counter(xor(c, m) for m in code) for c in code]
assert all(law == Counter({c: 1 for c in code}) for law in laws)
print("Linear code example: 4 targets, 3 coordinates, 2 hidden dimensions passed.")
```